Political Science — Master Notes

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> One running document for the whole course, organised by **Part → Lecture → readings**. Format per reading: **Résumé → ★ Heart of it → Key concepts → Section-by-section → Cases → Key terms → Exam pointers.**

Overview — where everything is

(Everything below is clickable — jump straight to a lecture, reading, case, or fun-facts box.)

Part I · Political Systems & Institutions

- **Lecture 1: Introduction — Power, Politics & Political Science (MDJ)** — OD Ch. 1: Introduction · Ansell Ch. 1 · the chain, worked · ★ Fun facts
- **Lecture 2: The State (AUW)** — OD Ch. 2: The Modern State · OD Ch. 4: States & Identity · ★ Fun facts
- **Lecture 3: Political Regimes (FK)** — OD Ch. 3: States, Citizens & Regimes · regime taxonomy · ★ Fun facts
- **Lecture 4: Systems of Government** — OD Ch. 5: Governing Institutions · parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential · ★ Fun facts
- **Lecture 5: Participation and Representation (FK)** — OD Ch. 6: Participation & Representation · what is representation? (Pitkin) · electoral systems compared · ★ Fun facts
- **Lecture 6: Institutions and Institutionalisms (AUW)** — Hall & Taylor: the 3 institutionalisms · RCI / HI / SI compared · Busemeyer & Thelen (HI example) · ★ Fun facts

Part II · International Relations

- **IR I: Realism (AUW)** — what is IR + collective-goods problem · levels of analysis · what realism is · ★ the realist causal chain · power & the security dilemma · balance of power & polarity · the realism family · Prisoner's Dilemma · ★ Fun facts
- **IR II: Liberalism (AUW)** — how liberalism sees the world · the two branches · ★ liberal institutionalism & its mechanisms · regimes & collective security · ★ liberal internationalism & the Kantian triangle · the democratic peace · ch.7: IOs, the UN, international law & human rights · realism vs liberalism · ★ Fun facts
- **IR III: Constructivism / Other Approaches (AUW)** — the puzzle: material fact → social meaning · ★ what constructivism is · "anarchy is what states make of it" · norms & the apartheid case · postmodernism · ★ critical theory: power & hierarchy · Marxism (Marx vs Lenin) · Gramsci · Wallerstein · postcolonialism/Said · feminist & queer IR · peace studies · ★ the four theories compared · ★ Fun facts
- **IR IV: International Security (AUW)** — ★ security is a contested concept · whose security? the referent object · types of threat · the state: protector or war-maker? · national → international → human security · IR theories & security · ★ securitisation · critical security studies · ★ causes of war: levels of analysis · types of war · conflicts of ideas & interest · ★ Fun facts
- **Foreign Policymaking (EA)** — opening the "black box" (FPA) · ★ domestic variables · neoclassical realism · ★ US foreign policy since 2017 (Trump) · transformational change (Ashbee & Hurst) · embeddedness · ★ two-level games (Putnam) · does the balance vary? · ★ Fun facts

Part III · The European Union as a Political System

- **EU I: The Evolution of the EU (AUW)** — what is European integration? · the EU: neither IO nor state · ★ deepening & widening · why integration began (post-WWII) · ★ the evolution timeline · ECSC → Rome · the enlargements · Maastricht & the euro · politicization & the era of crisis · Brexit: integration in reverse · ★ why integration? two theories · neofunctionalism & spillover · liberal intergovernmentalism · ★ the eurozone-crisis case · theories compared · ★ Fun facts
- **EU II: Institutions of the EU (AUW)** — where is EU authority? · governed by treaty (TEU/TFEU) · the five bodies & their interests · ★ the basic architecture · European Council · Commission · Council of the EU · Parliament · CJEU · advisory bodies (EESC/CoR) · competences · conferral · subsidiarity · proportionality · how a law is made / ★ OLP · ★ QMV · special procedures · subsidiarity "cards" · the budget · implementation · regulations · directives · decisions · positive/negative integration & Cassis · enforcement · why the architecture matters · differentiated integration · cooperation & conflict · ★ LI vs neofunctionalism · ★ Fun facts
- **EU III: The Internal Market (AUW)** — what is the single market? · beyond tariffs: non-tariff barriers · ★ the four freedoms · why integrate? economic & political logic · ★ positive vs negative integration · Cassis & mutual recognition · who builds it · ★ the 1992 relaunch (Cockfield · SEA) · ★ the evolution timeline · free movement of goods · persons & labour · ★ services (why harder) · ★ the Services Directive (Frankenstein→vampire) · posted workers & Laval · capital · the state as regulator · the digital single market · ★ LI vs neofunctionalism · ★ Fun facts
- **EU IV: EU Competition Policy (AUW)** — competition ≠ competitiveness · why the market needs competition rules · exclusive competence · ★ the toolbox (6 instruments) · ★ the "economic constitution" (ordoliberalism) · why so supranational? DG COMP · enforcement powers · cartels (Art. 101) · ★ the leniency programme · abuse of dominance (Art. 102) · merger control · ★ digital markets & gatekeepers · Google Shopping · ★ the DMA (ex-ante) · state aid · Fiat & Apple (tax as state aid) · foreign subsidies · history & political economy · ★ three theories · ★ Fun facts
- **EU V: European Citizenship and Identity (AUW)** — the core puzzle + the chain · three lenses on citizens · what EU citizenship gives you · ★ the democratic deficit · the knowledge deficit · how citizens are represented · European identity: constructed, contested, changeable · ★ multi-level identities · civic vs exclusionary Europe · identity ↔ integration · ★ permissive consensus → constraining dissensus · ★ why support or oppose? four mechanisms · hard vs soft Euroscepticism · ★ Euroscepticism vs anti-establishment (Szczerbiak & Taggart) · politicization: eurozone vs Schengen · ★ synthesis · ★ Fun facts
- **Tools 4.1: Normative Frameworks — How Should We Evaluate Political Outcomes? (AD)** — positive vs normative questions · what is a normative framework? · ★ welfarism: utilitarianism · ★ welfarism: Pareto · ★ liberalism: where is the line? · the harm principle · property · freedom · ★ egalitarianism & Rawls · equality of what? outcomes vs opportunity · ★ frameworks at a glance · back to SyRI · why reasonable people disagree · key terms · exam pointers · ★ Fun facts
- **Tools 4.2: Interests and Rational Choice — Why Do Political Actors Choose What They Choose? (AD)** — from "should" to "why" · ★ the three building blocks · actors & preferences · ★ what "rational" means · why vote? the paradox · constraints · incentives & the three levers · ★ expected value: when does cheating pay? · ★ game theory & Nash equilibrium · ★ the prisoner's dilemma · criticisms of rational choice · key terms · exam pointers · ★ Fun facts
- **Tools 4.3: Collective Action, Public Goods, and Norms — Why Do Groups Fail to Get What They All Want? (AD)** — what is a collective action problem? · two kinds: free-rider vs coordination · externalities & the ★ goods typology · ★ the free-rider problem · group size (Olson) · tragedy of the commons · coordination problems · ★ the toolkit · coercion · selective incentives · repeated interaction · expectations · the climate case · key terms · exam pointers · ★ Fun facts

- **Tools 4.4: Bargaining, Commitment, and Political Conflict — Why Do Actors Fail to Agree? (AD)** — from collective action to bargaining · ★ sequential games & game trees · ★ backward induction · ★ outside options (Lesson 1) · ★ the spatial model: ideal points & veto players · the status quo matters (Lesson 2) · tactics · fairness & the ultimatum game · bundling (Lesson 3) · ★ the puzzle of costly conflict (Fearon) · ★ why talks fail: info & commitment · the Ukraine 1994 case · key terms · exam pointers · ★ Fun facts

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PART I · POLITICAL SYSTEMS & INSTITUTIONS

Lecture 1: Introduction — Power, Politics, and Political Science (MDJ)

Required reading: OD ch. 1 · Ansell (2023) ch. 1

Core theme: *What is politics, and how do we study it?* Two complementary lenses — OD gives you the **discipline's toolkit** (what comparative politics is + the main theory families), Ansell gives you a **single analytical engine** (political economy: self-interest → collective-action problems → the need for political "promises").

OD Ch. 1 — Introduction

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics: Concepts and Cases in Context*, 5th ed. (CQ Press/SAGE, 2021)

Chapter résumé

The opening chapter defines the field and hands you the analytical vocabulary used for the rest of the book. It answers three "meta" questions — *what* comparative politics is, *why* to study it, and *how* comparativists do research — and then lays out the **three key questions** that organize the whole discipline: **What explains political behavior? Who rules? Where and why?** Most of the chapter is a guided tour of the competing **theory families** used to answer the first two questions. It closes with the book's plan (three parts) and its method of teaching through **eleven recurring country case studies**.

> ★ **The heart of the chapter:** the whole field collapses into **three questions** — *what explains behaviour?* · *who rules?* · *where & why?* — answered with the **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** and **Pluralist / Elite** frameworks, all read through **Lukes' three dimensions of power**. Master those and you can attack any comparative-politics question.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

These are the analytical toolkits you're expected to *apply* to cases later:

- **Three dimensions of power** (Lukes) — the lens for spotting *where* power operates.
- **Empirical vs. normative theory** — always separate "what *is*" from "what *ought to be*."

- **Research methods** — single-case study · comparative method (most-similar / most-different systems) · quantitative statistics.
- **Explaining behavior → 3 families:** Interests · Beliefs · Structures.
- **Who rules → 2 families:** Pluralist vs. Elite theory.

Section-by-section main points

Comparative Politics: What Is It? / How to Study It?

What is politics? *(expanded with the lecture — MDJ)*

- **OD's definition:** politics = "*the process by which human communities make collective decisions*" (any scale, village → international body). This is a **procedural** definition — it's about *how* decisions get made, not their content. Four **implications**:
  - **Group, not private, decisions** — it concerns the group.
  - **The whole community** — decisions normally bind everyone.
  - **The process** — focus is on the decision-making *process*.
  - **≠ polity / policy** — distinguish **politics** (the process) from **polity** (the rules/institutions) and **policy** (the outcomes).
- Also: the process applies **across regime types**, needn't involve **large groups**, and is **not necessarily inclusive** (decisions are often made by small, unelected groups).
- **The distributional definitions** (what OD's definition leaves out — *the distribution of resources*):
  - **Lasswell (1936):** politics = "*who gets what, when, how.*"
  - **Easton (1953):** politics = "*the authoritative allocation of values for a society.*"
  - → politics as a **distributional game**: the capacity to distribute **material and non-material resources** (who wins, who loses).
  - Two key **assumptions** behind this view: ① **scarcity** of resources (no scarcity → no distributional battle) and ② **preference heterogeneity** (people want different, often conflicting, things).
- **Comparative politics** = the subfield comparing power & decision-making *within* countries (contrast: **international relations** studies *between*/beyond states).
- **Power — the three faces / dimensions.** *This is the chapter's master concept — it recurs as the lens for every theory later, so know it cold.* The lecture runs **one example** (a parliamentary **tax increase**) through all three so the differences are clear:

Face	Who (attribution)	Core idea	The tax example	Power =
1st · Decision-making	**Dahl (1957)**	A gets B to do something B would not otherwise do — **observable** conflict & decisions	A majority in Parliament passes the tax increase despite strong opposition	**winning an observable decision**
2nd · Agenda-setting	**Bachrach & Baratz (1962)**	Power through **non-decision-making** — keeping threatening issues **off the agenda** via rules/values	Powerful actors keep the tax increase off Parliament's agenda, so no debate or vote ever happens	**controlling what gets decided**
3rd · Ideological	**Lukes (1974)**	Shaping people's **wants, perceptions & preferences** — even with *no observable conflict*	People come to see taxing the wealthy as harmful/illegitimate, so the demand never even arises	**shaping wants & preferences**

- **The difference in one line:** the 1st face is about *winning* a visible fight; the 2nd is about *stopping the fight from happening*; the 3rd is about *making sure no one wants to fight in the first place*. Power gets **less visible** as you go down.
- **Why it's central — the recurring pay-off:** each later theory is graded by *which dimension it can see*. Rational choice & pluralists see essentially only the **1st**; rational-choice institutionalists add the **2nd**; psychological theories, postmodern discourse, historical institutionalism and elite theory reach into the **2nd & 3rd**. Being able to say "this theory only captures the first dimension" is a core analytical move.
- **Worked example of the move (straight from the book):** *Rational choice* accepts people's preferences **as given** and only asks how they rationally pursue them — so it lives purely in the **1st dimension**, ignoring how preferences are *formed*. That is exactly why it "can't explain preferences in advance" and stumbles on the **cross-national union puzzle** (why French unions went communist while US unions chased only wages): it has no way to see the **3rd-dimensional** forces that *shaped* those preferences. **Psychological theories** and **historical institutionalists**, which do reach the 3rd dimension, are what step in to explain it. → *This is the template: name the theory, name the dimension(s) it can't see, then name a rival theory that reaches further.*

Why Study Comparative Politics? — three benefits

1. Understand political events in specific countries (and inform foreign policy).
2. Draw **lessons** transferable from one place to another (e.g. presidential systems may worsen post-civil-war conflict — invisible if you only study the US).
3. Build **broad theories** of how politics works.

How Do Comparativists Study Politics? — methods

- No lab: political actors *react* to being studied, so no perfect control.
- **Empirical theory** = explains what *does* occur (describe pattern → explain cause → predict). **Normative theory** = what *ought* to occur. The discipline is mostly empirical, but normative concerns shape which questions get asked (and that's legitimate).
- **Three research methods:**

    - **Single-case study** — deep dive into one case; generates/tests theory; *process tracing* links causes→effects; **deviant cases** expose theory limits. Never definitive beyond itself.
    - **Comparative method** — mimic the lab via careful case selection:
        - **Most-similar systems** — cases alike in many ways, differ on the key variable.
        - **Most-different systems** — cases differing in many ways but sharing the outcome (e.g. revolutions: France, Russia, China, Iran…).
    - **Quantitative statistical techniques** — reduce evidence to numbers, compare hundreds of cases (e.g. the civil-war & diamonds study: civil war driven more by *lootable resources* than ethnicity).
- **Scientific-method vocabulary:** theory · hypothesis · variable · **dependent** vs **independent** variable · **control**.
- Best modern scholarship *combines* methods (quant for patterns + case studies for causal depth).

Three Key Questions in Comparative Politics

1. **What explains political behavior?** (core of all political science)
2. **Who rules?**
3. **Where and why?** (comparativists' distinctive contribution — the same explanation across different times/places?)

Q1 — What Explains Political Behavior? → three answer-families

*The chapter's (and the exam's) core. Each family splits into competing theories — below, each with its **core idea**, its **critique**, and which **face of power** it "sees." Learn the theory names + one line each.*

① Interests — behaviour = actors pursuing their own preferences

Theory	Core idea	Critique	Sees face
Rational choice	Rational individuals pursue self-defined **preferences** instrumentally (borrowed from economics; starts at the individual).	Can't know preferences **in advance** → weak predictive power; struggles with cross-country variation. Group-behaviour critics: **Achen & Bartels**.	1st
Psychological	**Non-rational** factors — personal experience, **emotions**, personality — shape behaviour (**Petersen** on fear; **Hetherington & Weiler** on personality).	Its focus on the individual makes **group** behaviour hard to explain.	3rd

② Beliefs — behaviour = values & ideas

Theory	Core idea	Critique	Sees face
Political culture	Shared **attitudes, values, symbols** shape behaviour. *Modernist:* clear, identifiable civic values (Almond & Verba's **civic culture**; **postmaterialist** shift, Inglehart). *Postmodernist:* culture = symbols open to interpretation in **discourse** (Foucault).	Do countries really have *one* culture? Culture may be an **effect**, not a cause; postmodernism accused of explaining nothing.	2nd–3rd
Political ideology	A **systematic, conscious belief-set** guides action (liberalism, communism, fascism).	May just **justify** actions really driven by self-interest or culture.	3rd

③ Structures — behaviour = shaped & limited by broad structures

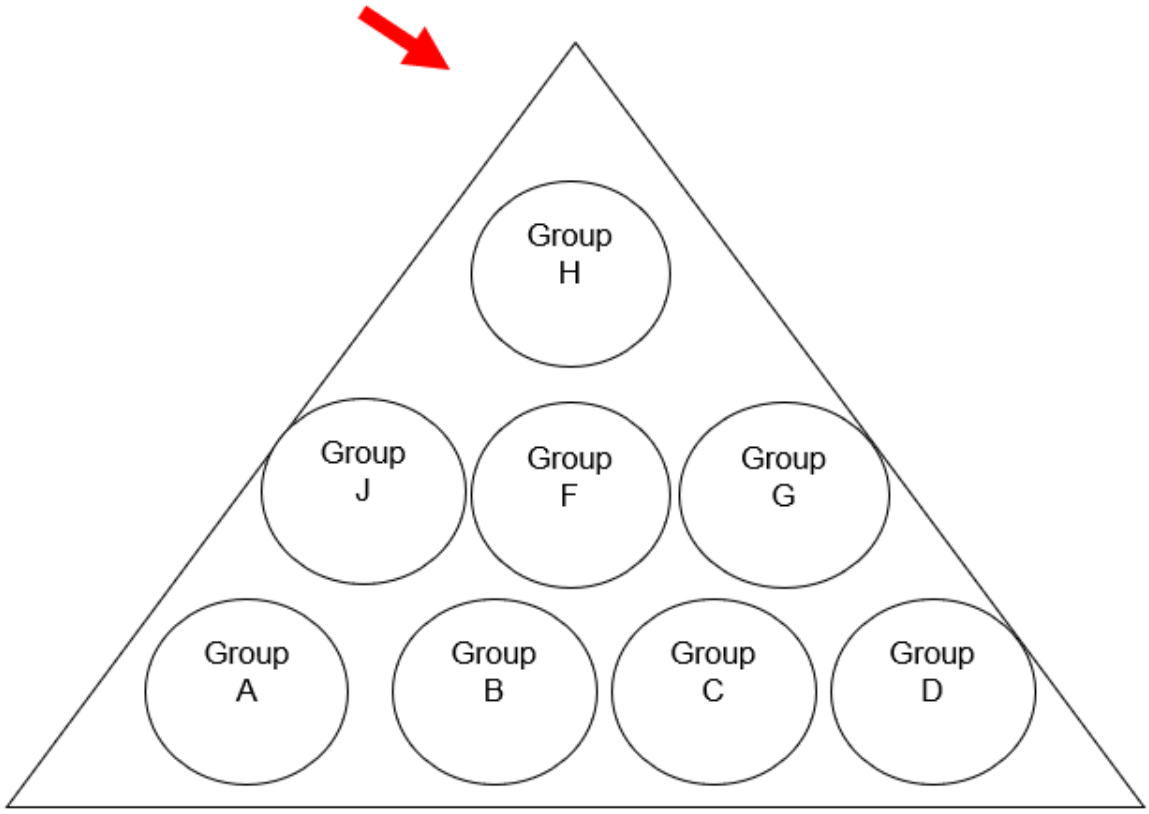
Theory	Core idea	Critique	Sees face
Marxism	Behaviour explained by **class conflict** rooted in the economic system (bourgeoisie vs proletariat — **Marx**).	Overlooks **non-economic** motives (religion, nationalism) and other sources of power.	2nd–3rd
Institutionalism	**Institutions — the "rules of the game"** — shape behaviour (*rational-choice institutionalist*, **Weingast**; *historical institutionalist*, **Haggard & Kaufman**; e.g. the US two-term tradition).	Institutions may **reflect** self-interest or culture rather than *cause* behaviour.	2nd (RC) / all 3 (historical)

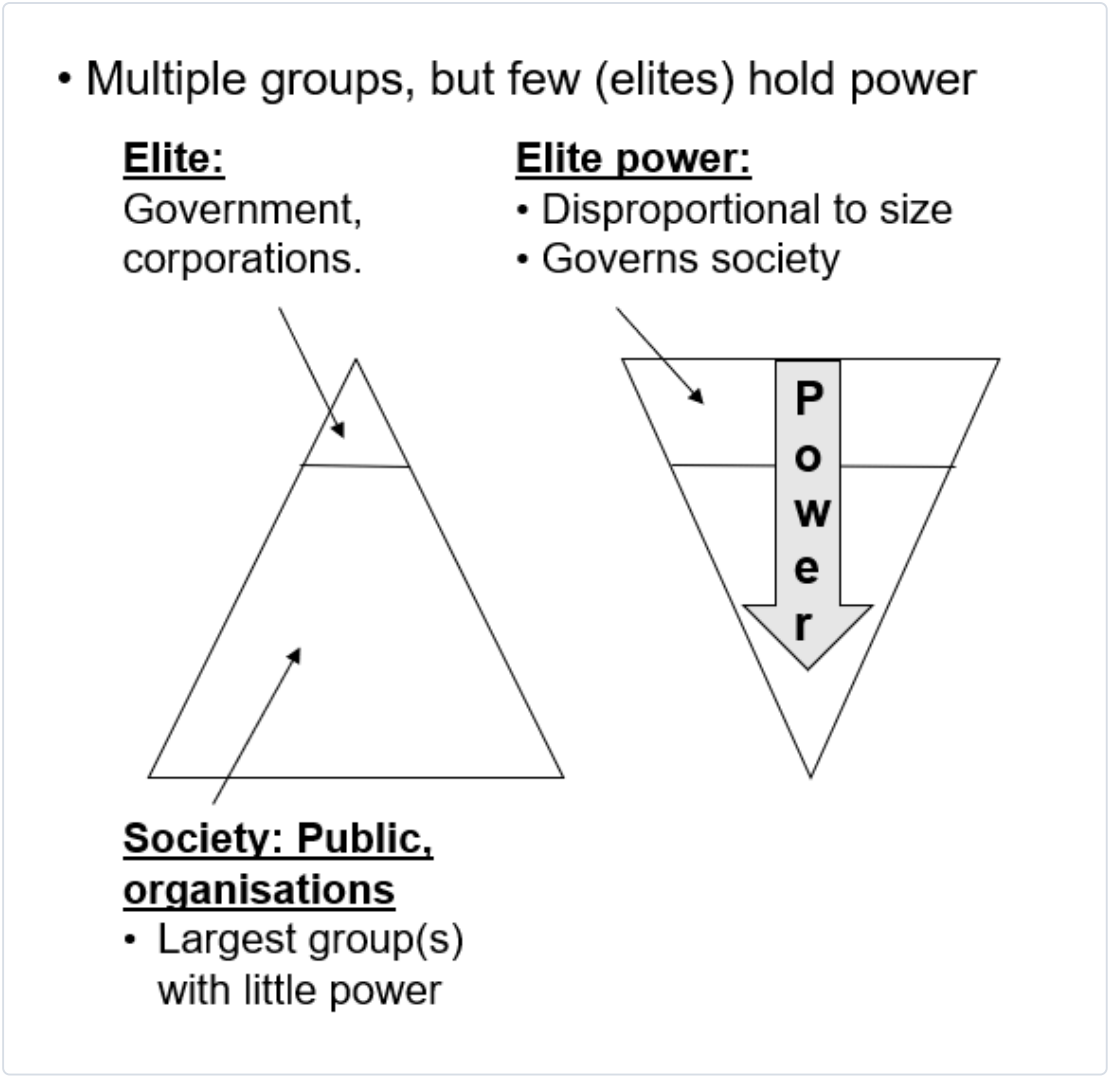
Q2 — Who Rules? → two answer-families

- **Pluralist theories** (classic statement: **Robert Dahl**, *Who Governs?* 1961) — society = many competing groups; power *dispersed*; no group wins permanently; policy = compromise. (Thinks mostly in the **1st dimension** of power.) Claims to apply even to authoritarian states (Soviet factions; African patron–client networks).
- **Elite theories** — every society ruled by a small elite controlling ~all power (uses **2nd & 3rd dimensions**). Variants:
  - **Marxism** — ruling class = owners of the economy (bourgeoisie); state = "executive committee of the bourgeoisie."
  - **Power elite** (C. Wright Mills) — interlocking economic + political + military elites.
  - **Oligarchy** (Winters) — extreme wealth as power, used to protect wealth.
  - **Patriarchy** (feminist) — rule by men; politics/military tied to masculinity.
  - **Racial elite / "new Jim Crow"** (Alexander) — one race maintains dominance via law, wealth, discourse.
- **Test for who rules:** Who holds formal power? Who influences decisions? Who benefits? → few = elite; many = pluralist.

Visualising it (from the lecture):

Multiple groups hold and compete over power:
No singular center of power





How to read them. *Pluralist* (first diagram): power is **dispersed** among many competing groups — *no single centre*. *Elitist* (second): a **small elite** (government, corporations) sits at the top and holds power **disproportionate to its size**, while the **largest group — the public/society — has little power**; the inverted triangle shows **power flowing *down*** onto them. Same society, opposite claim about where power really sits.

Q3 — Where and Why?

- Add the **comparative dimension** to Q1 & Q2: why do welfare states differ (see the Sweden vs US welfare state case)? Explanations compete — rational choice / ideology / institutions. Comparison across cases reveals patterns a single case hides.

Plan of the Book

- **Part I** — the state (what it is, strong/weak; state–citizen–regime; state–identity).
- **Part II** — how political systems work (democratic & authoritarian institutions; participation; regime change).
- **Part III** — political economy & policy.
- **11 recurring country cases:** 4 wealthy democracies (Britain, Germany, Japan, US); 2 post-communist (China, Russia); largest enduring democracy (India); the one theocracy (Iran); 3 post-authoritarian democracies (Brazil, Mexico, Nigeria).

Cases & examples

The concrete cases the chapter uses. Each one: *what actually happened → what it illustrates*.

- **Tunisia vs Syria (2011).** Both were swept up in the Arab Spring protests, yet the outcomes split completely: Tunisia negotiated a relatively **peaceful transition to democracy**, while Syria collapsed into a long, brutal **civil war**. → *Illustrates:* why comparison matters — understanding a country's internal dynamics has real foreign-policy stakes; it also undercuts the lazy claim that "Arab/Islamic culture" is uniformly anti-democratic (same culture-family, opposite results).
- **Post-civil-war presidentialism.** Americans treat their directly-elected presidency as *the* stable model. But in a country just out of civil war it's **winner-take-all**: only one side's candidate can win the top job, so the losers may prefer to **restart the war** than live with the result. A **power-sharing** system that gives every major group a slice of national power tends to be safer. → *Illustrates:* a lesson you simply cannot see by studying the US alone — the payoff of comparison.
- **Civil war & diamonds** (Collier & Hoeffler; **Sierra Leone**). A large **quantitative** study of hundreds of civil wars found that **ethnic division is not the main cause** people assume. War is far more likely where a group can seize a **valuable, lootable resource** — like the diamonds fuelling Sierra Leone's 1990s war. Where there's no such prize, ethnic division rarely turns violent. → *Illustrates:* the quantitative method + a genuinely counter-intuitive finding.
- **Ukraine 2014 — "is it a civil war?"** When fighting erupted in 2014 (with a Russian military presence backing one side), scholars couldn't cleanly classify it: *how much* violence, for *how long*, before it "counts" as a civil war? → *Illustrates:* the hard first step of any scientific study — **defining and measuring your variables** precisely.
- **Almond & Verba, *The Civic Culture* (1963).** They surveyed citizens across five countries and argued that stable democracies (US, UK) share a "**civic culture**" — people participate *and* defer enough to let leaders govern — whereas **Mexico** had a "**subject**" **culture** (citizens saw themselves as subjects, not participants), fitting its authoritarian rule until 2000. → *Illustrates:* the classic **modernist** political-culture claim — and the standard critique that culture may be an *effect* of institutions, not their cause.
- **US Catholics shifting Democrat → Republican.** Mid-20th-c. working-class Catholics voted **Democrat** on economic interest. As they grew affluent, they came to prioritise **moral/cultural** issues (e.g. abortion) and drifted **Republican**. → *Illustrates:* **postmaterialism** (Inglehart) — political culture *changing over time* and reshaping party alignments.
- **"Family values" (Reagan vs Clinton).** No US politician dares oppose "family values," yet the phrase has **no fixed meaning**: Reagan's Republicans used it to claim the traditional middle-class family; Clinton's Democrats **reinterpreted** it to mean single mothers and two-income families needing afterschool programmes. → *Illustrates:* the **postmodernist** point — political symbols are contested and redefined through **discourse** (a play for the 3rd dimension of power).
- **Unions: France / US / UK.** Same institution, three preference-sets: **French** unions tied themselves to the **Communist Party** and pursued broad ideological goals; **US** unions stayed "bread-and-butter" (wages & conditions), shunning socialist parties; **British** unions built their own **Labour Party**. → *Illustrates:* the puzzle for **rational choice** — it takes preferences as given, so it can't explain *why* they differ so sharply across countries (this is the worked example above).
- **US two-term tradition** (Washington → FDR). Washington voluntarily stepped down after two terms; **no president broke the norm for 150+ years** until FDR won a third term in **1940** — after which it was written into the Constitution (22nd Amendment). → *Illustrates:* an **informal institution** that shaped behaviour purely because leaders and citizens believed it *should*.

- **Chile's democratic transition (1990s).** One of the most successful exits from military rule — explained three different ways: **rational-choice institutionalists** (elites cut a strategic constitutional bargain that served their interests), **political-culture** theorists (Chilean values favoured democracy), **historical institutionalists** (Chile could revive its earlier stable democratic institutions, a legacy neighbours lacked). → *Illustrates:* how the **same event** gets three competing explanations — and the analyst's job is to weigh them.
- **Sweden vs US welfare state.** Sweden runs a large, expensive welfare state; the US spends far less. Why do two rich democracies diverge? **Interests:** strong labour won in Sweden, business overpowered labour in the US. **Beliefs:** Sweden's dominant Socialists spread social-democratic ideology; US "make it on your own" culture rejects socialism. **Institutions:** Sweden's unified labour body (LO) became central to policymaking; US unions stayed decentralised and weak. → *Illustrates:* the lead "**Where and why?**" puzzle, with one answer from each theory family.
- **US corporate power / oligarchy** (Winters). Is the US genuinely democratic if a **corporate elite** holds outsized power? Winters argues extreme wealth ("material power") lets **oligarchs** hire lawyers and lobbyists to shield their income from redistribution. → *Illustrates:* a "**Who rules?**" case pitting **elite theory** against **pluralism**.

The 11 recurring countries (used across the whole book): Britain, Germany, Japan, USA (wealthy democracies) · China, Russia (post-communist) · India (largest democracy) · Iran (theocracy) · Brazil, Mexico, Nigeria (post-authoritarian).

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Politics	Process by which communities make collective decisions (procedural; group, whole community, ≠ polity/policy)
Polity / Policy	The rules & institutions / the outcomes (vs *politics* = the process)
Distributional game	Politics as allocating resources — "who gets what" (Lasswell; Easton)
Scarcity / Preference heterogeneity	The two assumptions behind the distributional view of politics
Comparative politics	Subfield comparing power/decision-making across countries
Three faces of power	(1) decision-making, Dahl; (2) agenda-setting, Bachrach & Baratz; (3) ideological, Lukes
Empirical / Normative theory	Explains what *does* / what *ought to* occur
Single-case study	Deep study of one case (uses process tracing)
Comparative method	Careful case selection: most-similar vs most-different systems
Rational choice theory	Actors rationally pursue self-defined preferences
Political culture	Widely held attitudes/values/symbols about politics
Civic culture	Culture supporting stable democracy (Almond & Verba)
Political ideology	Conscious systematic belief-set about how politics *ought* to be
Institutionalism	Institutions ("rules of the game") explain behavior
Pluralist theory	Power dispersed among competing groups
Elite theory	A small elite controls virtually all power
Patriarchy	Rule by men

Exam pointers

- Be able to **apply the 3 dimensions of power** to an example, and say which theory family "sees" which dimension.
- Know the **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** trichotomy for Q1 and **Pluralist vs Elite** for Q2 — with one named theorist per box (the names are in the two tables above: e.g. Interests → *Achen & Bartels / Petersen*; Beliefs → *Almond & Verba, Inglehart, Foucault*; Structures → *Marx, Weingast*; Pluralist → *Dahl*; Elite → *Mills, Winters, Alexander*).
- Distinguish **most-similar vs most-different** systems designs with an example.
- Always flag **empirical vs normative** when a question mixes them.

Ansell — *Why Politics Fails*, Ch. 1

Book: Ben Ansell (2023), *Why Politics Fails: The Five Traps of the Modern World – and How to Escape Them*, Penguin.

> *Note:* the provided PDF is titled "**Introduction: Simple Problems, Impossible Politics**" — this is the framing chapter the syllabus lists as "chapter 1." It sets up the whole book.

Chapter résumé

Ansell argues that our biggest challenges (climate change is the opening example) are often "**simple problems with impossible politics**": we understand the solution but can't get people to act. The reason is **political economy** — individuals are **self-interested**, and self-interest predictably collides with the collective good, producing **collective-action problems**. He introduces the **five goals** we broadly agree on — **Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity** — each of which is also a **trap**. Politics is fundamentally about making **collective promises** to each other; but promises can't be externally enforced, so they only work when made **self-enforcing** through **institutions** and **norms**. The book's project: learn to spot the five traps and escape them.

> ★ **The heart of the chapter:** one chain explains why politics fails — **self-interest → collective-action problem → tragedy of the commons → the need for self-enforcing political promises (institutions & norms)**. If you learn one thing here, learn to run that chain.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Political economy** — model individuals as self-interested utility-maximizers, then scale up to society.
- **Self-interest → preferences → constraints → trade-offs** — the micro engine.
- **Collective-action problem** — self-interested individuals undermine a shared goal.
- **Tragedy of the commons** & **externalities** (negative/positive) — the recurring failure shapes.
- **Politics as promises** — collective, unenforceable, needing **self-enforcing** design.
- **Institutions** (formal rules) & **norms** (informal expectations) — what makes promises stick.
- **The Five Traps:** Democracy · Equality · Solidarity · Security · Prosperity.

Section-by-section main points

Opening — Simple Problems, Impossible Politics

- Climate change: science is a century old and well understood; the road from emissions → warming is *simple*. The hard part is getting anyone to act — a **global problem with domestic politics**. No world government to enforce, so everyone free-rides.
- International attempts show politics *can* work (Paris 2015) or fail (Kyoto, Copenhagen) — success came from flexibility, vague wording, deferral.
- Climate tests all **five** goals: democracy (global consensus?), equality (should richer pay more?), solidarity (do rich nations owe poor?), security (climate refugees, enforcement?), prosperity (short-term gain vs long-term survival).

Common ground

- **Politics** = how we make collective decisions / make promises to each other in an uncertain world. Essential for solving shared dilemmas.

- **Double-edged sword:** we need politics but hate it; we look for alternatives (markets, technology, strong leaders) but these are "**false gods**" — they still run into human disagreement.
- Disagreement is **inevitable** (elections have losers; spending is unequal; who guards the guards?). Push politics down in one place, it pops up elsewhere ("paste in the toothpaste tube").
- Despite polarization, most people **agree on five things** — which are also five **traps**.

The five goals (each a trap)

- **Democracy** — right/ability of the mass public to choose and replace leaders. ~½ the world lives in democracies; broadly popular (86% in World Values Survey favor it) but under pressure (the "third wave" stalled; populism, referendums, attacks on media/expertise).
- **Equality** — everyone treated the same; but debate over *outcomes* vs *opportunities* and redistribution. Wide consensus that income gaps are too large (2019: only 7% disagreed), yet inequality has *risen* in rich countries since the 1980s → populist backlash ("inequality paradox").
- **Solidarity** — support for fellow citizens in hard times (illness, bad luck). Underpins popular "third-rail" policies (US Social Security, UK NHS). COVID-19 showed global health interdependence.
- **Security** — the most basic desire: to be safe. 70% prefer security over freedom (highest where war is recent). Concerns: violence *within* states, police violence ("who guards us from our protectors?"), return of interstate war (Ukraine).
- **Prosperity** — enough money to live/grow; but endless growth warms the planet → trade-off between prosperity and environmental survival.

Political economy (the method)

- The school of thought taking seriously how individual and society interact: start with a **model of each of us** (what we want + how we plan to get it), then pan out to society and watch **best-laid plans undermined by… us**.
- **Basic model:** everyone is **self-interested** — has ordered **preferences** and tries to **maximize utility** (pick the highest-value option). Not an ethical claim — a *predictive analytical tool*.
- **Methodological individualism:** start from individuals, not classes/cultures/groups.
- **Constraints & trade-offs:** you can't have everything (physical, institutional, social limits) → every choice sacrifices an alternative (coffee vs tea; lower taxes vs social liberalism at the ballot box).
- Even **voting** is a puzzle: your single vote is unlikely to be decisive, so turnout must be partly explained by a sense of **duty**. Politicians too are self-interested (must win elections → campaign arms race).
- Studying self-interest is **liberating**, not cynical: even apparently selfless behavior often has a self-interested logic (e.g. the rich opposing public-education spending that "devalues" their kids' advantage).

Collective-action problems

- When self-interested individuals interact, they can inadvertently wreck a shared goal.
- **Example — the Cod Wars** (Britain vs Iceland, 1950s–70s): overfishing a shared resource.
- **Tragedy of the commons:** without ownership, everyone fishes freely → stocks collapse; my self-interest hurts yours.
- **Externalities:** a market action's effect on a third party — mostly **negative** (pollution, congestion), sometimes **positive** (a neighbor's rose garden). Political life is "full of externalities."

- Root cause: we are **interdependent** — my choice affects your options — and we can't commit others (or ourselves) to "do the right thing." *The making of a tragedy.*

Politics as a promise

- We're *smart*: we anticipate what others will do — which is exactly why collective-action problems arise (can't blame "stupidity").
- Politics = making **collective promises** (politicians→voters, allies→adversaries). A **promise** ≠ a **contract**: it **can't be legally enforced by a third party** — there's *no higher power than politics itself*.
- So political promises are **fragile and temporary**; they succeed only when **self-enforcing** — designed so that reneging is hard.
- Two tools to grant promises permanence:
  - **Institutions** — formal rules/organizations that lock in expectations (e.g. the **US Senate filibuster**: powerful, flawed, over-represents small states, hard to remove safely — shows institutions structure behavior even when dysfunctional).
  - **Norms** — informal expectations about how we should behave; invisible but powerful, vaguer and harder to enforce than rules; not every leader can invoke them.
- Because institutions & norms vary, **politics plays out differently around the world** (e.g. Nordic high-trust, inclusive systems are hard to transplant).

The traps (close)

- Each of the five goals faces a **trap triggered by self-interest** that blocks the collective goal. Traps aren't destiny — but they're **insidious, pervasive, even enticing**.
- Two options: spot the traps "in the wild" and step around them, or — if already caught — learn to **escape**. *Only by understanding why politics fails can we make it succeed.*

The chain, run once (worked). This is the single argument the whole chapter builds — here it is end-to-end on the Cod Wars:

1. **Self-interest.** Every fisherman, British and Icelandic, tries to maximise his *own* catch (the political-economy starting model).
2. **→ Collective-action problem.** They're **interdependent** — fishing the *same* sea — so each one acting on self-interest undermines the shared goal (a sustainable stock). Individually rational, collectively ruinous.
3. **→ Tragedy of the commons / externality.** The sea is **unowned and hard to monitor**, so no one can be excluded → everyone overfishes → the stock collapses (**tragedy of the commons**). Put the other way: my extra catch imposes a cost on you — a **negative externality**.
4. **→ Need for political promises.** We'd all be better off with a binding catch limit, but there's **no world government** to enforce one — so the *states* must make **political promises** to each other on behalf of their fishermen.
5. **→ Institutions & norms.** A promise can't be enforced by any third party, so it only holds if it's **self-enforcing** — locked in by **institutions** (formal rules: recognised fishing limits/zones) and **norms** (informal expectations). When Iceland kept *extending* its limits, the promise broke and new ones were needed — "*politics never ends.*"

Reusable template (works on any trap): name the **self-interest** → show the **interdependence** that makes it a **collective-action problem** → identify the **commons/externality** failure → state the **promise** that would fix it → name the **institution/norm** that could make the promise stick.

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Political economy	Study of how self-interested individuals and society interact
Self-interest	Model assumption: people pursue their own ordered preferences
Utility maximization	Choosing the option that yields the highest personal value
Constraint / trade-off	Limits force sacrifice of one option for another
Collective-action problem	Self-interested individuals undermine a shared goal
Tragedy of the commons	Unowned shared resource gets over-exploited
Externality	Effect of a transaction on a third party (negative/positive)
Politics-as-promise	Collective promises that no third party can enforce
Self-enforcing	Arrangement where reneging is made costly/hard
Institution	Formal rule/organization locking in expectations (e.g. filibuster)
Norm	Informal expectation about proper behavior
The Five Traps	Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity

Exam pointers

- Memorize the **five goals/traps** (Democracy, Equality, Solidarity, Security, Prosperity) — the spine of the whole book.
- Be able to **run the chain**: self-interest → collective-action problem → tragedy of the commons/externalities → need for political promises → institutions & norms *(worked end-to-end above)*.
- Use the **Cod Wars** / **tragedy of the commons** as your go-to worked example.
- Key distinction: a **promise** (unenforceable, needs to be self-enforcing) vs a **contract** (third-party enforced).

Bridge to OD

Both readings converge on **institutions** and on modelling actors via **interests/self-interest** (OD's "Interests" family = Ansell's political-economy engine). Ansell's "politics = collective decisions" is almost verbatim OD's definition of **politics**. Good to cite them together on *why institutions matter*.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

> The sticky examples, surprising stats and quotable lines from this module — the stuff worth dropping into an essay or exam answer.

Memorable examples (great to cite)

- **The Cod Wars** (Britain vs Iceland, 1950s–70s): two NATO allies clashing over cod — boats rammed, one accidental death by electrocution, and Icelandic coastguards fitting **wire-cutters** to slash British trawler

nets. A perfect little tragedy-of-the-commons story. *(Ansell)*

- **Civil war & diamonds:** statistical research (Collier & Hoeffler) found civil wars are driven more by control of **lootable resources** — diamonds, e.g. Sierra Leone — than by ethnic division. *(OD)*
- **The "new Jim Crow"** (Michelle Alexander): mass incarceration reframed as a modern system of racial control. *(OD)*
- **George Washington's two-term tradition:** an *informal* institution that held for 150+ years until FDR broke it in 1940 — then it was locked into the Constitution. *(OD)*
- "**Family values**" as a contested symbol — Reagan's Republicans and Clinton's Democrats each reinterpreted it (the postmodernist point about discourse). *(OD)*

Surprising stats

- **86%** worldwide (World Values Survey) say democracy is a good way to run a country — and in **China, Ethiopia, Iran & Tajikistan over 90%** agree with pro-democracy statements, *more* than in the US. *(Ansell)*
- **~70%** say they'd prefer **security over freedom** — highest where war is recent. *(Ansell)*
- **~95%** across wealthy countries think government should provide healthcare — even **85% in the US**. *(Ansell)*
- **2016** was, by some counts, the **most violent year since WWII**. *(Ansell)*

Quotable lines

- Marx: the modern state is "*the executive committee of the whole bourgeoisie.*" *(OD)*
- Keynes: "*In the long run we are all dead.*" — on why forecasting fails. *(Ansell)*
- Ansell on the inescapability of politics: push it down in one place and it pops up in another, "*like the proverbial paste in the toothpaste tube.*"
- The **NHS** as Britain's "*national religion.*" *(Ansell)*

Trivia

- OD's example of why natural science can be "purer": South Korea's **Woo Suk Hwang faked stem-cell results** — but biologists don't get *normatively* attached to findings the way political scientists do.
- The CO_2-warming theory dates to **1861**, revived in a **1956 New York Times** piece imagining "tigers roaming… and squawking Arctic parrots." *(Ansell)*

Lecture 2: The State (AUW)

Required reading: OD ch. 2 (*The Modern State*) · OD ch. 4 (*States and Identity*)

Theme of the lecture: the **state** itself — first *what a modern state is* and why some are strong while others fail (ch. 2), then how **identity** (nation, ethnicity, race, class, religion, gender, sexuality) becomes the central challenge to the state and to the liberal ideal of equal citizenship (ch. 4). Ch. 2 gives you the **anatomy** of the state; ch. 4 shows the **fault lines** running through it.

Lecture frame (AUW — Ayça Uygur Wessel). The lecture hangs both chapters on **four questions** — use them as the skeleton:

1. **What is a state?** → the four characteristics (OD Ch. 2).
2. **Where did states come from?** → two pathways: **European (war-driven)** & **colonial**.
3. **Why are some states stronger than others?** → theories of **strength** & **weakness**.

4. **Who does the state represent?** → the **nation / identity** puzzle (OD Ch. 4).

State ≠ Nation ≠ Regime ≠ Government *(memorise the one-liners):*

- **State** — the *permanent administrative apparatus*.
- **Nation** — a *group of people with a shared sense of belonging*.
- **Regime** — the *fundamental rules* of the state (its type).
- **Government** — the *people who currently run* the state.

Two exam-style puzzles the lecture poses:

- ***What comes first?*** Is there a neat causal order **Territory → Sovereignty → Legitimacy → Bureaucracy**, or are the four **mutually reinforcing**? (Best answer: mostly mutually reinforcing — bureaucracy raises the tax that funds the army that defends the territory that grounds sovereignty…)
- ***Greenland:*** rate its characteristics — strong on **territory**, but weak **external sovereignty** (part of Denmark). Shows the characteristics come in **degrees**, not all-or-nothing.

OD Ch. 2 — The Modern State

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 2.

Chapter résumé

Defines the **modern state** — the foundational unit of comparative politics — and separates it from *country*, *nation*, *government*, and *regime*. It argues every modern state shares **four characteristics** (territory, external/internal sovereignty, legitimacy, bureaucracy) that make it an exceptionally powerful ruling apparatus. It traces the state's **historical origins** (first in Europe, 15th–18th c., then exported worldwide by colonialism, universal only by the 1960s) and explains why states vary in **strength** (the strong/weak/failed spectrum, political goods, the resource curse, quasi-states). **~Half the chapter is eleven country case studies** ranked strongest→weakest — so weight your revision toward the cases.

> ★ **The heart of the chapter:** a modern state = **four characteristics** (territory · external + internal sovereignty · legitimacy · bureaucracy); *how fully a state has them* decides whether it is **strong, weak, or failed**. Use the four as a checklist on any case.

The red thread. One question runs through the whole chapter: **does an entity have the four characteristics — and how fully?** That single test defines what a state *is* (the characteristics), explains where states *came from* (building the four via war & colonialism), and grades why they *differ in strength* (strong = has all four; failed = has lost them). Every case is scored on the same four.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The four characteristics of the modern state** — the analytic backbone: **territory · external & internal sovereignty · legitimacy · bureaucracy.**
- **Sovereignty split:** *external* (recognised independence from outside powers) vs *internal* (sole law-making/enforcing authority inside) — they can come apart.
- **Weber's monopoly on the legitimate use of force** — the state claims to be the only body that may legitimately coerce.

- **Weber's three types of legitimacy** — traditional · charismatic · rational-legal.
- **Strong / weak / failed state** — a *continuum* measured by whether the state supplies **political goods** (security, rule of law, infrastructure).
- **Ideal type** — no real state matches the model perfectly; use it as a yardstick.

Section-by-section main points

What is a state? — state vs. the rest

Core: don't confuse the four — **state** (the apparatus) ≠ **government** (who runs it now) ≠ **regime** (the type of rules) ≠ **nation** (a people).

- A **state** = "an ongoing administrative apparatus that develops and administers laws and implements policies in a specific territory." **Government** = the transient occupants (US: "administrations"); **regime** = the *type* of government (liberal democracy, fascism — ch. 3); **nation** = a people with shared identity (ch. 4); **country** = too vague for analysis.

The four characteristics of a state *(heavily emphasised)*

Core: four features together make the state a uniquely powerful ruling apparatus — **the checklist you score every case on.**

- ① **Territory** — clearly defined borders; sizes range from Russia (6.5m sq mi) to micro-states under 200 sq mi. Borders still shift (Kosovo 2008, South Sudan 2011), usually to align state with nation.
- ② **External vs internal sovereignty** — *external* = recognised independence (counter-examples: colonies, Vichy France, Manchukuo — had territory/government but externally controlled); *internal* = sole authority to make/enforce law, defended against secession. A state needs *others to recognise it* (see the Somaliland case). Sovereignty ≠ omnipotence.
- ③ **Legitimacy** — the recognised right to rule; boosts sovereignty *far more cheaply than force*. **Weber's three types: traditional** (long-standing custom — divine right of kings), **charismatic** (personal virtue/heroism — early Mao), **rational-legal** (leaders chosen by accepted laws — elected under a constitution; Weber's marker of *modern* rule). In practice regimes **blend all three**. Collier: without legitimacy you get **repression, conflict, or "theater."**
- ④ **Bureaucracy** — appointed officials who implement law (collect tax, run the army, pave roads). Weak legitimacy + weak bureaucracy = the two key drivers of state weakness.

Where did states come from? — two pathways *(moderate)*

Core: the four characteristics were **built two ways** — Europe by *war & competition*, the rest by *colonial conquest* — and the route shapes later capacity.

① **European pathway — "war made the state" (Charles Tilly).** A causal flow driven by **military competition**:

> **Feudalism** (overlapping authorities) → **absolute monarchies** (consolidate territory & sovereignty; "*L'état, c'est moi*" — state not yet separate from the ruler) → **war & political competition** (15th–18th-c. rulers were "war-lords/ladies") → **taxation + armies + administration** → **efficient bureaucracies** → **stronger territorial states.**

- **Tilly's four activities** (each reinforces the state — he likens the early state to a **protection racket**): **war-making** (neutralise external rivals) · **state-making** (neutralise internal rivals) · **protection** (neutralise clients' enemies) · **extraction** (raise the **tax** to fund the first three).
- **Brandenburg-Prussia** *(worked example):* surrounded by larger powers → needed armies → needed revenue (poor economy) → heavy **taxation in return for protection** → efficient bureaucracy → high **state capacity**. Prussia was strong **not because it always won**, but because it had to fight in a **very competitive environment**, which raised the incentive to build a strong state.
- Competition cut Europe from **~500 sovereign entities in 1500 to ~50 today**. The *truly* modern state arrives once it is seen as **separate from the ruler** and liberalism turns subjects into **citizens** (Glorious Revolution 1688; French Revolution 1789). *(Premodern states elsewhere ruled **people** more than precise territory — China's Confucian bureaucracy was closest to modern, ~1,800 years early.)*

② **Colonial pathway — statehood through conquest.** European powers **exported** borders, administrative structures and international recognition — but colonial borders **ignored existing political communities**. Result: **statehood ≠ state capacity** — postcolonial states inherited legal external sovereignty but **weak internal sovereignty**, imposed institutions and divided loyalties → mostly **very weak states** (universal statehood only by the 1960s). **Main take-away: the *origins* of statehood shape how *capacity* later develops.**

Why are some states stronger? — strong / weak / failed *(heavily emphasised)*

Core: strength = **how many political goods the state actually delivers** — a *continuum* (strong → weak → failed), not three boxes, and a state can be strong on one characteristic, weak on another.

- States supply **political goods** (Rotberg: security, rule of law, infrastructure). **Strong** = provides them generally; **weak** = only partially; **failed** = loses effective sovereignty over part/all territory (Syria, DRC, Afghanistan). Strength is a **continuum** and can move *both* ways (Fukuyama: even the US state has weakened).
- **Vicious cycle of weakness:** no resources → falling legitimacy → underpaid officials → corruption → worse services → citizens turn to mafias/private justice → the monopoly on force erodes further.
- **Why states differ — theories of *strength* (name + who):**
  - **Warfare** (**Tilly**) — external threats force state-building (Prussia).
  - **Colonial legacies** (**Acemoglu, Johnson & Robinson**) — externally imposed institutions shape later state capacity (Congo, Nigeria).
  - **Elite agreements** (**North, Wallis & Weingast**) — elites trade *private violence* for **impersonal institutions & the rule of law** (England).
  - *(+ **Fukuyama's two paths:** bureaucracy-first Prussia/Germany vs democracy-first US → machine politics.)*
- **Theories of *weakness*:**
  - **Resource curse** — resource dependence weakens **accountability** and breeds corruption (mineral revenue lets rulers ignore citizens; gives rebels a prize — *not* inevitable, cf. Norway).
  - **International system** — international **recognition** props up **quasi-states** that couldn't otherwise survive (post-1945 norm against conquest; Cold War patrons).
- Measured by the **Fragile States Index** (178 states, 12 factors — the chapter questions its equal weighting).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back to the theme. The chapter isn't telling eleven country stories for their own sake: each is a **worked example of the chapter's spine** — the **four characteristics**, the **strong**

→ **weak** → **failed** spectrum, and the **different bases of legitimacy** (Weber's three types). Read *every* case for three things: **(1) how strong, and why · (2) its basis of legitimacy · (3) any sovereignty problem.** The table maps each case to the concept it best demonstrates; the write-ups below give the story, and each closing → **line** states the tie back to the theme.

Case	Strength	Basis of legitimacy	Best demonstrates (chapter concept)
Germany	Strongest	shifting → liberal democracy	Fukuyama's **bureaucracy-first** path; first welfare state
Japan	Strong	democracy (emperor symbolic)	**defensive modernisation**
UK	Strong	traditional → rational-legal	slow **evolution**; sovereignty is **reversible** (Brexit)
USA	Strong	rational-legal (written constitution)	Fukuyama's **democracy-first** path; state **built by design**
Mexico	Moderate	liberal democracy (post-PRI)	loss of the **monopoly on force**
China	Moderate	**economic performance**	legitimacy **without** democracy
Brazil	Moderate	cycled through all types	legitimacy can rest on **many bases**
India	Moderate–weak	liberal democracy	democracy surviving in a **weak** state
Russia	Weak	nationalism	external strength ≠ internal rule of law
Iran	Weak	**theocracy**	theocratic legitimacy
Nigeria	Weakest	contested	weak postcolonial state **+ resource curse**
Somaliland	*(boxed)*	—	internal vs external sovereignty are **separable**
ISIS	*(boxed)*	religious only	the **four characteristics** as a checklist

- **Somaliland (internal vs external sovereignty).** After Somalia collapsed in 1991, this ex-*British* region declared independence, wrote a 2001 constitution (an elected house + a house of **clan elders**), held real elections and grew on livestock/remittances — yet **no state recognises it** (one embassy, Ethiopia's). → *Shows the two sovereignties are separable:* it has near-full internal sovereignty but zero external — and looks more state-like than recognised Somalia.
- **ISIS — "was it a state?"** From its 2014 caliphate to 2017 defeat it held Belgium-sized territory (~6m people), taxed "every bushel of wheat" and ran a bureaucracy (even a DMV). But territory was only nominal, it rejected the international system (no external sovereignty), its legitimacy was purely religious, and it failed at **security**. → *Verdict: only "partially" a state* — the four characteristics used as a diagnostic checklist. (Tilly: "*war made the state, and the state made war.*")
- **Germany — first modern welfare state (strongest of the 11).** Unified late (**1871**, Bismarck) on a merit-based **Prussian bureaucracy/military**; Bismarck built **Europe's first welfare programs** to undercut socialists. Legitimacy lurched: nationalism → Nazism → divided 1945–90 → reunified 1990, then led EU integration. → *Strong state despite a turbulent history; Fukuyama's "bureaucracy-first" path; voluntary ceding of sovereignty to the EU.*
- **Japan — determined sovereignty.** Consolidated under the **Tokugawa shogunate (1603)**; after US warships forced it open (**1853**), the **1867 Meiji Restoration** built a modern army, bureaucracy and constitution (1889) — the **first non-Western modern economy**. Militarism → WWII → US occupation

(first lost sovereignty in 400 years) → US-written pacifist democracy. → *Defensive modernisation; democracy replaces monarchy as legitimacy while the emperor stays symbolic.*

- **United Kingdom — the long evolution.** The opposite of the US: centuries of gradual change — single monarch from 1603, **Acts of Union 1707**, **Glorious Revolution 1688** starting the shift to liberal-democratic legitimacy; first to industrialise → global empire. → *Slow evolutionary state-building; sovereignty is reversible* — Scottish referendum (2014, lost 55–45) and **Brexit (2016)** reclaiming powers from the EU.
- **United States — a consciously crafted state.** Almost uniquely **created by design** (Declaration 1776 → Constitution after the failed Articles). Sovereignty tested by the **Civil War**; the Constitution built **federalism** and preserved slavery. Bureaucracy came *late* (machine politics until the **1880s Pendleton Act**). → *Rational-legal legitimacy via a written constitution; Fukuyama's "democracy-first" path; top external power but internally weakened by the legacy of slavery/racial inequality.*
- **Mexico — challenges to internal sovereignty.** A very weak first state (lost half its territory to the US, 1846–48); order under **Porfirio Díaz**, then the **Revolution (1910–20)** and **75 years of PRI rule** (electoral authoritarianism on oil + clientelism), ending with **Fox in 2000**. → *Above all, the **loss of the monopoly on force*** — drug cartels killed 75,000–100,000 in a decade.
- **China — economic legitimacy over reform.** Had a merit **Confucian bureaucracy ~1,800 years before Europe**; empire fell 1912 → **Communist victory 1949** (Mao; famine ≥20m dead) → after 1976 **Deng's** market reforms → history's fastest growth, now the #2 economy. → *Legitimacy shifts from communist ideology + Mao's charisma to **economic performance*** (a "modernising authoritarian" regime), tightening under Xi.
- **Brazil — many bases of legitimacy.** Had **more slaves than any American colony** and was the **last to abolish slavery (1888)**; gained independence peacefully as a monarchy. Cycled through charisma, **clientelism (the *coronéis*)**, Vargas's quasi-fascist Estado Novo, and military rule (1964–85) to democracy — then the **Petrobras scandal → 2016 impeachment**. → *A state that cycled through nearly every basis of legitimacy; corruption undermines the bureaucracy.*
- **India — enduring democracy in a weak state.** Territory forged by British rule; independence **1947** (Congress/Gandhi — the first successful 20th-c. anticolonial movement) amid **Partition** (largest migration in history, ≥1m dead). → *Uniquely for a postcolonial state, its legitimacy is continuous **liberal democracy***, but the state is weak — corruption, mass poverty, Hindu–Muslim tension (its worst FSI indicator).
- **Russia — strong external, weak rule of law.** Four regimes: tsarist absolutism → the **communist USSR** (Stalin's modernisation killed ~20m) → a fragile 1990s democracy (oligarchs, mafias) → **Putin's electoral authoritarianism**; the USSR split into **15 states in 1991**; **Crimea annexed 2014**. → *External strength and nationalist legitimacy **decoupled** from internal rule of law.*
- **Iran — legitimacy via theocracy.** Heir to ancient Persia; **never colonised** but dominated by Britain/Russia; the **Pahlavi** modernising-authoritarian state (1925–79) → the **1979 revolution** under **Khomeini → the first modern theocracy**. → *Legitimacy runs monarchy → modernising authoritarianism → **Islamic theocracy***; secure territory but a fairly weak state (corruption, sanctions, contested legitimacy).
- **Nigeria — an extremely weak state (weakest of the 11).** A colonial patchwork (Muslim north; Yoruba west; stateless Igbo east) under British "indirect rule"; independence 1960 → **Biafra civil war (1967–70, ~1m dead)** as oil came online; six coups; fragile democracy from 1999. → *The classic weak postcolonial state **plus the resource curse*** — oil fuels corruption and secession; sovereignty threatened by **Boko Haram**.

Key terms

Term	Meaning
State	Ongoing administrative apparatus making/implementing law in a territory
Government / Regime	The transient occupants / the *type* of government
Territory	Area with defined borders a state claims
External sovereignty	Recognised independence from outside powers
Internal sovereignty	Sole authority to make/enforce law inside
Legitimacy	The recognised right to rule
Traditional legitimacy	Right to rule from long-standing custom
Charismatic legitimacy	Right to rule from personal virtue/heroism
Rational-legal legitimacy	Right to rule via accepted laws/procedures
Bureaucracy	Appointed officials who implement the law
Feudal states / Absolutism	Overlapping sovereignties / single-monarch exclusive rule
Ideal type	Model of the purest version of something
Political goods	Security, rule of law, infrastructure a state provides
Strong / weak / failed state	Provides political goods generally / partially / loses sovereignty
Resource curse	Reliance on one resource lets the state ignore citizens
Quasi-states	Legally recognised but lacking a functioning state apparatus
Clientelism	Exchange of material resources for political support

Exam pointers

- Use the **four characteristics as a diagnostic checklist** (the ISIS box is the model answer).
- Give **Weber's three legitimacy types** with an example each, and note real states blend them *(developed under Legitimacy)*.
- Explain **strong/weak/failed** as a continuum + at least two theories of *why* (Tilly's warfare · colonial legacies (Acemoglu, Johnson & Robinson) · North-Wallis-Weingast elite bargains; weakness = resource curse · international recognition).
- Keep **external vs internal sovereignty** distinct — Somaliland (internal only) and Russia (external strong, rule of law weak) are the go-to illustrations.

OD Ch. 4 — States and Identity

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 4.

Chapter résumé

Identity politics — organised around **nation, ethnicity, race, class, religion, gender and sexual orientation** — has become the central challenge to the modern state and to the liberal ideal of **equal citizenship**. The chapter's core theoretical move is to reject **primordialism** (identities as natural/ancient) for **constructivism**: an identity's *political saliency* is **socially constructed**, shaped by elites, grievance, and above all the state (education, censuses, laws). The central normative debate is **individual vs. group rights** — is legal equality enough, or do marginalised groups need recognition, autonomy, representation and status support? Each identity type gets a case study; the chapter weights **gender/sexuality, race, and religion** most heavily.

> ★ **The heart of the chapter:** an identity's **political saliency is socially constructed, not natural** (constructivism, not primordialism) — so the real battle is **individual vs. group rights** over recognition, autonomy, representation and status.

The red thread. The whole chapter is *one idea applied seven times.* For **each** identity marker — nation · ethnicity · race · class · religion · gender · sexuality — ask the same **two questions**: ① **how was its political saliency constructed?** and ② **individual rights or group rights?** Every section and case below is a variation on those two questions; if you can answer them for a marker, you can answer the chapter.

Lecture framing (AUW): this chapter answers the lecture's 4th question — ***who does the state represent?*** A state claims a **territory**, and territory comes with "**the people**" it claims to represent — but people and territory rarely coincide neatly. Key distinction: **State** (territorial/administrative org) ≠ **Nation** (a people with shared belonging) ≠ **Nationalism** (*the political project of making the nation politically sovereign / controlling a state*). A state can contain many nations; a nation can exist without a state; nationhood is **socially constructed** (Anderson's "*imagined community*").

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Political saliency** — how politically important an identity is; **created, not innate**.
- **Primordialism vs constructivism** — identities as natural/ancient vs **socially constructed** ("imagined communities," Anderson). *The chapter adopts constructivism.*
- **Nation vs ethnic group** — a nation has/seeks a **state**; an ethnic group does not (a dissatisfied ethnic group can *become* a nation).
- **Cultural vs civic nationalism** → citizenship by **jus sanguinis** (blood, Germany) vs **jus soli** (soil, France); civic seen as more democracy-friendly.
- **The four demands of identity groups** — recognition · autonomy · representation · improved social status.
- **Group-rights toolkit: consociationalism** (Lijphart — share central power) vs the **centripetal approach** (Horowitz — incentivise leaders to moderate).
- **Three forms of secularism** — **neutral state** (USA) · **laïcité** (France) · **positive accommodation** (Germany); India's variant = "**principled distance.**"
- **Assimilationist vs liberationist** strategies (feminist & LGBTQ).

Section-by-section main points

Understanding Identity — the chapter's core move

Core: it isn't groups but their **political saliency** that's constructed — **saliency is *made*, not given.** *(This is the lead argument for any ch. 4 answer.)*

	Primordialism *(almost no social scientist)*	**Constructivism** *(the chapter's choice)*
Identities are…	natural, ancient ("time immemorial"), **fixed**	**socially constructed** — "imagined communities" (Anderson)
Defined by	kinship, language, phenotype	stories, symbols, interpretation
Do they change?	no	**yes** — flexible; you hold **many** at once; elites **activate** whichever fits
Who talks this way	ethnic/national **leaders** (it legitimises their claims)	social scientists (Huntington's *Clash of Civilizations* = a sophisticated cultural version)

Why the chapter picks constructivism — primordialism *cannot explain* three things constructivism can:

1. **Change over time** — the *same* difference goes dormant → deadly: ex-Yugoslavia's religious identities barely mattered under communism, then became killing lines *as* war spread.
2. **Identities appearing / splitting** — "Serbo-Croatian" fractured into three "languages" as war came; "**Asian American**" & "**Hispanic**" were *coined* in the 1960s; "Igbo" as a unified group first appears in 1930s documents.
3. **The state manufacturing identity** — via schooling ("national history"), censuses and elections the state decides which categories even exist and become salient.

→ **The move:** reject primordialism, adopt constructivism, then for each marker ask *how* its saliency was built. **Gender** is the odd one out: rarely territorial, but the "proper woman" ideal **polices the boundary of every other identity**.

The Policy Debate — individual vs group rights *(emphasised)*

Core: once an identity is salient, groups make **four demands**; the whole fight is whether to answer them with **equal individual rights** (liberalism) or **special group rights** (multiculturalism).

- **The four demands:** ① **recognition** (Taylor's "politics of recognition" — the universal one) · ② **autonomy** (self-rule over a region or personal/religious law; thwarted → secession → civil war) · ③ **representation** (may need institutional change) · ④ **improved status** (most groups start poorer).
- **FOR group rights** (Kymlicka): legal equality alone can't include culturally distinct minorities → **multicultural integration** (vs **assimilation**). Institutional form: **consociationalism** (Lijphart — each group gets a share of central power + vetoes; Switzerland, Belgium, Lebanon, Northern Ireland) — *the most common post–Cold War response.*
- **AGAINST group rights** (classic liberalism): only individuals have rights; group rights **freeze inequality** and erode the shared identity democracy needs. Alternative: the **centripetal approach** (Horowitz — electoral rules that *reward broad, cross-ethnic appeal*; Nigeria).
- **The sharp dilemma** (exam favourite): should groups pursuing *illiberal* goals — e.g. religious law limiting gender equality — get special rights?

Nations, Nationalism & Immigration

Core: the only line between a nation and an ethnic group is the **state** — a nation has or seeks one; and nations are *made*, not found.

- Nations are **modern** and often *built by states* (d'Azeglio: "*We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians.*").

- **Cultural (jus sanguinis) vs civic (jus soli)** nationalism; **immigration** is where the fight plays out (Syrian refugees, Brexit, Trump's wall). Even "civic" USA isn't so civic — **50%** think a "true American" is Christian, English-speaking, US-born.

Ethnicity

Core: ethnic saliency is **switched on**, not ancient — by **leadership + grievance + resource wealth + fear.**

- "Imagined" and shiftable (Serbo-Croatian split into three languages *as* war came); wants recognition/autonomy/representation (India reorganised states on linguistic lines).

Race *(heavily emphasised)*

Core: race = identity built on **physical** markers by **external imposition** (to justify domination/slavery) — the one identity that starts as *power over* a group, not self-assertion.

- Differs from ethnicity in *marking* (physical vs cultural), *origin* (imposed vs self-claimed) and built-in **power**. Genetic variation across "races" is no bigger than within them. Constructed by place: US "**one-drop rule**" vs Brazil's 12+ visual categories.

Social Class

Core: the one identity still often defined by "**objective**" **criteria** — yet its **political saliency is falling.**

- Marx's classes (bourgeoisie/proletariat) fit a post-industrial economy awkwardly; constructivists see class as symbols/aspiration. Union density **~35% (1985) → ~17%**; despite rising inequality, workers moved to **nationalist/right parties** (Brexit, Trump), not class politics (Huber: leaders mobilise whichever cleavage most cheaply wins).

Religion & the Secular State *(heavily emphasised)*

Core: religion's demands mirror ethnicity's (recognition + autonomy over personal law); what varies is **how the state handles religion** — three models of secularism to memorise:

Model	Rule	Country	Flashpoint
Neutral state	neutral about religion, but not opposed	**USA**	school prayer, creationism
Laïcité	religion barred from the **public sphere**	**France**, Turkey, Mexico	the **veil** bans
Positive accommodation	state **supports** registered faiths	**Germany** (church tax)	recognising non-hierarchical Islam

- India's "**principled distance**" is a fourth stance — treat groups **differently on purpose** (see the India case).
- Religion is more flexible than ethnicity (you can convert) *except* when politicised (ex-Yugoslavia marked identity despite low religiosity).

Gender & Sexual Orientation *(the most heavily emphasised — two cases)*

Core: both movements pose the multiculturalism question in its sharpest form — **assimilate into existing norms, or transform them?**

- **Assimilationist** (liberal feminists / mainstream LGBTQ): win **equal rights within** existing institutions (same-sex marriage extends a heterosexual institution).
- **Liberationist** (Iris Young; radical LGBTQ): **transform the norms themselves** ("sexual citizenship"; marriage seen as patriarchal).
- Both grew from the 1960s West (**Stonewall, 1969**); the **transgender** movement now challenges the gender **binary** itself.
- Outcomes: big legal gains, not parity — women = **24% of MPs**; quotas <10 states (1980) → >100 (2010); same-sex marriage **Netherlands (2001)** → 25 countries by 2019.

Cases & examples

Each identity type gets a case; each below: *what it shows → the concept*.

- **Northern Ireland — Good Friday Agreement (1998).** With neither unionists nor nationalists able to win, the 1998 deal built a **consociational** system: NI stays British, power devolves to a PR-elected assembly, first/deputy-first ministers shared, every member labels as unionist/nationalist/other. It has collapsed repeatedly (2002–07; since 2017). → *Consociationalism/power-sharing — ends the violence but doesn't erase the division.*
- **Nationalism in Germany.** Germany ran a **strictly cultural** nationalism (**jus sanguinis**, codified 1913), auto-granting citizenship to ethnic Germans while denying it to German-born children of ~3m Turkish "**guest workers.**" A **2000** reform opened **jus soli** (birth + residence + language); still **>40% of Turkish residents remain non-citizens**. Merkel's ~500k+ Syrian refugees (2015) revived the fight — the far-right **AfD** won 12.6% and 94 seats (2017). → *Cultural vs civic nationalism; immigration and who counts as "the nation."*
- **Ethnicity in Nigeria.** ~400 languages; the big three (**Hausa, Yoruba, Igbo**) were **constructed in the 20th century** ("Igbo" first appears in 1930s documents). A 1966 coup → anti-Igbo pogroms → **Biafra (civil war 1967–70, >1m dead)**. Nigeria then used **centripetal rules** (parties must be national; the president must win ≥25% in two-thirds of states; north/south rotation). → *Constructed/modern ethnicity + the centripetal approach + oil conflict.*
- **Racial politics in the USA** *(most detailed case)*. Race was **legally constructed** (one-drop → 1/32 under Jim Crow); "white" meant "not black," and the Irish/Italians/Jews only slowly "became white"; "**Asian American**"/"**Hispanic**" were coined in the 1960s. Persistent gaps: white wealth **>6×** black/Hispanic; **~⅓ of black men** touch the justice system. From **Obama (2008)** to **Trump (2016)** — where **racial resentment, not economics, best predicted the Trump vote** (Sides/Tesler/Vavreck). → *Social construction of race, external imposition + power, and white backlash.*
- **Class politics in the UK.** Britain openly *recognises* class; unions built their **own party (Labour, 1900)** and peaked at **just over half the workforce unionised in 1979**, before the "winter of discontent" brought **Thatcher**, who broke union power; Blair's Labour moved to the centre. The working class shrank and many backed **Brexit**. → *Objective-vs-constructed class and the **decline of class salience** — mobilisation shifted from class to nation.*
- **Secularism in India.** A plural, devout society (>80% Hindu, ~13% Muslim) built on "**principled distance**" — the state treats groups *differently*, giving Muslims more autonomy over **personal law**. **Shah Bano (1986):** the Court granted a divorced Muslim woman maintenance, then Parliament **reversed it** to restore Muslim personal law (communal rights beat individual equality). **Gujarat 2002:** ~2,000 Muslims killed. Modi/BJP push **Hindutva** against official secularism. → *Principled-distance secularism; autonomy vs uniform citizenship, fought through women's rights.*
- **Women in Iran.** A contradiction of **social gains but political/cultural repression**: Khomeini's regime mandated the hijab and stripped divorce rights, yet **1979→2002 female literacy rose 31%→69%, fertility**

fell 6.5→2.7, and women became 60% of university students — while holding ~2% of top posts. **Islamic feminists** claim *ijtihad* (the right to interpret texts); anti-veil protests since 2017. → *Social vs political gains; secular **and** Islamic feminism; gains are reversible under conservative rule.*

- **LGBTQ rights in Brazil.** Ended anti-sodomy law very early (**1823**), hosts the world's largest pride parade, yet is the **largest Catholic country** and elected the anti-gay **Bolsonaro (2018)**. Courts (not the legislature) delivered **civil unions (2011) and same-sex marriage (2013)** via the constitution's anti-discrimination clause — but Brazil **leads the world in transgender murders**. → *LGBTQ rights in a new democracy — real court-won recognition alongside violence and religious backlash; mostly assimilationist.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Political saliency	How politically important an identity is (created, not innate)
Primordialism	Identities as natural/ancient/God-given
Constructivism	Identities as socially constructed ("imagined communities")
Social construction	Ongoing process by which a society defines who "we" are
Nation / Nationalism	Group that has/seeks a state / the desire for one
Ethnic group	Cultural group *not* seeking its own state
Cultural / civic nationalism	Unity by shared culture / by shared political beliefs
Jus sanguinis / jus soli	Citizenship by blood / by soil (residence)
Race	Group defined on perceived *physical* markers, by external imposition
Social class	Group sharing status by wealth/income/work/education
Consociationalism	Ease conflict by giving each group a share of central power
Centripetal approach	Incentivise leaders to moderate & broaden appeal
Autonomy / Assimilation	Partial self-rule / minorities adopt the majority culture
Multicultural integration	Accommodate enduring ethnocultural identities
Neutral state / laïcité / positive accommodation	Three forms of secularism (USA / France / Germany)
Assimilationist / liberationist	Equal rights within norms / transform the norms

Exam pointers

- Lead with **constructivism vs primordialism** and *why* the chapter picks constructivism (saliency is *made*, not given) — the full argument + comparison table is worked out under Understanding Identity.
- Frame any identity conflict with the **four demands + individual-vs-group-rights debate**, then the **consociationalism (Northern Ireland) vs centripetal (Nigeria)** toolkit *(developed under The Policy Debate)*.
- Know the **three forms of secularism** with a country each, plus India's **principled distance** *(table under Religion & the Secular State)*.
- For gender/sexuality use the **assimilationist vs liberationist** split; Iran (social vs political gains) and Brazil (court wins vs backlash) are the sharpest cases.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

> Sticky stats, dates and quotes from Module 2 (ch. 2 & 4) — the stuff that makes an answer land.

Quotable lines

- "*L'état, c'est moi*" ("The state, it is me") — **Louis XIV**, on the absolutist state not yet separate from the monarch. *(ch.2)*
- "*War made the state, and the state made war.*" — **Charles Tilly**. *(ch.2)*
- "*The difference between fascism and democracy is not whether the police are called, but when.*" — on the monopoly of force. *(ch.2)*
- "*We have made Italy. Now we must make Italians.*" — **d'Azeglio**, on nations as *built*. *(ch.4)*
- Thesis of ch.4: liberalism vs communism defined the 20th century, "*but nationalism won.*"

Striking numbers

- Europe went from **~500 sovereign entities in 1500 to ~50 states today**. *(ch.2)*
- **China built a merit bureaucracy ~1,800 years before Europe** (empire united 221 BCE). *(ch.2)*
- **Mexican cartel violence:** 75,000–100,000 killed in a decade — a direct challenge to the monopoly on force. *(ch.2)*
- **India's Partition (1947):** likely the largest migration in history, ≥1 million dead. *(ch.2)*
- US **white wealth is >6×** black/Hispanic; **~⅓ of black men** pass through the justice system. *(ch.4)*
- Union density **~35% (1985) → ~17%** today; UK unions peaked at **just over half the workforce in 1979**. *(ch.4)*
- Iran **1979→2002:** literacy 31%→69%, fertility 6.5→2.7, women 60% of university students — but ~2% of top posts. *(ch.4)*

Memorable facts

- **Tilly's "protection racket":** the early European state is basically a protection racket — rulers sold *protection* against threats they themselves partly created, funding it by **extraction** (tax). *(lecture)*
- **Brandenburg-Prussia** became a strong state **not by winning wars** but by having to fight in a brutally **competitive** neighbourhood — the pressure forced a strong tax-and-bureaucracy machine. *(lecture)*
- **Germany** built **Europe's first welfare state** (Bismarck) as a tool to undercut socialists. *(ch.2)*
- **Japan** was the **first non-Western modern economy**; US warships forced it open in 1853; the 1945 occupation was its first lost sovereignty in **400 years**. *(ch.2)*
- **Brazil** had **more slaves than any American colony** and abolished slavery **last (1888)** — yet legalised **same-sex marriage (2013)** while leading the world in **transgender murders**. *(ch.2 & 4)*
- **ISIS** reportedly ran a **DMV** and picked up garbage more efficiently than Iraq — but still failed the "state" test on security and recognition. *(ch.2)*
- **Somaliland** works as a state but has **one embassy** and **zero recognition**. *(ch.2)*
- The far-right **AfD** (2017) was the **first far-right party in the German parliament since 1960**. *(ch.4)*
- **Stonewall (1969)** turned a tiny movement into a mass one "literally overnight." *(ch.4)*
- "**Igbo**" as a unified identity first appears in documents only in the **1930s** — ethnicity as a modern construction. *(ch.4)*

Lecture 3: Political Regimes (FK)

Required reading: OD ch. 3 (*States, Citizens, and Regimes*)

Theme of the lecture (Filip Kiil): ch. 2 asked *what a state is*; ch. 3 asks *what kind of government rules it* — the **regime** — and sorts regimes by the **ideology** that answers **who may rule and what rights citizens get.**

Lecture frame (FK) — the State–Regime–Citizen(–Ideology) nexus

Core: four linked concepts; the **regime** sits between the permanent **state** and the current **government**, and is classified by its **ideology**.

- **State** — the ongoing administrative apparatus (ch. 2); most enduring.
- **Regime** — the formal **+ informal** institutions defining the *type* of government; more enduring than governments, less than the state. *(US: 46 administrations, one democratic regime since 1789; Nigeria: 8 regimes.)*
- **Citizen** — a member of the political community with **rights + duties** (vs a *subject*, who has only duties/obedience).
- **Ideology** — defines the **state–citizen relationship** and is how we classify regimes — but regimes often **diverge** from their ideology (informal institutions dominate, especially in weak states).

The V-Dem / "Regimes of the World" ladder (Lührmann, Tannenberg & Lindberg 2018) — the modern measure the lecture uses:

Regime	Multi-party elections?	Free & fair?	Rights + checks on the executive?
Closed autocracy	No	—	No
Electoral autocracy	Yes	**No** (restrictions undermine fairness)	No
Electoral democracy	Yes	**Yes**	Partial
Liberal democracy	Yes	Yes	**Yes** (rights, legal equality, checks)

Explaining regime *change* (the same **Interests / Beliefs / Structures** lens from Lecture 1):

Lens	How it explains change
Interests	Elites expand/restrict democracy to maximise power (democratise post-1990 for aid; **backslide** when power is threatened).
Beliefs	Democratic ideals spread in 19th–20th c.; fascism/communism caused reversals; recent **populism** erodes liberal values.
Structures	Industrialisation enabled democratisation; Cold War blocs sustained autocracy; globalisation/inequality now strain democracy.

OD Ch. 3 — States, Citizens, and Regimes

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 3.

Chapter résumé

Examines the **state↔people** relationship as embodied in different **regimes** — the formal + informal institutions defining a *type* of government. It traces the rise of the "**citizen**" (vs "subject") and of **civil society**, presents **T.H. Marshall's** three rights of citizenship (civil, political, social), then gives the chapter's core: a **taxonomy of regime types classified by ideology** — liberal democracy, communism, fascism, modernizing authoritarianism, personalist, electoral authoritarianism, theocracy. A recurring thread: **no regime works exactly as its ideology claims** — informal institutions often matter more.

> ★ **The heart of the chapter:** a **regime** = the formal + informal institutions defining a *type* of government, classified by its **ideology**. The single axis that orders them all: **how much power goes to citizens vs. the state. Liberal democracy** (limited state, broad rights) is the benchmark; every other regime tilts power toward the state and restricts full citizenship to a select group.

The red thread. Read the whole chapter as answers to **one question — *how is power shared between citizens and the state?*** Liberal democracy shares it widely (limited government + Marshall's rights); communism, fascism, modernizing & electoral authoritarianism, and theocracy concentrate it (in the party / a leader / a developing elite / God), restricting full citizenship to the working class / loyal nationals / the developers / the faithful. For **every** regime type ask: **who has power, and what rights do citizens get?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **State vs regime vs government** — continuous apparatus / *type* of government / current occupants.
- **Citizen vs subject** — rights + duties vs duties only.
- **Marshall's three rights** — **civil · political · social** (the yardstick for "full" citizenship).
- **Ideology-based regime taxonomy** — the seven types (below).
- **Dahl's 8 guarantees** — the working definition of liberal democracy.
- **Formal vs informal institutions** — informal rules (patronage, factions) often explain how a regime *really* works.

Section-by-section main points

Citizens & civil society

Core: modern politics invented the **citizen** (rights + duties) out of the **subject** (obedience only) — and full citizenship needs all three of **Marshall's rights**.

- **Citizen vs subject:** 200–300 years ago Europeans were **subjects** of absolutist monarchs (no mechanism to protect "rights"); citizenship arose as sovereignty moved from the monarch to "**the people**" (after the French Revolution people addressed each other as "*citizen*").
- **Marshall (1963) — three rights: civil** (individual freedom, fair treatment) · **political** (participation, vote) · **social** (welfare, socioeconomic equality). Full citizenship needs *enough* social equality to make civil/political equality real. **Virtually no country fully provides all three.**
- **Civil society** — organised, nongovernmental, nonviolent activity by groups larger than families/firms; impossible under absolutism, enabled by religious pluralism + capitalism.
- **Popular sovereignty** — even dictators claim to rule *on behalf of* the people (theocracy claims God willed the exception). Emerging **postnational** citizenship (EU, ICC) — but core rights still sit in the **nation-state**.

Regimes, ideologies & citizens

Core: regimes are classified by **ideology**, but never match it perfectly — **informal institutions** often dominate (especially in weak states).

- Liberal democracy is the **benchmark all regimes respond to: ~90% of the world's constitutions** — including authoritarian ones — mention "democracy" (Elkins et al. 2014).

The regime taxonomy — *memorise this (the exam core)*

Core: seven regime types, each defined by an ideology answering **who has power** and **what citizens get**.

Regime	Key idea	Who has power
Liberal democracy	Individuals free with natural rights; govt must preserve **life, liberty, property**	The **legislature** (elected, removable)
Communism	Historical materialism → proletarian revolution → classless, stateless society	**Vanguard party** now; the proletariat "later"
Fascism	Organic society; the **state creates the nation**; corporatism	A **supreme leader**
Modernizing authoritarianism	*Development* needs unity, so democracy must wait	A **modern (educated) elite**
Personalist regime	Claims to modernise but is really **neopatrimonial**	An **individual ruler**
Electoral authoritarianism	Blends democratic + authoritarian legitimacy	The **ruling party** (via rigged elections)
Theocracy	Rule by **divine** authority (Islamism → sharia)	**God** (via the clergy) — not the people

Liberal democracy

Core: **liberal democracy = democracy (rule by the people) + liberalism (individual rights)** — a *limited* state that protects rights and holds free, competitive elections.

- **Roots:** liberalism arose in the 16th–17th-c. religious wars; **social contract theory** (Hobbes, Locke, Montesquieu, Rousseau). **Locke:** government is legitimate only if it preserves **life, liberty, property** (Jefferson → "pursuit of happiness"). Democracy was added later; early liberals limited citizenship to **male property owners** — expanded over the 19th–20th c.
- **Dahl's 8 guarantees** (the working definition): freedom of **association** · **expression** · right to **vote** · broad **office eligibility** · leaders' right to **compete** · alternative **information** · **free & fair elections** · institutions that make policy **depend on votes**.
- **Varieties of democracy: liberal** (political rights — UK) · **social democracy** (adds economic regulation + social rights — Sweden; a variant *within* liberal democracy) · **participatory** (direct involvement beyond voting — Switzerland).

Communism

Core: **Marx's historical materialism** — economic forces drive history — predicts a proletarian revolution ending in a classless, stateless utopia; in practice it produced the **totalitarian state**.

- **Feudalism → capitalism → socialism → communism.** Liberal democracy is a "shell" for capitalism; liberal rights = "*equal rights for unequal people*."
- **Stages: socialism** = collective ownership + **dictatorship of the proletariat** (a *class* dictatorship) → eventually stateless, classless **communism** (human nature itself changes).
- **Critique:** any theory promising utopia tends toward the **totalitarian state** (Russia/Stalin case).

Fascism

Core: **antiliberal *and* anticommunist** — the **state creates and embodies the nation**; the individual exists only for the state; citizens have **duties, not rights**.

- **Organic** conception of society; a **supreme leader** embodies the nation. **Corporatism:** one state-controlled organisation per sector (one union, one business association). Rejects rationality/materialism → glorifies struggle & war → **totalitarian** (Nazi Germany case).

Modernizing authoritarianism

Core: legitimacy through **development, not rights** — a **modern elite** must guide progress, and democracy would only interfere.

- **Technocratic legitimacy** rooted in **modernization theory** (postcolonial states must follow the West's path). **Four institutional forms: one-party** (civilian; postcolonial Africa/Asia — Tanzania) · **military** (coup — Brazil) · **bureaucratic-authoritarian** · **personalist**.

Personalist regimes

Core: in the **weakest states**, one leader captures everything — even the party/military that raised him — via **neopatrimonial** patron–client loyalty rather than institutions.

- Weak, unstable, unpredictable; rule of law inconsistent. Most common in Africa (Mobutu, Marcos, Abacha/Nigeria).

Electoral authoritarianism (hybrid)

Core: a **hybrid** — real opposition and elections *exist*, but the ruling party **manipulates the rules** so it never actually loses; it **proclaims itself democratic.**

- Blends liberal-democratic (elections) + modernizing-authoritarian (limits for "stability/development") legitimacy. Spread after the Cold War because open authoritarianism lost international legitimacy (Mexico/PRI case).

Theocracy

Core: **rule by religious authorities on behalf of God** — so ultimate sovereignty is **Allah's, not the people's.**

- **Islamism** (a 19th–20th-c. reaction to Western imperialism, *not* traditional): sharia should be the basis of government. Key terms: **sharia** (law) · **ijtihad** (individual interpretation) vs **taqlid** (blind acceptance) · **shura** (consultation — the opening for quasi-democracy) · **umma** (community) · **jihad** (three kinds: inner struggle [most important] → righting injustice → armed defence [least]). Iran is the world's **only true theocracy** (Iran case).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back. Each country is a **worked example of one regime type**; read every case for **(1) which type · (2) who has power · (3) what rights citizens get.** The table maps case → type; the write-ups tell the story.

Case	Regime type	Who has power	Freedom House
UK	Liberal democracy	Parliament (sovereign)	Free
Russia/USSR	Communism → (now electoral authoritarian)	Vanguard party / Stalin	Not Free
Germany (Nazi)	Fascism	A supreme leader	*(Free today)*
Brazil	Modernizing authoritarian (military)	Technocratic military elite	Free (today)
Nigeria (Abacha)	Personalist	One ruler (neopatrimonial)	Partly Free
Mexico (PRI)	Electoral authoritarian	The ruling party	Partly Free
Iran	Theocracy	God (via the clergy)	Not Free
Tanzania	Modernizing authoritarian (one-party)	A single party	—

- **United Kingdom — "cradle of democracy."** Liberal democracy evolved **gradually, with no single written constitution** and no revolutionary break from monarchy: **Magna Carta (1215) → Glorious Revolution (1688) → Bill of Rights (1689)**; the franchise expanded only under pressure (1832 middle class ~7%; women's suffrage **1918**); recent **devolution (1997)**, a standalone **Supreme Court (2005)**. → *The first liberal democracy; power rests on **parliamentary sovereignty** (a powerful informal institution) + the slow build-up of all three Marshall rights.*
- **Russia/USSR — the first "communist" regime.** Revolution came in the "wrong country" (agrarian, not advanced-capitalist). **Lenin** added the **vanguard party** and led the **October Revolution 1917**; **Stalin** built a **totalitarian state** (rapid industrialisation, **2–20 million deaths**); **Gorbachev's** reforms → collapse **Dec 1991** into 15 states. → *Communism in practice = the totalitarian state; the regime diverged wildly from Marx's theory (Marx→Lenin→Stalin).*
- **Germany — the rise of the Nazis (fascism).** Hitler was **elected, not a coup** — the Nazis won **37% (1932)** amid depression; the **Reichstag fire (1933)** → Enabling Act → dictatorship; unions replaced by a party-controlled front (corporatism); Nazism fused fascism with **racism** → the **Holocaust (~6m Jews)**. → *Fascism + totalitarian state; its horror **delegitimised fascism globally**, though **neofascism** persists (Le Pen's National Front — 2nd in France's 2002 presidential race).*
- **Brazil — a military modernizing-authoritarian regime (1964–85).** A US-backed coup installed a **technocratic military** elite that staked legitimacy on **development + anticommunism** (National Security Doctrine); state-led industry produced the "**Brazilian Miracle**" **(1967–73)** but rising inequality. When growth stalled, unions + the Church revived civil society → **democracy restored 1985**. → *Modernizing authoritarianism in military form — legitimacy = development, so no growth = no legitimacy.*
- **Nigeria — Abacha's personalist regime (1993–98).** After the military annulled the **1993 election**, **General Abacha** seized power, gutted the courts, jailed/killed opponents (hanged poet **Ken Saro-Wiwa**), and **looted ~$3 billion** — ruling by **neopatrimonial** oil patronage. His **sudden death (1998)** ended it; wary officers delivered the **democracy in place since 1999**. → *Personalist regime — a weak state's institutions crumble around one man.*

- **Mexico — the PRI (electoral authoritarianism).** The **PRI** ruled **~71 years** via regular *but rigged* elections — a **democratic veneer** over **clientelism, corporatism and fraud** (Tlatelolco Massacre **1968**), with power rotated among factions and presidents limited to one **sexenio**. Erosion (contested **1988**) → **Vicente Fox (PAN) broke the monopoly in 2000**. → *The classic hybrid regime — informal institutions (clientelism, fraud) dominate the formal democratic shell.*
- **Iran — the Islamic Republic (theocracy). Khomeini's 1979 revolution** built the first modern theocracy: a **Supreme Leader** (a cleric with veto power) + a **Guardian Council (12 clergy)** vetting all candidates/laws, *above* an elected president & parliament (**Majlis**). The **1979 constitution** makes **Allah sovereign** and sharia the sole law. → *Theocracy — permanent tension between **theocratic authority** and **quasi-democratic** elements (shura/elections).*
- **Tanzania — Nyerere's one-party regime. Julius Nyerere** ("Africa's philosopher-king") justified a **one-party** state by claiming Africa lacked class divisions; his **ujamaa** "African socialism" ruined agriculture but achieved **near-universal literacy**; he **voluntarily resigned (1985)**. → *Civilian **one-party** modernizing authoritarianism — the "development vs democracy" trade-off.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Regime	Formal + informal institutions defining a *type* of government
Citizen / Subject	Member with rights + duties / person with duties (obedience) only
Civil / Political / Social rights	Marshall's three: freedom & fair treatment / participation / welfare & equality
Civil society	Organised nongovernmental, nonviolent activity beyond family/firm
Social contract theory	Legitimate govt = free individuals contracting to be governed
Liberal democracy	Democracy + liberalism; Dahl's 8 guarantees
Social / Participatory democracy	Adds social rights & economic control / adds direct participation
Parliamentary sovereignty	Parliament is supreme (UK)
Historical materialism	Material/economic forces drive history (Marxism)
Dictatorship of the proletariat	First communist stage: rule by the working class
Totalitarian state	Controls ~all of society, eliminates civil society
Vanguard party	Lenin: elite party leading the proletariat
Corporatism	One state-controlled organisation per social sector
Modernizing authoritarianism	Legitimacy from "development" by a modern elite
Technocratic legitimacy	Right to rule based on expertise
Personalist regime / Neopatrimonial	One ruler dominates / power via personal patron–client loyalty
Electoral authoritarianism	Hybrid: opposition + elections, but rigged
Theocracy / Islamism	Rule by religious authority / sharia as the basis of government

Exam pointers

- Nail the **state / regime / government / citizen** distinctions + **Marshall's three rights** (civil/political/social) — the framing for any answer.
- Reproduce the **seven-type regime taxonomy** (key idea + **who has power**) — and answer everything through the red thread: *how is power shared between citizens and the state?*
- Define **liberal democracy via Dahl's 8 guarantees** + the **three varieties** (liberal/social/participatory).
- Distinguish the **authoritarian types** with a case each: communism (Russia) · fascism (Germany) · modernizing (Brazil/Tanzania) · personalist (Nigeria) · electoral authoritarian (Mexico) · theocracy (Iran).
- Use the **V-Dem ladder** (closed autocracy → electoral autocracy → electoral democracy → liberal democracy) and the **Interests/Beliefs/Structures** lens to discuss *regime change*.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

> Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 3 (regimes).

Quotable lines

- Mussolini: "*The State is all-embracing; outside of it no human or spiritual values can exist*" — and he openly embraced the label "**totalitarian.**"
- Marx: communism is "*a spectre haunting Europe*" (*Communist Manifesto*, 1848); liberal rights = "*equal rights for unequal people.*"
- Nyerere: "*When a village of a hundred people have sat and talked together until they agreed where a well should be dug, they have practised democracy.*"
- Locke's core liberties = "**life, liberty and property**" → Jefferson's "**life, liberty and the pursuit of happiness.**"

Striking numbers

- **~90%** of the world's constitutions — including authoritarian ones — mention "democracy."
- **Dahl** = **8** guarantees of liberal democracy.
- Deaths under **Stalin**: estimated **2–20 million**; USSR dissolved **Dec 1991** into **15** states.
- Hitler's Nazis won **37% (1932)** and he was **elected** chancellor — not a coup; **~6 million** Jews killed.
- The **PRI** ruled **71 years**, winning **98% of local/congressional elections 1946–73** (and **98.7%** of the 1976 presidential vote).
- Iran's **Guardian Council = 12 clergy**; Iran is nearly all **Shiite**, though Sunnis are **~85%** of the world's Muslims.

Memorable facts

- The US has had **46 administrations but one regime** (since 1789); **Nigeria has had 8 regimes**.
- "**Kremlinology**" — analysts inferred Soviet power from who stood closest to the leader at parades.
- **Abacha** (Nigeria) looted ~**$3 billion** and hanged the poet **Ken Saro-Wiwa**.
- Le Pen's **National Front** came **2nd in France's 2002 presidential election** — neofascism didn't die with 1945.
- The **three jihads**: inner struggle (most important) → righting injustice in the *umma* → armed defence (least important) — the reverse of the popular Western image.

Lecture 4: Systems of Government

Required reading: OD ch. 5 (*Governing Institutions in Democracies*)

Theme of the lecture: the **various elements of states and systems of government** — the different types of **executive and legislative systems**, focusing in particular on **parliamentarism vs. presidentialism**.

Lecture frame (FK). *Why it matters:* the institutional set-up **shapes policy** with big downstream consequences for people and businesses, and explains **why democracies function so differently** (US flashpoints the lecture cites: **Citizens United**, **Roe v. Wade**, the **filibuster**). Everything below runs on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** framing + Tsebelis's **veto players**.

OD Ch. 5 — Governing Institutions in Democracies

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 5.

Chapter résumé

How democracies organise their governing institutions — **executive, legislature, judiciary, bureaucracy**, and the **national↔subnational** split — and why the same rules on paper produce different outcomes depending on **context** (party number/discipline, institutionalisation). The organising claim: **the executive–legislative relationship "more than anything else distinguishes different kinds of democracies,"** giving three models — **parliamentarism** (fusion, Westminster), **presidentialism** (separation, US), and **semi-presidentialism** (dual executive, France/Russia) — judged on **accountability, effective policymaking, and stability**. It sits all this on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** continuum (few vs many **veto players**), then covers judicial review, bureaucracy (the principal–agent problem), and **federal vs unitary** systems.

> ★ **The heart of the chapter:** the **executive–legislative relationship** is what most distinguishes democracies — **parliamentary** (powers *fused*), **presidential** (powers *separated*), or **semi-presidential** (executive *split*). Each is a different answer to **how executive power is chosen, checked, and removed** — trading off **accountability, effective policymaking and stability.**

The red thread. Everything hangs on one question: **how is executive power organised and held accountable?** Place each system on Lijphart's **majoritarian ↔ consensus** line (few ↔ many **veto players**): Westminster parliamentarism = most majoritarian (power concentrated, clear vertical accountability, weak horizontal check); US presidentialism = built-in separation/veto players (strong horizontal check, gridlock-prone). For any case ask: **how is the executive chosen · how is it removed · how many veto players · what's the accountability/efficiency/stability trade-off?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Executive** split into **head of state** (symbolic, represents the country) vs **head of government** (runs policy).
- **The three systems: parliamentary** (fusion) · **presidential** (separation) · **semi-presidential** (split executive).

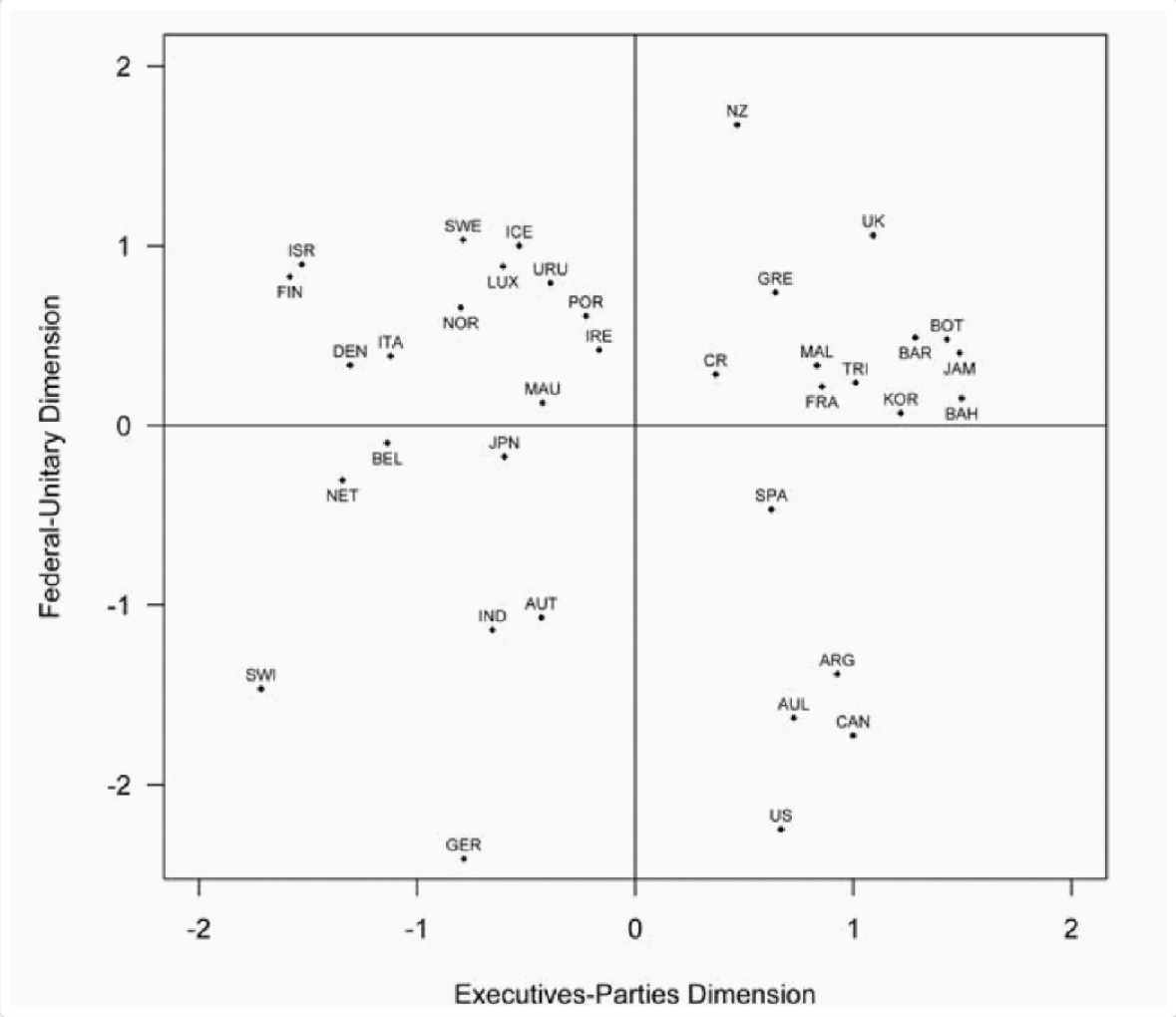
- **Majoritarian ↔ consensus democracy** (Lijphart) + **veto players** (Tsebelis) — the master frame.
- **Vertical vs horizontal accountability** (O'Donnell) — citizens→state vs state→state.
- **Judicial review** (+ common vs code law) · **principal–agent problem** (bureaucracy) · **federal vs unitary**.
- **The stability debate:** Linz's "*Perils of Presidentialism*."

Section-by-section main points

The framing — majoritarian vs consensus, and accountability

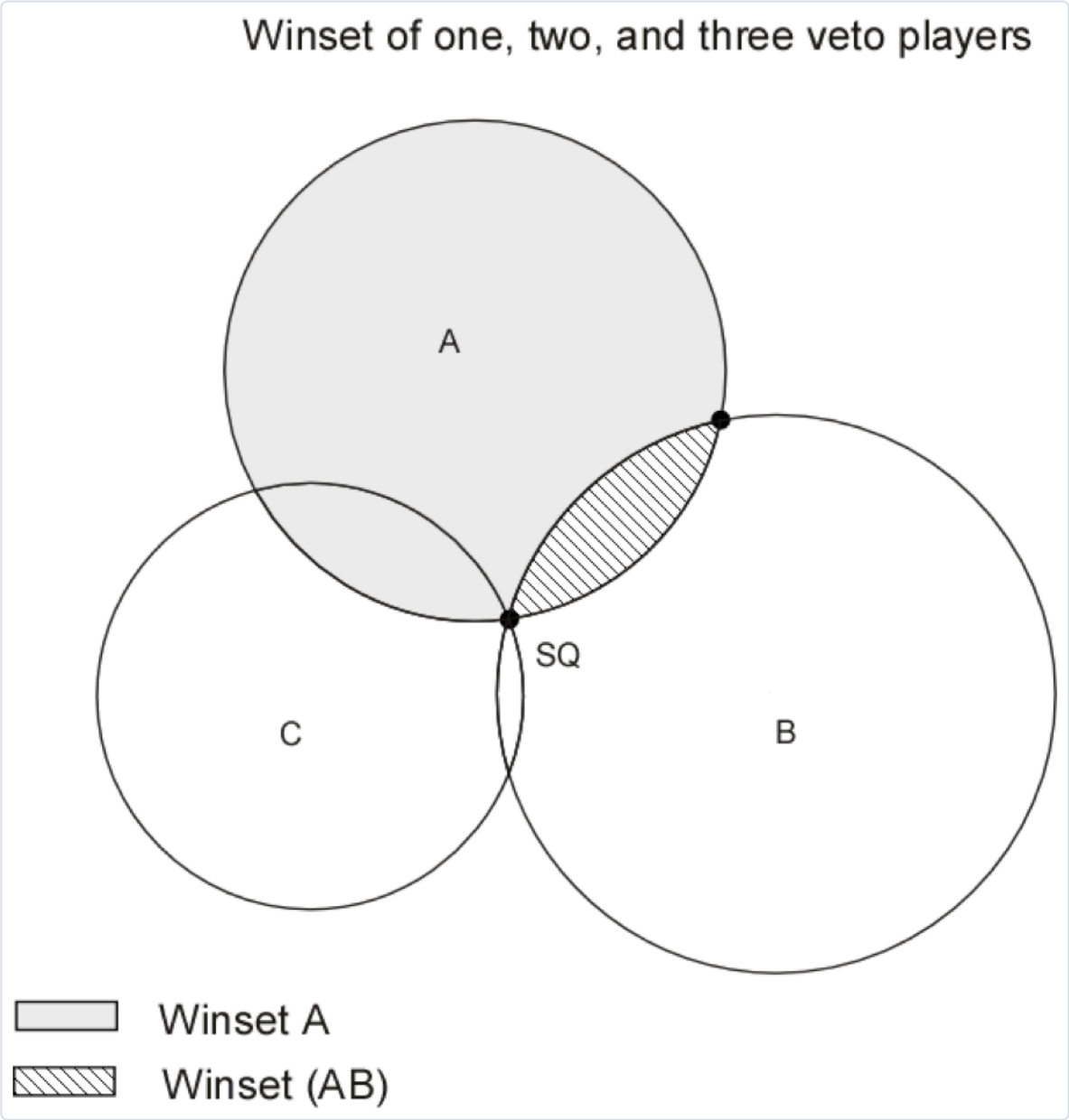
Core: institutions differ by **how much they concentrate vs disperse power** — Lijphart's majoritarian↔consensus line, measured by the number of **veto players**.

- **Majoritarian** (UK): single-party executive, executive dominates the legislature, unicameral, easily amended constitution → **few veto players**. **Consensus** (US/Germany): coalition executives, executive–legislative balance, bicameral, rigid constitution → **many veto players**.
- **Veto player** (Tsebelis): any actor whose agreement is needed to change policy — more of them (+ greater ideological distance) = less policy change.
- **Accountability** (O'Donnell): **vertical** = citizens hold the state accountable (elections, ch. 6); **horizontal** = state institutions check each other (this chapter). Only the **executive** is essential to all states; legislature + judiciary exist to *limit* it.



How to read it (Lijphart). Every democracy is a *point* on two axes. **Horizontal = Executives–Parties**: left = **consensus** (coalitions, many parties, balanced exec–legislature), right = **majoritarian** (single-party rule,

concentrated power). **Vertical = Federal–Unitary**: top = **federal/decentralised**, bottom = **unitary/centralised**. So the **UK** sits far right (pure majoritarian) but mid-high; the **US** sits right *and* very federal (bottom-right); **Switzerland/Germany** sit consensus + federal (bottom-left). The point: "majoritarian vs consensus" isn't one switch but a *position*, and the two dimensions vary independently.



How to read it (Tsebelis, veto players). Each circle = one veto player's set of policies it prefers to the **status quo (SQ)**. A new policy can only pass if it lies inside *every* player's circle — the **overlap (winset)**. With one player the winset is huge (all of A); add player B and it shrinks to the small hatched sliver (AB); add C and it can vanish. **More veto players (and more ideological distance between them) → smaller winset → less policy change / gridlock** — the mechanism behind presidential gridlock and "stable" consensus systems.

> ★ **Why the majoritarian/PR choice matters for redistribution** (Iversen & Soskice 2006 — from the deck): with three classes (lower/middle/upper), in a **proportional** system the **middle class sides with the lower class** to redistribute from the rich → **bigger welfare states**; in a **majoritarian** system the middle class sides with the **upper class** to avoid heavy taxes from the poor → **less redistribution**. This is a big reason PR democracies redistribute more — a bridge to Lecture 5, and it helps explain the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle.

Executives & legislatures

Core: the executive fills two roles — **head of state** (symbolic) and **head of government** (policy) — and *how those relate to the legislature* defines the three systems.

- One person can hold both roles (US president) or they can be split (UK monarch + PM). The **executive–legislative relationship** is the key variable.
- **Legislatures: unicameral** (one house) vs **bicameral** (two — the upper house usually represents states/regions; standard in federal systems). Legislatures are *more powerful in presidential systems* than in parliamentary ones — because of **separation of powers, a legislator can't also sit in the cabinet**, so members have **no ministerial promotion to earn from the executive** and stay independent. *(In a parliamentary system, ministers ARE MPs, so ambitious MPs toe the party line to be promoted into the cabinet → a weaker, executive-dependent legislature. Note: this is about chasing **cabinet (minister) posts**, not re-election to one's own seat — every legislator chases that.)*

Parliamentarism — the Westminster model *(most emphasised)*

Core: executive and legislature are **fused** — parliament elects the chief executive (**PM**), who is *both* the majority-party leader *and* a sitting legislator. The purest **majoritarian** form.

- **PM is not directly elected:** citizens vote for parliament; the majority names the PM (in practice you know each party's candidate). A **ceremonial head of state** (monarch, or an esteemed elected "president") stays out of politics.
- **Removal = vote of no confidence** → PM resigns (party picks a new leader) *or* asks the head of state to call **new elections**; PM can also **dissolve** parliament. Usually **no fixed terms**. (No-confidence votes succeed only ~5% of the time but signal weakness.)
- **Power depends on the party system:** a disciplined single majority makes the PM "*the most powerful democratic executive in the world*" (legislation passes almost automatically). **No majority → coalition government**, small parties become **veto players**, stability drops (Sweden 2018: 133 days to form a government).
- **Cabinet** of ministers (must be MPs); in coalitions the PM must share out "portfolios" — the cabinet is the main policy-bargaining site and a check on the PM.

Presidentialism — the separation of powers

Core: executive and legislature are **elected separately with separate powers** (**separation of powers**, Montesquieu). The defining feature is *separation*, not that one person is both head of state & government.

- **President is directly elected** and serves a **fixed term**; branches generally **can't remove each other** (only a hard **impeachment**). This builds in **institutional veto players** — lawmaking needs *both* president and legislative majority → checks & balances, but **gridlock** (esp. under divided government).
- **Cabinet** is freely appointed (often non-legislators, any party), subject to legislative consent — but it's a **less important** body than in parliamentary systems. The **legislature is typically more powerful** than in parliamentary systems.
- **Coalitional presidentialism:** with fragmented legislatures the president must build an informal party coalition and act "a little like a PM" (**Brazil** is the classic case).

Semi-presidentialism — the hybrid

Core: executive power is **split** between a **directly elected president** (head of state, with real powers) and a **PM** (head of government, backed by the parliamentary majority, appointed by the president, removable by no-confidence).

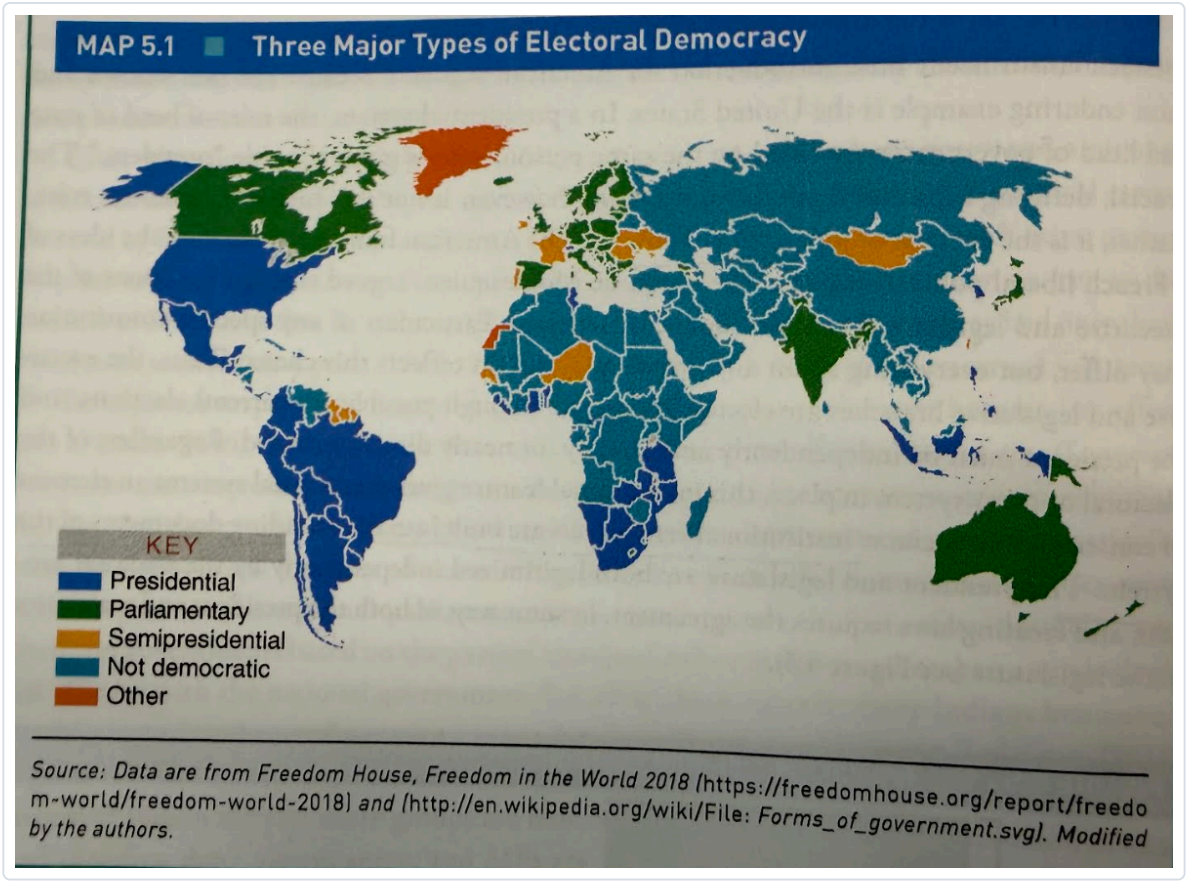
- Legislation needs the president's signature **and** PM/majority support; the powers must be **clearly divided** (often unclear in practice). Originated in **France, 1958 (de Gaulle)**.
- **Cohabitation:** president and legislative majority from **different parties** → president appoints an opposing-party PM (French norm: president runs foreign policy, PM runs domestic). Limits presidential power but can cause gridlock.
- **Elgie's key question:** *can the president dismiss the PM?* If **yes** → unstable, democracy endangered (**Russia**); if **no** → more power-sharing, no less stable than parliamentarism.

★ The core comparison — parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential

Core: learn this table cold — it's the centre of the lecture and the exam.

Feature	Parliamentary	Presidential	Semi-presidential
Powers	**Fused** (exec from legislature)	**Separated** (elected independently)	**Split** executive (pres + PM)
Head of state / govt	Separate (monarch/ceremonial pres + **PM**)	**Same person** (president)	President (HoS, real powers) + **PM** (HoG)
Executive chosen by	**Parliament** (majority names PM)	**Directly elected**	President directly elected; PM by parliament
Terms	Usually **no fixed term**	**Fixed term**	Fixed presidential term; PM depends on parliament
How executive is removed	**Vote of no confidence** (+ PM can dissolve parliament)	Only **impeachment** (hard)	PM by no-confidence; president fixed
Veto players	**Few** (majoritarian)	**Built-in** (pres + legislature)	Depends (cohabitation adds them)
Classic cases	**UK, Germany, India**	**USA, Brazil**	**France, Russia**

- **Accountability:** parliamentarism = clearest **vertical** (voters know whom to blame) but weak **horizontal** under a single majority; presidentialism = strong **horizontal** (separation) but can hurt policymaking.
- **Policymaking (Samuels):** presidential systems **change the status quo less** and more slowly. *Illustration:* **Thatcher (UK) reshaped economic policy far more than Reagan (US)** despite similar aims — she had a compliant majority; he faced a Democratic Congress.



How to read it (OD Map 5.1 — three types of electoral democracy). Colour = a country's system: **blue = presidential** (note how it dominates the **Americas** — the US model spread across Latin America), **green = parliamentary** (most of Europe and the former British Commonwealth), **yellow = semi-presidential** (France and a scatter of others), teal = not democratic, orange = other. The visual take-away: the three systems aren't evenly spread — they cluster by **colonial/constitutional heritage**, which is why the same "choice" of system is really a legacy.

The stability debate — Linz's "Perils of Presidentialism"

***Core:* Linz (1990):** presidentialism is more crisis-prone because of three flaws; but critics say the *society*, not the institution, is the real problem.

- **Linz's three perils:** ① **dual legitimacy** (two independently elected branches, no democratic tie-breaker) · ② **winner-take-all** presidents over-read their mandate and won't compromise · ③ **inflexible fixed terms** (a failing president can't be removed). Danger peaks for *new* democracies under **coalitional presidentialism** (small presidential party + fragmented legislature).
- **Counter (Cheibub 2007):** presidential systems just "*tend to exist in societies where democracies of any type are likely to be unstable.*" Semi-presidentialism is empirically **no less stable than parliamentarism** — *if* the president can't override the legislature or sack the PM.

Judiciary

Core: courts interpret law and, via **judicial review**, can strike laws as unconstitutional — making them a **veto player** and a check on the majority (the "why should unelected judges decide?" problem). Only real if **institutionalised**.

- **Two legal families → two review types: common law** (Britain + colonies incl. US; judges follow **precedent**) → **decentralised + concrete** review (*any* court can rule on constitutionality, but only inside a real case); **code law** (Roman/Napoleon; written code only, precedent ignored; French/Iberian colonies) → **centralised + abstract** review (one special **constitutional court**, which can rule on a law in the abstract).



How to read it (OD Map 5.2 — common vs code law). Blue = common law (Britain and its former colonies — US, Canada, India, Australia): judge-made law built on **precedent** → *decentralised, concrete* review. **Green = code/civil law** (continental Europe and its colonial reach across Latin America and Africa): a written **code** is supreme, precedent ignored → *centralised, abstract* review by one constitutional court. **Teal = mixed.** Like Map 5.1, the pattern tracks **colonial heritage** — which legal family a country inherited still shapes how (and by whom) laws get reviewed today.

- **Why let unelected judges override elected majorities?** Defenders: legislatures aren't perfectly representative either; judges are *appointed by elected officials* (Dahl 1957: justices sit within the ruling coalition); courts check the other branches and *claim* to protect minorities (though studies find they more often side with the powerful).
- "**Judicialisation of politics**" (Tate & Vallinder) — courts pulled into ever more political questions; "one of the most significant trends" of recent government, as many actors turn courts into a **veto point**.
- **Independence depends on informal factors + legitimacy:** a **fragmented, competitive** political system gives courts room; judges' own beliefs matter; and because courts command neither army nor purse, hard-won **legitimacy** is what makes review real. *Example:* **Brazil's Supreme Federal Tribunal (STF)** grew confident enough to help impeach presidents and drove the *Lava Jato* anti-corruption probe — but code-law **abstract review** lets ~**70,000 cases/year** flood in (≈90% decided by a single judge), making it a clogged **veto point**.

Bureaucracy

Core: every state needs a merit-based, law-bound bureaucracy — but unelected officials with expertise create a **principal–agent problem** (agents pursue their own interests → inefficiency or corruption).

- **Professionalisation** (merit appointment) replaced **patronage** and gives bureaucrats **expertise = their own independent power** — which is exactly what creates the principal–agent gap (agents may expand budgets/turf, or take bribes).
- **Iron triangle** — a cosy, closed policy loop of **bureaucrats + legislators + business** in one sector that serves the insiders and keeps everyone else out (see the Japan case: iron triangles + *amakudari*).
- Controls: **political appointees** (US ~6–8 per department; UK ~2 per ministry), specific legislation, **legislative oversight** (committees, hearings, budgets), courts — none perfect. **New Public Management (NPM)** (Reagan/Thatcher, 1980s): privatise, add competition, "customer satisfaction," flatten hierarchies — a UK 30-year study found a **1/3 staff cut but slightly *higher* costs and slightly *worse*, less-fair service.**
- **Corruption:** two types — **bribery** + **rent-seeking** (using regulation for advantage instead of being productive); worse in **more-regulated, more-unequal** economies (rational-choice), or from postcolonial legitimacy deficits (**Ekeh's "two publics"** in Africa: a moral *primordial* public vs an amoral *civic* one). **Majoritarian** systems (clear responsibility) let voters punish it better. **Johnston's four syndromes:** *Influence Markets* (rich democracies — US, Japan) → *Elite Cartels* (middle-income — Brazil) → *Oligarchs & Clans* (Russia) → *Official Moguls* (poorest).

Federal vs unitary systems

Core: **unitary** = the centre holds sole sovereignty (local powers delegated & revocable); **federal** = sovereignty is **constitutionally shared** with subunits — a built-in way to **limit majorities and protect minorities** (more veto players).

- **Why federate:** bring government closer (big countries); divide power (bicameral upper house + judicial review); protect ethnic/religious minorities (**Belgium** = federalism + consociationalism; **541 days** to form a government in 2010).
- Real power depends on **revenue control** and **upper-house strength**, not paper rules (strong **US Senate** vs weak German **Bundesrat**). **Symmetrical** (US) vs **asymmetrical** (special powers for some units). **Devolution** = reversible decentralisation in a unitary state (UK → Scotland/Wales/N. Ireland). Riker: federalism is inherently unstable (→ centralisation or secession).
- *Examples:* **federal** = US, Germany; **unitary** = France, UK, **Denmark**. In US federalism the **national** level holds war & foreign policy, coining money, admitting new states; **states** hold schools, public welfare, local law & order (the "**Hamilton** [federal] vs **Jefferson** [states]" division).
- **Federalism is only as real as the politics behind it** (revenue + party system, not paper): **Mexico** looked federal on paper but the **PRI** centralised everything via revenue until democratisation (2000) decentralised power to governors; **India** = *centralised* federalism (the centre can redraw state borders or impose "**President's Rule**"), decentralising since 1989 as state parties bargain in national coalitions; **Russia** = a federal **shell** — Putin gutted regional autonomy (appointing governors from 2004; centre took ~85% of revenue). Weak institutions can even preserve **subnational authoritarianism** inside a national democracy (Gibson).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back. Each country shows **one system in practice** — and how the *same rules* give different results depending on the **party system**. Read each for: *which system · how power actually flows · the accountability/stability trade-off.*

Case	System	What it adds
UK	Parliamentary (Westminster)	strongest PM — until Brexit broke party discipline
India	Parliamentary	same rules, different outcome via the party system
USA	Presidential	separation of powers → gridlock; strongest legislature
Brazil	Coalitional presidentialism	strong formal powers ≠ effective power (30 parties)
France	Semi-presidential	the classic case — cohabitation makes it work
Russia	Semi-presidential	dominant president → electoral authoritarianism
Japan	(bureaucracy)	unelected bureaucratic power (iron triangles, *amakudari*)

- **United Kingdom — Westminster parliamentarism.** With a disciplined single majority, the PM is "*the most powerful democratic executive in the world.*" But **Brexit** shattered discipline: May's deal was crushed, parliament seized the agenda, 117 of her own MPs voted no-confidence, she resigned — and **Boris Johnson became PM via a ~160,000-member party vote, no national election**. → *Parliamentarism; the majority-party mechanism (not paper rules) drives PM power; removal via no-confidence + party replacement.*
- **India — same model, different result.** India copied Westminster almost exactly, yet outcomes track its **party system**: one-party (Congress) dominance 1947–89 made PMs *less* constrained than British ones; post-1989 **coalitions** forced constant negotiation (3 PMs in the first 30 years → 12 in the next 30). → *Identical rules → different outcomes based on party number; multipartism pushes parliamentarism toward consensus.*
- **United States — presidential separation of powers.** The Framers feared a strong executive, so the president's *formal* powers are modest (veto, appointments with Senate consent, commander-in-chief); **separation of powers + weak, polarised parties → gridlock**, the norm under divided government (Senate 60-vote rule). Contested workarounds: signing statements, executive orders. → *Presidentialism; built-in veto players; the world's most powerful legislature (Congress).*
- **Brazil — coalitional presidentialism.** The 1988 constitution gives the president **more** formal power than the US president (decrees, line-item veto, budget monopoly) — yet ~**30 fragmented parties** (Bolsonaro's own held <10% of seats) force presidents to build **9-party coalitions**, trade pork for votes (often illegally), and still face impeachment (**Dilma Rousseff, 2016**). → *Strong formal powers ≠ effective power; the instability Linz warned of.*
- **France — the classic semi-presidential case.** The **Fifth Republic (1958, de Gaulle)** invented the model: a **directly elected president** (foreign policy & defence, real power) *alongside* a **PM** answerable to the National Assembly (domestic policy). It works precisely because of **cohabitation** — when the president's party *loses* the Assembly, the president must appoint a **PM from the opposing majority** and retreat to their own domain (e.g. Mitterrand with a right-wing PM, Chirac with a left-wing PM). → *Semi-presidentialism done "right": because the president **cannot** simply dismiss the PM, the two share power and the system stays as stable as parliamentarism — the mirror image of Russia (Elgie's dividing line).*
- **Russia — semi-presidentialism gone dominant.** The 1993 constitution created an exceptionally strong presidency (appoints PM — reject the nominee 3× and the Duma is dissolved; **decrees with force of law**). **Putin** used it to turn a weak democracy into an **electoral authoritarian regime**. → *Elgie's warning: a president who can dismiss the PM at will removes the incentive to compromise and endangers democracy.*
- **Japan — bureaucratic power.** Japan's elite bureaucracy (recruited from Tokyo University law) drove the postwar boom and often *wrote* the laws, via **iron triangles** (bureaucrats–politicians–business) and ***amakudari*** ("descent from heaven" — officials taking jobs in firms they'd regulated). Scandals + stagnation

eroded it; Abe's 2014 reform tripled PM appointment control. → *The principal–agent problem: unelected officials wielding real power.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Executive / Legislature / Judiciary	Implements / makes / interprets the law
Head of state / Head of government	Symbolic representative / runs the government
Majoritarian / Consensus democracy	Power concentrated (few veto players) / dispersed (many)
Veto player	Actor whose agreement is needed to change policy
Vertical / Horizontal accountability	Citizens hold state accountable / institutions check each other
Parliamentarism	Exec & legislature fused; parliament elects the PM
Vote of no confidence	Parliament's vote to remove the PM/government
Presidentialism	Exec & legislature elected independently, separate powers
Separation of powers	Constitutional division of power among branches
Coalitional presidentialism	Presidential system where the president must build a party coalition
Semi-presidentialism	Executive split between elected president + PM
Cohabitation	President & PM from different parties
Judicial review	Courts can rule a law unconstitutional
Common law / Code law	Precedent-based / written-code-only
Principal–agent problem	Agent's self-interest may not match the principal's
New Public Management	1980s reform: privatise, competition, "customer" focus
Unitary / Federal	Sole central sovereignty / sovereignty shared with subunits
Symmetrical / Asymmetrical federalism	All subunits equal / some have special powers
Devolution	Reversible decentralisation in a unitary state

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the **parliamentary vs presidential vs semi-presidential comparison** cold — powers (fused/separated/split), how the executive is **chosen** and **removed**, term length, veto players, a case each.
- Explain **parliamentarism** (fusion, PM, no-confidence, dissolution) and **presidentialism** (separation, fixed terms, impeachment, gridlock) as opposite answers to *how executive power is checked.*
- Use **Lijphart's majoritarian↔consensus** + **veto players** to place any system, and **vertical vs horizontal accountability** to evaluate it.
- Deploy **Linz's "Perils of Presidentialism"** (dual legitimacy · winner-take-all · fixed terms) *and* the Cheibub counter — the set-piece stability debate.

- Show that **rules ≠ outcomes**: UK vs India (party system) and Thatcher vs Reagan (policymaking) are the go-to illustrations.
- Know **federal vs unitary** (+ devolution) as a majority-limiting / minority-protecting device.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

> Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 4 (systems of government).

Quotable / memorable

- Linz's famous article: "**The Perils of Presidentialism**" (1990). Cheibub's rebuttal: presidential systems "*tend to exist in societies where democracies of any type are likely to be unstable.*"
- The British PM with a solid majority is "*often called the most powerful democratic executive in the world.*"
- **Kenya (2013)** switched from a British-style **parliamentary** to a US-style **presidential** system with its new constitution — a live natural experiment.

Striking numbers

- **Belgium 2010:** a **world-record 541 days** to form a government; **Sweden 2018:** 133 days.
- Votes of no confidence **succeed ~5% of the time.**
- **Boris Johnson** became PM chosen by **fewer than 160,000** Conservative members — no national election.
- **India:** 3 PMs in 1947–77 → **12** in 1977–2007 (multipartism = less stability).
- **Brazil:** 30 parties in the Chamber; presidential coalitions average **9 parties**; **60% of Congress under indictment** in 2016.
- **US Senate:** representatives of just over **10%** of the population can block a bill (60-vote rule); state representation ratio ≈ **66:1**.
- **Semi-presidentialism** spread from **10 (1990) → 52 (2018)** systems; 16 are former French/Portuguese colonies.
- **Federal** countries ≈ **25**, but hold **>40% of the world's population**; 7 of the 10 largest countries by area are federal.

Thinkers to name-drop

- Separation of powers ← **Montesquieu** · semi-presidentialism ← **France 1958 / de Gaulle** · code law ← **Napoleon** · majoritarian/consensus ← **Lijphart** · veto players ← **Tsebelis** · vertical/horizontal accountability ← **O'Donnell** · federalism-as-bargain ← **Riker.**

Lecture 5: Participation and Representation (FK)

Required reading: OD ch. 6 (*Institutions of Participation and Representation*)

Theme of the lecture: Why do some citizens participate while others don't? Why are some interests represented while others aren't? We examine how different **institutions — specifically electoral and party systems — shape political participation and representation.**

OD Ch. 6 — Institutions of Participation and Representation

Book: Orvis & Drogus, *Introducing Comparative Politics*, 5th ed., ch. 6.

Chapter résumé

Looks at the three institutions through which democracies channel **participation and representation** — **electoral systems, parties/party systems, and civil society (interest groups)** — and asks which best represent ordinary and marginalised citizens. It opens with *why anyone participates at all* (a **collective-action problem**), then its analytic core: how **electoral systems** (plurality/SMD · majoritarian · PR · mixed) convert votes into seats and thereby shape the **number of parties** (**Duverger's Law**), proportionality, stability, and the representation of women & minorities. It classifies **party systems**, surveys how parties mobilise (programmatic / clientelist / populist) amid a "crisis of party democracy," contrasts **pluralist vs neocorporatist** interest-group systems, and closes on the master **trade-off (Powell): diverse representation ⇄ clear accountability.**

> ★ **The heart of the chapter: institutions decide who participates and whose interests get represented.** The **electoral system** is the master lever — **SMD/plurality** squeezes politics toward *two parties + clear accountability but wasted votes*; **PR** opens it to *many parties + proportional, diverse representation but coalition instability* (Duverger's Law). Underneath sits one unavoidable **trade-off (Powell): broad representation ⇄ clear accountability/governability.**

The red thread. Two questions run through the chapter. ① **Why participate (or not)?** — voting is individually "irrational" (a collective-action problem), so *institutions* raise or lower the cost (PR & simple systems → higher turnout). ② **Whose interests get represented?** — the **electoral system → party system → interest-group system** chain decides. For any case ask: **how do votes become seats · how many parties result · who gets left out (small parties, women, minorities) · and what's traded off (representation vs accountability)?**

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The electoral-system menu: SMD plurality (FPTP) · majoritarian (two-round / alternative vote) · proportional representation (PR) · mixed/semiproportional.**
- **Duverger's Law** — SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty.
- **Party systems** — dominant-party · two-party · multiparty; **sociological** (cleavages) vs **institutional** (electoral rules) origins.
- **Mobilisation types** — programmatic · patronage/clientelist · populist.
- **Interest groups: pluralism** (many, neutral state — US) vs **neocorporatism** (few peak associations bargain with the state — Germany).
- **The Powell trade-off** — representation/participation ⇄ accountability/governability.

Section-by-section main points

Lecture frame (FK). The lecture opens by asking *what representation even is* (**Pitkin**), then works through the institutions that produce it — **electoral systems → party systems → civil society** — and closes with **case studies** (UK, Germany, Japan, Brazil).

What is representation? — Pitkin's four views

Core: before asking *how* institutions represent, ask *what "representation" means*. **Hanna Pitkin** (*The Concept of Representation*, 1967) distinguishes **four** senses:

- **Formalistic** — the institutional arrangement that **authorises** a representative and holds them **accountable** (elections = the "before" and "after" of representing).
- **Descriptive** — the representative **resembles** the represented (shares gender, ethnicity, class) — "**standing for**" (the case for **quotas** / descriptive representation).
- **Symbolic** — the representative **stands for** the represented symbolically (a leader/flag people identify with).
- **Substantive** — the representative **acts in the interests** of the represented — "**acting for**" (the **delegate** [follow instructions] vs **trustee** [own judgment] debate).
- *Why it matters:* the electoral systems below are really machines for producing one kind of representation or another — **PR** boosts **descriptive** representation (more women/minorities); **SMD** emphasises the **formalistic** local link.

Why participate? — the collective-action problem

Core: voting is individually "**irrational**" (Downs) — one vote rarely decides anything — so participation is a **collective-action problem** that *institutions* must overcome.

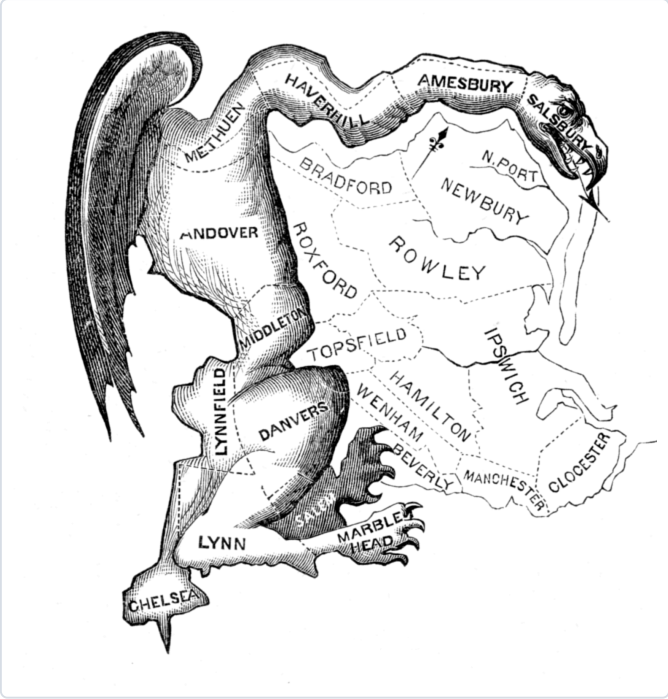
- People vote anyway for **expressive/solidaristic** reasons, charismatic leaders, and to avoid the **emotional cost** of not participating (guilt, exclusion).
- **Institutions shape turnout:** complex systems depress it among the less-educated; **PR/mixed systems raise it** (fewer "wasted votes"); parties & interest groups lower the cost of finding and acting on your interests.

Electoral systems — *the core of the chapter* ★

Core: the electoral system is the master lever — *on what basis are you represented* (a **district**, a **party/idea**, or a **group**), and *how do votes become seats?*

System	Votes → seats	Parties (Duverger)	Proportionality	Turnout	Women/minorities	Cases
SMD plurality (FPTP)	most votes in each district wins (no majority needed)	**two parties**	**low** (wasted votes)	lower	worse	UK, US, India
Majoritarian (two-round / **AV** ranked-choice)	need **50%+1** → runoff or reallocate	~two blocs	low–medium	—	—	France
Proportional (PR) — closed/open list	seats **= vote share** (national/large districts, a **threshold**)	**multiparty**	**high**	higher	**better**	Israel, Brazil (open)
Mixed / semiproportional	SMD seats **+** party-list PR	multiparty	high (**compensatory**, Germany) / medium (**noncompensatory**, Japan)	higher	—	Germany, Japan

- **SMD/FPTP:** *strengths* — strong voter–representative link, single-party government (efficient, accountable); defenders also invoke **virtual representation** (co-partisans elected in *other* districts speak for you). *Weaknesses* — **wasted votes**, **disproportionality** (a party can win many seats on ~35% pluralities; a broad-but-thin party wins almost none), gerrymandering, fewer women/minorities. *(Empirically the SMD "closer link" is weak — Curtice & Shively found no real advantage in voter–rep contact.)*



How to read it (the original "Gerry-mander," 1812). SMD only works if someone *draws the district lines* — and whoever draws them can rig outcomes. This famous cartoon mocks a Massachusetts district that Governor **Elbridge Gerry**'s party contorted into a **salamander** shape to pack/crack opponents into losing

configurations. *Gerry + salamander = "gerrymander."* It's the visual shorthand for why single-member districts are vulnerable to **manipulated boundaries** — a weakness PR (large multi-member districts) largely avoids.

- **Majoritarian — two-round runoff & the Alternative Vote.** Unlike FPTP, the winner must clear an **absolute majority (50%+1)**, so the count needs a *second step* FPTP doesn't have. Two ways to get there:
  - **Two-round system (TRS / runoff)** — *France.* **Round 1:** win outright if you get 50%+1; if not, the top candidates go to a **second-round runoff** a week or two later (top two — or in France's legislative version, *everyone above 12.5% of registered voters*), and whoever leads the runoff wins. Voters whose first choice is knocked out get to **re-choose** among those left.
  - **Alternative Vote (AV) / ranked-choice / instant-runoff** — *one ballot,* but you **rank** candidates 1-2-3… Count the 1st preferences; if nobody has 50%+1, **eliminate the last-placed candidate and transfer their ballots to each voter's next-ranked choice**; repeat until someone passes 50%. It's a runoff done "instantly" in a single election.
  - *Mini worked example (AV):* three candidates — **A 40% · B 35% · C 25%**, nobody at 50%. Eliminate **C**; C's voters' 2nd choices split (say **+18%→B, +7%→A**). New totals: **A 47% · B 53% → B wins** — even though A *led* the first count. That flip is the whole point: it rewards the **broadly acceptable** candidate over the one with the biggest *minority*.
  - *Effect:* squeezes extremes, rewards second-choice-friendly candidates, wastes fewer votes than FPTP; produces **~two blocs** but more softly than FPTP. *(Case: **Maine 2018** — first US Congress seat decided by AV; Golden won **50.5–49.5 after trailing on the first count**.)*
- **PR:** *strengths* — few wasted votes, **higher turnout**, far **more women & minorities** (lists + quotas), more information/positions, more egalitarian policy (Orellana). *Weaknesses* — no identifiable individual rep, **coalition instability**, small extremist parties gain outsized leverage; **Kedar:** PR voters even vote for *more extreme* parties on purpose, expecting post-election compromise to pull policy back to the middle.
  - **Closed vs open list — *who decides the order within a party's seats?*** Under PR you vote for a **party**, which then fills its won seats from a ranked **list of candidates**. The two variants differ in *who sets that rank*:
    - **Closed list:** the **party** fixes the order in advance; you vote only for the party, and if it wins *n* seats they go to the top *n* names on the party's list. → **more party control, party discipline, and easy use of quotas** (a party can guarantee women high spots), but voters can't pick the *individual*. *(e.g. Israel.)*
    - **Open list:** you vote for the party **and** for a **specific candidate** within it; the candidates' *own* vote totals decide who gets the party's seats. → **more voter choice over individuals**, but it makes candidates compete against their *own* party-mates → **weaker, more personalist parties.** *(e.g. Brazil — a big reason its parties are so fragmented and weak.)*
- **Mixed:** two ballots (a district candidate + a party list) — blends a personal rep with proportional fairness; **Germany's compensatory** version tops seats up to full proportionality, **Japan's noncompensatory** version keeps SMD & PR separate (less proportional). **AV/ranked-choice** wastes fewer votes than FPTP (Maine 2018 elected the first US Congress seat by AV).
  - **Is Germany still "mixed"? (2023 reform).** You can argue it's **drifting toward pure PR.** Germany's compensatory mechanism caused the Bundestag to balloon (**736 seats in 2021** via overhang + balance seats). The **2023 reform** (first used in the **2025** election) **capped the house at 630** and **abolished overhang & compensatory seats**: a party now gets **only** the seats its **second (list) vote** earns, and district winners are seated **only if their party's list vote covers them** (*Zweitstimmendeckung*) — otherwise the narrowest district winners **lose their seats** even though they won locally. So the **first vote no longer guarantees a personal representative**, and total seats are set almost entirely by the party

vote → many now call it "**personalised PR**" rather than a genuine mixed system. *(The Constitutional Court upheld the cap in 2024 but reinstated the basic-mandate/3-seat clause.)*

- **Redistribution link (Iversen & Soskice — from Lecture 4): PR → the middle class allies with the poor → bigger welfare states**; majoritarian → middle allies with the rich → less. A key reason electoral systems shape *policy*, not just seats (the Sweden vs US welfare puzzle).

Table 1. Electoral system and the number of years with left and right governments (1945-98)

		Government partisanship		Proportion of right governments
		Left	Right	
Electoral system	Proportional	342 (8)	120 (1)	0.26
	Majoritarian	86 (0)	256 (8)	0.75

Note: Excludes centrist governments (see text below for details).

How to read it (Iversen & Soskice). Count the years each system spent under left vs right government (1945–98). Under **PR**, the right governed only **26%** of the time; under **majoritarian**, the right governed **75%** of the time. Same democracies, opposite tilt — hard evidence that **the electoral system biases *which* side holds power over the long run**, and hence how big the welfare state gets.

Duverger's Law — and its limits

***Core:* SMD/plurality → two parties** (small parties get squeezed out and voters stop "wasting" votes on them); **PR → multiparty.**

- **The two mechanisms — *why* it happens (this is the heart of the law):**
  - ① **Mechanical effect** — with **one seat per district won by a plurality**, only the **top-1** converts votes → a seat. A party that comes **3rd** (or is **broad-but-thin**, spread across the country) wins **nothing** despite a real vote share → those votes are simply **wasted**. *(UKIP 2015: **12.6% of the vote → 1 seat**; SNP, geographically concentrated, fewer votes → **56 seats**.)*
  - ② **Psychological effect** — voters **know** this, so they stop "wasting" votes on no-hopers and **strategically switch** to a viable **top-2** candidate; donors and candidates desert small parties too → this **reinforces** the squeeze. **Under PR** (seats ≈ vote share) *both* pressures vanish → **multiparty survives.**
- **But not deterministic:** it holds in *established* democracies; in **new/diverse** democracies voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists), so FPTP can still produce many parties (Moser & Scheiner) — see **India**. And it can break even in old democracies (**France 2017**: Macron's one-year-old party upended a near-two-party system).

Party systems

Core: classify a system by the **number & relative strength** of parties. First, *what parties are for*; then the three types; then where they come from.

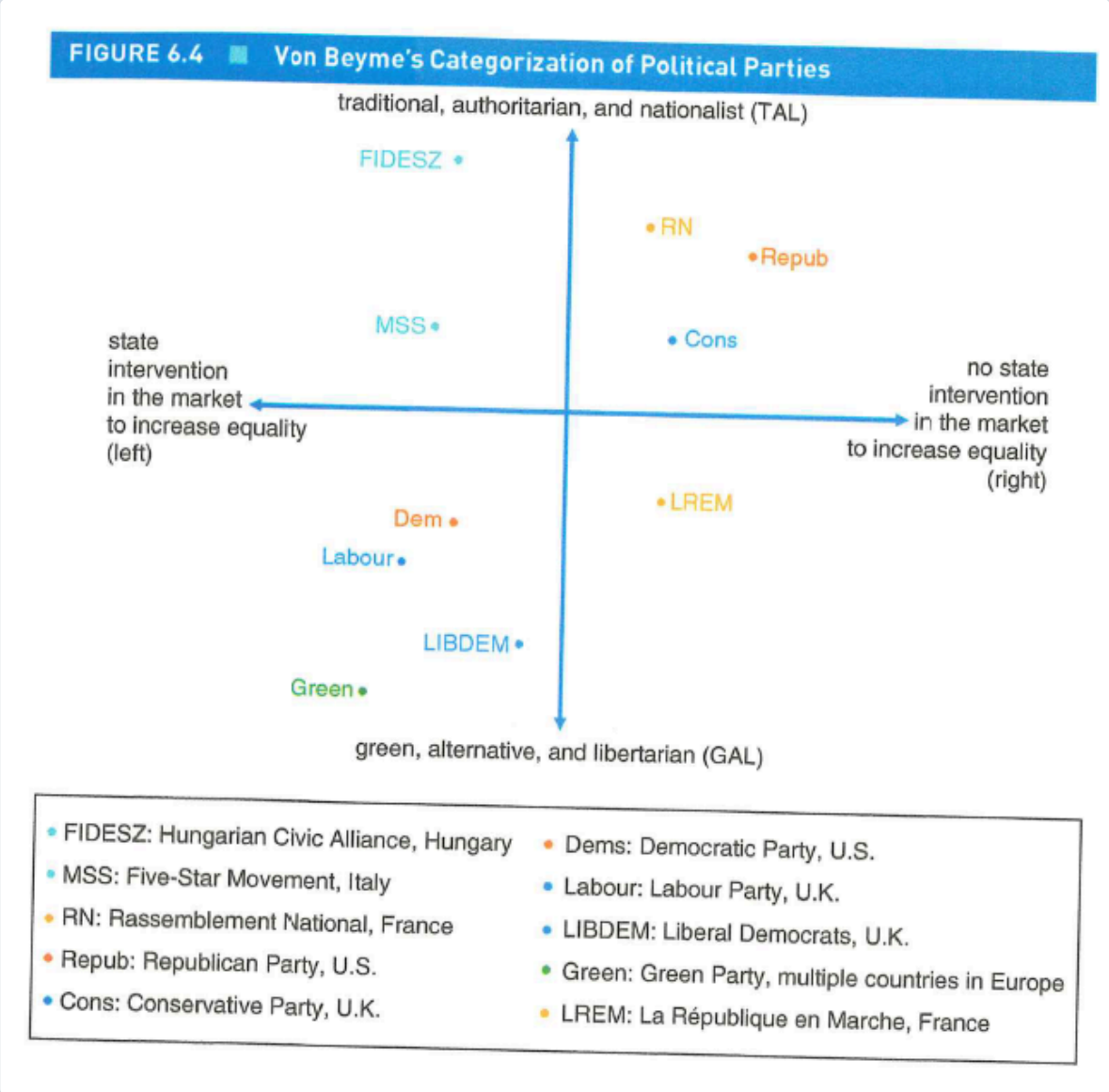
- **What parties do — five functions (FK deck):** ① **mobilise** citizens to participate · ② **recruit** the political elite (candidates/leaders) · ③ **simplify** choices (a label voters can reason with) · ④ **organise government** (form and run the executive/legislature) · ⑤ **provide opposition** (a government-in-waiting that scrutinises). *(This is what distinguishes parties from interest groups below — parties **seek office**; interest groups only seek influence.)*
- **The three types — by number & strength:**
  - **Dominant-party:** many parties compete in more-or-less free & fair elections, but **one wins *every* election** and governs continuously (**ANC**, South Africa — won all six post-apartheid elections, though its share fell to **57.5% in 2019**). **Key nuance:** the line to an **electoral-authoritarian regime** (ch. 8) is *thin* — the test is *how* the party keeps winning: by genuine **popularity** (still a democracy) vs by **manipulating the rules, using state resources, and intimidating rivals** (authoritarian).
  - **Two-party:** only **two** parties can realistically win, though more compete (**US** — no third party significant since the Republicans emerged in the 1850s; UK). Third parties (Ross Perot's Reform Party) flare up but **rarely survive more than two elections.**
  - **Multiparty: more than two** parties could win and govern → **coalitions**. Two sub-variants: **(a)** two large parties, one usually needing small partners to reach a majority (**Italy**); **(b)** three-four roughly equal parties, a majority *always* needing a coalition of ≥2.
- **Where party systems come from — two rival explanations** (the answer to "*why do some countries have 2 parties and others 6?*"):
  - **Sociological — parties grow out of social *cleavages*.** A party forms to represent a self-conscious social group, so the **number of parties mirrors how many deep social divisions a society has.** Two classic 19th-century European cleavages:
    - **Economic (capital vs labour)** — became **universal** with industrialisation: *every* country got a **business/"liberal" party** *and* a **workers' party** (socialist/social-democratic). This one cleavage alone yields **two** party families.
    - **Religious** — existed in **some** countries, not all: **Germany** has a Christian party (CDU/CSU) speaking for a Catholic minority in a Protestant country; **France**, almost entirely Catholic, never needed one.
    - **The rule:** each *additional* salient cleavage tends to add a party family → **both economic + religious salient = multiparty; only economic salient = two-party.**
  - **Institutional (Duverger) — the *electoral rules* shape the party count.** Rational politicians build whatever kind of party *wins under the given rules*, so the **system** drives the number, not just society. **Under SMD** you must come **first in a district** to win *anything*, via two mechanisms (see Duverger's Law): **(i) mechanical** — small/ideological parties get **no seats** and wither, and **(ii) psychological** — voters **stop "wasting" votes** on no-hopers → politics collapses toward **two** broad catch-all parties. **Under PR** (seats ≈ vote share) *both* pressures vanish → **multiparty survives.**
- **Bridging the "chicken-and-egg":** the institutional effect holds in **established** democracies but *not* in **new** ones, where voters aren't strategic (ethnic/identity voting persists, FPTP winners take seats on 20–30%) — Boix; Moser & Scheiner. **France** is the classic Duverger case (its two-round SMD pushed a fragmented system to ~two blocs, 82% of seats by 2012) — until **2017**, when Macron's one-year-old party blew it up.

How parties mobilise — and the "crisis of party democracy"

Core: parties win support in **three distinct ways** — how a party mobilises tells you what *kind* of party it is:

Type	How it wins votes	Signature	Where it thrives
Programmatic	offers **ideas / ideology / policy** — you vote for its platform	manifestos, left–right positioning	established, richer democracies
Patronage / clientelist	trades **material benefits for votes**, delivered through local **brokers**	jobs, cash, favours, "get out the vote" machines	poorer / newer & **statist** economies
Populist	a **personalist leader** frames **"the people" vs a "corrupt elite"**	crisis rhetoric, anti-establishment, deliberate "**bad manners**"	anywhere in a "crisis of party democracy"

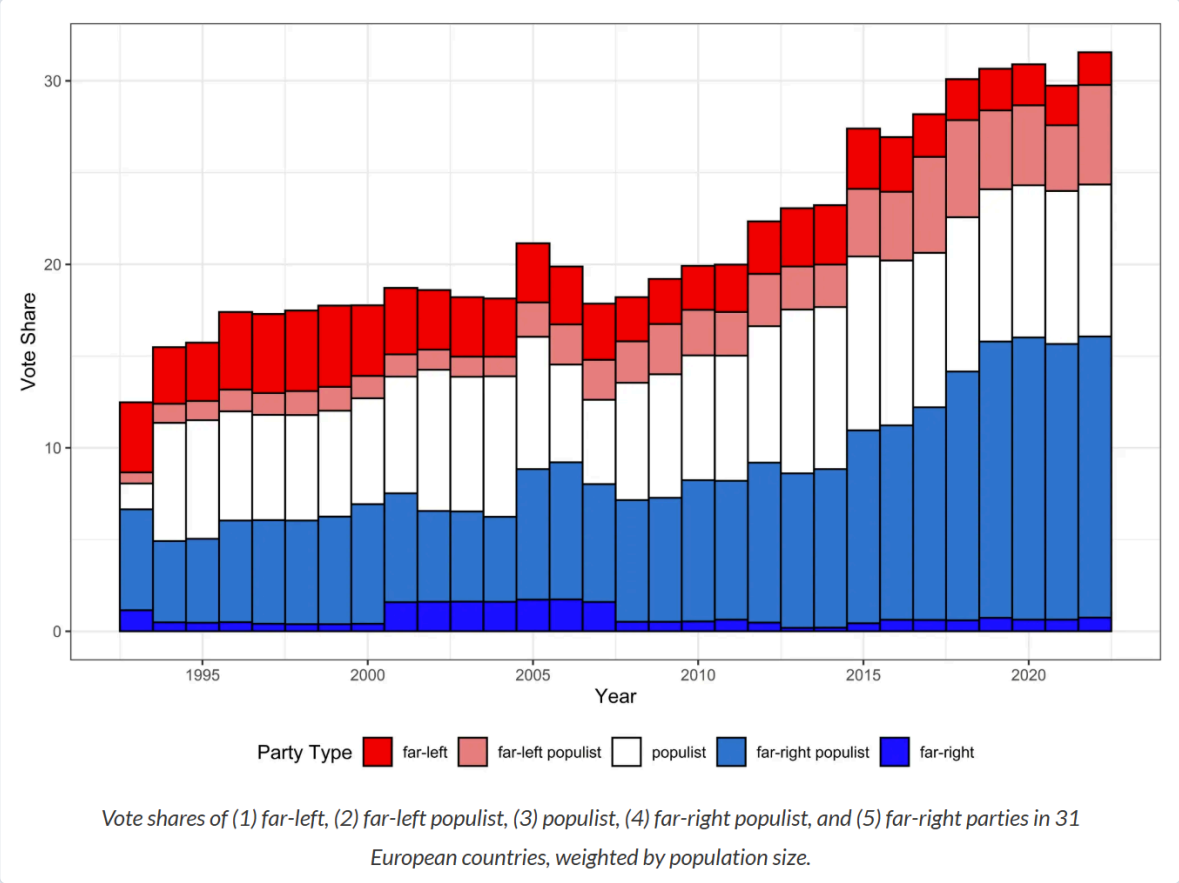
- **Where parties sit — two ideology axes (FK):** parties map onto **two** dimensions, not one — the classic **economic Left–Right** (redistribution: *state intervention to increase equality* ⇄ *no intervention*) *plus* the modern cultural **GAL–TAN** — **GAL** (Green/Alternative/Libertarian: progressive, cosmopolitan, pro-environment, individual rights) vs **TAN/TAL** (Traditional/Authoritarian/Nationalist). Today's populist/far-right parties (Farage, Salvini, AfD) mobilise mainly on the **TAN** end of this *second* axis.



How to read it (Von Beyme, OD Fig. 6.4). The **horizontal axis = economics** (left = *state intervention to increase equality*; right = *no intervention*); the **vertical axis = culture/values** (bottom = **GAL**; top = **TAL/TAN**).

A party's position is the *pair* of coordinates — e.g. **Labour/Dems** sit centre-left & GAL-ish, **RN (Rassemblement National)** & **FIDESZ** sit right & strongly **TAL**, **Greens** sit far GAL. The point: two parties can share an economic position yet be opposites on culture — which is exactly how the far-right mobilises on the *TAN* axis without moving economically.

- *Caveat on "programmatic":* **Achen & Bartels** ("folk theory" critique) argue voters mostly vote by **social identity**, not by carefully weighing ideas — so pure programmatic appeal is partly a myth.
- **Crisis of party democracy:** only ~**20%** trust parties (though ~80% value democracy); falling loyalty/membership/turnout, rising **electoral volatility**, single-issue/postmaterialist voting, and **far-right/anti-system** parties (nativism, post-2015 refugee crisis). Explanations: economic (globalisation, manufacturing decline); **dealignment** (voters detach from all parties) vs **realignment** (they switch); catch-all parties → "**cartel parties**" (Mair) colluding at the centre → lost efficacy.



Vote shares of (1) far-left, (2) far-left populist, (3) populist, (4) far-right populist, and (5) far-right parties in 31 European countries, weighted by population size.

How to read it (The PopuList, Rooduijn et al. 2024). Each bar = one year's **combined vote share** of anti-establishment parties across 31 European countries; the colours split them into far-left, far-left-populist, populist, **far-right-populist (blue)** and far-right. The story is the **near-doubling** from ~12% (1993) to ~31% (2022), and that most of the growth is the **blue far-right-populist** band — the empirical face of the "crisis of party democracy."

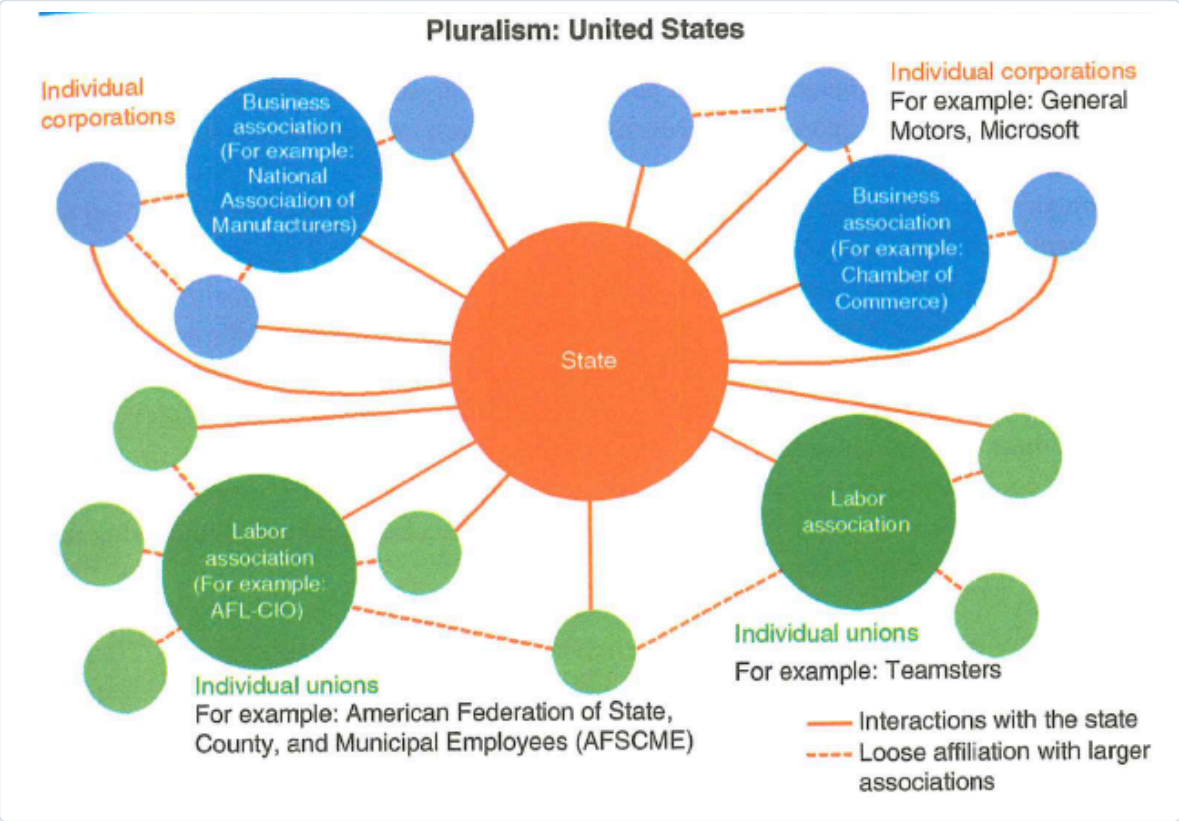
- **US exception:** not dealignment but partisan **sorting/polarisation** (Abramowitz), racial realignment, and Trump's **status-threat** populism (Mutz 2018).

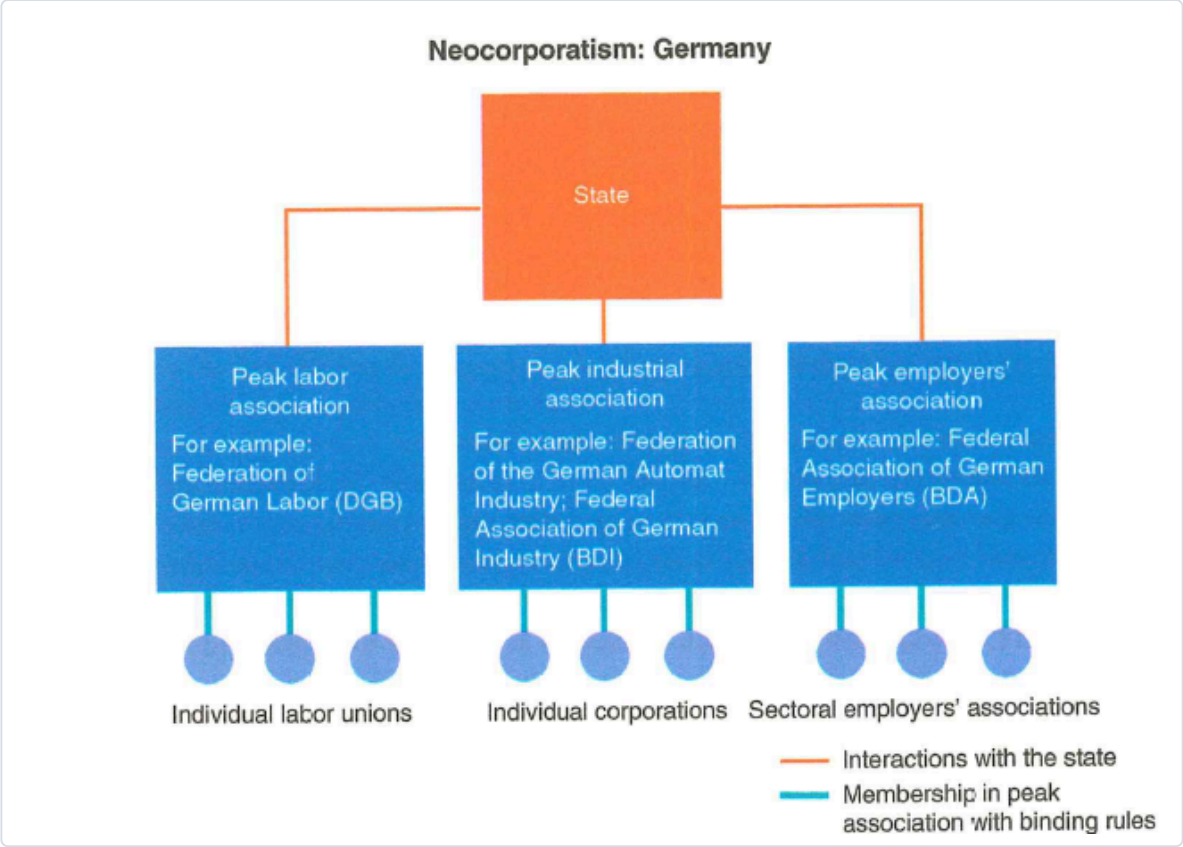
Civil society & interest groups — pluralism vs neocorporatism

Core: beyond parties, organised **interest groups** (they *don't* seek office, unlike parties) represent society — in two rival models. Groups grew sector-by-sector: first **labour, business, agriculture**, then **women/minority**

groups; in divided societies, ethnic/religious groups dominate (some, like the KKK, are internally *undemocratic* — a tension for democracy).

- **Pluralism** (US): **many** competing groups, a **neutral** state; easy entry & local control, but fragmented clout — and **business is inherently privileged** (Lindblom). **Schattschneider's** famous jab: "*the flaw in the pluralist heaven is that the heavenly chorus sings with a strong upper-class accent*" — i.e. who *gets organised* is skewed toward the well-off.
- **Neocorporatism** / societal corporatism (Germany, N. Europe): a **few large, hierarchical peak associations** the state recognises as *the* voice of each sector negotiate **binding** deals; more influence (esp. for labour countering business) but **less participatory** (little incentive to form new groups). *(State corporatism = the mandated, authoritarian version — ch. 8.)*
- **Social-capital debate:** Putnam (*Bowling Alone*) sees civic **decline**; Skocpol adds that mass-membership bodies gave way to **managed advocacy**; critics (Dalton, "**Kicking in Groups**") reply that activity just **moved to new forms** (movements, single-issue groups).





How to read them (OD). *Pluralism (US, first diagram):* **many** groups orbit a **neutral** state, connected by thin/loose lines — lots of competing voices, easy entry, but **fragmented** clout and no single channel. *Neocorporatism (Germany, second):* the state is formally wired to just **a few large peak associations** (peak labour DGB, peak industry BDI, peak employers BDA), each sitting *above* its own member firms/unions — fewer, **binding** channels → more influence (esp. for labour) but **harder for new groups** to break in. Same job (representing interests), opposite architecture: *many-and-loose* vs *few-and-binding*.

The master trade-off (Powell)

Core: systems open to **diversity** (PR · multiparty · pluralism) maximise **representation & participation** but blur **accountability & governability**; **majoritarian** systems (FPTP · two-party) do the reverse. *There is no free lunch — every design chooses a point on this line.* The chapter's most robust finding: **PR represents women far better than SMD** (India goes further with **reserved seats**).

Cases & examples

Why these cases are here — circle them back. Each shows **one electoral/party system in action** and *who it represents vs leaves out*. Read each for: *which system · how votes became seats · who got left out.*

Case	Electoral system	Party system	What it shows
UK	SMD/FPTP	two-party	extreme disproportionality (UKIP 12.6% → 1 seat)
Germany	mixed **compensatory** PR	multiparty	how mixed PR lets new parties (Greens, AfD) in
Japan	mixed **noncompensatory**	dominant (LDP)	more majoritarian; Duverger working haltingly
India	SMD/FPTP + federal	multiparty	Duverger's limits in a diverse democracy; reserved seats
Brazil	**open-list PR** (no threshold)	fragmented	weak-party fragmentation (30 parties) + populism
Israel	pure closed-list PR	hyper-multiparty	PR instability under extreme diversity

- **UK — SMD/FPTP.** The paradigm two-party FPTP system: modest vote margins → big seat majorities → single-party government. But it's wildly **disproportional** — in **2015, UKIP won 12.6% of the vote → 1 seat**, while the **SNP won fewer votes → 56 seats** (geographically concentrated in Scotland). → *SMD/FPTP → disproportionality, wasted votes, majoritarian governance.*
- **Germany — mixed compensatory PR.** Designed after Weimar with a **5% threshold** + compensatory mixed PR → a stable multiparty system. The **Greens (1983)** got in *because* the semiproportional system let them clear the threshold (unlike Britain's Greens); by **2017** the two big parties fell to a record **54%**, and the far-right **AfD** won its first seats. **Note (2023 reform):** to stop the house ballooning (736 seats in 2021), Germany **capped it at 630** and **scrapped overhang/compensatory seats** — seats now follow the **list vote** and a district win no longer guarantees a seat, so it's arguably become **personalised PR** rather than truly "mixed." → *Mixed PR sustains a multiparty system and lets new/ideological parties gain representation — though the 2023 reform pushes it toward pure PR.*
- **Japan — mixed noncompensatory.** The **LDP dominated 1955–93** via factions & clientelism; the **1994 reform** (300 SMD + 180 PR, *noncompensatory*) pushed toward two parties — the **DPJ won 308/480 in 2009**, but the **LDP swept back in 2012** ("lucky, not popular" — a split opposition). → *Noncompensatory mixed = more majoritarian than Germany; Duverger's Law working haltingly.*
- **India — FPTP in a diverse federation.** FPTP "should" give two parties, but **huge diversity + federalism** yields many *state-level* two-party fights that aggregate into a **national multiparty** system (parties: 50 in 1952 → 342 in 2009). **BJP (Modi) 2014: 31% of the vote → 52% of seats** under FPTP. **120 of ~600** seats are **reserved** for lower castes/tribes. → *Duverger's limits in a new/diverse democracy; reserved-seat representation.*
- **Brazil — open-list PR, no threshold.** No incentive for intra-party cooperation → extreme fragmentation (**30 parties by 2018**) and weak, local parties (a third of legislators switched parties 1989–95). Recession + the "car wash" scandal → mass protests → **Rousseff impeached (2016)** → outsider populist **Bolsonaro won 2018** atop a tiny party. → *Open-list PR's weak-party fragmentation + accountability failure + populism.*
- **Israel — pure PR.** The whole country is **one district**, a 120-seat Knesset, **3.25% threshold** → ~a dozen parties win; governments = a big party + 3–6 small ones, lasting ~2 years; **2019 produced three elections in one year.** → *PR's instability under extreme diversity — the cost of maximal proportionality.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Collective-action problem	Individuals rationally don't act (vote) though all suffer if none do
Electoral system	Legal mechanism translating votes into offices/seats
Single-member district (SMD)	Each district elects one representative
Plurality / FPTP	Most votes wins (no majority needed)
Majoritarian	Winner needs an absolute majority (50%+1)
Two-round system (runoff)	If no 50%+1 in round 1, top candidates meet in a second-round runoff (France)
Alternative Vote (AV) / ranked-choice	Rank candidates; eliminate last-placed & transfer their votes until one passes 50%
Proportional representation (PR)	Seats = vote share (national/large districts + a threshold)
Closed-list PR	Vote for a party; the **party** sets the candidate order (party control, quotas) — Israel
Open-list PR	Vote for party **and** a candidate; candidates' own votes set the order (voter choice, weaker parties) — Brazil
Mixed / semiproportional	SMD seats + party-list PR (compensatory / noncompensatory)
Duverger's Law	SMD → two parties; PR → multiparty
Party system	Number & strength of parties (dominant / two-party / multiparty)
Programmatic / patronage / populist mobilisation	Win support by ideas / material rewards / anti-elite personalism
Interest-group pluralism	Many competing groups, neutral state (US)
Neocorporatism	Few peak associations bargain binding deals with the state (Germany)
Peak association	Body uniting a whole sector to negotiate with the state
Social capital	Networks + norms of reciprocity underpinning civil society
Powell trade-off	Diverse representation ⇄ clear accountability

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the **electoral-systems comparison** cold — how each converts votes→seats, its effect on the **number of parties (Duverger)**, **proportionality**, **turnout**, and **women/minorities** — with a case each.
- Answer both spine questions: **why participate** (collective-action problem; institutions shape turnout) and **whose interests get represented** (electoral → party → interest-group chain).
- State **Duverger's Law** *and* its limits (India; France 2017).
- Contrast **pluralism vs neocorporatism** (US vs Germany) for interest representation.
- Land on the **Powell trade-off** (representation ⇄ accountability) and the robust finding that **PR represents women better**; use **Iversen & Soskice** to link PR → more redistribution.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

> Sticky stats, dates & quotes from Lecture 5 (participation & representation).

Quotable

- Schattschneider (1942): "*Modern democracy is unthinkable save in terms of parties.*"
- Downs (1957): for most people, voting is technically **irrational** — the seed of the collective-action problem.
- Powell's master **trade-off:** representation/participation ⇄ accountability/governability.

Striking numbers

- **UK 2015:** UKIP won **12.6% → 1 seat**; the SNP won *fewer* votes → **56 seats.**
- **US 2012 House:** in the ten most gerrymandered states, Republicans won **7% more votes but 76% more seats.**
- **Israel:** whole country = one district; **3.25% threshold**; **three elections in one year (2019)**; governments last ~2 years.
- **India:** parties grew **50 (1952) → 342 (2009)**; **120 of ~600** seats reserved for lower castes/tribes; BJP 2014 = **31% of vote → 52% of seats.**
- **Brazil 2018:** its most fragmented legislature ever — **30 parties.**
- **Women in legislatures:** Nordic countries lead at **42.5%**; US House only **23.4%** (2019). Robust finding: **PR elects more women than SMD.**
- Only **~20%** of citizens trust parties, though ~**80%** call democracy "a very good thing."
- **Maine 2018:** first US Congress seat decided by **ranked-choice** — Golden won 50.5–49.5 after trailing on the first count.

Memorable

- **France:** the top two parties held **56% of Assembly seats (1973) → 82% (2012)** — then the system **collapsed in 2017** with Macron's one-year-old party.
- **~60 countries** used FPTP in 2019 — almost all former British colonies; **Belarus** was the only continental-European one.
- The social-capital debate in two titles: Putnam's ***Bowling Alone*** vs its rebuttal "**Kicking in Groups.**"

Lecture 6: Institutions and Institutionalisms (AUW)

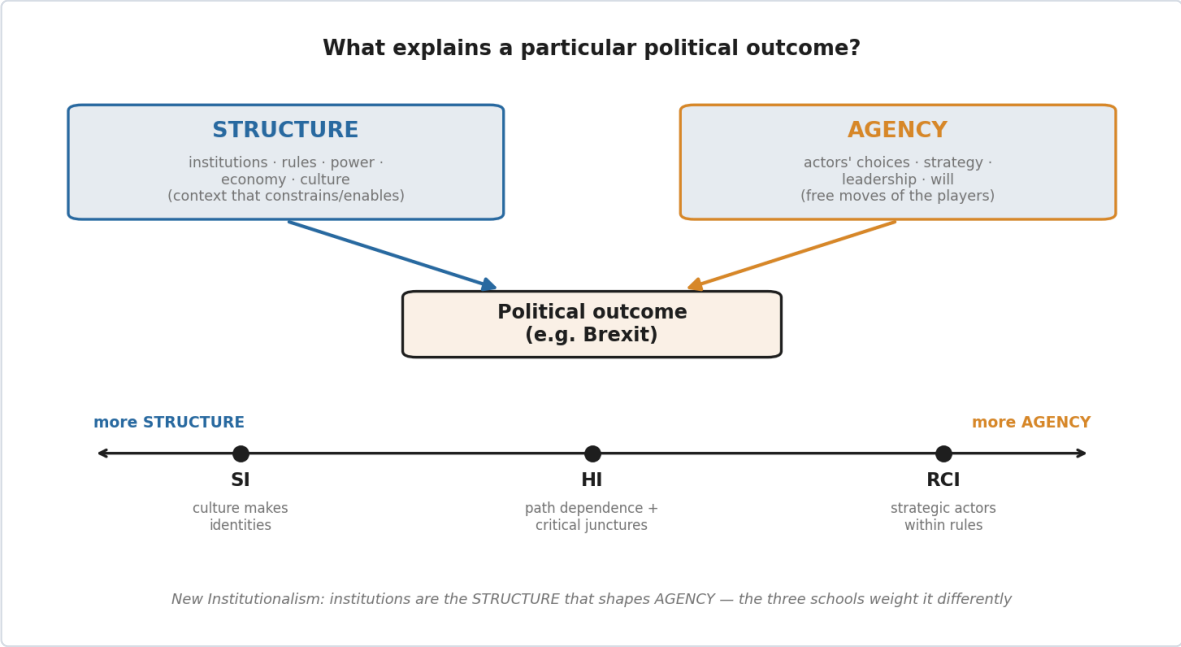
Required reading: Hall & Taylor (1996), *Political Science and the Three New Institutionalisms* · Busemeyer & Thelen (2020), *Institutional Sources of Business Power* (an HI example)

Theme of the lecture: the role of **institutions and structures** in political processes — how institutions **shape the behaviour of political actors**, and what drives institutional **change vs continuity** — focusing on the **rational-choice (RCI), historical (HI), and sociological (SI)** variants of **New Institutionalism** (with **path dependence** and **institutional legacies** as central concepts).

Lecture frame (AUW) — the essentials before the three schools

***Core:* institutions ≠ organizations.** Institutions are the **rules/norms that enable or constrain actors**; organizations are **groups of actors**. *(Ayca's example: the **Social Democratic Party** is an organization; the constitutional & legal rules, its internal statutes, and the unwritten norms governing it — e.g. can an MP defy the leadership and keep their job? — are institutions.)*

- **The grand debate it enters: structure vs agency** — *what explains a **particular political outcome**?* (the deck's opening question). Two pure answers:
  - **Structure** = the **context that shapes action** — institutions, rules, laws, social & economic structures, distributions of power, culture. On this view an outcome is driven by the **situation actors are in** (the "board and rules of the game"); actors are almost **carried along** by their environment.
  - **Agency** = the **capacity of actors to choose and act** independently — strategy, leadership, will. On this view an outcome is driven by **what particular people decided to do** (the "players' free moves").
  - *Why it matters:* explain **Brexit** (or any outcome) and you're implicitly taking a side — was it the deep **structures** (Britain's institutional history, its economy, EU rules) or the **agency** of key actors (Cameron calling the referendum, Johnson/Farage campaigning)? Pure structure = actors are dupes of context; pure agency = "great men" make history.
  - **New Institutionalism's answer** (the "revised" theory: behavioralism → institutionalist critique → New Institutionalism) is a **middle position: institutions are the key *structure* that *shapes* agency** — they **enable and constrain** actors without fully determining them. And the three schools sit at **different points** on the structure⇄agency line: **SI** most *structural* (culture constitutes actors' identities & preferences → least free agency), **RCI** most *agency* (strategic actors freely maximise *within* the rules), **HI** in between (path dependence & power dominate, but actors act at **critical junctures**).



How to read it (the deck's opening framing). The **same outcome** (e.g. Brexit) can be explained by **structure** (the constraining context — institutions, rules, power, culture) or by **agency** (what actors chose to do). Institutionalism says it's *both*, with institutions as the structure that channels agency — and the **spectrum** at the bottom is the exam-useful part: **SI** leans most structural (culture makes the actors), **RCI** leans most agency (strategic actors within fixed rules), **HI** sits in the middle (path dependence + critical junctures). Locating a school on this line is how you answer "which weights structure vs agency?"

- **Why study institutions?** They have **profound political consequences** — e.g. electoral system → party system (majoritarian → two-party; PR → multiparty — Lectures 4–5); parental-benefit design → labour-

market gender equality.

- **The definition of "institution" *widens* across the three schools** — this is the key organising idea:

School	What counts as an institution
RCI (narrowest)	**"Rules of the game"** — constitutions, laws, regulations, court decisions
HI (middle)	The above **+ procedures, routines, norms, conventions** (how things are done; SOPs)
SI (broadest)	All the above **+ symbol systems, cognitive scripts, moral/discursive templates** — "frames of meaning" (role of the state, national identity, patriarchy, institutional racism…)

Hall & Taylor (1996) — The Three New Institutionalisms

Chapter résumé

Hall & Taylor show that "the new institutionalism" is **not one theory but three** — **rational-choice (RCI)**, **historical (HI)**, and **sociological (SI)** institutionalism — which arose in the 1980s–90s (all reacting against 1960s–70s **behavioralism**) yet developed **independently**, "paint quite different pictures of the political world," and rarely cited each other. They compare the three on **two questions fundamental to any institutional analysis: (1) how institutions relate to behaviour, and (2) how institutions originate and change.** Their verdict: none is wrong — each captures a **partial** truth — so they call for **cross-fertilisation.**

> ★ **The heart of the reading:** three schools answer the same question — *how do institutions shape political behaviour and outcomes?* — very differently. **RCI**: institutions are rules that structure **strategic interaction** among fixed-preference utility-maximisers ("calculus"). **HI**: institutions distribute **power** unevenly and lock in **paths** over time (eclectic). **SI**: institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** that constitute actors' very identities and preferences ("cultural"). The exam task: fill in the comparison table and use it to build *three competing explanations* for one outcome.

The red thread. Everything reduces to **two cross-cutting approaches** (Hall & Taylor's own device): the **calculus approach** (actors strategically maximise; institutions give certainty about others' behaviour; persist as a **Nash equilibrium**) vs the **cultural approach** (actors interpret via worldviews; institutions provide moral/cognitive templates; persist because **taken-for-granted**). **RCI = pure calculus · SI = pure cultural · HI = both.** For any theory ask: *calculus or cultural — and how does that answer "how do actors behave / what do institutions do / why do they persist"?*

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The three schools: RCI · HI · SI** (+ the widening definition of "institution").
- **Calculus vs cultural approaches** — the master framework for *how institutions affect behaviour*.
- **RCI toolkit:** strategic interaction · collective-action dilemmas · gains from exchange · **Nash equilibrium**.
- **HI toolkit: power asymmetries · path dependence · critical junctures · unintended consequences**.
- **SI toolkit: frames of meaning · logic of appropriateness · isomorphism · legitimacy**.

Section-by-section main points

What "New Institutionalism" is — and why it's "*new*"

Core: **New Institutionalism** is the family of approaches (from the **1980s**) holding that **institutions shape political behaviour and outcomes** — reviving institutions as an *explanation* after behavioralism had sidelined them. The single claim uniting all three schools: **institutions are not a neutral backdrop; they structure what actors do** (they then disagree on *how*).

- **Why "New"? — three waves of theory** (the deck's *original → counter → revised* arc):
  - ① **Original theory — "old" institutionalism** (early–mid 20th c.): the **descriptive** study of *formal* institutions — constitutions, legal codes, the machinery of government. Detailed on paper rules, but **static, atheoretical, country-by-country** — it described institutions without explaining behaviour.
  - ② **Counter theory — behavioralism** (1960s–70s): reacted *against* the old school — politics should be a **science of observable behaviour** (attitudes, voting, opinion), explained by **individuals and informal processes**. Institutions were demoted to **epiphenomena** — just the *aggregate* of individual choices, so the formal rules "don't really matter."
  - ③ **Revised theory — New Institutionalism** (1980s–90s): **brings institutions back in** — but *revised*. It concedes the behavioralist focus on action, yet insists institutions **actively shape and constrain** that action and its outcomes (not merely describe it). "Institutions back in, now doing real explanatory work" is what makes it **New**. *(This is also the structure⇄agency answer: institutions are the structure that channels agency.)*
- **What New Institutionalism studies — institutions, through three guiding questions** (deck):
  - ① **What do institutions look like?** — e.g. **Danish labour-market rules** ("flexicurity" — flexible hiring/firing + strong welfare security); **post-conflict peace-building** institutions (truth & reconciliation commissions in **Rwanda, South Africa**).
  - ② **What similarities & differences do they show across contexts?** — e.g. **neocorporatism in Sweden vs Germany**; **presidentialism in the US vs Brazil** (same type, different workings — Lecture 4).
  - ③ **Why do they show those similarities/differences across time & space?** — the question the **three schools answer differently** (RCI vs HI vs SI). *Today's reading is exactly this move:* why does **privatisation of education take three different forms** in Germany, Sweden and the USA (Busemeyer & Thelen)?
- **The pay-off for the rest of the lecture:** all three schools **agree** institutions matter and shape behaviour; they then **split two ways** — on *how* institutions work (**calculus vs cultural**) and on *what even counts* as an institution (the widening definition above). Those two splits generate the three schools below.

The two archetypes — calculus vs cultural

Core: any institutionalism must answer three questions — *how do actors behave? what do institutions do? why do they persist?* — and there are two archetypal answer-sets.

In plain terms: the **calculus** side sees people as **calculators** (institutions are the rules that make deals work); the **cultural** side sees people as **role-players** following scripts (institutions are the shared meanings that tell us what's "done"). This one split is the engine of the whole lecture — **RCI = pure calculus, SI = pure cultural, HI = both.**

	Calculus approach (→ RCI)	Cultural approach (→ SI)
How do actors behave?	Instrumental, strategic **utility-maximisers**; preferences given **exogenously**	Behaviour **bounded by a worldview**; **satisficers**; choice depends on *interpretation*
What do institutions do?	Provide **certainty** about others (information, enforcement); shape **expectations**	Provide **moral/cognitive templates**; shape **identities & preferences** themselves
Why do they persist?	They're a **Nash equilibrium** — deviating makes you worse off	**Taken-for-granted**; one actor can't change a collective convention

HI is eclectic — it uses *both*.

★ The three institutionalisms compared *(the exam table — from the screenshot)*

Core: memorise this. To answer "why did outcome X happen?", read *across a row* for three competing explanations.

Dimension	Rational Choice (RCI)	Historical (HI)	Sociological (SI)
Definition of institutions	Rules/procedures that structure **strategic interaction** (narrow)	Formal/informal **procedures, routines, norms, conventions** embedded in the polity/economy (tied to organizations)	**Symbol systems, cognitive scripts, moral templates** — "frames of meaning" (dissolves the institution/culture line)
Example they study	**US Congress** (committees, rules of procedure)	**Cross-national public policy** (welfare states, labour, corporatism)	**Organizational forms & their diffusion** (why education ministries worldwide look alike)
Institutions ↔ behaviour	**Calculus**	**Eclectic** (both)	**Cultural**
How do actors behave?	Fixed **exogenous preferences**; instrumental, strategic maximisers	Both strategic *and* worldview-shaped (strategies can **ossify into worldviews**)	Socially-constituted interpreters; **"logic of appropriateness"** — what's "rational" is itself socially constituted
What do institutions do?	Structure strategic interaction; provide info/enforcement → reduce uncertainty, enable **gains from exchange**; solve **collective-action problems**	**Structure conflict** — privilege some interests, demobilise others; distribute **power unevenly**	Confer **meaning & legitimacy**; constitute actors' **identities & preferences**
Why do they persist?	They're a **Nash equilibrium** (deviation costs you)	**Path dependence** — groups develop interests "costly to shift"	**Taken-for-granted**; can't be changed by one individual
How/why do they change?	Deductive; **voluntary agreement** / competitive selection *(weak on change — the "equilibrium paradox")*	**Critical junctures** (crisis/war) → **branching points**; otherwise path-dependent	Adopt new **templates for legitimacy** (not efficiency); **borrowing/diffusion**; can even be *dysfunctional*
Particular focus	Strategic interaction; collective-action dilemmas; gains from exchange	**Power asymmetries; path dependence; unintended consequences; ideas**	**Legitimacy; culture; isomorphism**
Key concepts	transaction costs, principal–agent, Nash equilibrium, gains from exchange	path dependence, critical junctures, unintended consequences, "mobilization of bias"	frames of meaning, cognitive scripts, logic of appropriateness, isomorphism
Hall & Taylor's critique	**Thin/"simplistic" motivation**; exogenous preferences; **functionalist** origins	Vague on the **precise causal mechanism**; too **inductive**	**"Bloodless"; "action without agents"**; misses **power**

Rational Choice Institutionalism (RCI) — the "calculus" school

Core: institutions are the **rules of the game** that let self-interested players strike deals they otherwise couldn't trust each other to keep — and they last because **breaking them would leave you worse off.**

- **In plain terms:** everyone is out for themselves and constantly *calculating*. Left alone, people get stuck in situations where they'd *all* be better off cooperating but nobody trusts anyone else to do their part.

Institutions are the **rules that make cooperation pay**, so people follow them.

- **Where it came from — the US Congress puzzle** (this is *why* the school exists): plain rational-choice theory predicted Congress could never pass stable laws. Legislators want different things on many issues, so any bill should be beaten by a new majority — endless "**cycling.**" Yet Congress *does* produce stable legislation. **Why?** Because its **rules** structure the game: agenda control limits which options get voted on, committees carve up jurisdiction, and enforcement makes **logrolling** (vote-trading) deals stick. Those rules **lower the "transaction costs" of doing deals** and let legislators capture "**gains from exchange.**" → *institutions solve the collective-action problems that would otherwise paralyse a legislature.*
- **Its four defining assumptions:**
  1. **Fixed preferences + strategic maximising.** Actors have a set menu of wants and act instrumentally to get as much as possible, via extensive calculation.
  2. **Politics = collective-action dilemmas.** Individually rational choices often produce a **collectively bad** result (classic images: the **prisoner's dilemma**, the **tragedy of the commons**) — unless an institution guarantees others will cooperate too.
  3. **Strategic interaction is central.** What you do depends on **what you expect others to do**; institutions shape those expectations by supplying **information + enforcement** that cut the uncertainty about everyone else.
  4. **Origins explained by function.** An institution exists *because of the value it delivers* to those who set it up — created by **voluntary agreement**, or selected because efficient forms **out-compete** rivals.
- **Borrowed toolkit:** the "new economics of organization" — **transaction costs** (Williamson), **property rights**, **principal–agent** (how "principals" monitor and enforce compliance on their "agents," e.g. Congress over regulatory agencies).
- **Why institutions persist — a *Nash equilibrium*** (*in plain terms:* a settled situation where **no one can do better by breaking ranks alone**, so everyone sticks with it).
- **Best at:** precise, generalisable theory; and above all **explaining why institutions *persist*.**
- **Weak at — origins & change.** Three linked charges: **functionalist** (you can't read an institution's origins off its *effects* — **unintended consequences are everywhere**); **intentionalist** (assumes founders foresaw those effects — "heroic prescience"); **voluntarist** (treats creation as equals freely contracting, **ignoring power asymmetries**). Plus the **equilibrium paradox:** if the status quo is *already* a Nash equilibrium, why would anyone agree to change it? (RCI needs a better theory of *dynamic* equilibria.)
- **Exemplars:** US Congress — **Shepsle, Weingast**; **Cox & McCubbins** (parties, not just committees); **Ostrom** (common-pool resources); **North** (economic institutions); **Tsebelis** (EU reform).

Historical Institutionalism (HI) — power + path dependence

Core: institutions **hand power to some groups and not others**, and early choices push a country down a **path** that gets costly to leave — so big change waits for rare crisis moments (**critical junctures**).

- **In plain terms:** history matters, and the playing field is **tilted**. The rules a country built long ago give some groups the upper hand and lock the country onto a track. You mostly stay on that track — until a shock (war, economic crisis) forces a switch.
- **Where it came from:** reacted against 1960s **group theory** and **structural-functionalism** (plus a neo-Marxist debate) → brought the **state** back in as an actor that *structures* group conflict rather than neutrally refereeing it. Most HI work = **cross-national comparisons of public policy** (welfare states, tax, labour movements).

- **What counts as an institution (a middle-width definition):** the **formal *and* informal procedures, routines, norms and conventions** embedded in organisations — from a constitution's rules to a bureaucracy's standard operating procedures to the conventions governing unions or bank–firm relations.
- **Its four features:**
  1. **Eclectic on behaviour — uses *both* calculus and cultural approaches.** Sometimes actors strategically calculate (Immergut: doctors' groups compromise or not depending on where they can appeal a decision); sometimes strategies "**ossify over time into worldviews**" that then shape identities (Hattam: US vs British unions developed different outlooks).
  2. **Power asymmetries (its signature move).** Institutions **distribute power unevenly** — they give some groups **disproportionate access** to decisions and "structure conflict to privilege some and demobilise others." So HI stresses that **some groups win while others lose** (this is the *2nd and 3rd faces of power* from Lecture 1). *(Steinmo on tax; Weir on which coalitions can form.)*
  3. **Path dependence + unintended consequences.** *In plain terms:* the *same* pressure produces *different* results in different countries because each inherited a different institutional track. Past policy leads groups to organise, adopt identities and build interests that become "**costly to shift**" → **lock-in**. Change is bunched at **critical junctures** — crisis/war moments that open a "**branching point**" onto a new path; between them, continuity rules. **Acknowledged weakness:** HI is weak on explaining *what triggers* a critical juncture in the first place.
  4. **Ideas belong in the causal chain.** Institutions aren't the *only* cause — ideas matter too (Goldstein: US institutions amplified some trade ideas over others; Weir: institutions set the *timing* of when Keynesian ideas caught on).
- **Why institutions persist — *path dependence / lock-in*** (*in plain terms:* the longer you're on a track, the more expensive it becomes to reverse, so you don't).
- **Best at:** the **most "commodious," realistic** school — the **bridge/pivot** between RCI and SI (its arguments translate into RCI terms yet open toward SI).
- **Weak at:** pinning down the **exact causal mechanism** (the price of being eclectic); and it leans so heavily on **induction** (digging through the historical record) that it's been **slow to build systematic, generalisable theory.**
- **Exemplars: Immergut** (health-care reform), **Steinmo** (tax), **Hattam** (US labour), **Skocpol** (welfare states & state capacity), **Thelen** (how institutions evolve). *(The school **Busemeyer & Thelen** exemplify — see below.)*

Sociological Institutionalism (SI) — culture & legitimacy

Core: institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** — the scripts, symbols and "done things" of social life — that shape not just what actors *do* but **who they think they are and what they want**; organisations adopt practices to look **legitimate**, not to be efficient.

- **In plain terms:** we do most things because they're "**the normal, proper way,**" not because we've calculated they pay off. Institutions *are* culture — they hand us the mental **scripts** for what's even thinkable, and organisations copy the **respectable** forms to fit in, **even when those forms don't actually work well.**
- **Where it came from: organization theory** in sociology (late 1970s). It challenged the Weberian assumption that organisations look alike because that's the **most efficient** design. Its counter-claim: the striking sameness across firms, schools and ministries is **culturally transmitted** — forms spread like "myths and ceremonies," adopted because they're **legitimate**, not because they're efficient.
- **Its three features:**

1. **A very broad definition of "institution."** Not just rules and norms, but **symbol systems, cognitive scripts and moral templates** — the "**frames of meaning**" that guide action. This **dissolves the line between "institutions" and "culture"** (the *cognitive turn:* culture is a web of scripts and templates, not just warm attitudes/values).
2. **How institutions shape action — the *cognitive* view.** They supply the scripts and categories you need to **interpret the world at all**; they specify not just what you *should* do but **what you can even imagine doing.** So institutions shape actors' **identities and preferences themselves** — not just constrain pre-set preferences. People act by a "**logic of appropriateness**" (*in plain terms:* asking "what fits my role / what's the done thing here?" rather than "what's my biggest payoff?"). Even what counts as "rational" is **socially defined** — people act to **express who they are appropriately**, not only to grab material gain.
3. **Origins & change = legitimacy, not efficiency.** An organisation adopts a practice because it's **valued in the wider culture** and makes the organisation look legitimate — **even if the practice is *dysfunctional*** for its real goals (Campbell: a *logic of appropriateness* vs a *logic of instrumentality*). *Where legitimacy comes from:* the **regulatory state** (by fiat), **professions** (professional standards), **discussion networks/forums** (shared "cognitive maps" of best practice), and transnational ideas of "**modernity**"/"**development.**" *(Fligstein: firms diversified because it became the valued thing in managers' professional circles; Soysal: immigration policy followed international **human-rights** norms of what's appropriate, not what was functional.)*

- **Isomorphism** (*in plain terms:* organisations in the same field **coming to look identical** — same forms, procedures, symbols — by copying the legitimate template "regardless of local conditions").
- **Why institutions persist — *taken-for-granted*.** They're so obvious no one questions them, and **no single person can change a collective convention** on their own.
- **Best at:** meaning, legitimacy, identity — and the **inefficiencies RCI can't explain** (the classic point: you still **stop at a red light with no one around** — hardly a payoff-maximising move). It even explains where RCI's "given" preferences *come from*.
- **Weak at: power & agency** — critics call it "curiously **bloodless**"; it can miss the **power struggles** in institutional change and end up looking like "**action without agents.**"
- **Exemplars: Meyer & Rowan** ("myth & ceremony"), **DiMaggio & Powell** (isomorphism / the "organizational field"), **March & Olsen** (logic of appropriateness), **Dobbin, Fligstein, Soysal**.

Change vs continuity — each school's answer *(AUW's deck; the Brexit test)*

Core: take one outcome (e.g. **Brexit**) and give **three competing explanations** — one per school.



How to read it (the Brexit outcome the three schools explain). The 2016 referendum: **72.2% turnout**, **51.9% Leave vs 48.1% Remain** — razor-thin — with the district map showing a **geographic split** (Scotland, London & N. Ireland Remain-blue; most of England & Wales Leave-pink). This single result is the *explanandum*: **RCI** reads it as actors' cost–benefit calculus and interests, **HI** as path dependence hitting a critical juncture, **SI** as a clash of identities/paradigms — same fact, three lenses.

School	Explains CHANGE by…	Explains CONTINUITY by…
RCI	disrupted equilibrium; actors' **interests** (utility-max, cost–benefit); strategic action; **few veto players** (or in agreement)	policy **equilibrium**; **many veto players** (or in disagreement)
HI	**critical junctures**; unintended consequences; powerful **agenda-setters**; institutional inertia	**path dependence**; **policy lock-in**; institutional power vested in key actors
SI	**societal shifts** (materialism→post-materialism); a new **economic paradigm** (Keynesianism→neoliberalism); IR shift (multilateral→unilateral)	deep **taken-for-granted** structures; **national identities**; nested power structures

★ **Worked example — the three schools explain Brexit**

Core: the exam move is to take **one outcome** and give **three competing explanations**. None is "the" answer — each spotlights a different driver, and they're strongest *combined*. Each school's Brexit account, developed:

① **RCI — Brexit as strategic actors pursuing interests.** Institutions are rules that structure the strategic game; the outcome is the aggregate of **cost–benefit calculations** by utility-maximisers.

- **Elite gamble: Cameron** called the 2016 referendum as a *rational* move to manage his own party — buy off Eurosceptic backbenchers and kill the **UKIP** threat — **expecting Remain to win**. A calculated bet (that misfired: unintended consequence, but the *decision* was strategic). Leave elites (**Johnson, Gove**) likewise made career-maximising bets.
- **Voters as calculators:** those who read themselves as **economic losers** from EU membership/immigration (job & wage competition, strained services) found Leave in their interest; **winners** (London finance, exporters reliant on the single market, the highly educated) voted Remain.
- **Rules of the game:** a **binary referendum stripped out the usual veto players** (parliament's equilibrium was bypassed), so a bare 51.9% majority could flip policy.
- *Blind spot:* takes preferences as **given** — it can't say *why* so many Britons wanted "out."

② **HI — Brexit as a critical juncture releasing a path-dependent tension.** Institutions distribute power and **lock in paths**; big change needs a **critical juncture**.

- **Path dependence:** Britain was always the "*awkward partner*" — it **stayed out of the founding EEC (1957)**, joined **late (1973)**, then negotiated **opt-outs** (no euro, no Schengen, the budget rebate). Forty years of *half-in* membership + a sovereign **Westminster** tradition jealous of pooled sovereignty + a Eurosceptic press kept **exit latent** on the path.
- **Critical juncture + timing:** the referendum landed at a specific conjuncture — **post-2008 austerity** and the **2015 refugee crisis** — that gave Leave its opening; Cameron's **2015 election pledge** (itself an unintended consequence of earlier intra-party moves) set the branching point.
- *Blind spot:* strong on *why Britain / why now*, weak on the **precise decision mechanism** on the day.

③ **SI — Brexit as a clash of identity frames.** Institutions are **cultural frames of meaning** that constitute identities; people act by the **logic of appropriateness**, and change = a shift in the taken-for-granted paradigm.

- **Identity, not calculation:** Leave mobilised a **national-sovereignty identity** ("**take back control**") against a **cosmopolitan, pro-European** one — the deep split was **older/less-educated/"left-behind" towns vs younger/urban/university-educated**. Voting Leave *expressed who people felt they were*.
- **Cultural backlash / values shift** (Norris & Inglehart): a **materialist→post-materialist** realignment in which **cultural identity trumped economic interest** — for a certain British self-understanding, being governed from Brussels simply wasn't "appropriate" to *being British*.
- *Blind spot:* strong on **meaning/identity**, weak on **power and strategic agency** (who engineered the vote).

> **Putting them together (cross-fertilisation).** They're complementary: **HI** explains *why Britain and why 2016* (the path + juncture), **SI** explains *why the identity cleavage existed to be mobilised*, and **RCI** explains *why Cameron gambled and how interests aggregated into 51.9%*. That's the model answer — locate each on the structure⇄agency spectrum (SI most structural → RCI most agency) and show how the three combine.

Hall & Taylor's conclusion — cross-fertilise

Core: each school reveals a **genuine but partial** dimension of behaviour, so they should **borrow from each other** rather than stay in isolation.

- Who does what: **RCI** = precision & persistence (weak on motivation/change); **HI** = power & history (weak on mechanism); **SI** = meaning & legitimacy (weak on power/agency). HI is the **bridge** — its arguments translate into RCI terms yet open toward SI (actors pick institutions strategically, but "from a menu made historically available").
- **Emerging syntheses they cite: Kreps** (corporate culture as an efficient supplement to monitoring); **Garrett & Weingast** (norms/ideas as "**focal points**" that select among multiple equilibria); **Scharpf** ("decision rules" [incentives] + "decision styles" [beliefs about appropriate behaviour]); **Bates & Weingast** (strategic interaction as **signalling games** needing cultural context). *(Caveat: they don't claim a full synthesis is yet possible — "there is much to be said for tenacious debate.")*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Institution vs organization	Rules/norms that constrain actors vs groups of actors
Calculus vs cultural approach	Strategic maximising vs interpretation-by-worldview
RCI / HI / SI	Rational-choice / historical / sociological institutionalism
Nash equilibrium	Why institutions persist for RCI (deviation costs you)
Collective-action dilemma	Individually rational, collectively bad (RCI's image of politics)
Path dependence	Past choices lock development onto costly-to-reverse paths (HI)
Critical juncture / branching point	Crisis moment when big institutional change sets a new path (HI)
Unintended consequences	Ubiquitous — why you "can't deduce origins from consequences"
Mobilization of bias	Institutions distribute power unevenly (HI)
Logic of appropriateness	Act on what's socially appropriate, not calculation (SI)
Isomorphism	Organizations in a field converge on the same form (SI)
Frames of meaning	Symbol systems/scripts that constitute action (SI's institutions)

Exam pointers

- Reproduce the **RCI/HI/SI comparison table** — the exam's whole point (Ayca's table).
- Nail **institution ≠ organization** and the **widening definition** (RCI rules → SI frames of meaning).
- Use the **calculus vs cultural** distinction to explain *how* each school links institutions to behaviour.
- Run the **change-vs-continuity table** on one outcome — see the **worked Brexit example**: **three competing explanations** (RCI strategic gamble/interests · HI critical juncture/path dependence · SI identity-frame clash), then combine them.
- Know each school's **signature critique** (RCI thin motivation · HI vague mechanism · SI bloodless/no power).

Busemeyer & Thelen (2020) — Institutional Sources of Business Power *(an HI example)*

Chapter résumé

An **exemplary Historical-Institutionalist study**: where does **business power** come from? The standard split is **structural** power (business's privileged position as investor — the exit/investment threat) vs **instrumental** power (lobbying, donations). Busemeyer & Thelen add a third, **institutional business power** — power that "results when state actors **delegate public functions to private business actors**" and, "over time, through **policy feedback and lock-in effects**," produces an **asymmetrical dependence of the state on business.** They prove it in **education/skill formation** (a "quintessentially public" area where you'd *least* expect business power) across **Germany, Sweden, and the USA.**

> ★ **The heart of the reading:** business power isn't a fixed feature of capitalism — it's **built by institutions over time**. Once the state hands parts of a public service to private actors, **policy feedback + lock-in** make the state **dependent** on them and the change **near-impossible to reverse.** This is *classic HI*: **power asymmetries compounding through path dependence.**

Section-by-section main points

The argument — a third kind of business power

Core: to structural + instrumental power, add **institutional business power** — endogenous to **past policy-design choices**, not a generic feature of capitalism.

- **Three types: structural** (investor's exit threat — Lindblom) · **instrumental** (lobbying/donations) · **institutional** (entrenched role in delivering a **public function**). They act as "**communicating vessels.**"
- **Two conditions** set how strong institutional power is: **(1) the credibility of business's exit threat** and **(2) the depth of state dependence** (has the state lost the capacity to provide the service itself?). Both high → power strongest.
- Once entrenched, institutional power grants business insider "**quiet politics**" access (Culpepper) — so it needs far less *overt* lobbying. The three cases are deliberately "**most different**" (Esping-Andersen's three welfare worlds × Hall & Soskice's *varieties of capitalism*) to show a **common dynamic despite maximally different systems.**

Three mechanisms → three countries

Core: the *same* dynamic (state shares a public function → feedback entrenches business → lock-in) plays out three ways across maximally different systems.

Country	Mechanism	What happened
Germany	**Delegation**	state consciously shares regulatory space with employers (dual apprenticeship training)
Sweden	**Deregulation**	state retreats from provision (school **vouchers** / for-profit "free schools")
USA	**Accretion**	private actors *invite themselves in* (venture philanthropy, charter schools)

- **Germany — Delegation (dual vocational training).** Firm-based apprenticeships rest on **employer voluntarism** (~500,000 youths/year, ≈ the number entering university). **Highest** institutional power: both state dependence *and* exit threat are high. Twice (**1970s**; **red–green 1998**) governments floated a statist **training levy** + school-based alternative; both times employers threatened to cut training places and the government **backed down** — and by the 2000s **unions & Social Democrats had *reversed*** to defending firm-based training (preference **conversion via feedback**). → *Delegation + lock-in + preference change = HI.*
- **Sweden — Deregulation (school vouchers).** Early-1990s reforms broke a near-total **public monopoly**; public money now funds private "independent" schools. By 2014 **ten corporations held 30% of the market** (biggest: AcadeMedia, owned by VC firm EQT); ~85% of voucher schools are **for-profit** — a "welfare-industrial complex." The **2016 Reepalu** profit-cap proposal died after providers threatened to shut down; Reepalu himself: "*we'd be in an easier situation if this had been introduced twenty years ago*" (**lock-in spoken aloud**). → *Deregulation + self-reinforcing feedback (even unions flipped pro-privatisation).*
- **USA — Accretion (venture philanthropy & charters).** Wealthy donors (**Gates, Broad, Walton**) "invite themselves" into education, funding charter schools/CMOs. **High exit threat, lower state dependence**

(private funds *supplement*). Charters ≈6% of US enrolment but **~95% in post-Katrina New Orleans**; **Gates ranked the most influential individual in US education policy — ahead of the Secretary of Education.** In the 2014 de Blasio vs **Eva Moskowitz** fight, Walton-funded groups bused parents to Albany and Gov. Cuomo vowed "*We will save charter schools!*" → *Accretion — instrumental power converting into entrenched institutional power.*

Why it's HI — and how RCI/SI would differ

- **HI hallmarks: power** runs through the whole study (asymmetric state↔business dependence tilting "over time"); **historical legacies** (each country a longitudinal narrative); **path dependence & lock-in** ("reclaiming lost territory becomes more difficult over time"); **policy feedback**; **critical junctures** (German 1982 government change; **Hurricane Katrina** enabling New Orleans's charterisation).
- **RCI would say:** business power = a credible **exit/holdup threat** in a principal–agent game; delegation persists because it's **efficient** (lowers state costs) — but static RCI misses the *temporal tilt* and the change in actors' preferences.
- **SI would say:** private provision spreads because it becomes **legitimate/taken-for-granted** (Germans see employer involvement as "an asset"; Swedes internalise "free choice"; Gates's role "taken for granted") — an NPM/"choice" **template diffusing** (isomorphism) — but SI under-weights the raw **power** the authors foreground.

Exam pointers

- Use this as your **worked HI example**: name the mechanism per country (**Delegation/Germany · Deregulation/Sweden · Accretion/US**) and show **power + path dependence + lock-in**.
- Define **institutional business power** vs structural vs instrumental, and its **two conditions** (exit threat + state dependence).
- Be ready to **re-explain the same outcome in RCI and SI terms** (Ayca's exercise).

Informal institutions *(AUW coda)*

***Core:* informal institutions** = the "informal rules of the game" — "*socially shared rules, usually unwritten, created, communicated and enforced outside officially sanctioned channels.*" They can matter as much as formal ones (esp. in weak states) — and are **not necessarily undemocratic.**

- **Examples: *dedazo*** ("big finger", Mexico — the outgoing PRI president secretly picks his successor) · ***amakudari*** ("descent from heaven", Japan — retired bureaucrats get corporate jobs) · **clientelism** (Peronist Argentina). *Not* undemocratic: the **folkways of the US Senate** (Matthews 1959 — apprenticeship, courtesy, reciprocity, specialisation); pre-Erdoğan Turkish university-rector elections.

★ Fun facts & memorable details

> Sticky bits from Lecture 6 (institutions & institutionalisms).

Quotable

- The framing line: "*political science today is confronted with not one but three 'new institutionalisms.'*"
- **SI's best point** (why we're not just calculators): "*anyone who has waited at a traffic light when no one else was around*" has to admit institutions work non-instrumentally too.
- **RCI's key logical error** (Hall & Taylor): "*one cannot safely deduce origins from consequences*" — because unintended consequences are everywhere.
- SI critique in three words: "*action without agents.*"
- **Reepalu (Sweden):** "*We'd be in a somewhat easier situation if much of what we're proposing had been introduced some twenty years ago*" — path dependence, out loud.
- **Cuomo (US):** "*We will save charter schools!*"

Memorable

- The three schools "developed **quite independently of each other**," each "assiduously burnishing its own paradigm" — a paper about theories that ignored each other.
- **Germany:** ~**500,000** start firm-based apprenticeships each year — about the same as start university.
- **New Orleans** after Katrina: **~95%** of children in charter schools — the highest of any US city.
- **Bill Gates** was ranked the **single most influential individual in US education policy — ahead of the Secretary of Education** (who, at the time, was herself a venture philanthropist).
- **Institution ≠ organization:** the Social Democratic *Party* is the organization; the rules and unwritten norms governing it are the *institutions* — the distinction the whole lecture turns on.

PART II · INTERNATIONAL RELATIONS

IR I: Realism (AUW)

Required reading: PG = **Goldstein & Pevehouse, *International Relations*** — **ch. 1** (*The Globalization of International Relations*) + **ch. 2** (*Realist Theories*). · Lecturer: **Ayça Uygur Wessel.**

Theme of the lecture: first, *what is International Relations* and why we need **theories** to explain it (the field, key actors, **sovereignty**, **levels of analysis**, the **collective-goods problem**). Then the field's oldest and most influential theory: **realism** — how, in a world with no world government, states end up in **competition** for **power** and **security**.

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** a theory is *an explanation of patterns* in world politics (what happened → **why**). Realism's answer runs in one chain: because the international system is **anarchic** (no sovereign above states), states can't trust each other, so they must **self-help**, which means watching **relative power** — and that breeds **competition**, alliances, and war. States are treated as **unitary, rational actors** pursuing the **national interest defined as power**. *Realism isn't "war is good" — it's "given anarchy, this is the logic states are trapped in."*

The red thread. Everything hangs on one word: **anarchy** — *not chaos*, just "**no world police.**" Ask of any event: *how does the absence of an enforcer above states drive this?* Trust becomes risky → survival can't be outsourced → power (especially **material/military**) is the currency → and because one state's gain can shift the balance, even **cooperation** is viewed through the lens of **relative** advantage.

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Theory** (explains patterns) · **levels of analysis** (individual / domestic / interstate / global).
- **Collective-goods problem** & its three solutions: **dominance · reciprocity · identity.**
- **State · sovereignty · anarchy · non-state actors** (IGOs, NGOs, MNCs).
- **Realism** — **unitary + rational** actor; **national interest = power**; classical vs structural vs offensive vs neoclassical.
- **Self-help · power** (capability vs influence; hard/soft) · **relative vs absolute gains · security dilemma.**
- **Balance of power · balancing** (internal/external) · **polarity** (uni/bi/multi) · **hegemony** & hegemonic stability.
- **Alliances** (NATO) · **deterrence/compellence** · the **Prisoner's Dilemma.**

A. Introducing International Relations *(PG ch. 1 — the set-up)*

What IR is — and why we need theory

Core: **IR = the relationships among the world's governments**, tangled up with other actors (UN, corporations, individuals), other relationships (economics, culture), and history/geography. We need **theories** because facts don't explain themselves — a theory turns "*what happened*" into "*why.*"

- *In plain terms:* a theory is a **pair of glasses**. Realism and liberalism look at the *same* events (a war, an alliance, a trade deal) and each highlights different causes. A good theory gives you **clear assumptions** (e.g. realism assumes states are **rational**) and a **shared vocabulary**.
- IR is a **subfield of political science**; its two big halves are **international security** (war & peace) and **international political economy (IPE)** (trade, money, North–South relations).

The collective-goods problem — the core puzzle of IR

Core: how can a group (of states) serve its **collective interest** when each member is tempted to put its **own** interest first? Everyone benefits from a **collective good** (clean climate, a strong alliance) *whether or not they help pay* — so each is tempted to **free-ride**, and if too many do, the good collapses.

- *In plain terms:* it's the **group-project problem** at world scale — everyone wants the good grade, nobody wants to do the work. Domestically a **government** forces contributions (taxes); internationally there's **no world government**, so the problem is especially hard.
- **Three ways to solve it** (recurring across the whole course):

Solution	How it works	*In plain terms*	Upside / Downside
Dominance	a **power hierarchy** imposes order top-down (a "government without a government")	*someone's the boss — obey those above you*	order & stability / oppression & resentment
Reciprocity	**tit-for-tat** — reward cooperation, punish cheating	*I'll help you if you help me; I'll hit back if you cheat*	robust, self-enforcing / downward spirals, hard accounting
Identity	a **shared sense of "we"** makes members sacrifice for the group	*we're family, so I give without keeping score*	deep cooperation / can demonise an out-group

Examples: nuclear non-proliferation runs on all three — **dominance** (the UNSC "big five" keep the bomb), **reciprocity** (the NPT bargain: you stay non-nuclear, we disarm), **identity** (Sweden/Japan chose *not* to build one). **Realism is built on the *dominance* principle.**

Actors — states and non-state actors

Core: the lead actors are **states** — a **state** = "*an inhabited territory controlled by a government that exercises **sovereignty***." But the stage is crowded with **non-state (transnational) actors.**

- **State** = territory + government + **sovereignty** (answers to no higher authority) + **recognition** by others. Careful: *state ≠ nation* (a shared identity) *≠ country*. A **nation-state** is one where the population shares a national identity — the modern state system is only **~500 years old** (before: empires, city-states, fiefs).
- **Non-state actors** (Table 1.2):

Type	Members are…	Examples
IGOs (intergovernmental orgs)	national governments	UN, NATO, WTO, EU
NGOs (non-governmental orgs)	individuals & groups	Amnesty, Red Cross, Greenpeace
MNCs (multinational corporations)	firms across borders	ExxonMobil, Toyota, Walmart
Others	individuals, cities, networks	Bono, al-Qaeda, Iraqi Kurdistan

*(There are **>50,000 NGOs** and **~5,000 IGOs**; there were **193 UN members** in 2018.)*

Sovereignty & anarchy

Core: **sovereignty** = a state's right to do as it likes **inside** its own borders (the **norm of non-interference**), and it's the flip side of **anarchy** — "*not chaos, but the lack of a central government that can enforce rules.*"

- *In plain terms:* **anarchy = "no world police."** No one stands above states to force them to keep promises or protect them — so, realists say, each must ultimately **look after itself** and watch others' **capabilities, not their intentions.**
- **Territorial integrity** (respect borders) and **diplomatic norms** (an embassy = home soil) are strong shared **norms** — the system is far from chaotic even without a ruler.

Levels of analysis — the "zoom level" of an explanation

Core: a **level of analysis** is the *scale* at which you look for causes. The same "why" question can be answered at several levels at once — none is *the* correct one.

Level	You explain events by…	*In plain terms*	Example causes
Individual	particular people's choices/psychology	*the person*	great/"crazy" leaders, crisis decisions, assassinations
Domestic	groups *inside* a state	*the country's insides*	democracy vs dictatorship, public opinion, ethnic conflict, bureaucracies
Interstate / systemic	states interacting; the **distribution of power**	*states vs states*	balance of power, alliances, polarity, trade
Global	worldwide forces	*the whole planet*	technology, the environment, the legacy of imperialism

Tip: higher levels change **more slowly** (individuals rotate through office often; the system's structure rarely shifts). **Realism lives mostly at the interstate/systemic level.**

B. Realism — the main theory *(PG ch. 2 + the deck)*

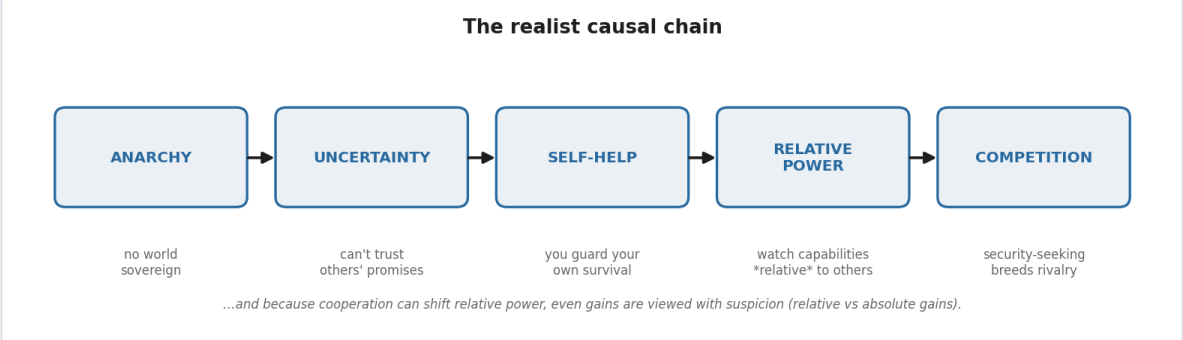
What realism is — its assumptions

Core: **realism** = "*a broad tradition that explains IR mainly in terms of **power***." It's a **family** of theories, not one theory, but they share a few assumptions.

- **The core assumptions:** ① states are the key actors; ② each is a **unitary** actor (speaks with one voice — domestic politics is a "black box"); ③ each is a **rational** actor (defines its interests and picks the option that maximises them); ④ the system is **anarchic**; ⑤ **power politics** trumps morality, ideology and economics.
- **Rational ≠ good or moral.** A rational choice is just the best cost–benefit bet given the incentives. *If a state calculates the expected costs of **not** fighting exceed those of fighting, **war can be rational.***
- **Realism vs idealism/liberalism:** where idealists see human nature as basically good and the system as a *community* that can cooperate, realists see it as **selfish** and the system as **anarchy** — and accuse idealists of studying the world as it *ought* to be, not as it *is*.
- **The lineage: Thucydides** ("*the strong do what they can, the weak suffer what they must*") · **Machiavelli** (expedient power) · **Hobbes** (the anarchic "state of nature" — cf. Hobbes in *PET Module 2*) · **Morgenthau** (modern classical realism: *national interest defined as power*).

★ The realist causal chain — the argument in one line

Core: this is the spine of the whole lecture. **Anarchy → uncertainty → self-help → attention to relative power → competition.**



How to read it (the causal chain). Walk it one link at a time: **anarchy** (no world sovereign) means a state **can't trust** others to keep promises → **uncertainty**; if no one guarantees your survival you must **self-help** (arm, ally); self-help means constantly judging your **capabilities relative to others**; and everyone doing this at once produces **competition.** *A worked link (deck):* "Anarchy creates uncertainty because a state can't trust another to keep its word — e.g. **Denmark–US** under Trump's Greenland threats, which pushed DK to boost conscription and Nordic military ties even though both are NATO allies."

- **Self-help ≠ 'never cooperate'.** States *do* cooperate — but always with one eye on how the deal shifts the balance.

Power — the currency of realism

***Core:* power** = "*the ability to influence others' behaviour.*" For realists it's mostly **material / hard power** (Lukes' **1st face** — see PS Lecture 1), and it's **relational**: *how capable am I **relative to you**?*

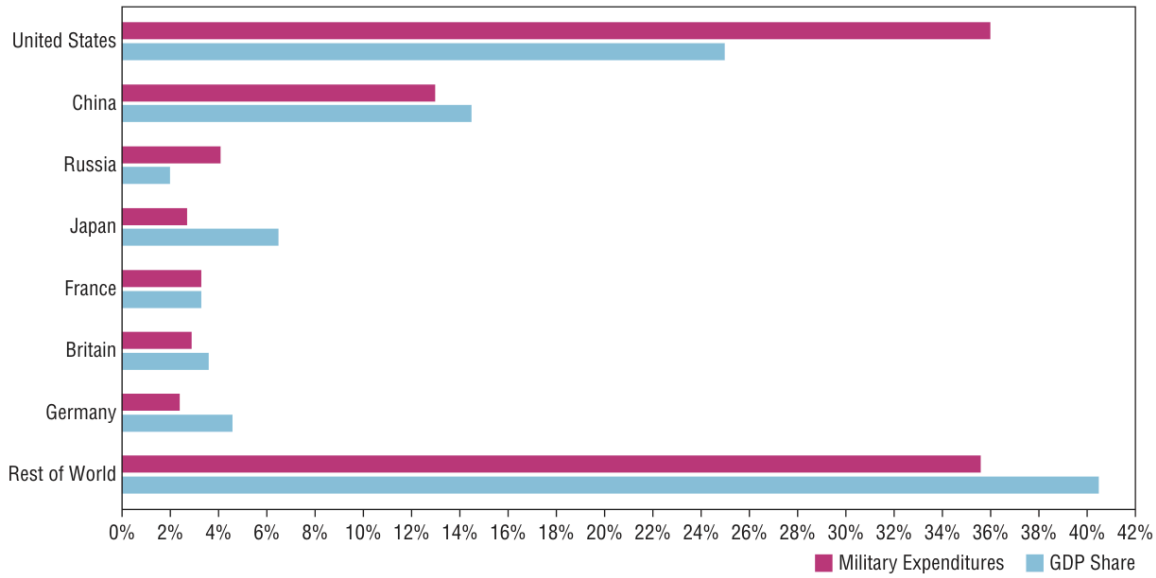
- **Two ways to think about power:**
  - **Power as influence** = getting another to do what it *wouldn't otherwise* do (but this is circular — we rarely know the "otherwise").
  - **Power as capability** = the *resources* behind influence — easier to measure. **Best single yardstick = total GDP** (bundles size, wealth, technology).
- ★ **Elements of power (capabilities) — the sub-concepts.** Power-as-capability is a **bundle of resources**, and the textbook sorts them two ways: by **time horizon** (long- vs short-term) and by **tangibility** (material vs non-material).

Time horizon	Tangible (material)	Intangible (non-material)
Long-term — change slowly; *who **will** be powerful*	total **GDP** · **population** · **territory** · **geography** · **natural resources**	**political culture** · **patriotism** · **education** of the population · **science/technology base** · **credibility / reputation** (keeping its word) · **power of ideas / soft power**
Short-term — influence *now*	**military forces** (size, composition, preparedness — the realist's #1) · **military-industrial capacity** (make weapons fast) · **quality of the bureaucracy**	**legitimacy & support** from constituents/allies · **loyalty** of the army & politicians to the leader

- **Best single yardstick = total GDP** (bundles size + wealth + technology) — but only a *rough* estimator.
- **Fungibility** = how far one element **converts into** another. **Money is the most fungible** (it buys the rest); realists treat **military force** as the most important short-term element and rate the others by how fungible they are **into** military power.
- **Geopolitics** = using **geography** as power — "*location, location, location*": bases near a rival, control of **trade routes** & **key resources** (oil pipelines in Central Asia; new **Arctic** shipping routes as the ice melts).
- ★ **Long-term beats short-term (worked example): Pearl Harbor (1941)** — Japan had the short-term **military** edge and overran the Pacific, but the US's greater **long-term** power resources (economic potential) let it build up and **overwhelm** Japan. *(Capabilities aren't just what you have now, but what you can **generate**.)*
- ★ **Relative vs absolute gains (the exam favourite).** A liberal asks "*do I gain?*" (**absolute**). A realist asks "*do I gain **more than my rival?***" (**relative**) — because today's cooperation can fund tomorrow's threat. *(Deck exercise: if a deal gives you +10 but your rival +20, a realist may **refuse** — the rival's larger gain shifts the future balance.)* Examples: US–USSR nuclear parity; US–China tech race.

Figure 2.3 Great Power Shares of World GDP, 2017, and Military Expenditures, 2016

Data Sources: World Bank Development Indicators, 2017; *SIPRI Yearbook,* 2016.



How to read it (great-power capabilities). Two bars per country — **GDP share** (blue) and **military-spending share** (magenta). The realist reads it as the **distribution of material power**: the **US** leads on *both*, **China** is a clear second, and the other five trail — a snapshot of who can bring what to bear. (This is "power as capability" made concrete.)

The security dilemma — why arming backfires

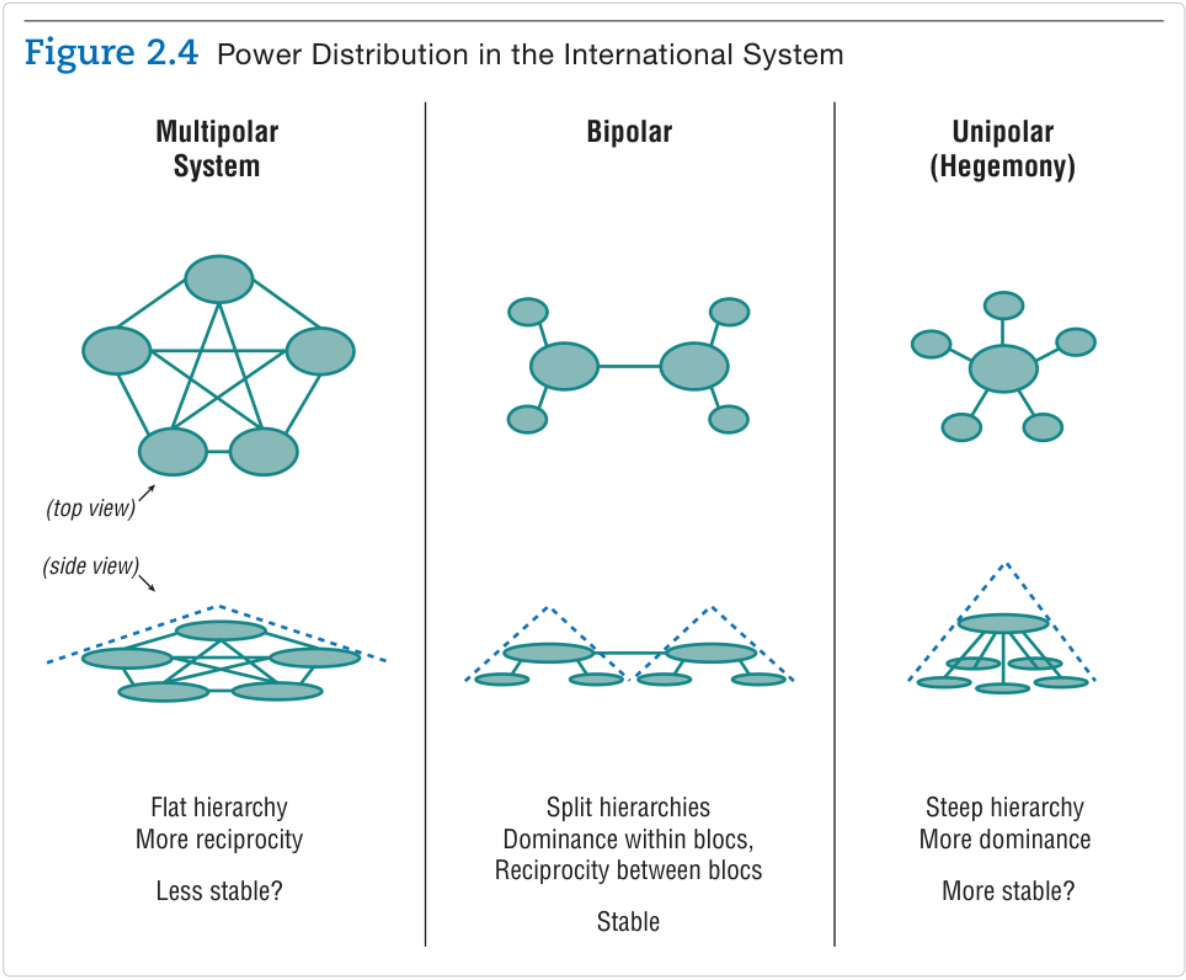
Core: **security dilemma** = *when a state arms to feel safer, it makes others feel **less** safe, so they arm too — and everyone ends up less secure.* A direct product of anarchy, and the engine of **arms races**.

- *In plain terms:* you buy a gun for self-defence; your neighbour sees it, feels threatened, buys two; now you're both more armed and **no safer**. Realists think it's **unsolvable** under anarchy; liberals think institutions can ease it.

Balance of power, balancing & polarity

Core: **balance of power** = a distribution in which **no single state can dominate** — because when power concentrates, others have an incentive to **counter** it. It can be an **outcome**, a **process** (balancing), or a **strategy**.

- **How states balance: internal balancing** (build up *your own* capabilities) vs **external balancing** (form **alliances**). A **balancer** throws its weight against whoever is strongest (Britain in Europe for centuries).
- **Balancing vs bandwagoning:** instead of balancing the strongest, small states sometimes **jump on the bandwagon** of the winner (after WWII most joined the US bloc rather than balancing it) — and states often **balance *threats*, not raw power** (US power was greater but less threatening than the USSR's).
- **Polarity = how many "poles" (great-power centres) the system has** — and structure shapes the choices available to states:



How to read it (polarity). Multipolar (5–6 independent powers): a *flat* hierarchy of shifting alliances — the classic balance of power, but war-prone. **Bipolar** (two blocs, e.g. Cold War): dominance *within* each bloc, reciprocity *between* them — often judged **stable**. **Unipolar / hegemony** (one dominant state): the *steepest* hierarchy. Empirically the book reports peace is best preserved by **hegemony**, next by **bipolarity** — *not* by multipolar equality. *(Link: **power-transition theory** says the biggest wars come when a **rising** power threatens to overtake the top state — the "Thucydides Trap," e.g. US–China.)*

Hegemony & hegemonic stability

Core: a **hegemon** holds such a **preponderance of power** that it can **single-handedly set the rules** of the system (Britain in the 1800s; the US after 1945). **Hegemonic stability theory:** the system is most orderly when power is most **concentrated** — the hegemon supplies order like a stand-in government (deterring aggression, underwriting free trade, providing a reserve currency).

- *Why would the strongest enforce rules that help everyone?* Because as the **biggest trader/producer** it gains most from an open, stable system it dominates. *(Downside: weaker states may see hegemony as **infringing their sovereignty** — China uses "hegemony" as an insult.)*

The realism family — four versions

Core: realism is a **family**; the versions differ on *where* the drive for power comes from and *how much* domestic politics matters.

Version	Key theorist	Where the power-drive comes from	States are…
Classical	**Morgenthau (1948)**	**human nature** + ambition; a timeless "struggle for power"	interest-maximisers
Structural / Neorealism	**Waltz (1979)**	the **anarchic structure** itself forces self-help (not human nature)	—
Defensive (structural)	**Waltz**	enough power to be **safe**	**security maximisers** → balance of power forms
Offensive (structural)	**Mearsheimer (2001)**	*more* is always safer → seek to **dominate**	**power maximisers**, never satisfied with the BoP
Neoclassical	**Zakaria, Rose (1998)**	structure **+ domestic factors** (leaders, perceptions, state–society relations) as an **intervening variable**	—

In plain terms: **classical** = "it's in our nature"; **structural** = "it's the situation (anarchy), not our nature"; **defensive** = "grab enough to be safe"; **offensive** = "the only safe amount is *all* of it"; **neoclassical** = "structure pushes, but domestic politics filters the push."

- ★ **Offensive realism up close — "the best defence is offence" (Mearsheimer).** This is the concept behind "*you attack **in order to** defend yourself.*" It chains straight off **capabilities**: (1) under **anarchy** you can never be **sure** of another state's **intentions** — they can hide them, and they can change overnight — so you must judge others by their **capabilities** (the realist maxim "*watch capabilities, not intentions*"); (2) but *any* state with the **capability** to hurt you is a **potential** threat; (3) so the *only* way to be **certain** you're safe is to be **more powerful than everyone else.** Hence offensive realists say states are **power maximisers** who **expand — and will strike first (pre-emption)** — not out of greed but as the *safest* route to survival. **Defensive** realists reply that grabbing *too much* power backfires: it triggers **balancing** by others (and feeds the **security dilemma**), so the smart move is **enough** security, not domination. *(That debate — **is more power always safer, or does over-reach make you less safe?** — is the whole offensive-vs-defensive-realism split.)*

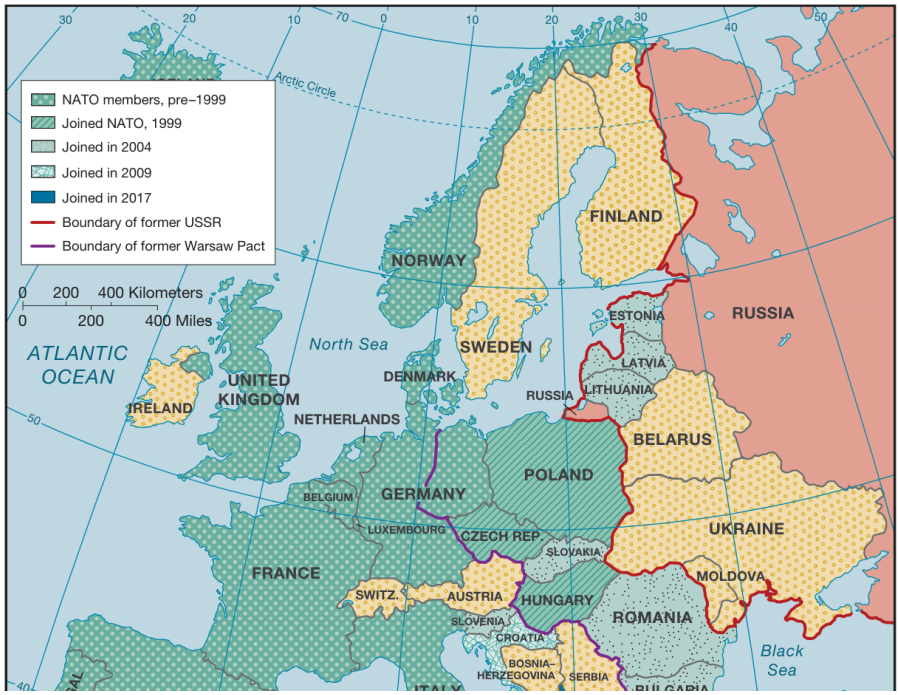
Alliances & NATO

Core: an **alliance** = a coalition of states coordinating (usually by treaty) against a **common threat.** Realists stress **fluidity** — alliances are "*marriages of convenience, not love,*" made and broken on **national interest** (*Palmerston:* "*no eternal allies… only perpetual interests*"). No element of power shifts as **fast** as an alliance.

- **NATO** (1949) = a US-led alliance built to **deter the USSR**; its Cold War rival was the **Warsaw Pact**. Its collective-defence heart, **Article V**, was first invoked *after 9/11* — **Europe defending the US**, the reverse of its original design. Post-Cold-War it **expanded east**:

Figure 2.7 NATO Expansion

Sources: U.S. Department of Defense.



How to read it (NATO expansion). The shading shows NATO creeping **eastward** toward Russia in waves (Poland/Czech/Hungary 1999 → the Baltics + others 2004 → …). Realists read this as classic **security-dilemma** material: the West sees it as **securing democracies**; **Russia** sees encroachment on its borders — each side's "defensive" move looks **threatening** to the other. (**Burden-sharing** — who pays — is the recurring intra-alliance fight, e.g. Trump vs NATO.)

The Prisoner's Dilemma — why rational states fail to cooperate

Core: the **Prisoner's Dilemma (PD)** models why **rational actors, each pursuing self-interest, all end up worse off** than if they'd cooperated. It's realism's pessimism in a 2×2 box.

- *The story:* two prisoners are questioned separately. Each reasons "*whatever the other does, I'm better off **confessing** (defecting)*" — so both defect and get long sentences, when **mutual silence** (cooperation) would have been better.

Figure 2.9 Payoff Matrix in India-Pakistan PD Game

		Pakistan: Cooperate	Pakistan: Defect
India	Cooperate	(3,3)	(1,4)
	Defect	(4,1)	(2,2)

Note: First number in each group is India's payoff, second is Pakistan's. The number 4 is highest payoff, a 1 lowest.

How to read it (the PD matrix). Each cell = *(India's payoff, Pakistan's payoff)*; **4 = best, 1 = worst.** "Cooperate" = *don't* build the bomb; "Defect" = build it. Read India's logic: *if Pakistan builds (right column), 2 > 1 so India should build; if Pakistan doesn't (left column), 4 > 3 so India should still build.* **Defecting dominates** — so both build (2, 2), even though **mutual cooperation (3, 3) is better for both.** That's the tragedy: individually rational →

collectively worse. *(Real world: India tested 1998, Pakistan followed within weeks.)* **Deterrence** (threaten punishment so an attack never happens) and **compellence** (force someone to *act*) are the strategies states use to escape or manage it.

The cooperation puzzle — the bridge to next lecture

Core: if the system is anarchic, **why is cooperation sometimes deep and durable** (EU, WTO, NATO)? **Realist answer:** institutions ultimately just **reflect the interests and power of the strongest states. Liberal answer** (next lecture): institutions can **change the incentives** and make cooperation easier.

Cases & examples

- **Denmark–US / Greenland (Trump) → anarchy → uncertainty**: even between NATO allies, DK couldn't fully trust US respect for its sovereignty → boosted conscription & Nordic defence ties.
- **India–Pakistan nuclear race** → the **Prisoner's Dilemma** in the flesh (both defect → both nuclear, 1998).
- **US–China → power-transition / relative gains** — a rising power unsettling the top spot; balancing in tech, trade, the South China Sea.
- **Rise of China / balancing** → as China's capabilities grow, *others* balance it (Japan's deals with South Korea & the Philippines) — not everyone balances the US.
- **NATO expansion east** → **security dilemma** (Western "securing democracies" vs Russian "encroachment").
- **Libya 2011** → power-as-capability (NATO's ~300:1 GDP edge) *and* **unintended consequences** (weapons spilling into Mali).
- **Nuclear non-proliferation** → the **three solutions** (dominance/reciprocity/identity) working together.

Key terms

Term	Meaning
International relations (IR)	Relations among governments + their links to other actors/forces
Collective-goods problem	Serving the group interest when members are tempted to free-ride
Dominance / reciprocity / identity	The three ways to get cooperation without a world government
Sovereignty	A state's right to rule inside its own borders (non-interference)
Anarchy	No central authority above states ("no world police") — *not* chaos
Levels of analysis	The scale of explanation: individual / domestic / interstate / global
Realism	Explains IR mainly through **power**
Unitary / rational actor	State acts as one voice, maximising its interests (rational ≠ moral)
National interest	The state's overall interest — for realists, defined as **power**
Self-help	Each state must provide its own security
Power (capability vs influence)	Resources behind influence vs getting others to act differently
Relative vs absolute gains	Do I gain *more than my rival* vs do I gain at all
Security dilemma	My arming makes you insecure → you arm → both less safe
Balance of power	A distribution where no state can dominate; balancing counters the strong
Polarity	Number of great-power centres: unipolar / bipolar / multipolar
Hegemony	One state preponderant enough to set the system's rules
Alliance / NATO	Coalition vs a common threat; NATO = US-led, anti-Soviet, now expanded
Prisoner's Dilemma	Rational self-interest → both defect → both worse off than cooperating
Deterrence / compellence	Threat to stop an action vs threat to force an action

Exam pointers

- Define **anarchy** correctly (**not chaos** — no enforcer) and run the **realist causal chain** cold: anarchy → uncertainty → self-help → relative power → competition.
- List realism's **assumptions** (unitary + rational actor, states, anarchy, power > morality) and stress **rational ≠ good** (war can be rational).
- Explain **power as capability vs influence**, and nail **relative vs absolute gains** (the realist refuses a deal a liberal would take).
- Explain the **security dilemma** and use **NATO expansion** as the case.
- Compare **polarity** types and state the finding that **hegemony/bipolarity** preserve peace better than multipolarity; add **power-transition theory**.
- Place the **four realisms** (classical/defensive/offensive/neoclassical) and their theorists.
- Work the **Prisoner's Dilemma** matrix (why *defect* dominates → both worse off) and connect it to arms races & deterrence.

- Use the **collective-goods problem** + **dominance/reciprocity/identity** to frame *why* cooperation is hard under anarchy.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (IR I: Realism)

> Sticky bits from the realism lecture.

- **Thucydides**, ~2,400 years ago: "*the strong do what they have the power to do and the weak accept what they have to accept*" — realism's oldest one-liner.
- **Anarchy ≠ chaos.** It just means **no world police** — the system actually runs on remarkably stable **norms** (an embassy is treated as home soil; borders are respected).
- **Rational ≠ right:** for a realist, if the expected cost of *not* fighting beats the cost of fighting, **war is the rational choice** — morality doesn't enter the calculation.
- **NATO's Article V** (an attack on one is an attack on all) has been invoked **exactly once** — after **9/11**, with **Europe** coming to the defence of the **US**, the mirror image of why NATO was built.
- **The relative-gains trap:** a realist may **turn down** a deal that makes them richer (+10) if it makes a rival richer still (+20) — because the *gap* is what shapes tomorrow's balance of power.
- **Peace by inequality:** the book's counterintuitive finding — a lopsided **hegemony** (one dominant power) keeps the peace *better* than a balanced, equal, multipolar world.
- **Bandwagoning beats balancing (sometimes):** after WWII most states didn't gang up on the US — they **joined** it, puzzling pure balance-of-power theory.
- **Palmerston (1848):** "*We have no eternal allies and we have no perpetual enemies. Our interests are perpetual*" — the realist view of alliances as marriages of convenience.

IR II: Liberalism (AUW)

Required reading: PG = **Goldstein & Pevehouse, *International Relations* — ch. 3, §3.1 (*The Waning of War*) & §3.2 (*Liberal Theories*) + ch. 7 (*International Organizations, Law, and Human Rights*)**. · Lecturer: **Ayça Uygur Wessel.**

Theme of the lecture (AUW — deck). Liberalism as the **theoretical response to realism.** Realism explains rivalry, competition, security dilemmas and arms races — *but what about* European integration, IOs, international trade, arms-control agreements, and the democratic peace? **Liberalism's puzzle:** *if the international system is anarchic, why do states cooperate at all — and under what conditions is cooperation more or less likely?*

> **★ The heart of the lecture:** liberalism keeps realism's starting point — **states are rational, self-interested actors under anarchy** — but reaches the opposite conclusion: **self-interest does not necessarily produce conflict.** Because some interests **overlap**, cooperation is often the rational choice: **self-interest → mutual benefits → reasoned cooperation → stable cooperation.** Two branches say how: **liberal institutionalism** — *institutions* make cooperation easier (information, reciprocity, monitoring, enforcement, the shadow of the future); and **liberal internationalism** — *domestic politics* shape what states want (the Kantian triangle: democracy + interdependence + IOs). *Liberalism ≠ being nice or naïve — it's "under what conditions is cooperation in states' own interest?"*

The red thread. For any case ask: *cooperation looks impossible under anarchy — so what makes it happen here?* Either the answer is **institutional** (rules/monitoring/reciprocity change the incentives) or it is **domestic** (regime type, interests, public opinion shape state preferences). Both keep the realist assumption of self-interested rational states.

Three things liberalism is NOT (deck). Liberalism *in IR* ≠ **economic liberalism** (free markets) ≠ **liberalism in domestic politics** (a left–right ideology). In IR it is a **theory of cooperation under anarchy.**

★ Liberalism at a glance — the scaffold *(same frame as realism)*

> *The whole theory on one page, named by function. Each part is unpacked in the lettered sections below — use this as the map.*

- ① **Rules / assumptions:** rational, self-interested states under anarchy (keeps realism's start) — **but** interests *overlap*, so cooperation is often the rational choice, not conflict. *(The **institutionalist** branch concedes realism's unitary/rational/anarchy; the **internationalist** branch breaks "unitary" by opening the domestic black box.)*
- ② **Branches (types):** **Liberal institutionalism** (Keohane & Nye — *international* level) · **Liberal internationalism** (Kant — *domestic* level). → §B
- ③ **Mechanisms — one chain per branch** *(the exam's core — keep them apart):*
  - **Institutionalism:** master chain **self-interest → mutual benefits → reasoned cooperation → stable**; the *final* arrow ("stable") is locked by **four mechanisms** — **shadow of the future · information/monitoring · reciprocity/enforcement · interdependence.** → §C
  - **Internationalism:** chain **domestic interests → (filtered by institutions) → state preferences → foreign policy → international outcome**, running through the **Kantian triangle** (democracy · interdependence · IOs). → §E
- ④ **Key concepts:** absolute gains (vs realism's relative gains) · international regime (Krasner) · complex interdependence (sensitivity vs vulnerability) · collective security · democratic peace · IGOs/NGOs/UN/international law (ch. 7). → §D, §G
- ⑤ **Why it's weak:** cooperation stays **fragile** — states still cheat & free-ride; institutions lean on a **hegemon** and **fail against great-power aggression** (the veto); interdependence raises war's price but **didn't stop 1914.**
- ⑥ **Critics: realists** — institutions just **mirror the distribution of power** (Mearsheimer), and states fear **relative** gains; **constructivists** — liberalism takes preferences as **given**: *where do they come from?* → §H realism vs liberalism

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The cooperation puzzle** — why cooperate under anarchy? (the question realism can't answer well).
- **Two branches: liberal institutionalism** (Keohane, Nye — international level) vs **liberal internationalism** (Kant — domestic/unit level).
- **Neoliberal institutionalism** — concedes realism's assumptions (unitary, rational, anarchy) but shows cooperation still pays.
- **Reciprocity** & the **shadow of the future · information/monitoring/transparency · enforcement · issue linkage**.
- **International regime** (Krasner) — "principles, norms, rules, and decision-making procedures around which actor expectations converge." *(An international institution ≠ an IO.)*

- **Complex interdependence** (Keohane & Nye) — multiple channels; disruption is costly for both sides (sensitivity vs vulnerability).
- **The Kantian triangle** — democracy + economic interdependence + international organizations.
- **Democratic peace** — democracies almost never fight *each other*.
- **Collective security · IGOs/NGOs · the UN · international law · just war · human rights (ch.7).**

Section-by-section main points

A. How liberalism sees the world *(deck + §3.1–3.2 intro)*

Core: liberalism is **more optimistic** than realism about peace and progress, but it is **not** starry-eyed: states are still **rational actors pursuing self-interest** — the liberal twist is that **self-interest often points to cooperation, not conflict.**

- **The chain (deck): self-interest → mutual benefits → reasoned cooperation → stable cooperation.** Cooperation is possible **without** becoming altruistic.
- **Realism vs liberalism on the "rules of IR":** realists see power politics as **timeless**; liberals see the rules as **slowly, incrementally evolving toward peace** — through the buildup of **international organizations + reciprocity** (and secondarily changing **norms/public opinion**). Liberalism draws on the **reciprocity and identity** principles, where realism draws on **dominance**.
- **§3.1 The Waning of War (the empirical backdrop):** contrary to the media impression, this is **one of the least warlike periods ever.** Battle-deaths have fallen sharply since WWII (tens of millions → millions → hundreds of thousands); the **last great-power war ended 60+ years ago**; today's conflicts (Syria, Yemen, Ukraine) are, by historical standards, **small wars.** → *This trend is what liberalism claims to explain and realism struggles to.*

B. The two branches of liberalism *(deck)*

Core: liberalism gives **two** answers to realism — one at the **international** level, one at the **domestic** level.

	Liberal Institutionalism	Liberal Internationalism
Key names	**Keohane & Nye**	**Kant**
Main question	How can states cooperate despite anarchy?	Why do states *want* different things?
Level of analysis	**International** (systemic)	**Domestic / unit** level
Core mechanisms	Information · reciprocity · monitoring · enforcement	Regime type · institutions · interests · public opinion
Simple claim	**Institutions make cooperation easier**	**Domestic politics shape state preferences**

*(Deck aside: liberal internationalism's focus on the domestic level mirrors what **neoclassical realism** does on the realist side — both "open up" the state rather than treating it as a black box.)*

C. ★ Liberal institutionalism — what makes cooperation possible *(§3.2.2 + deck)*

Core: **neoliberal (institutionalist)** thinking says to realists: "*Even granting your assumptions — unitary, rational states under anarchy — your pessimism doesn't follow.*" States cooperate often because it's in their interest, and

institutions help them do it by **changing the incentives.** The engine is **reciprocity**, which enforces rules **without a world government.**

- **International institution ≠ IO (Krasner 1983).** An **international regime/institution** = "*principles, norms, rules, and decision-making procedures around which actor expectations converge*" — not just the UN or EU, but **monitoring arrangements, agreements, and platforms.** Institutions **structure repeated interaction.**
- **The four mechanisms (the deck's core — how institutions enable cooperation):**
  1. **The shadow of the future.** In a **one-shot** game, defecting is a free lunch — you grab the one-time **temptation payoff** and there is no tomorrow to pay for it. **Repeated** interaction changes the *arithmetic*: cheating once wins that bonus but **forfeits every future round of cooperation**, because the other side stops cooperating with you (tit-for-tat). So a purely selfish state weighs **one big cheat now** against **a stream of cooperative payoffs forever** — and when the future is **long enough and valued enough** (a low discount on tomorrow), the stream wins. *That* is why a **longer time horizon + more future interaction → higher cost of defection → cooperation more attractive**: cooperation becomes **self-enforcing not because states are nice, but because defection is bad maths.** *(The repeated **Prisoner's Dilemma** — see IR I — solved by **tit-for-tat**: cooperate first, then mirror.)*
  2. **Information changes the game.** Mutual cooperation is the jointly best outcome, yet each side fears the **sucker's payoff** (*I cooperate, you defect*) — and under **uncertainty** that fear makes both defect **pre-emptively**, even when both would rather cooperate. **Reporting** (what parties *say*) + **monitoring** (what they *actually do*) → **transparency** attacks the **fear, not the payoffs**: once I can verify you are complying, the risk of being suckered without recourse collapses, so I can safely **condition my cooperation on your observed behaviour.** Information also **makes reciprocity possible at all** — you cannot punish a cheat you cannot detect. *(Ex: the **European Semester** — the EU monitors member states' budgets to deter "excessive deficits.")*
  3. **Reciprocity & enforcement.** ***Reciprocity = responding in kind*** — meet **cooperation with cooperation** and **defection with punishment** (*positive* reciprocity rewards; *negative* reciprocity retaliates). It is **liberalism's answer to "who enforces the rules when there is no world government?"** — states police each other by making **defection cost you tomorrow's cooperation** (**tit-for-tat**: cooperate first, then mirror). So **cooperation ≠ harmony** — it needs bargaining and adjustment, and persists **only when defection has consequences. Why *tit-for-tat* in particular wins** (not "always cooperate," which gets exploited, nor "always defect," which kills cooperation): it is **nice** (never defects first, so two tit-for-tatters lock into mutual cooperation), **retaliatory** (punishes a defection *immediately*, so cheating never pays), **forgiving** (returns to cooperation the instant you do, so punishment does not spiral pointlessly), and **clear** (simple enough that the other side quickly *learns* the rule and sees that cooperating is in its own interest). Institutions supply the machinery to run it: **detect** (monitoring) → **respond** (reciprocity) → **raise the cost** (enforcement) → plus **issue linkage** (cooperate across issues so a concession on one trades for another). *(Ex: **rule-of-law sanctions** — the EU froze **Hungary's** funds.)* **The double edge:** the same reciprocity can spiral into **runaway hostility** — endless mutual punishment (**Israel–Palestine**).
  4. **Interdependence makes conflict costly. Complex interdependence** (≠ friendship, ≠ one-way dependence): states are tied through **trade, investment, finance, supply chains, people, and communication** across *multiple channels*. The mechanism is **opportunity cost**, and it is worth seeing why this one works *differently* from the other three. Reciprocity and the shadow of the future deter by threatening a **future punishment someone has to choose to impose**; interdependence deters **automatically.** War or sanctions **sever the ties themselves**, so the **gains from trade you would lose** are a cost **built into the relationship in advance** — it bites the moment conflict starts, with no decision required. The denser the ties, the larger that standing cost → the **stronger the incentive to negotiate** rather than fight. Two refinements: **(a)** the cost is **mutual but usually asymmetric** — the **vulnerable**

side (no good alternative: an economy dependent on one export market or one gas supplier) has far more to lose than the merely **sensitive** side (feels the disruption but can switch suppliers), so interdependence deters the **vulnerable** party more; **(b)** this is also realism's sharpest counter — interdependence was **high before 1914 and war came anyway**, so the mechanism **raises the price of conflict without making it impossible.** *(Sensitivity vs vulnerability is the textbook's distinction.)*

- **The neoliberal PD argument:** each actor can gain by defecting, but both lose if both defect; in **repeated** play, **strict reciprocity (tit-for-tat)** brings mutual cooperation. **Danger:** reciprocity can also produce **runaway hostility** — a nasty tit-for-tat of punishments (**Israel–Palestine**).
- **The EU — "a liberal-institutionalism masterpiece" (deck):** European states have **shared interests** *and* **incentives to defect**; the institutional solution — **permanent forums, common rules, monitoring, courts/enforcement, issue linkage, repeated interaction** — makes cooperation **easier and more predictable.** After centuries of war, Europe now enjoys a **stable peace.** *(Yet members still "cheat" over the years — cooperation is managed, not automatic.)*

D. International regimes & collective security *(§3.2.3–3.2.4)*

Core: two linked ideas, best kept apart. A **regime** is how liberalism operationalises cooperation in **one issue area**; **collective security** is that same logic applied to the **hardest** issue of all — stopping aggression (*all* against *any* aggressor).

1. International regimes *(§3.2.3)*

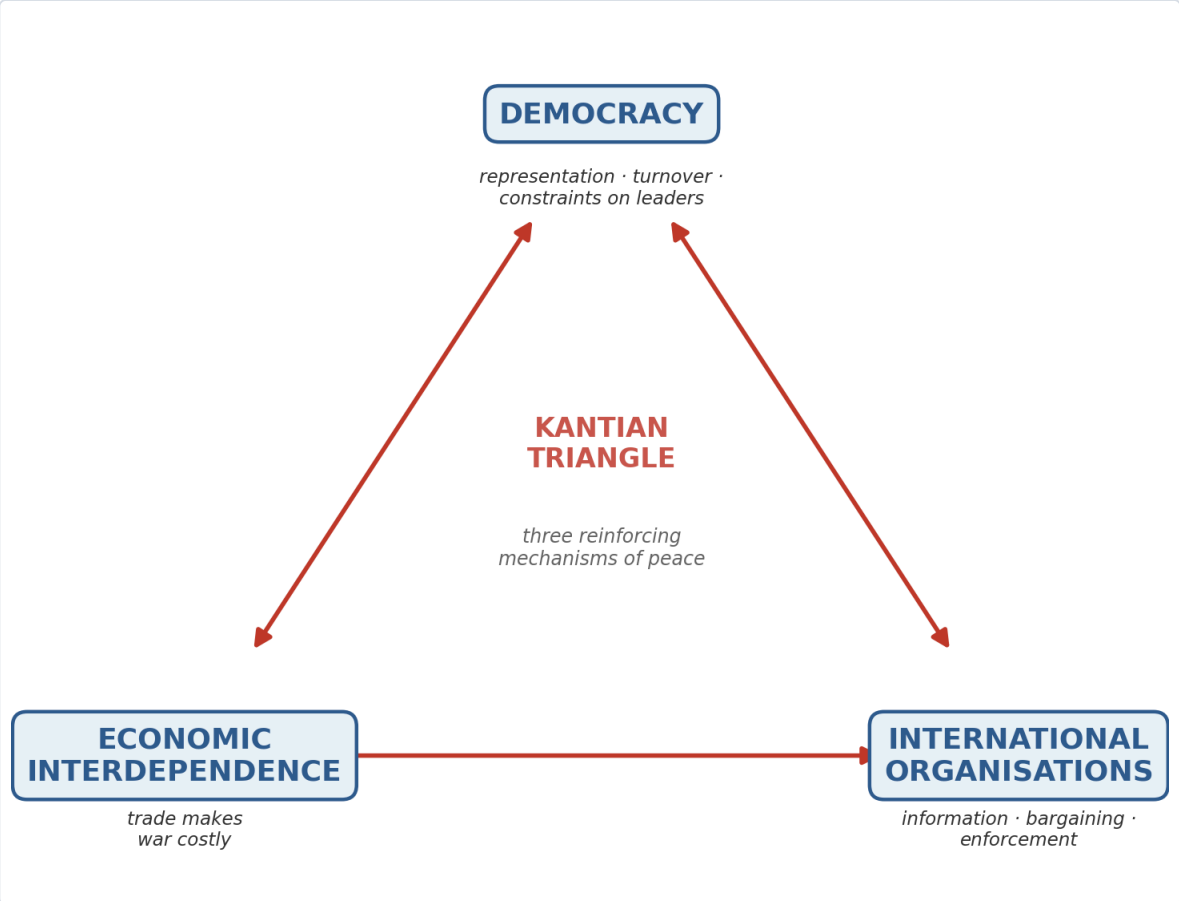
- **What it is:** the **rules, norms and procedures where state expectations converge** in a single issue area — arms control, trade, the law of the sea. *(Fuller Krasner definition in section C; a regime ≠ an IO — it's the shared rulebook, which may or may not sit inside a formal body.)*
  - ***Concrete example — the nuclear non-proliferation regime.*** Watch Krasner's four parts line up: the **principle** that spreading nuclear weapons is dangerous → the **norm** that states should not acquire them → the **rules** of the **NPT** (the treaty text) → the **decision-making procedures** of the **IAEA** (inspections, monitoring, reporting). Most states' expectations **converge** on this one rulebook *even though no world government enforces it* — and that convergence **is** the regime. Note it's **not** a single IO: the NPT (a treaty), the IAEA (a body) and the shared norm together make up the regime.
  - ***Real empirical case — Sweden and Japan had the bomb within reach and chose not to build it.*** Both had the industrial and scientific capability to go nuclear in the Cold War, yet **both stayed non-nuclear** — not because anyone forced them, but because the **NPT bargain** (give up the bomb in exchange for others doing the same + access to civilian nuclear tech) and the **non-proliferation norm** made restraint the **expected, legitimate** choice. The regime did its work: far **fewer states went nuclear than once feared**, because expectations converged on "don't build." *(This is the regime visibly **shaping behaviour** — pure power politics would have predicted capable states arming.)*
- **What it does:** a regime **empowers rather than constrains.** It raises **transparency** (cheating is riskier) and "opens up new possibilities with more favourable cost–benefit ratios," so states join because it **helps** them pursue their interests, not because anyone forces them.
- **Hegemonic stability (a realist–liberal blend):** regimes work best when power is **concentrated** — a **hegemon** willing to enforce the rules and bear the costs. *But* once expectations have converged, a regime can **outlive the hegemon that built it** ("take on a life of their own": US economic regimes survived America's relative decline in the 1970s), and it often **embeds** in a permanent institution (**UN, NATO, IMF**).

2. Collective security *(§3.2.4)*

- **What it is:** the **security-side application** of regime logic (Kant's federation): a **broad alliance of most major powers** that pledges to oppose **aggression by *any* state** — "all against one," unlike an ordinary alliance aimed at a *named* external enemy.
- **Two conditions to work: (1)** members actually **keep their commitments** (no free-riding when the bill comes due); **(2)** they **agree on what counts as aggression.**
- **Its built-in limit:** it **cannot act against a great power** — the **veto** (or that power's own weight) blocks any united response.
- **Evidence:**
  - **League of Nations** — *failed*: the US never joined and members would not bear the costs, so **Japan and Italy** went unchecked in the 1930s. The **UN** is its successor.
  - **Gulf War 1990–91** — *worked*: Iraq's blatant conquest of Kuwait **united** the great powers behind a UN-authorised response.
  - **Iraq 2003** — *split* the great powers (France threatened a veto; the US, UK and Australia acted anyway) — collective security failing exactly where great powers **disagree**.

E. ★ Liberal internationalism & the Kantian triangle *(§3.2.1 + deck)*

Core: liberal internationalism opens the **domestic "black box"**: what a state *wants* (its **preferences**) depends on **who has a say inside it. Kant's three answers** to "how is peace possible?" form the **Kantian triangle.**



How to read it (the Kantian triangle). Kant gave **three** routes to peace, and they **reinforce** each other:

- **Democracy** — republics with **legislatures that check the leader** are constrained from going to war lightly (representation, leadership turnover, accountability). *(→ the democratic peace.)*

- **Economic interdependence — trade increases wealth and mutual dependence**, so war becomes **costly** and less attractive. *(Kant's "trade promotes peace"; realists are skeptical — interdependence was high before WWI, yet war came.)*
- **International organisations** — a **federation of states** (Kant's proposal → today's **UN**) provides **information, bargaining, and enforcement**, letting states forgo short-term gains for long-term cooperation. *(→ liberal institutionalism.)*
- **The point:** each corner makes the others more effective; together they explain why, despite anarchy, the world has grown **more peaceful.**
- **The causal chain of liberal internationalism (deck): domestic institutions + interests + incentives** (who benefits? who has influence?) → **state preferences** (what does the government *want?*) → **foreign policy** (which international choice follows) → **international outcome** (cooperation, conflict, or variation across states).
- **The *how* the arrow hides — why you must open the black box.** Realism reads "the national interest" straight off a state's **position in the system**; liberal internationalism denies there *is* a single interest waiting to be read. A state is **not one actor but an arena**: exporters want open trade while import-competing firms want tariffs; defence contractors and nationalists want a harder line while consumers and internationalists want cooperation; the median voter wants something else again. Each group has a **different preferred foreign policy.** What turns this clash into *the* state preference is **institutions** — the rules deciding **whose voice counts**: who can vote, who holds a veto, whom the leader must keep happy to stay in power, which lobby has access. So the chain really runs **competing domestic interests → (filtered by institutions) → the winning coalition's preference *becomes* "the national interest" → foreign policy.** The payoff — and the whole reason to open the box — is that the **same** external situation produces **different** policies in different states (and different policies in the *same* state once the domestic coalition shifts), because the **aggregating machinery differs.** A systemic-only theory like realism cannot generate that variation, which is precisely why **neoclassical realism** later had to borrow this move.
- **Who's in the black box:** president/PM/monarch, parliament, courts, bureaucracies, business & labour, elections, interest groups, media & public opinion. → *This is why liberalism sits at the **domestic level of analysis** (contra realism's systemic focus).*

F. The democratic peace *(§3.2.5 + deck)*

Core: the **democratic peace** = the strongly-supported empirical finding that **democracies almost never fight *each other*** — though they fight authoritarian states as much as anyone. *(Democratic peace ≠ "democracies are peaceful.")*

- **Not true:** that democracies are *generally* more peaceful — they fight as many wars as autocracies (the most war-prone states of the past two centuries were **France, Russia, Britain**).
- **True:** no major historical case of two democracies going to war with each other.
- **Why (candidate mechanisms — the deck's exercise):** ① **public opinion & representation** (the public, whose support wars need, resists); ② **peaceful leadership turnover** (no need to fight to change rulers); ③ **transparency & mutual understanding** (democracies read each other's intentions); ④ **institutional constraints** (checks and balances slow the war decision). Also: democracies are usually **capitalist** with strong **trade interdependence**, and citizens **don't see other democracies as enemies.**
- **Why it matters theoretically:** the democratic peace is rooted in the **domestic** level → it **contradicts realism's** claim that the systemic level explains the most.

- **Caveats (don't oversell it): democratization/transition** may be *more* war-prone than stable regimes (e.g. Hamas elected 2006); and **democratic institutions can make cooperation harder** — legislatures raise **tariffs**, publics block IOs (US & the League of Nations; **Brexit**).

G. The institutions themselves — IOs, the UN, international law & human rights *(ch. 7)*

Core: ch. 7 is the **empirical "flesh"** on liberal institutionalism — the actual institutions through which states cooperate under anarchy. All of them are **limited by state sovereignty** (there is **no world government**), yet they **structure order** through norms, reciprocity, and legitimacy.

- **IGOs vs NGOs (§7.1): IGOs** = members are **states** (UN, OPEC, WTO, EU); **NGOs** = private/specialised (Amnesty, Greenpeace, Red Cross, religious bodies). The web of IOs has grown steadily → rising **interdependence.**
- **The UN (§7.2)** — "*the closest thing to a world government that has ever existed, but it is not a world government.*" It exists because **states created it to serve their needs** (membership = **indirect leverage**). Key organs:
  - **Security Council** — maintains peace; decisions **binding**; **5 permanent members (US, UK, France, Russia, China)** with the **veto** + 10 rotating members. A single permanent-member **veto** kills a resolution → **paralysis when great powers are involved** (Russia shielding **Syria**).
  - **Peacekeeping** ("**Chapter 6½**"; **blue helmets**) — serve at the **host's invitation**, neutral between combatants (Nobel Peace Prize 1988).
  - **General Assembly** — all **193 members, one vote each** — a "global town hall" (declarations are **not** binding law).
  - **Secretariat / Secretary-General** — administration + **neutral mediator** ("good offices").
  - **Specialised agencies** — WHO, ITU, ICAO; and the economic ones (**World Bank, IMF, WTO**).
- **International law (§7.3)** — derives **not** from a world legislature but from **tradition and agreement. Four sources: treaties** (most important; *pacta sunt servanda* — treaties must be kept), **custom**, **general principles**, **legal scholarship. Enforcement** has no world police → rests on **reciprocity + collective response** (sanctions, reprisals) → therefore **depends on power** (easy to cheat on small issues / if you're strong). The **World Court (ICJ, The Hague)** hears only **state-vs-state** cases (limited jurisdiction).
- **Law & sovereignty (§7.4): diplomatic law** (immunity; sanctity of embassies — the **Iran hostage crisis 1979**) is the bedrock. **Just-war doctrine: laws *of* war (*jus ad bellum*)** — when war is legal (**only in response to aggression**; intent must be just) — vs **laws *in* war (*jus in bello*)** — how it may be fought.
- **Human rights (§7.5):** the idea of universal human rights **clashes with sovereignty** (**universalism vs relativism**; China/Russia call criticism "interference in internal affairs"). Sources: **religion, natural-law philosophy (Locke, Kant, Rousseau), the 18th-c. revolutions. Civil-political ("negative") vs economic-social ("positive") rights.** The **UDHR (1948)** sets norms (not binding law). **R2P (responsibility to protect, 2005)** — states must protect civilians from genocide/crimes against humanity (invoked for **Libya 2011**; *failed* in **Syria**). **War crimes → the ICC** (from **Nuremberg**'s "crimes against humanity" → Yugoslavia/Rwanda tribunals → the International Criminal Court).

Cases & examples

- **Nixon–China rapprochement (1969–72).** The US relaxed its trade embargo; three days later China released detained US citizens, then reciprocated further, culminating in Nixon's 1972 visit. → *Illustrates: **reciprocity** eliciting cooperation between rivals with no world government to enforce it.*
- **Israel–Palestinian tit-for-tat.** Reciprocity works both ways — sustained mutual punishment instead of cooperation. → *Illustrates: reciprocity's **runaway-hostility** danger (cooperation ≠ automatic).*

- **The European Union.** Shared interests + incentives to defect → an institutional solution (forums, rules, monitoring, courts, issue linkage, repeated interaction). → *Illustrates: **liberal institutionalism** at full strength — a stable peace built from institutions.*
- **Gulf War (1990–91).** Iraq's blatant annexation of Kuwait united all the great powers behind a UN-authorised response. → *Illustrates: **collective security working** — clear aggression + willingness to bear costs.*
- **Iraq War (2003).** The Security Council split (France's veto threat); the US/UK acted without UN authorisation. → *Illustrates: collective security's **limits** when the great powers disagree.*
- **R2P: Libya (2011) vs Syria (2011–).** A UN-authorised NATO campaign protected Libyan civilians; Syria's civilians got no such protection (Russian vetoes). → *Illustrates: the **norm shift** toward protecting civilians — and how **sovereignty** + **the veto** still block it.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Cooperation puzzle	Why do states cooperate under anarchy? (liberalism's central question)
Liberal institutionalism	Institutions make cooperation easier (Keohane & Nye; international level)
Liberal internationalism	Domestic politics shape state preferences (Kant; domestic level)
Neoliberalism	Concedes realist assumptions (unitary/rational/anarchy) but shows cooperation pays
Reciprocity / shadow of the future	Repeated interaction makes cheating costly → cooperation rational (tit-for-tat)
International regime	Rules/norms/procedures where actor expectations converge (Krasner)
Complex interdependence	Multiple cross-border channels; disruption costly for both (sensitivity vs vulnerability)
Kantian triangle	Democracy + economic interdependence + international organizations → peace
Democratic peace	Democracies almost never fight *each other*
Collective security	Broad alliance opposing aggression by any actor (League → UN)
UN Security Council / veto	5 permanent members can each block any resolution
International law (sources)	Treaties · custom · general principles · scholarship (enforced by reciprocity)
Just war	*jus ad bellum* (when war is legal — response to aggression) vs *jus in bello* (how fought)
R2P	Responsibility to protect civilians from genocide/crimes against humanity (2005)

Exam pointers

- State **liberalism's puzzle** and its answer: keep the **realist assumptions** (rational self-interested states under anarchy) but show **cooperation is often rational** — and that liberalism is **not** "being nice/naïve."
- Distinguish the **two branches** (institutionalism = international/institutions; internationalism = domestic/preferences) and name their theorists (Keohane & Nye; Kant).

- Explain the **four institutionalist mechanisms** (shadow of the future, information/monitoring, reciprocity/enforcement, interdependence) — and define an **international regime** (Krasner) with the institution ≠ IO distinction.
- Draw the **Kantian triangle** and explain the **democratic peace** precisely (democracies rarely fight *each other*; the mechanisms; the caveats).
- Use **ch.7 institutions** as evidence: the **UN/Security Council + veto**, **collective security** (Gulf War vs Iraq 2003), **international law** (4 sources, reciprocity enforcement), **just war**, **human rights/R2P**.
- **Contrast with realism:** same actors, opposite conclusion — see the table below.

★ Realism vs Liberalism — the payoff

	Realism (IR I)	Liberalism (IR II)
Core principle	**Dominance** (power)	**Reciprocity** (+ identity)
View of anarchy	Forces self-help & competition	Doesn't make conflict inevitable
Human nature / progress	Pessimistic, timeless	More optimistic; rules evolve toward peace
Key actors & level	Unitary states; **systemic** level	States **+ domestic** actors; institutions
Cooperation	Hard; fear of **relative gains** & cheating	Achievable via **institutions & absolute gains**
Central concepts	Power, security dilemma, balance of power, polarity	Institutions, regimes, interdependence, democratic peace
Both agree on	States are **rational actors** pursuing self-interest under anarchy	

The one-line contrast: realism asks "*who has the power?*"; liberalism asks "*under what conditions is cooperation in states' own interest?*"

★ Fun facts & memorable details (IR II: Liberalism)

> Sticky bits from Liberalism.

- **Liberalism ≠ nice.** It keeps realism's rational, self-interested states — it just asks "**when does cooperation pay?**" The optimism is about **incentives**, not about human goodness.
- **We live in one of the least warlike periods ever** — the last **great-power war ended 60+ years ago**, and battle-deaths have fallen from *tens of millions* to *hundreds of thousands* since WWII (the "waning of war").
- **Tit-for-tat** — cooperate first, then simply mirror the other side — is enough to sustain cooperation in a **repeated** Prisoner's Dilemma. No world government required.
- **Kant distrusted democracy** (he feared "mob rule" after watching the French Revolution) — yet his *republics* argument became the **democratic peace**, liberalism's favourite finding.
- **Democracies fight plenty of wars** — just not against *each other.* The three most war-prone states of the last 200 years were **France, Russia, and Britain.**

- **The UN can't heat its own building:** in the 1990s members owed so much in back dues that the UN couldn't afford to heat its NYC headquarters — the campaign slogan became "**Great nations pay their bills.**"
- **UN peacekeeping isn't in the UN Charter** — Dag Hammarskjöld joked the **blue helmets** were authorised under "**Chapter Six and a Half**."
- **Diplomats' parking tickets:** immunity means NYC is owed ~**$16 million** in unpaid diplomatic parking fines — a tiny, vivid example of **sovereignty vs. law.**
- **Grotius returns:** the "**free seas**" principle became law when the **Dutch** (then the **British**) dominated trade and benefited from it — international law often codifies the **hegemon's** interest (cf. *Grotius, PET Module 2*).

IR III: Constructivism / Other Approaches (AUW)

Required reading: PG = **Goldstein & Pevehouse, *International Relations* — ch. 3, §3.3–3.6** (*Social Theories* [constructivism + postmodernism] · *Marxism* · *Peace Studies* · *Gender Theories*). · Lecturer: **Ayça Uygur Wessel.** Deck: "*Social constructivism & critical IR*."

Theme of the lecture (deck). After realism (power) and liberalism (cooperation), a third family shifts the question from **material facts to social meaning.** The deck's two questions: **(A) social constructivism** — *how do ideas, identities, norms and interaction construct interests and behaviour?* and **(B) critical IR theory** — *how do power and hierarchy shape those ideas and the international order itself?*

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** for realism and (most) liberalism, states arrive with **interests already formed** and just pursue them. Constructivism denies this: **interests are not given — they are socially constructed** through **identities, norms and interaction** (social context → identity → interests → behaviour). Its slogan: "**anarchy is what states make of it**" (Wendt). **Critical theories** then add the question of **power**: they ask how a particular order comes to look "**natural**" — and **who benefits and who is silenced** (Marxism, Gramsci, world-systems, postcolonialism, feminist/queer IR).

The red thread. *Where do interests and "the way things are" come from?* Realism/liberalism take them as given; **constructivism** says they're **made through meaning**; **critical theory** says that meaning is **made through power and hierarchy.** For any event ask: *what identities and norms make this action thinkable — and whose interests does the "normal" order serve?*

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Constructivism** — interests/identities are **socially constructed**, not given; draws on the **identity principle**.
- **Social facts vs material facts** — a tank/border/nuke is *material*; its **meaning** (threatening? legitimate?) is a **social fact**.
- "**Anarchy is what states make of it**" (Wendt 1992) — anarchy doesn't dictate friend-or-enemy.
- **Norms** + **logic of appropriateness** (vs realism's **logic of consequences**); **norm entrepreneurs**, NGOs, IOs.
- **Postmodernism** — texts/**discourse**, **deconstruction**, **subtext**; states as "fictions."
- **Critical theory** — denaturalise the order; **hierarchy** not just anarchy; **power over ideas/knowledge.**

- **Marxism** — class struggle; **Marx (domestic) vs Lenin (imperialism)**; **Gramsci** (hegemony = consent); **Wallerstein** (core/periphery); **postcolonialism / Said** (Orientalism).
- **Feminist & queer IR** — difference · liberal · postmodern feminism; the **masculinity of realism.**
- **Peace studies** — conflict resolution/**mediation**, **positive peace**, **structural violence**, **nonviolence**, **militarism**.

A. Social constructivism *(PG §3.3 + deck)*

★ Constructivism at a glance — the scaffold *(same frame as realism & liberalism)*

> *Use as the map; each item is unpacked in the sub-sections below.*

- ① **Core move / assumptions:** reject the premise — held by **realism and liberal *institutionalism*** — that **interests are given.** Interests are **socially constructed** through **ideas, identity & norms.** *(Liberal **internationalism** also opens the black box — but derives preferences from **material domestic interests**; constructivism derives them from **meaning**.)* Shift from **material facts → social meaning** (a tank is material; whether it's *threatening* is a **social fact**).
- ② **Sub-approaches: social constructivism** (the main one) · **postmodernism** (discourse, deconstruction, states as "fictions"). → §what it is, §postmodernism
- ③ **Mechanism:** chain **social context + interaction → identity → interests → behaviour**; "*anarchy is what states make of it*" (Wendt — same anarchy → friendship *or* enmity); norms shift via **norm entrepreneurs → legitimacy changes → interests change.** → §anarchy, §norms
- ④ **Key concepts:** social vs material facts · identity → interests · norms · **logic of appropriateness** vs logic of consequences.
- ⑤ **Why it's weak:** better at **explaining after the fact than predicting**; hard to tell a **genuine** identity from one **adopted strategically** for material gain (aid, trade, membership).
- ⑥ **Critics: realists** — norms are just **covers for interests**; **liberals** — it **neglects formal institutions.**

The puzzle — why does the same world produce different "realities"? (deck)

Core: the system contains **material facts** (armies, territory, no world government) — but **material facts don't tell us what they mean.** Meaning is **socially constructed.**

- **The deck's puzzle:** why does the US treat **British** nuclear weapons utterly differently from **North Korean** ones? By raw military power **Britain is far stronger** than North Korea — yet no one calls British nukes a threat. Realism (capabilities) can't explain it; **shared history, alliance and identity** can. → *The **identity** of the other, not just its capabilities, decides whether it's a threat.*
- **A second puzzle:** why do practices once seen as **normal** (colonialism, racial hierarchy, conquest, piracy) later become **illegitimate**? Because the **norms** that give them meaning change.

★ What constructivism is — interests are socially constructed

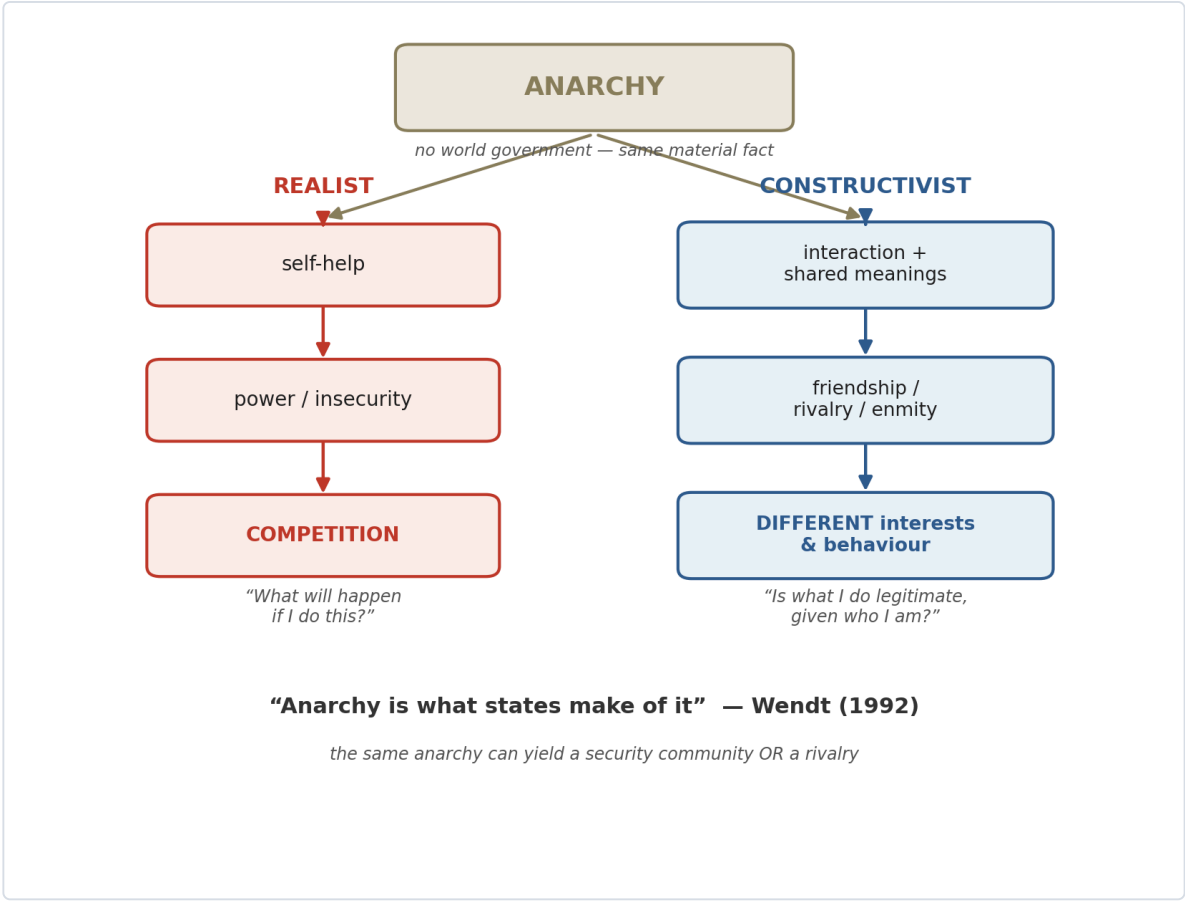
Core: **constructivism** asks *how states come to understand what their interests are.* Where realism/liberalism take interests **as given**, constructivism says interests are **constituted** by **social context + interaction →**

identities → interests → behaviour. It's best called an **approach** (not a theory) built on the **identity principle.**

- **Material facts ≠ political meaning (deck):** a **tank, a border, a nuclear weapon** are material; **money, sovereignty, borders, diplomatic status, alliances, rights** are **social facts** — they exist only because actors **collectively recognise and act on them.** The question is never just "is there a tank?" but *"is the tank threatening? is the border legitimate?"*
- **Identity → interests (deck):** an **identity** is an actor's social understanding of **who it is in relation to others** (friend / ally / rival / enemy / neutral / "**rogue state**"). **Interests change when identities and relationships change**, and identities are **(re)shaped through interaction.** *(Chain: Who am I? → Who are you? → Are you one of us/them? → What kind of relationship? → What should I want/fear/do?)*
- **Logic of appropriateness vs logic of consequences:** realists/neoliberals assume a **logic of consequences** ("what will happen to me if I act this way?"); constructivists add a **logic of appropriateness** ("how *should* I behave, given who I am?"). *Example (PG):* the US intervened in **Somalia (1992)** — of minimal strategic value — because **norms about who deserves protection** had widened (from "Christians" in the 19th c. to a universal human-rights frame).
- **Identities change over time (PG): Europe** went from the continent of two world wars to a place where war became "**unthinkable**" (identities now tied to the EU); **pirates** went from the scourge of the seas to theme-park **mascots**; **Switzerland/Canada** value a *social* status (neutrality, peacekeeping), not just material power. *(What counts as "threatening" is neither universal nor timeless.)*

★ "Anarchy is what states make of it" (Wendt 1992)

Core: the signature constructivist claim — **anarchy has no fixed logic.** It doesn't *tell* a state whether another is friend or enemy; that meaning is built through **interaction and shared understandings.**



How to read it (the deck's slide 9). Both chains start from the **identical material fact** — anarchy. The **realist** (red) reads anarchy as forcing **self-help → insecurity → competition**; the **constructivist** (blue) says anarchy is filled in by **interaction + shared meanings**, which can produce **friendship, rivalry, *or* enmity**. Same structure, opposite outcomes — because the meaning is **made**, not given. The bottom-line question flips from "*what will happen to me?*" (consequences) to "*is this legitimate, given who I am?*" (appropriateness).

	Realist chain	Constructivist chain
Start	**anarchy**	**anarchy**
→	self-help	**interaction + shared meanings**
→	power / insecurity	friendship / rivalry / enmity
→	competition	**different** interests & behaviour
Question asked	*"What will happen if I do this?"*	*"Is what I do legitimate, given who I am?"*

- **Take-away:** for realists anarchy **forces** competition; for constructivists the **same anarchy** can produce a security community (allies who'd never fight) *or* a rivalry — depending on the meanings states build. *(This is the direct answer to realism's structural claim.)*

Norms — and how they change (the apartheid case)

Core: a **norm** is a **shared expectation of appropriate behaviour** for an actor with a given identity (e.g. "states should not use certain weapons"; "respect sovereignty"; "governments should not openly defend racial supremacy"). Norms **shape legitimacy, identities, interests and behaviour** — and actors in turn **reproduce, contest and change** them.

- **How norms spread (PG): norm entrepreneurs** (individuals who travel, write, lobby elites); **social movements & NGOs** (e.g. the anti-apartheid movement building a global norm of racial equality); **IOs** (UN, NATO) diffusing standards of appropriate conduct.
- **★ South African apartheid (deck's worked case).** Racial hierarchy was once embedded in domestic *and* international order → **norm entrepreneurs/movements** challenged it → a **global norm of racial equality** strengthened → racially discriminatory rule became **hard to justify** → NGOs + IOs + states mobilised **boycotts, sanctions, diplomatic isolation. Constructivist claim:** *changing ideas about legitimate rule changed the political environment in which states calculated their interests* — power politics alone can't explain the fall of apartheid.
- **A "natural experiment" (PG):** Britain barely funded the Yugoslavia war-crimes tribunal — realists said "Britain sides with Serbia"; liberals said "free-riding." Then **Blair** replaced **Major (1997)** with *no change* in Britain's strategic interests — yet policy **flipped** (arrests, funding). → the change in **identity/leadership ideas** drove the outcome, supporting constructivism.

Postmodernism *(PG §3.3.2)*

Core: postmodernism denies a **single objective reality** and studies **texts and discourse** — how we *talk and write* about IR. It **deconstructs** realism's key move (the **unitary state actor**) and hunts for the **subtext** (hidden meanings, omissions).

- **States as "fictions":** postmodernists say states have no tangible reality — they're **stories** we tell to organise the actions of millions. Realists were **amazed** when the "unitary" **Soviet Union split into 15 pieces** — the label had masked divergent internal experiences.

- **Deconstruction & subtext:** to *deconstruct* a text is to tease apart its words to reveal what's **omitted or implicit.** Realism's subtext **omits** women/gender, classes, poor countries, non-military power — a "narrow, one-sided story" that (postmodernists say) serves **powerful actors.** *(Postmodernism set the stage for, and was largely absorbed into, constructivism.)*

> ★ **Exercise (deck) — build a constructivist explanation of Putin's war on Ukraine.** *Don't* ask whether Putin's claims are **true**; ask how Russia's leadership **constructs the meaning** of the situation, using the chain **IDENTITY → THREAT PERCEPTION → LEGITIMACY → BEHAVIOUR.** *Who is "Russia" in the narrative? Who are Ukraine / NATO / "the West"? What is presented as the threat? Which norms are invoked to make force look legitimate? How does this construction make invasion representable as **defence/protection** rather than aggression? → the point: identities and norms make some actions **thinkable and legitimate** and others not.*

- **Critics (PG):** realists say norms are just **covers for interests**; liberals say constructivists neglect **formal institutions**; both note it's hard to tell a **genuine** identity from one **adopted strategically** for material gain (aid, trade, membership).

B. Critical IR theory — adding power & hierarchy *(deck + PG §3.4)*

★ Critical theory at a glance — the scaffold *(same frame as constructivism above)*

> *Constructivism asks **how** meaning is made; critical theory adds **power** — who made the order look natural, and who's silenced? Use as the map.*

- ① **Core move:** realism & liberalism treat the world order as a **fixed stage** that states act on. Critical theory refuses that — it turns the spotlight **onto the order itself:** *who built it, whom it serves, and why it looks "natural."* The aim, in three steps: **expose domination → show the order is *made*, not inevitable (= "denaturalise") → open it to change.**
- **…so it shifts the focus** (from mainstream IR → to critical theory): from **anarchy** → to also **hierarchy** · from **power = military capability** → to **power over ideas & knowledge** · from "who acts?" → to "**who's silenced?**" · from "how does the order work?" → to "**whose order is it?**"
- ② **Strands:** Marx · Lenin · Gramsci · Wallerstein · postcolonialism/Said · feminism ×3 · peace studies *(see the menu table below)*.
- ③ **Mechanism: no single chain** — the common move is **denaturalise + ask who benefits.** Each strand supplies its own logic (class exploitation · hegemony/consent · core–periphery surplus flow · Orientalist representation · gendered hierarchy).
- ④ **Key concepts:** hegemony (Gramsci) · core/periphery (Wallerstein) · Orientalism (Said) · class/surplus (Marx/Lenin) · structural violence / positive peace.
- ⑤ **Why it's weak:** often **critique more than testable theory** — strong at diagnosing power, weaker at **prediction.**
- ⑥ **Critics:** mainstream IR — it's **normative / explanatory-thin** and hard to **operationalise or falsify.**

The strand menu — each asks "whose order is this, and who's silenced?":

Strand	One-line claim
Marx	domestic **class struggle** — labour makes the surplus, capital captures it
Lenin	**imperialism** — colonial profits buy off the core's workers → war among empires
Gramsci	**hegemony** = rule by **consent**; dominant ideas pass as "common sense"
Wallerstein	**world-systems** — core / semi-periphery / periphery; surplus flows **inward**
Said	**Orientalism** — power through **representation** (Self/Other binaries)
Feminism ×3	**difference · liberal · postmodern** — gender structures the ideas & hierarchies of IR
Peace studies	**positive peace** removes **structural violence**, not just the absence of war

Core (deck): constructivism asks *how* realities are constructed; **critical approaches add the question of power** — *how are particular realities made to appear **natural**, and **who benefits**?* Critical theory refuses to take existing institutions, categories and power relations **for granted**: it aims to **expose domination → denaturalise the order → open possibilities for change.**

- **The major shifts (deck):** anarchy → also examine **hierarchy** · state interests → ask **how interests are produced** · power-as-capabilities → also **power over ideas & knowledge** · "who acts?" → **who is marginalised/silenced?** · "how does order work?" → "**whose order is it?**"

Marxism & global capitalism *(PG §3.4)*

Core: Marxist approaches see **both** IR and domestic politics as arising from **unequal relations between economic classes** — shifting the unit of analysis from **state ↔ state** to **class, capital, labour, production, the global economy.** Key question (deck): **who produces value, and who captures it?**

- **Class struggle:** more powerful classes **exploit** the less powerful by denying them their fair share of the **surplus** they create; ultimately this scales up to **richer vs poorer world regions** (North–South).
- **★ Marx vs Lenin (the exam distinction — LO 3.4):**
  - **Marx = a *domestic* theory of class struggle.** In industrialising Europe, labour creates the surplus; workers (the **proletariat**) should recapture it through struggle. Marx expected revolution in the **advanced** capitalist countries.
  - **Lenin = a theory of *imperialism* (the international extension).** European capitalists invest in **colonies** for big profits, then use part of those profits to "**buy off**" **the working class at home** (so no revolution there). Once the world was carved up, imperial expansion could only come at rivals' expense → **inter-imperialist war (WWI).** So revolution comes in the **poor/"backward"** periphery (Russia 1917, China 1949), not the rich core.
- **Peasants (not just proletariat):** contrary to Marx, the great 20th-c. revolutions were **peasant** rebellions (China the largest). **Trotsky** (spread revolution worldwide) lost to **Stalin** ("socialism in one country").

The critical-theory strands the deck adds — Gramsci · Wallerstein · postcolonialism/Said

Core: the deck bundles several **critical** approaches that extend the Marxist insight from *material* class to **ideas, structure and identity.**

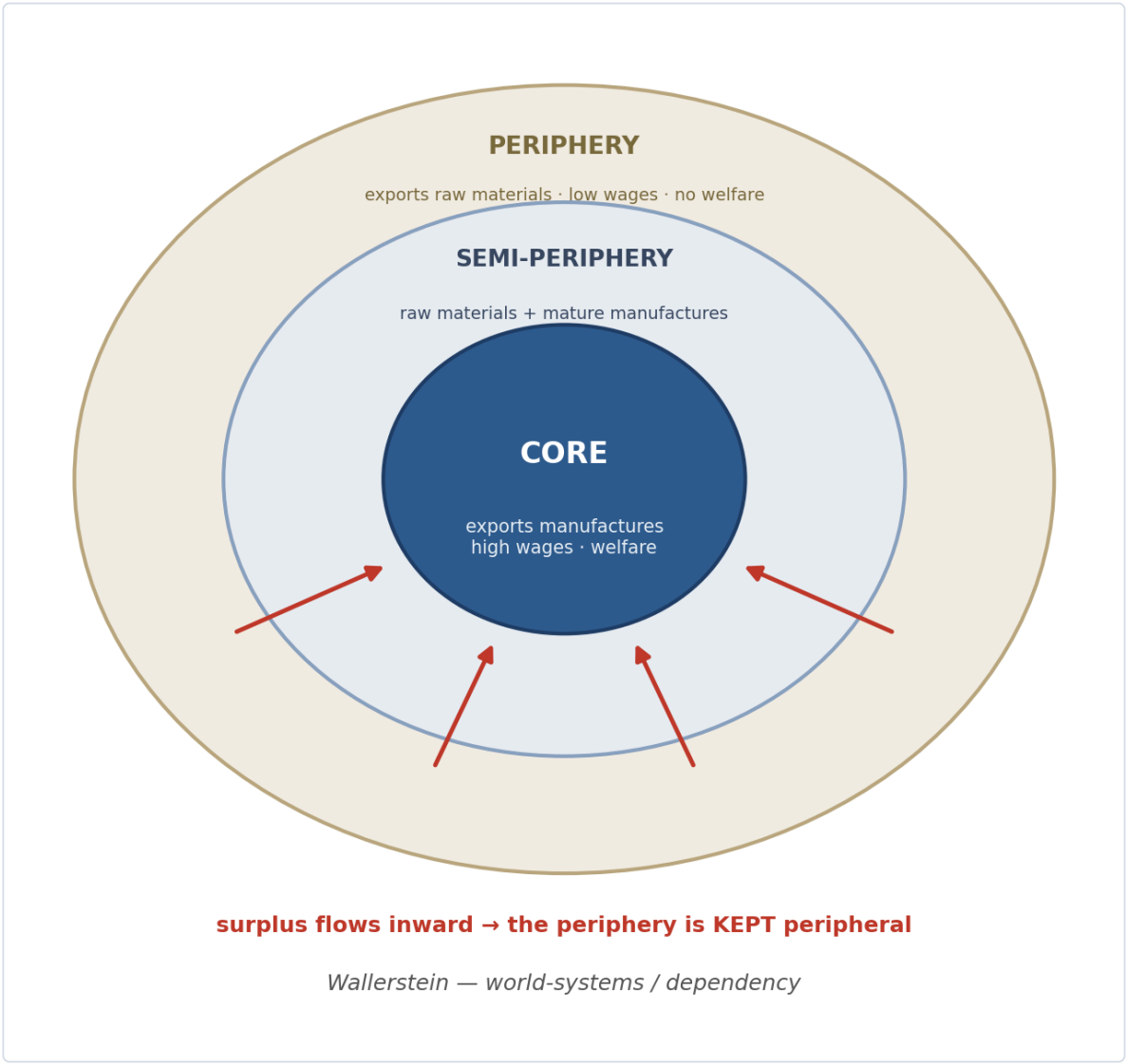
- **Gramsci — hegemony as *consent*, not just coercion. Hegemonic power** is bigger than force: it rests on **consent** — dominant ideas and institutions make a particular order look "**normal, legitimate, universal,**

common sense" ("this is simply how the world works"). **Critical question:** when the "rules of the game" go unchallenged, ask "**who got to write the rules?**"

- **Wallerstein — world-systems / dependency.** The global economy is a **single hierarchy** of three zones (the deck's diagram):

Zone	Government	Production role	Wages / welfare
Core	democratic	imports raw materials, **exports manufactures**; high investment	high wages, welfare services
Semi-periphery	authoritarian	exports raw materials **& mature manufactures**; imports advanced manufactures	low wages, little welfare
Periphery	non-democratic	**exports raw materials**, imports manufactures	low wages, no welfare

→ *dependency theory's claim: the periphery isn't "not yet developed" — it is **kept** poor by its structural position, which channels surplus to the core (cf. **Lenin**).*



How to read it (Wallerstein). The world economy is **one hierarchy**, not a ladder every country climbs. The **core** (rich democracies) exports high-value **manufactures**; the **periphery** exports **raw materials** at low wages;

the **semi-periphery** sits between. The red arrows are the key claim: **surplus flows inward**, so the periphery is not "behind" — it is **structurally kept** peripheral (the dependency/Lenin point).

- **Postcolonial theory — colonialism created *enduring* hierarchies (deck): material** (wealth, trade, borders, institutions), **knowledge** (whose history/concepts count?), and **social** (civilised/backward · developed/underdeveloped · modern/traditional · "**West / Rest**"). **Core question:** *how does the colonial past keep structuring the international present?*
- **Said — *Orientalism* & "othering."** Power works by **representation**: the West constructs "the Other" through recurring **binaries** — **Self** (modern, rational, civilised, orderly) vs **Other** (backward, irrational, uncivilised, chaotic). The mechanism: **represent difference → essentialise groups → produce hierarchy → make unequal treatment seem reasonable.** "*Representation constitutes the subjects we then act upon.*"

Feminist & queer IR *(PG §3.6 + deck)*

***Core:* gender and sexuality aren't just traits of individuals — they structure the ideas, roles and hierarchies of IR.** Feminists ask what becomes **visible** once we stop treating *the state, war, security* as gender-neutral: **whose** security, **whose** labour, **whose** experiences, **whose** voices? All strands agree **gender matters**; they split on **how.**

Strand	Core claim	On women in IR
Difference feminism	Realism reflects a **masculine** worldview (autonomy, separation, force = "manly"); women, on average, are **less warlike** / better at connection & peacemaking	Real change needs **many** women → would **transform** ("feminise") the system
Liberal feminism	Men and women are **equal**; "essential" differences are trivial/nonexistent	Include women in male preserves (leaders, soldiers) — they **play the game the same way**; exclusion just **wastes talent**
Postmodern feminism	Gender is **real but arbitrary & flexible** (not fixed); deconstruct the **subtext** of realist language	Reject both: don't glorify "feminine virtue" *or* just add women to war

- **The masculinity of realism (difference feminism):** realism's **autonomy/sovereignty/anarchy** mirror a "masculine psyche" (separation over connection); the public(masculine)/private(feminine) split maps onto the international(anarchic)/domestic(ordered) split → *realism constructs IR as "a man's world."*
- **Evidence both ways:** the **overlapping bell curves** — genders differ *on average* but overlap hugely (liberal feminists stress the **overlap**: individual women perform like men; difference feminists stress the **shift**: women *as a group* differ, e.g. the ~10-point **gender gap** in support for military action). **Women state leaders** (Thatcher, Gandhi, Meir, Merkel…) were **not** more peaceful — supporting liberal feminism. **Postmodern feminists** deconstruct the sexual **subtext** of weapons talk ("It's a boy" for the H-bomb; "power/potency").

Peace studies *(PG §3.5)*

***Core:* peace studies** shifts IR from the **systemic** level to **individual/domestic/transnational** social relations, and openly **rejects** "**objectivity**" (knowledge through **action/participation**). It reconceives both peace and war.

- **Conflict resolution — the mediation toolkit (LO 3.5): mediation** = a **third party** helps two sides settle short of violence (the **UN** is the biggest mediator). Forms: **good offices** (a neutral channel — e.g. Pakistan passing messages between the US & China, 1971); **arbitration** (both sides agree in advance to accept a third party's binding decision — e.g. the city of **Brčko** in the Dayton process); **confidence-building**

measures (gradually build trust); **linkage** (bundle issues so a concession on one trades for another — Yalta 1945).

- **Positive vs negative peace:** realism recognises only **negative peace** (the temporary **absence of war**); **positive peace** removes the **underlying causes** — including **structural violence** (poverty, hunger, oppression *built into* social structures, which kill more than direct violence).
- **Militarism** = the **glorification** of war (through films, toys, sport, speeches) and the **structuring of society around war** (the military-industrial complex). Less-militarised cultures (Costa Rica — **no army for 70 years**; post-war Japan) show realism's stress on force isn't **universal**.
- **Nonviolence:** a unilateral refusal of violent leverage — **Gandhi** (Indian independence), **MLK** (US civil rights), and **Gene Sharp**'s strategies (taught to **Arab Spring** activists). Practical as well as moral — often the **cost-effective** tool of the powerless.

★ The four theories compared — "theory changes what we see" (deck capstone)

Core: each theory is a different **pair of glasses** — it makes different things visible and asks a different core question.

Theory	Core question	Interests are…	Key concepts
Realism	*Where is the **power**?*	**given** (survival, power)	anarchy, self-help, balance of power, security dilemma
Liberalism	*What enables **cooperation** / shapes preferences?*	**given** (peace, prosperity)	institutions, reciprocity, interdependence, democratic peace
Constructivism	*How did actors come to **understand** their interests this way?*	**socially constructed**	identity, norms, social facts, "anarchy is what states make of it"
Critical theory	*How did this order become **normal** — who benefits, who is marginalised?*	**produced by power/hierarchy**	hegemony, class, core/periphery, colonial & gendered hierarchies

The move across the row: realism & liberalism take the world's **actors and interests as given** and ask how they behave; **constructivism** asks where those interests **come from** (meaning); **critical theory** asks whose **power** made that meaning look natural. *(This is the deck's — and the exam's — payoff: pick an event and show what each lens sees and misses.)*

Cases & examples

- **British vs North Korean nukes.** The US fears NK's bomb, not Britain's far larger arsenal → **identity/alliance**, not capabilities, defines the threat. → *Illustrates: **constructivism** vs realism — the meaning of a material fact.*
- **South African apartheid.** Norm change (racial equality) → delegitimation → sanctions. → *Illustrates: **norms & norm entrepreneurs** reshaping states' interests.*

- **Blair's Bosnia U-turn (1997).** Same interests, new leadership/identity → opposite policy. → *Illustrates: a "natural experiment" favouring **constructivism** over realism/liberalism.*
- **US in Somalia (1992).** Intervention with no strategic payoff → the **logic of appropriateness** + widened norms of who deserves protection. → *Illustrates: **norms over cost-benefit.***
- **Lysistrata / women's peace movements.** From Aristophanes to WILPF to UNSC **Res. 1325** — the long "women as peacemakers" thread (and its limits: female leaders weren't more peaceful). → *Illustrates: the **difference-vs-liberal-feminist** debate.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Constructivism	Interests/identities are **socially constructed** through norms & interaction (identity principle)
Social fact vs material fact	Meaning collectively recognised (sovereignty, alliance) vs brute matter (a tank)
"Anarchy is what states make of it"	Wendt — anarchy has no fixed logic; friend/enemy is constructed
Norm / norm entrepreneur	Shared expectation of appropriate behaviour; actor who spreads it
Logic of appropriateness vs consequences	"How *should* I act?" vs "what will happen to me?"
Postmodernism / subtext	Denies single reality; studies discourse; hidden meanings/omissions
Marxism (Marx vs Lenin)	Domestic class struggle vs imperialism (buying off the core's workers)
Hegemony (Gramsci)	Rule by **consent** — dominant ideas made to seem common sense
World-systems (Wallerstein)	Core / semi-periphery / periphery hierarchy
Orientalism (Said)	Power through **representation** — Self/Other binaries → hierarchy
Difference / liberal / postmodern feminism	Women differ & would transform IR / women are equal, just include them / gender is real but arbitrary
Positive peace / structural violence	Removing the causes of war / violence built into social structures
Mediation / arbitration	Third party assists a settlement / third party's binding decision

Exam pointers

- Explain what **constructivism** adds to realism/liberalism: **interests are constructed** (social context → identity → interests → behaviour), with the **UK-vs-NK-nukes** puzzle.
- State and use "**anarchy is what states make of it**" — contrast the realist and constructivist chains.
- Show how **norms change** via norm entrepreneurs/NGOs/IOs — the **apartheid** case, and the **logic of appropriateness** (Somalia).
- **Distinguish Marx from Lenin** (domestic class struggle vs imperialism) — the LO 3.4 distinction.
- Lay out the **critical shift** (anarchy→hierarchy, "whose order?") and one strand in depth — **Gramsci**, **Wallerstein's core/periphery**, or **Said's Orientalism**.
- Compare the **three feminisms** and the **masculinity-of-realism** critique.

- Describe the **mediation toolkit** (good offices, arbitration, confidence-building, linkage) and **positive vs negative peace** (LO 3.5).
- **Run all four lenses** on one event using the **comparison table**.

Bridge. IR III completes the theory arc: **realism** (power) → **liberalism** (cooperation) → **constructivism** (meaning) → **critical theory** (power *behind* meaning). Realism and liberalism debate *how given actors behave*; constructivism and critical theory ask *where the actors, interests and "normal" order came from* — and who they serve.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (IR III: Constructivism & Critical Theory)

> Sticky bits from constructivism & critical IR.

- "**Anarchy is what states make of it**" — Alexander **Wendt's** 1992 line is the single most-quoted sentence in constructivism: the *same* anarchy can produce NATO or a knife-fight.
- **Britain's nukes don't scare Washington, North Korea's do** — even though Britain's arsenal is far bigger. Proof that in IR, **identity beats capability.**
- **Pirates went from the terrorists of their day to theme-park mascots** — the textbook's vivid reminder that "what counts as a threat" is **not timeless.** (Imagine your great-grandkids on a *terrorist*-themed ride.)
- **A natural experiment:** Tony **Blair** replacing John Major flipped Britain's Bosnia policy with **no change in national interest** — a rare "clean test" that favoured constructivism.
- **Marx vs Lenin in one line:** Marx expected revolution in the **rich** countries; **Lenin** explained why it came in the **poor** ones — the rich bought off their workers with **colonial** profits.
- **Gramsci's hegemony** = getting people to say "*this is just how the world works*" — power that never has to draw its sword.
- **Wallerstein's world-system:** you're not "**not yet** developed" — the periphery is **kept** peripheral so surplus flows to the **core.**
- **Said's *Orientalism*:** the West "knows" the East by inventing it — **representation** becomes a tool of domination.
- **Lysistrata (411 BC)** — Aristophanes had the women withhold sex to end the Peloponnesian War; it was **read aloud in 1,000 venues in 56 countries** in 2003 to protest the Iraq War.
- **"It's a boy":** the coded cable confirming the first **H-bomb** worked — postmodern feminists' favourite example of the **gendered subtext** of weapons.
- **Costa Rica has had no army since 1948** — a living rebuttal to realism's claim that military force is universal and necessary.

IR IV: International Security (AUW)

Required reading: PG = Goldstein & Pevehouse, *International Relations*, ch. 5 (*International Conflict*) · **Bilgin, Pinar, "Security," in Berenskötter (ed.), *Concepts in International Relations* (2025), ch. 14.** · Lecturer: **Ayça Uygur Wessel.** Deck: "*International security.*"

Theme of the lecture (deck). Two moves. First, **unpack the concept of "security"** — it is *contested* and its real-world use is *political* (who gets to call something a "security" issue, and why). Then turn to **conflict and**

war — how and why international (and internationalised) conflicts occur, read through the **levels of analysis.**

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** "security" is not a neutral fact about the world but a **contested, political concept.** Three questions are always in play — **whose security?** (the *referent*: state · society · individual · humanity), **which threats?** (military vs non-military), and **is the state the protector or the threat?** Calling something a "security issue" is itself a **political act** (**securitisation**) that moves it out of normal politics. The different **IR theories** each answer "what is security?" differently, and **war** has causes at three **levels** — the individual, the state/domestic, and the anarchic system.

The red thread. *Security for whom, from what, and provided by whom — and who decides?* Hold those questions through the concept (Bilgin), the theories, and the causes of war (PG ch.5).

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **Security = a contested concept** — thin agreement ("freedom from threats to core values"), deep disagreement on referent, threats, the state's role.
- **Referent object** ("whose security?") — **national/traditional** (state) · **societal** (community/identity) · **human** (individual) · **global** (humanity).
- **The state: protector (Hobbes) vs war-maker (Tilly)** — the four activities: war-making, state-making, protection, extraction ("protection racket").
- **Securitisation** (Wæver) — security as a **speech act**; framing an issue as an existential threat moves it beyond normal politics.
- **The security dilemma** (Herz) — self-help defence can be self-defeating.
- **IR theories & security** — realism (power under anarchy) · liberalism (cooperation/institutions) · constructivism (threats are constructed) · critical (security is political).
- **Causes of war — levels of analysis** (Waltz's *three images*): individual · domestic · systemic.
- **Types of war** (hegemonic/total/limited/civil/guerrilla) and **types of conflict** (ideas: ethnic/religious/ideological · interests: territorial/governmental/economic).

A. Unpacking "security" *(Bilgin ch.14 + deck)*

★ Security is a contested — and political — concept

Core: there is **thin agreement** (security = *freedom from threats to core values*, for individuals and groups) but **deep disagreement** on almost everything else. And crucially, **defining something *as* a security issue is a *political* act.**

- **What's contested (deck):** the **focus of inquiry** (whose security — individual, national, international, global?); the **types of threat** (military vs non-military); the **role of the state** (security *provider*, or a *threat* to security?).
- ★ **The Kilis example (Bilgin's opener).** In 2016, rockets from IS-held northern Syria hit **Kilis, Türkiye**, killing 20+ over five months — yet the government did **not** officially call it a security threat (it portrayed the rockets as merely "falling from the sky"). This changed only in August 2016, when the government prepared a **ground incursion** into Syria and *then* declared the rockets **acts of terrorism threatening national security**. Why the change? **Politics** — initially it didn't want to be seen fighting a group with

"Islamic" in its name; once ready to act, it named the enemy "DAESH." → *Politics is key to how — and whether — governments use the concept of security.*

- **Etymology:** "security" ← Latin ***securus*** ("without worry/concern"). Ironically, early usage saw feeling *too* secure as **bad** (breeds carelessness). **Hobbes** gave it its modern political shape (a strong authority as the condition for security).

Whose security? — the referent object

Core: the biggest disagreement is over the **referent object** — *who or what is to be secured?* The answer is **not fixed**; it changes with which threats which actors prioritise, and **the same event looks different depending on whose security you centre.**

Referent	"Security" asks…	Threat =
National / traditional (the **STATE**)	Is the state safe from **external** threats?	invasion, rival great powers
Societal (the **COMMUNITY**)	Can the group keep its **identity & way of life**?	migration, cultural erosion
Human (the **INDIVIDUAL**)	Are people safe in their **survival, well-being & rights**?	poverty, disease, their *own* government
Global (**HUMANITY**)	Are threats addressed at the level of **humanity/the planet**?	climate change, pandemics, nuclear war

- **Worked example (deck): global warming** looks like an economic issue to one actor, an existential threat to a low-lying island state, a human-security issue to the displaced. *Whose security you centre changes what you see.*

Types of threat — military vs non-military (and how they overlap)

Core: the traditional focus is **military** threats (invasion/territorial aggression, conventional war, nuclear escalation, interstate & civil conflict, coercion/shows of force, armed rebel groups) — but real-world threats are increasingly **non-military** (health, climate, migration), and the categories **overlap.**

- **South China Sea (deck's overlap case).** A **territorial** dispute (sovereignty, Spratly Islands, Exclusive Economic Zones) is *also* **economic** (oil, gas, fisheries), **strategic** (sea lanes — **~⅓ of global shipping** passes through), and **military** (bases, radar, missile shelters — e.g. China's runways on **Fiery Cross Reef**; "show-of-force" behaviour to assert dominance **without declaring war**). → *Analytical distinctions (military/economic/strategic) are tightly knotted in the real world.*

The state — security *provider* or *war-maker*?

Core: two opposed readings of the state's relation to security.

- **Provider (Hobbesian tradition):** the individual **gives up freedom** to be more secure, handing the **monopoly of violence** to the state, which embodies **national sovereignty.** A "security threat" = something posing an **existential threat to the state** (handled by defence, intelligence, law enforcement). *(This is the classic-realist starting point.)*
- **War-maker (Charles Tilly, 1985/1992):** states **earned their statehood through war-making** — "*war made the state and the state made war*" (cf. PET/PS on Tilly); war is the state's *modus operandi*; "**no war = no**

modern state." Tilly's **four activities** (he likens the early state to a **protection racket** — the deck's "Don Corleone" joke):

Activity	= eliminating / neutralising…
War-making	rivals **outside** the territory
State-making	rivals **inside** the territory
Protection	the enemies of its **clients**
Extraction	acquiring the **means** (tax, men) to do the first three

The concept's real-world history — from national → international → human security *(Bilgin)*

Core: the meaning of security was **never fixed**; different uses served different **political agendas**, and the "myth of origin" (US national security) is only one strand.

- **The "myth of origin" — US national security (post-1945).** "National security" rose to prominence in US debates over the post-war role of the US (rivalry with the USSR). Policymakers found it **flexible and catchy** — useful against isolationist/small-government opponents, to keep the US globally engaged and investing in the military. **Arnold Wolfers (1952):** national security as a form of **national interest.** Embedded institutionally via the **National Security Council** and **NSC-68 (1950)** → Truman's massive military build-up (peacetime military spending, newly justified by "national security"). *Contrary to realist assumptions,* US national security was **never only** about external military threats — "**making the world safe for US economic interests**" was central (the World Bank, IMF, GATT as "part and parcel of the security project") → a **creative repackaging** of economic interest as national security.
- **National vs international vs collective security.** The **referent** distinguishes them: US "national security" → the **state** is referent (threat = the USSR); UN "international security" → the **society of states** is referent (threat = another world war). **Collective security** = aggression against one is aggression against all (global in scope; regulates relations *between* members) — *not* the same as an **alliance** like NATO (which defends *against* external threats). The League of Nations' collective security was paralysed by the **unanimity** rule; the UN fixed it with **majority** voting — but protected great powers with the **P5 veto** (so the US never has to act against its will — but any P5 can also block it). First real test: **North Korea's 1950 invasion** (the USSR was boycotting the Council, so it couldn't veto). → the "**Uniting for Peace**" mechanism lets the General Assembly recommend when the Council is deadlocked.
- **Human security — the alternative from *outside* the US.** Newly independent states, wary of superpower pacts (Nehru: "*every pact has brought insecurity*"), sought a "**third way**" focused on **sovereignty and development**, *not* a security frame (**Bandung Conference 1955**; Non-Aligned Movement; **New International Economic Order**). *(Box: **Iran 1953** — PM **Mosaddegh**, who nationalised the oil industry, was toppled by a **CIA-MI6** coup: the UK/US defended their **economic interests in the name of international security** against Iran's search for development.)* When the NIEO stalled, **non-state actors** took up the cause and made **human beings the referent** → "**human security,**" coined by **Mahbub ul Haq** ("secure human development"), embraced by the **UNDP in 1994.** Landmark: the **International Campaign to Ban Landmines (ICBL)** framed landmines as a human-security harm → the **1997 Mine Ban Treaty** + a Nobel Peace Prize (the **agency of non-state actors**).
- **The military-state frame returns (21st c.):** after **9/11**, NATO's collective-defence clause + the UN's collective-security mechanism let US national security be framed as *international* security → the **Global War on Terror.** Its flexibility let many governments re-label domestic opponents as "terrorists" (e.g. China and

Xinjiang). And the **privatisation of security** — **Private Military Companies** like the **Wagner Group** (Russia in Ukraine) — sell security as a marketable good ("we sell a *concept* of security").

B. IR theories & security *(deck)*

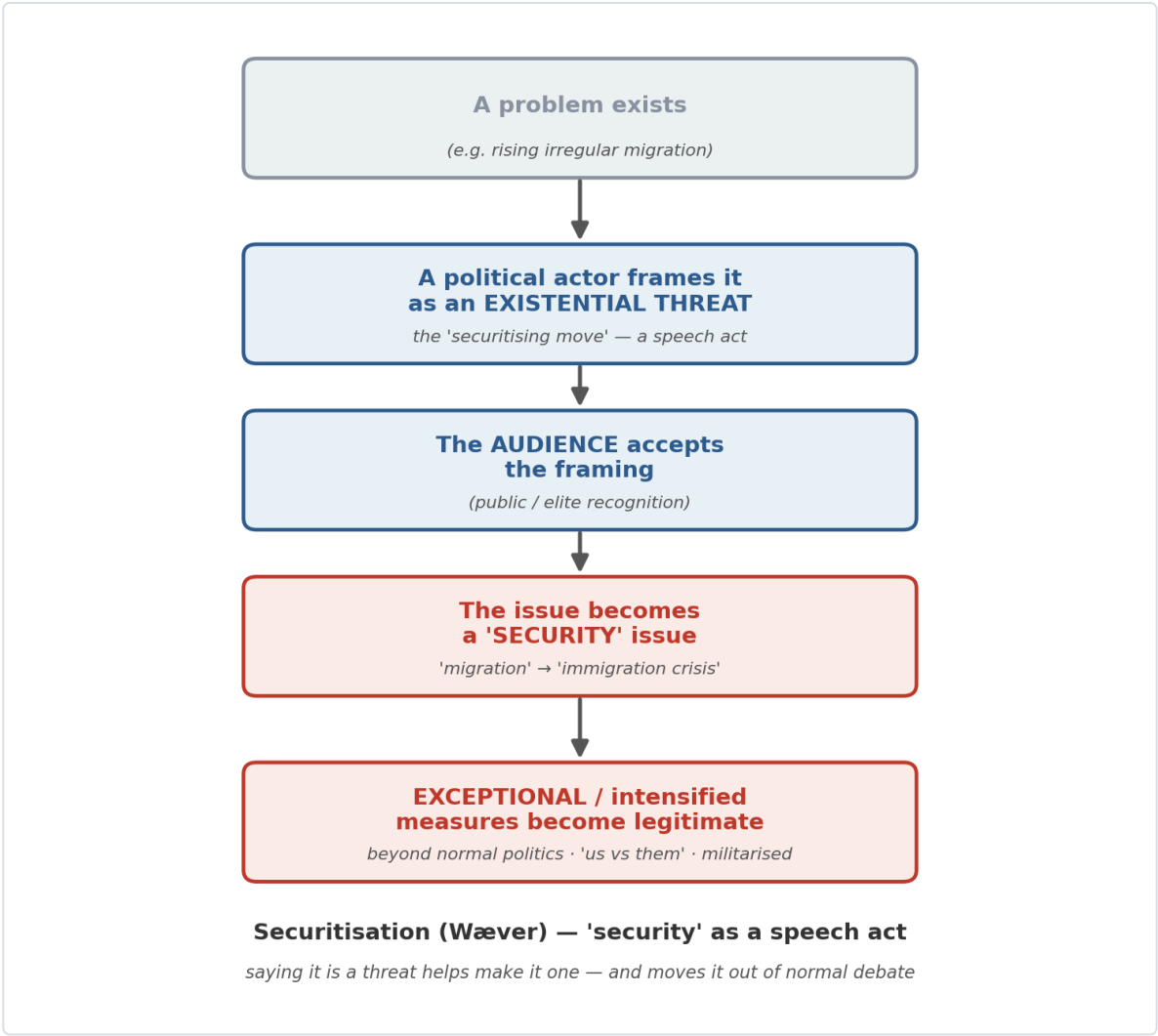
Core: each theory family answers "*what is security, and how do states pursue it?*" differently — and in a crisis, each **looks for different things.**

Theory	Security is…	The chain	In a crisis, it asks…
Realism	surviving under **anarchy**	anarchy → self-help → power/capabilities → **security competition**	military capabilities, alliances, relative power, strategic incentives
Liberalism	achieved through **cooperation**	self-interest → interdependence → **institutions** (info, monitoring, reciprocity) → cooperation	what **blocked** the mutual gains from cooperation? (+ domestic politics → preferences)
Constructivism	**what states make of it**	material capabilities → *(interaction + shared meanings)* → identity → threat perception → behaviour	**how did actors come to understand something as a threat?**
Critical IR	**political**	power shapes which threats/referents count	**whose** security? **who** defines the threat, and with what power? who is **protected vs marginalised**?

- *(Deck exercise: how would each theory explain **the USA's threats against Greenland**? Realism → strategic/Arctic position & relative power; liberalism → institutional/allied damage; constructivism → identity & how "threat" is framed; critical → whose security, whose Arctic, what hierarchy.)*

★ Securitisation — security as a "speech act" (Wæver / Copenhagen School)

Core: critics argue security **does not exist outside discourse** — an issue becomes a "security" issue only because an actor **frames** it as one. **Ole Wæver** calls this **securitisation**: *saying* something is an existential threat is also *doing* something. It is **not politically innocent** — it **removes the issue from normal political deliberation** ("beyond closed doors where experts decide"), lets governments claim **more resources** and **silence critics** in the name of unity against an "existential threat," creates an "**us vs them**" mindset, and often **militarises** the problem.



How to read it. The move that matters is **step 2 → 3**: a **securitising actor** *claims* existential threat, and the **audience** must **accept** it. Only then does the issue "become" security — and the payoff (step 5) is **exceptional powers** outside normal debate. Example (deck): "*increased irregular migration*" (a policy problem) vs "*immigration crisis*" (a securitised threat). **Climate change** is the live debate: securitising it could mobilise resources — but critics warn it creates a false "us vs them" (there is no "them" — *we* are the problem) and risks **militarising** a non-military issue.

Critical Security Studies — the academic critique of realism *(Bilgin)*

Core: IR's understanding of security was long dominated by a **realist** outlook (military threats *to states* from *outside*, met by military means; the state is both **referent** and **agent**). Critics — drawing on **Feminism, Frankfurt-School critical theory, post-structuralism, postcolonialism** — showed security is **socially constructed** and **political**, and re-opened *whose* security counts.

- **Wolfers' warning (1952):** national security is an "**ambiguous symbol**" — used without specification it "leaves room for more confusion than sound political counsel can afford." He split **objective** security (absence of threats to acquired values) from **subjective** (absence of *fear*) — both require judgement.
- **Common security** (Palme Commission, 1982): since there's **nowhere to hide from nuclear catastrophe**, the referent should be "**us all**" — pursue security *with* others, not against them. Rests on the **security dilemma** (Herz 1950): self-serving defence can be **self-defeating** (your build-up scares the other side → arms race → everyone less safe).

- **Gusterson:** realist security scholars not only **failed to predict the fall of the Berlin Wall (1989)** but "were unable to even entertain the possibility" — a blow to realism's authority (too much focus on military capabilities, too little on socio-political context).
- **Eurocentrism** (Barkawi & Laffey): security studied in Euro/Anglo-centric ways — **normative** (privileging EU/Western security — e.g. studying the 2015–16 Mediterranean "refugee crisis" only from Europe's side), **analytical** (Europe at the centre of the framework), **epistemological** (drawing only on the "European experience" as knowledge).
- **Feminist IR — Carol Cohn:** nuclear experts coded attention to the human costs of weapons as "**feminine**" and military might as "**strength**"; "**nuke-speak**" is abstract, gendered language that lets experts discuss weapons **without** confronting their human consequences. Realist security assessments are **not objective** but shaped by ideas of masculinity/femininity (cf. IR III).
- **Ontological security** (Mitzen, Rumelili): people/groups need a **stable identity**; a protracted conflict that threatens your *body* can **stabilise your identity** → actors whose identity is tied to fighting may **block peace** to preserve their "ontological security."
- **Relational approaches** (Bilgin): a state's "failure" to provide security is often a product of **international relations** (esp. the **colonial** legacy and the differential recognition of European vs African sovereignty), not just internal traits — so study security **relationally.**

*(Bilgin's concept web: **security** sits between its **contrast** — violence, war, insecurity, instability; its **cognate** — peace, stability; and its **supporting** concepts — threats, power, deterrence, development, and the physical/material/identity dimensions.)*

C. Causes of war *(PG ch.5 + deck)*

Types of war

Core: "war" (usually defined as ≥1,000 battle deaths) covers very different things:

Type	What it is
Hegemonic war	for control of the **entire world order** (a.k.a. world/global/systemic war) — last one was **WWII**; now probably impossible without destroying civilisation
Total war	to **conquer & occupy** another state (reach the capital, replace the government) — born with the **Napoleonic Wars**; the whole enemy society becomes a legitimate target
Limited war	objectives **short of** surrender/occupation (e.g. 1991 Gulf War retook Kuwait, didn't take Baghdad); **raids** = single-action limited wars
Civil war	factions **within a state** fighting to create/prevent a government or **secede** — often the most brutal
Guerrilla war	warfare **without front lines**; irregular forces hidden among civilians — harass rather than confront; civilians suffer most

★ Why does war break out? — the levels of analysis (Waltz's *three images*)

Core: most wars have **multiple causes at different levels.** The deck uses **Waltz's *Man, the State, and War* (1959)** "three images" — the **individual**, the **state/domestic**, and the **international system** — with **anarchy** as the *necessary* condition.

Level	The explanation	Key names
Individual	**human nature** (power-seeking) *and* **rational cost-benefit** calculation — war can be a *reasoned* choice (leaders may not bear its full cost); "**bad decision ≠ irrational decision**"; also **deviations from rationality** (bias, groupthink)	Thucydides, Machiavelli, Hobbes; **Fearon** (rationalist explanations)
Domestic	**regime type** & decision-making structures; powerful domestic actors, norms & **ideologies** (nationalism, religion); support for **irredentism/secession**; leaders playing to two audiences at once	**Putnam** (*two-level games*); democratic peace
Systemic	not human nature but the **anarchic system** that breeds fear & suspicion: "*wars occur because there is nothing to stop them from occurring*"; power-transition; deterrence vs arms races; long cycles	**Waltz** (1959); power-transition theory

- **Descriptive vs theoretical (PG):** a historian says "*the assassination of Franz Ferdinand caused WWI*"; a political scientist says the assassination was only the **catalyst** — the cause was **shifts in the balance of power.** The levels-of-analysis frame reminds us both (and more) operate at once.

What states fight *about* — conflicts of ideas & of interest *(PG §5.2–5.3)*

Core: PG sorts conflicts into six overlapping types — three over **ideas** (intangible: *who someone is*) and three over **interests** (tangible: *what someone has*).

- **Conflicts of IDEAS:**
  - **Nationalism** — devotion to one's nation over others; the link between **identity** and statehood. **Self-determination** (a nation should have its own state) constantly collides with **sovereignty/territorial integrity**.
  - **Ethnic conflict** — hatred between **ethnic groups**; based not on what someone *does* but **who they are.** Driven by **ethnocentrism** (in-group bias) and, at its worst, **dehumanisation** of the out-group (the step that removes the restraints on violence — e.g. animal names, WWII propaganda).
  - **Genocide** — the systematic extermination of a group; the extreme of dehumanisation.
  - **Religious conflict** — sharpest where **fundamentalist** movements reject **secular** rules (of the state and the international system) as subordinate to divine law.
  - **Ideological conflict** — often **less durable** than it looks (interests frequently drive the "ideological" clash).
- **Conflicts of INTEREST:**
  - **Territorial disputes** — over where **borders** run; especially intractable (states value home territory "fanatically"). **Irredentism** = regaining lost territory; **secession** = drawing a border around a *new* state (Kosovo 2008; South Sudan 2011).
  - **Control of governments** — over who runs an existing state.
  - **Economic conflict** — over trade, resources, money (often underlies the others — e.g. "conflict diamonds," the **Kimberley Process**).
  - *(PG's **Russia–Ukraine** example shows all of these at once: ethnic, religious, territorial (Crimea), and economic — combining rather than separate.)*

★ Synthesis — the two halves in one line

Core: the lecture's arc: **security is a political construction** (whose? from what? decided by whom — and *securitised* by whom), and **war has layered causes** (individual · domestic · systemic). The theories connect the halves: how you define **security** shapes what you count as a **cause of war** — a realist sees anarchy & power; a liberal sees failed cooperation; a constructivist sees threat-perceptions built through identity; a critical scholar asks whose security the whole conversation serves.

Cases & examples

- **Kilis, Türkiye (2016)** — a lethal cross-border military attack **not** called a "security" issue until it was politically useful. → *Illustrates: **securitisation** is political; naming a threat is a choice.*
- **South China Sea** — territorial + economic + strategic + military threats knotted together. → *Illustrates: **threats overlap**; the referent/threat you pick shapes the analysis.*
- **Iran 1953 (Mosaddegh)** — a coup to defend Western oil interests **framed as international security.** → *Illustrates: security as a **creative repackaging** of economic interest; the case for **human security**.*
- **ICBL / landmines** — non-state actors reframed landmines as a **human-security** harm → treaty + Nobel. → *Illustrates: the **agency of non-state actors** and the shift of referent from state to individual.*
- **The fall of the Berlin Wall (1989)** — realist security scholars couldn't even imagine it. → *Illustrates: the **limits of a purely military, state-centric** security lens (Gusterson).*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Security (contested)	"Freedom from threats to core values" — but referent, threats & the state's role are all disputed
Referent object	*Whose* security: national/state · societal · human/individual · global
Securitisation (Wæver)	Framing an issue as an existential threat (a **speech act**) → moves it beyond normal politics
Security dilemma (Herz)	Self-help defence can be self-defeating (your build-up frightens others → arms race)
Human / common security	Referent = the individual / "us all" (vs the state)
Collective security vs alliance	Aggression against one = aggression against all (global) vs defence against an external enemy (NATO)
Tilly's four activities	War-making · state-making · protection · extraction ("the state as protection racket")
Levels of analysis / three images	Individual · domestic · systemic causes of war (Waltz 1959)
Irredentism / secession	Regaining lost territory / drawing a border around a new state
Ethnocentrism / dehumanisation	In-group bias / stripping the out-group of humanity (removes restraints on violence)

Exam pointers

- Explain why **security is "contested"** and **political** — use **Kilis** to show that *calling* something security is a choice.
- Lay out the **referent-object table** (national/societal/human/global) and show the **same event** looks different by referent.
- Define **securitisation** as a **speech act** and run the 5-step chain; give the **migration** or **climate** example and the *dangers* (beyond normal politics, "us vs them", militarisation).
- Contrast the **state as protector (Hobbes) vs war-maker (Tilly)** — reproduce Tilly's four activities.
- Run the **four IR theories on security** (realism/liberalism/constructivism/critical) on one crisis.
- Use the **levels of analysis / three images** to explain the outbreak of a war (individual **Fearon** · domestic **Putnam** · systemic **Waltz/anarchy**), and the **descriptive-vs-theoretical** (Franz Ferdinand = catalyst, not cause).
- Distinguish the **types of war** and the **six conflict types** (ideas vs interests) — with **Russia–Ukraine** as the "all at once" case.

Bridge. IR IV pulls the theory lectures (I–III) onto a single problem — **security & war** — and shows the payoff of theory choice: your theory decides *whose* security matters, *what* counts as a threat, and *why* war happens. It also links back to **Tilly** (the war-made state, PS Lecture 2) and forward to the **use of force** (PG ch.6).

★ Fun facts & memorable details (IR IV: International Security)

> Sticky bits from international security.

- **"Security" once meant *carelessness*** — from Latin *securus* ("without worry"), and feeling **too** secure was considered a **flaw** (it made you drop your guard).
- **The rockets that "fell from the sky":** Türkiye refused to call a 5-month rocket barrage on **Kilis** a security threat — until it wanted to invade Syria. Same rockets, opposite label. Politics decides.
- **Tilly's one-liner:** "*war made the state, and the state made war*" — and his image of the early state as a **protection racket** (the deck jokes: not so different from **Don Corleone**).
- **The P5 veto exists because the US wanted one** — so the UN could never force it into an action it hadn't approved (the catch: any P5 can also block the US).
- **Collective security's first run was an accident:** the UN could act on **Korea (1950)** only because the **USSR was boycotting** the Security Council and wasn't there to veto.
- **"It's a boy"** and **"nuke-speak"** — Carol Cohn's evidence that even nuclear strategy is written in a **gendered** language that hides the human cost.
- **Realists didn't just miss the Berlin Wall — they couldn't imagine it** (Gusterson), which cracked realism's claim to "objective" security knowledge.
- **Climate change is "hard to securitise"** on purpose: there's **no "them"** — *we* are the threat, so the "us vs them" security reflex backfires.

Foreign Policymaking (EA)

Required reading: Ashbee, E. & Hurst, S. (2020), *"The Trump foreign policy record and the concept of transformational change,"* **Global Affairs 6(1): 5–19 · Putnam, R. (1988),** *"Diplomacy and Domestic Politics: The Logic of Two-Level Games,"* **International Organization 42(3): 427–460 (to p.435).** · Lecturer: **Eddie Ashbee.** *(Putnam is CBS-library-only, not in the folder — the two-level-game section below is built from the deck + the standard framework; the win-set detail is the assigned part.)*

Theme of the lecture. The IR theory lectures (I–IV) work mostly at the **international / state level** and treat what goes on *inside* a state as a "**black box.**" This session **opens the box:** foreign policy is shaped by **domestic** as well as international variables, and the two **interact** — theorised through **neoclassical realism**, **Foreign Policy Analysis (FPA)**, and Putnam's "**two-level game.**" The running case study is **US foreign policy since January 2017** — Trump and "Trumpism."

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** foreign policy is **not** just a state responding to the international system — it is the **product of domestic politics interacting with international pressures.** IR's grand theories black-box the domestic; **FPA / neoclassical realism** open it, showing how **individuals, ideas, bureaucracies, interest groups and public opinion** shape policy. Putnam's **two-level game** models the interaction: a leader bargains **internationally (Level I)** and must get the deal **ratified at home (Level II)** at the same time. The **Trump** case tests whether a foreign-policy shift is "**transformational**" — a lasting change in **paradigm, interests, institutions and logics**.

The red thread. For any foreign-policy episode ask: *which domestic variables are in play, how do they interact with the international situation — and is the change **transformational** or just a passing shift?*

Key concepts / "modes" to use

- **The "black box"** — why grand IR theory sidelines domestic politics.
- **Foreign Policy Analysis (FPA) / neoclassical realism** — systemic pressures **filtered through** domestic intervening variables.
- **Domestic variables** — individuals · ideas/ideologies · bureaucratic cultures · interest groups & constituencies · public opinion (+ **salience**).
- **Transformational change** (Ashbee & Hurst) — a lasting shift in **paradigm · interests · institutions · logics**.
- **Embeddedness** — ideas rooted in supportive **interests + institutions** (weak embeddedness → only "proto-transformational").
- **Two-level game** (Putnam) — Level I (international bargaining) + Level II (domestic ratification); **win-sets**; the **Schelling conjecture**.

Opening the "black box" — why Foreign Policy Analysis? *(deck)*

Core: the main IR theories are **international- or state-level** — they largely **relegate or disregard** domestic processes, treating the state as a "**black box**" that responds to the system.

- **Structural realism (Waltz):** international relations are **anarchic**, trust is limited, so **any** state (autocracy *or* democracy) must **prioritise its own security & survival** and will act **if it has the capacities.** *(Domestic type*

barely matters.)

- **Liberal internationalism (Ikenberry):** looks a little more inside — it cares about the **character of political *systems*** (democracies tend to avoid offensive wars — answerable to the public, tied by trade **interdependence**, cooperating through **IOs**; the tongue-in-cheek "**Golden Arches** theory" — no two countries with McDonald's fight). But it still doesn't examine **internal processes** closely.
- **Foreign Policy Analysis (FPA)** & **neoclassical realism** open the box: foreign policy = the **interaction of international structure *and* domestic processes** — not one or the other.

Neoclassical realism — the bridge

Core: **neoclassical realism** keeps realism's **systemic** starting point (relative power, anarchy) but says those pressures are **filtered through domestic "intervening variables"** — leaders' perceptions, state–society relations, institutions — before they become policy. *(This is the neoclassical row of the realism family:* "*structure pushes, but domestic politics filters the push.*") → so **the same international pressure produces different policies** in different states, depending on the domestic filter. This is the theoretical warrant for spending the rest of the lecture on **domestic variables.**

★ Domestic variables that shape foreign policy *(deck)*

Core: five families of domestic variable — each a lens, none sufficient alone.

Variable	What it captures	Watch-outs / examples
Individuals / core actors	the "**great man theory of history**" (Carlyle: "*the history of the world is but the biography of great men*") — leaders' beliefs, style, psychology	**Trump** (impulse control, short attention span). *But* focusing on individuals **neglects structural forces** (see below)
Ideas & ideologies ("belief systems")	the **paradigm** guiding policy — what problems/goals/instruments seem legitimate	Was Trump-I "standard Republican fare" (**Reagan's "peace through strength"**) or a genuine break? *(the debate the reading settles)*
Bureaucratic cultures & sub-cultures	agencies' standing operating cultures; **coalitions & factions** inside the executive	State Dept vs Defense vs intelligence — "trade hawks" vs finance factions under Trump
Interest groups & constituencies	**lobbying, campaigning, campaign contributions, the "revolving door"** — and geographic **constituencies** (e.g. rust-belt states)	note **instrumental power** (direct lobbying) vs **structural power** (business's leverage over investment/jobs)
Public opinion	mass attitudes constraining leaders (e.g. **Vietnam** disengagement blamed on unpopularity)	★ **salience:** except in **acute crisis or heavy losses**, public engagement with foreign policy is usually **LOW** (Durant & Diehl 1989)

- **The structural counterweight (deck):** an individual-only focus **underestimates context.** Trump's mercurial style was *enabled* by the **relative weakness of checks & balances** in the foreign-policy arena — plus deeper trends: **party polarisation**, **party homogenisation**, and a **populist shift.** *(Cf.* ***Truman (1945–53)*** *leading the US into international engagement — a mix of* ***individual*** *commitment + shifts in* ***economic elites*** *+* ***strategic*** *pressure from the USSR: several variables at once.)*

★ Case study — US foreign policy since 2017 *(Ashbee & Hurst 2020)*

The paradigm Trump inherited

Core: to judge whether Trump is a *break*, you must know what he broke *from*. US foreign policy ran on **Liberal Internationalism (LI)** — itself the product of the **1940s transformation** — which then fragmented.

- **Liberal Internationalism (LI)** — after WWII the US committed to **open-ended international engagement + global leadership**, building the **UN, IMF, World Bank, GATT, NATO** and a domestic **national-security state** (National Security Act 1947 → DoD, Joint Chiefs, NSC, CIA). *(This is the reading's model of a completed **transformation** — see below.)*
- **Fragmentation from the 1970s:** LI split. Some (mainly **Democrats**) rejected the **use of force**; another grouping (mainly **Republicans**) rejected LI's **cooperative** side → **militant / conservative internationalism** = **primacism** (US primacy, "hard" power used **unilaterally** or in **coalitions of the willing**, sidelining the UN/multilateralism) **but** keeping a **moral purpose** — faith in **democracy & freedom** (Bush's Iraq war, democracy promotion, nation-building, regime change) and trade liberalisation. This paradigm **weakened from ~2006.**
- **2016 — MAGA:** a populist reaction to "**elite projects**" and perceived **US decline**, addressing both domestic and foreign policy.

Trump's first term (2017–21) — the populist-nationalist break

Core: Trump = **primacism + economic nationalism + "principled realism"** — i.e. conservative internationalism **minus the moral purpose.** The reading distils a **populist-nationalist paradigm** of **five propositions:**

1. **The nation is core** — defined by **ethnicity/culture**, not ideals/principles (Bannon: "a nation with a culture — and a reason for being").
2. **Zero-sum competition** — nations are locked in a **struggle for hegemony**; limited scope for cooperation (the 2017 National Security Strategy used "competition" **18 times**); the US has been "losing."
3. **Anti-"globalism"** — the nation & its people have suffered from **globalism** and global elites ("the party of Davos").
4. **Trade subordinated to the nation** — markets should serve national purposes; hostility to **NAFTA/TPP**; prefer **bilateral ("one-on-one") deals** where US preponderance wins; reject **multilateral** trade liberalisation.
5. **Moral vision abandoned** — no more Reagan's "shining city" or Bush's freedom agenda; **rejects regime change / democracy promotion** ("we are not here to lecture").

- **In practice:** challenging **China**; **transactionalism**; negotiations with **Russia & North Korea**; **unilateralism**; **burden-sharing** demands on allies; doubts about **collective security (NATO)**; **protectionism.**

★ Was it *transformational*? — the Ashbee & Hurst framework

Core: the paper's real contribution is a **precise definition of transformational change** (drawing on **Polanyi**, historical institutionalism, Skowronek). Transformational change = a **lasting** shift across **four** linked elements — not just dramatic-but-passing change.

Element	What must shift	LI (1940s) — the model	Trump (2017+) — the "first cut"
Paradigm	the framework of ideas/goals/instruments (Hall) — until new ideas become **"common sense"**	open-ended engagement & liberal world order	populist-nationalist paradigm (anti-globalism, bilateralism, no moral purpose) — **but only "common sense" to the base**
Interests	new interests grip power; **new coalitions** (Skowronek)	New-Deal coalition + "Wall Street" Republicans sideline isolationists	FP "establishment" & peak business **sidelined**; GOP base shifts to **non-college white workers**
Institutions	formal & informal institutional **re-ordering**	UN/IMF/NATO + the national-security state	withdrawals (**Paris, TPP, UNESCO, UN HR Council**), undermining the **WTO**, gutting the **State Dept**/IC — *but* core alliances **remain intact**
Logics	new **chains of events**/incentives that endure (path dependence)	enduring collective-security commitments	weakened trans-Atlanticism; allies edge toward **self-reliance**; TPP revived **without** the US

- ★ **The verdict:** applying the framework gives a **mixed picture** — the **beginnings of transformational change, but "incipient, partial and variegated."** The **ideational** shift is the most dramatic; institutional/interest shifts are real but **incomplete**; logics are hardest to read this early.

★ Embeddedness — why "proto-transformational"

Core: ideas only become a *lasting* transformation when they are **embedded** — i.e. **rooted in supportive *interests* and *institutions*** (so they outlive the leader). Trump's first-term primacism was **pursued inconsistently** and **weakly embedded** (he **marginalised** the national-security bureaucracy but did **not rebuild** it into a self-sustaining machine for the new paradigm) → only "**proto-transformational.**"

- **Two reasons it may not stick (reading):** (1) **populism is a "thin" ideology** (Mudde) — a **crust** on top of other ideologies, so the administration could be pulled **back** toward conservative/militant internationalism; (2) the US remains **locked into** its key post-war security institutions.

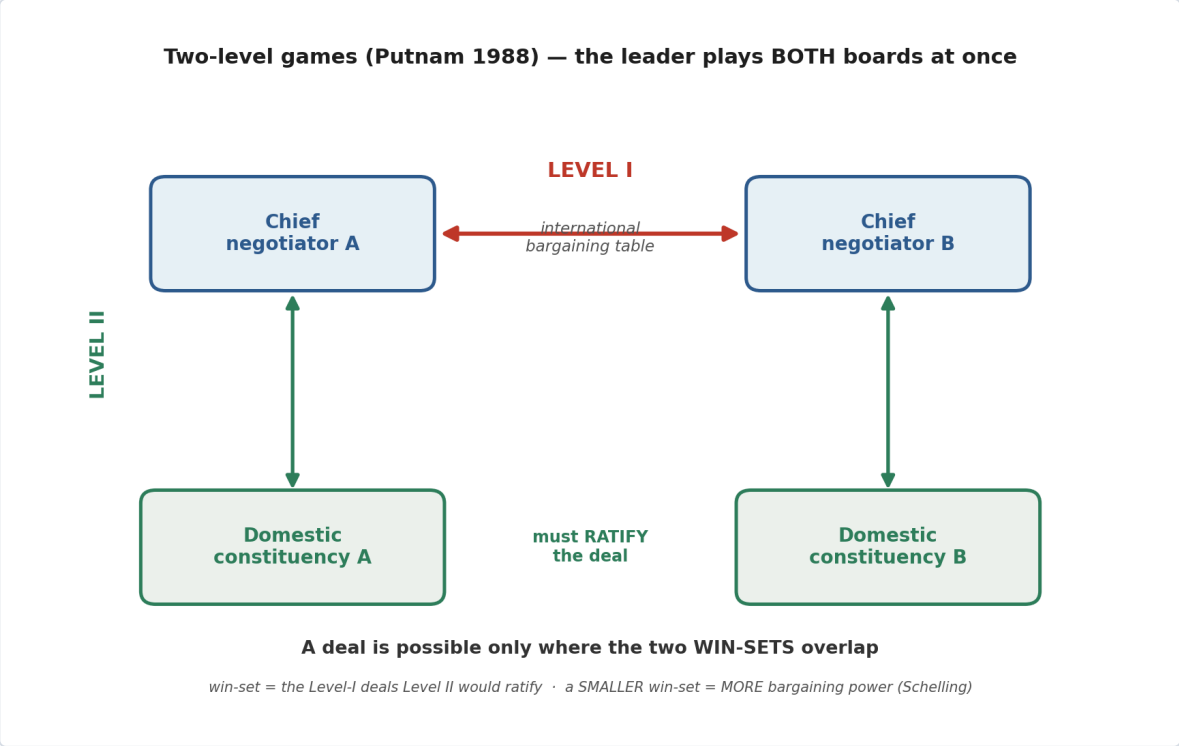
Second term (2025+) & the Democrats *(deck)*

- **Trump II / the GOP: no single guiding ideology** — pulled between rival **ideational clusters.** But some **constants ("floating ideas")** cut across the divisions: **support for Israel** (note the role of **religious conservatism** in the party), **disdain for Europe** + support for "patriotic" forces; **2026** sees growing divisions (e.g. **Iran**).
- **Democrats: no clear foreign-policy orientation**; Biden's "**alliance of democracies**" gained limited traction; continued **opposition to China** + **support for Ukraine**; increasingly **divided over Israel/Palestine (Gaza)** (DNC vs DSA); 2028 wide open.

★ How do domestic & international variables interact? — the two-level game *(Putnam 1988)*

Core: domestic and international variables clearly interact — but *on what terms?* (avoid analytical "**ad-hocery**"). Putnam's answer: an international negotiation is a **single game played simultaneously at two interconnected levels.**

- **Level I** = **bargaining between the negotiators** at the international table.
- **Level II** = **separate discussions inside each country** about whether to **ratify** what the negotiator brings home.
- The leader sits at **both boards at once**: a deal must be **struck internationally** *and* **ratifiable domestically.**



How to read it. The key concept is the **win-set** = *the set of all Level-I deals that would win ratification at Level II.* Two consequences:

- **A deal is possible only where the two win-sets *overlap*** — bigger win-sets make agreement **more likely** (but risk a deal your public dislikes).
- **★ The Schelling conjecture (the counter-intuitive bit):** a **smaller** win-set can give a negotiator **more bargaining power** — "*I'd love to accept, but my parliament will never ratify that*" forces the other side to move. Being **tied down at home** is a **bargaining asset** abroad.
- **Defection:** a deal can fail through **voluntary** defection (a rational leader reneges) or **involuntary** defection (the leader *can't deliver* because ratification fails at home). → *domestic and international politics are **entangled**, not separate.*

Or does the balance *vary*? *(deck)*

Core: an alternative to "it's always a two-level game" is that the **weight** of domestic vs international variables **varies systematically** — by:

- **Time-period** — domestic variables matter **less in acute crisis** (power centralises, the public rallies).

- **State size** — **small states** may have **fewer foreign-policy options** (more constrained by the system).
- **Regime type** — **liberal democracies** are arguably **more exposed to domestic pressures** than illiberal/authoritarian states.
- **Policy arena** — some issues draw **much more domestic engagement** — most notably **trade.**

Cases & examples

- **The 1940s Liberal-Internationalism transformation.** Paradigm (global leadership) + interests (New-Deal/Wall-Street coalition) + institutions (UN/IMF/NATO + national-security state) + enduring logics. → *Illustrates: a **completed** transformational change — the model Trump is measured against.*
- **Trump-era US foreign policy (2017+).** Populist-nationalist paradigm, sidelined establishment, withdrawals from agreements, gutted State Dept — but intact alliances. → *Illustrates: "**incipient, partial and variegated**" transformation; **weak embeddedness** → proto-transformational.*
- **Vietnam disengagement.** Blamed on rising unpopularity — but note **salience** (opinion bites mainly under heavy losses). → *Illustrates: **public opinion** as a domestic variable, and its limits.*
- **Truman & international engagement (1945–53).** Individual commitment + elite shifts + USSR pressure. → *Illustrates: foreign policy as **several domestic + international variables interacting.***

Key terms

Term	Meaning
"Black box"	Grand IR theory treats the state's internal politics as unopened — inputs (system) → outputs (policy)
Foreign Policy Analysis (FPA)	The study of foreign policy as a product of domestic processes + international structure
Neoclassical realism	Systemic pressures **filtered through** domestic intervening variables (leaders, institutions)
Salience	How much the public actually attends to an issue (usually **low** for foreign policy)
Instrumental vs structural power	Direct lobbying vs business's leverage from control over investment/jobs
Transformational change	Lasting shift in **paradigm · interests · institutions · logics** (Ashbee & Hurst / Polanyi)
Embeddedness	Ideas rooted in supportive **interests + institutions** → they endure beyond the leader
Primacism	US **primacy**/preponderance as the organising aim of foreign policy
Two-level game (Putnam)	A negotiation played simultaneously at **Level I** (international) + **Level II** (domestic ratification)
Win-set	The set of Level-I deals that would be **ratified** at Level II; deals need **overlapping** win-sets
Schelling conjecture	A **smaller** win-set (tied hands at home) can mean **more** bargaining power abroad

Exam pointers

- Explain the "**black box**" critique and how **neoclassical realism / FPA** open it (systemic pressure **filtered through** domestic variables).
- List and apply the **five domestic variables** — and the **salience** caveat on public opinion.
- Define **transformational change** by its **four elements** (paradigm/interests/institutions/logics) and run it on **Trump** — verdict: "**incipient, partial and variegated**"; explain **embeddedness** and why Trump-I was only **proto-transformational.**
- Set out the **two-level game** (Level I/II, **win-sets**, the **Schelling conjecture**, voluntary vs involuntary defection).
- Give the **four ways the domestic–international balance may vary** (time/crisis, state size, regime type, policy arena — esp. **trade**).

Bridge. This lecture is the **hinge** between IR **theory** (I–IV) and real foreign-policy **practice**: the grand theories set the *international* stage, but **who a state actually is at home** — its leaders, ideas, bureaucracies, interests and publics — decides how it plays. The **two-level game** is the model of that interaction; **transformational change** is the yardstick for whether a shift will last.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (Foreign Policymaking)

> Sticky bits from the foreign-policymaking lecture.

- **The "Golden Arches" theory of peace:** no two countries that both have **McDonald's** had ever fought a war (a jokey stand-in for the liberal claim that **trade interdependence** deters war).
- "**The history of the world is but the biography of great men**" (Carlyle, 1840) — the **great-man theory** the lecture uses to *set up* why leaders alone aren't enough.
- **Tied hands are a bargaining chip:** Putnam/Schelling's counter-intuitive point — "*my parliament will never ratify that*" can win you a **better** deal. Weakness at home = strength abroad.
- **The 2017 US National Security Strategy used the word "competition" 18 times** — the reading's neat evidence of the zero-sum, nationalist paradigm shift.
- **A "hostile takeover":** a departing senior diplomat described Trump's first-year State Department — "*you decapitate the leadership, you compartmentalize the power centers, you engender fear and suspicion.*"
- **Populism is a "thin" ideology** (Mudde) — a **crust** on top of other ideologies, which is why Ashbee & Hurst call Trump-I only "**proto-transformational.**"
- **Japan revived the TPP *without* the US** after Trump pulled out — a real "changed logic": the world starts building around, not through, Washington.

PART III · THE EUROPEAN UNION AS A POLITICAL SYSTEM

EU I: The Evolution of the EU (AUW)

Required reading: McCormick, J. (2021), *Understanding the European Union: A Concise Introduction*, Palgrave Macmillan (**pp. 45–66**) · Wiener, A., Börzel, T. & Risse, T. (eds) (2019), *European Integration Theory*, 3rd ed.,

OUP (**pp. 44–49** = neofunctionalism; **pp. 64–70** = liberal intergovernmentalism).

Theme of the lecture. How did **six states cooperating after WWII** become a **deeply integrated regional political system** of (up to) 28? The lecture does two things: **(1)** tells the **story** — the twin processes of **deepening** (more policy areas, more shared authority) and **widening** (more member states), through treaties, bargains and crises; and **(2)** asks the **why** — explaining that story through the two great rival theories of integration, **neofunctionalism** (integration is driven by *spillover*) and **liberal intergovernmentalism** (integration is what *states bargain for*). It opens a new Part: the EU as a **political system** in its own right — neither an ordinary international organisation nor a state.

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** European integration has advanced along **two dimensions — DEEPENING** (authority moves to the European level in more and more policy areas) and **WIDENING** (more states join). The **central question** is *why it developed this way*, and there are two rival answers: **neofunctionalism** — integration has an **autonomous, expansive logic** (*spillover*: integrating one area creates pressure to integrate the next); vs **liberal intergovernmentalism** — integration is a **controlled series of rational state bargains** (states form domestic preferences, bargain over the gains, and build institutions to lock in the deal).
> **Red thread:** is integration a runaway process that outgrows what states intended (NF), or exactly what powerful states chose (LI)?

Key concepts to apply: *European integration* (Haas's definition) · *supranational vs intergovernmental* · *deepening vs widening* · *the Community method* · *the four freedoms / common market* · *spillover* (functional · political · cultivated) · *permissive consensus* → *politicization* · *national preferences* · *asymmetrical interdependence* · *credible commitments* · *pooling vs delegating sovereignty*.

What is European integration?

Core: integration is a **process** by which states **increasingly cooperate, create common rules and institutions, and exercise some authority *jointly*** — changing **where decisions are made, what states can do alone, and what they do together.** It is at once an **institutional** process (building common bodies) and a **political** one (contested, driven by interests and bargaining).

- **The classic definition — Haas (1958):** integration is "*a process whereby political actors in several distinct national settings are persuaded to shift their **loyalties, expectations and political activities toward a new centre**, whose institutions possess or demand jurisdiction over the pre-existing national states.*" → Note the three things that move to the "new centre": **loyalties, expectations, activities.** (This definition is itself *neofunctionalist* — hold that thought for the theory section.)
- **Two faces of the process:** it is **institutional** (creating shared bodies with real authority) *and* **political** (about who wants what, and who bargains hardest). The EU is "the most developed example of this process in Europe."

The EU: neither a typical international organization nor a state (*sui generis*)

Core: the EU is a **new kind of political animal** — it combines **supranational** and **intergovernmental** governance, so it fits neither box.

	Like this…	…but unlike this
vs an international organization	member states **remain sovereign**; national governments keep major areas of authority	EU institutions **exercise real authority** where states have **transferred or pooled** it — ordinary IOs can't bind members this way
vs a state	it makes binding rules across a territory	there is **no single European sovereign government** replacing the member states

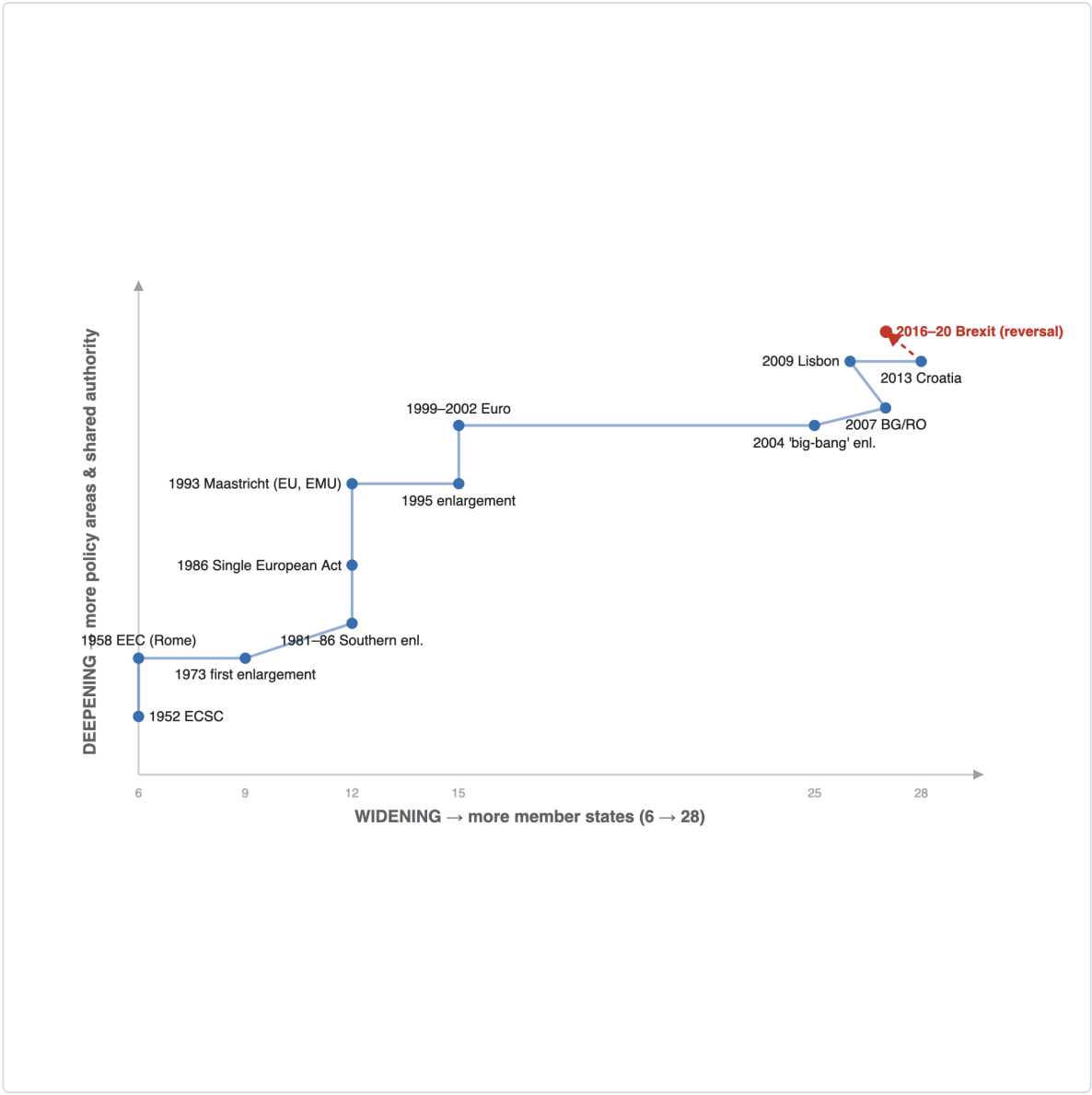
- **The two logics it combines** (the whole Part III in one distinction):
  - **Supranational** = authority **above** the states: common institutions (Commission, Court, Parliament, ECB) can make and enforce rules that bind members, sometimes by **majority** (so a state can be **outvoted**).
  - **Intergovernmental** = authority **between** the states: decisions taken by governments bargaining as sovereign equals, each keeping a **veto**.
  - *In plain terms:* in some policy areas Europe acts like a would-be federation (supranational); in others it's a club of sovereign states (intergovernmental). The EU is the **mix** — which is exactly why the two theories fight over how to read it.

★ Deepening & widening — the two dimensions of integration

Core: integration grows in **two directions at once**, and keeping them apart is the key analytical tool of the lecture (and the take-home exercise).

	DEEPENING	WIDENING
What grows	the **scope & depth** of integration — more policy areas become European; common institutions/rules gain more authority	the **territory** — more **states join**, so EU rules cover more ground
Direction	"**vertical**" — authority moves *upward* to the European level	"**horizontal**" — the club gets *bigger*
Examples	ECSC → EEC → single market → euro; each treaty pooling more	6 → 9 → 12 → 15 → 25 → 27 → 28 members

- **They often happen together** — e.g. the **Single European Act** (deepening: the single-market push) coincided with **Southern enlargement** (widening). And they can pull against each other: a **wider** EU of very diverse members is harder to **deepen** (more vetoes, more varied interests) — which is why treaties like **Nice (2001)** had to *reform the institutions* so a larger Union could still function.
- **Integration can also go *backwards*** — **Brexit** is **widening in reverse** (a member leaves). So the full set of possibilities is: **deepening · widening · both · contestation · disintegration.**



How to read it. Each dot is a milestone plotted by **how many members** the club had (→ right = wider) and **how much authority** had moved to the European level (↑ up = deeper). The path climbs **up-and-to-the-right**: the EU got **both deeper and wider** over 60 years — but not smoothly. Long **horizontal** stretches (e.g. **2004** "big-bang" enlargement) are *pure widening* — lots of new members, no new depth that year. **Vertical** jumps (**Maastricht 1992**, the **euro**) are *pure deepening* — same members, much more shared authority. The **red arrow** is **Brexit**: for the first time the path moves **left** — integration reversed. *Use this map to answer the take-home exercise: classify each event as deepening, widening, both, or reversal.*

Why did integration begin after WWII? (McCormick, ch. 3)

Reading: McCormick, *Understanding the European Union*, ch. 3 "The Evolution of the EU" (**pp. 45–66**).

Core: the EU was "**born out of the ruins of the Second World War.**" Three post-war needs drove it — **economic reconstruction, security in the Cold War, and stopping European nationalism from causing a third war** — and the linchpin of the whole project was **Franco-German reconciliation.**

- **The three needs** (McCormick's frame): **(1)** rebuild shattered economies (agricultural output had **halved**); **(2)** provide **security** as the USSR loomed and the Cold War set in; **(3) tame nationalism** — the nation-

state was "discredited by the war."

- **Franco-German reconciliation = the master key.** The belief: if the two historic enemies could be bound together, broader integration could follow. This is why the first step was **coal and steel** — "the building blocks of industry" and the base of German (Ruhr) power: pooling them made West Germany **reliant on trade with its neighbours** *and* eased **French fear** of German industrial revival.
- **The American scaffolding** (integration was "underwritten by the US"):
  - **Marshall Plan (1948–51): ~$12.5 bn** (~$132 bn in 2020 money) of US aid via the **OEEC (Paris)** — it "**encouraged European governments to work together**" and highlighted their economic **interdependence**.
  - **NATO (1949):** the security shield ("an attack on one = an attack on all") under which integration could safely proceed.
- **The false start — defence first (and why it failed).** An ambitious **European Defence Community (EDC)** + political community was proposed (1950) but **the French National Assembly rejected the EDC in 1954** (no British support; French fear of German rearmament; national humiliation at **Dien Bien Phu**). → *Lesson the founders learned:* integrate through **low-politics economics first** (Monnet's "step by step through concrete achievements"), not high-politics defence. *(This is exactly the sequence neofunctionalism theorises.)*
- **Suez (1956)** hammered the point home: Britain and France discovered they were **no longer world powers**, and Britain began to "look to Europe."

★ The evolution timeline — deepening & widening in action

Core: the whole story on one page. Read each row as **deepening** (authority moves up) or **widening** (members join) — the diagram above plots it.

Year	Milestone	D/W
1950	**Schuman Declaration** (9 May; now *Europe Day*) — pool Franco-German coal & steel	—
1951/52	**Treaty of Paris** → **ECSC** (the Six); first **supranational** transfer of powers	**Deepen**
1957/58	**Treaties of Rome** → **EEC + Euratom**; goal of a **common market** in 12 yrs	**Deepen**
1968	**Customs union** declared; **Common Agricultural Policy (CAP)**	**Deepen**
1965–66	**Empty-chair crisis** (de Gaulle) → **Luxembourg Compromise** affirms the **national veto**	*(stall)*
1973	**First enlargement:** UK, Ireland, Denmark (Norway says no)	**Widen**
1979	Direct elections to the **European Parliament**	Deepen
1981 / 1986	**Southern enlargement:** Greece (1981); Spain & Portugal (1986)	**Widen**
1986/87	**Single European Act** — complete the **single market** by 1992	**Deepen**
1992/93	**Maastricht Treaty** → **the "European Union"** (pillars, EMU, citizenship)	**Deepen**
1995	Austria, Finland, Sweden join	**Widen**
1999 / 2002	**The euro** — electronic 1999, notes & coins 2002	**Deepen**
1997 / 2001	Treaties of **Amsterdam** (Schengen into EU law) & **Nice** (institutional prep)	Deepen
1993 / 2004 / 07 / 13	**Copenhagen criteria** (1993); **"big-bang" East** (2004, 10 states); Bulgaria/Romania (2007); Croatia (2013 → **28**)	**Widen**
2005 → 2009	**Constitutional Treaty rejected** (France, NL) → salvaged as the **Treaty of Lisbon** (2009)	Deepen
2016 / 2020	**Brexit** referendum (2016) → UK leaves (2020)	**Reverse**

From coal & steel to a common market (1950–68)

Core: integration began **narrow and sectoral** (coal + steel) and **expanded outward** into a general common market — the pattern neofunctionalists call spillover.

- **The Schuman Declaration (9 May 1950)** — drafted with **Jean Monnet**, announced by foreign minister **Robert Schuman**: place French & German coal and steel under a **common High Authority**, "a first step in the federation of Europe," making war between them "not merely unthinkable, but **materially impossible.**"
- **ECSC (Treaty of Paris 1951; began 1952).** The **Six** — **France, West Germany, Italy, Belgium, the Netherlands, Luxembourg** — created the **first supranational** body (High Authority under Monnet, + Council, Assembly, Court). Modest powers, but it "**proved a point about the feasibility of integration.**"
- **Treaties of Rome (1957) → EEC + Euratom (1958).** The same Six commit to a **common market** within 12 years (free movement of **people, money, services** + common external tariff), plus common **agriculture, trade, transport** policy. The Assembly becomes the **European Parliament** (1962).
- **The customs union (1968)** formed *ahead* of schedule, and the **CAP** created a single agricultural market with guaranteed farm prices. → *This early momentum looked like a vindication of neofunctionalism.*
- **But the state struck back:** the **1965–66 empty-chair crisis** — **de Gaulle** boycotted the Council over Commission power, voting and the budget — was resolved by the **Luxembourg Compromise**, which **affirmed the national veto.** → *The first big evidence for the intergovernmental side.*

The enlargements — widening from 6 to 28

Core: the club grew in **waves**, each changing the EU's character; from the East it came with **conditionality** (the Copenhagen criteria).

- **1973 — first enlargement: UK, Ireland, Denmark.** Britain had stayed out (championing the looser **EFTA**, 1960), applied late, and was **vetoed twice by de Gaulle** (1963, 1967) — who feared British membership meant **US influence** — before finally joining after he resigned. **Norway's** electorate said no (as it would again in 1994).
- **1981/86 — Southern enlargement: Greece, then Spain & Portugal**, anchoring their **new democracies** after dictatorship. Doubling to **12** members **reduced Franco-German dominance** and shifted the internal economic balance.
- **1995 — Austria, Finland, Sweden** (rich EFTA states).
- **The Copenhagen criteria (1993)** — the conditions for (mainly Eastern) applicants: **(a)** stable **democracy**, human rights, rule of law; **(b)** a functioning **market economy**; **(c)** capacity to adopt the **acquis communautaire** (the whole existing body of EU law). → *Enlargement wasn't just adding territory; it drove **domestic change** in applicants — "conditionality."*
- **2004 "big-bang" — 10 states** (Cyprus, Malta + 8 post-communist: Czechia, Estonia, Hungary, Latvia, Lithuania, Poland, Slovenia, Slovakia); **2007** Bulgaria & Romania; **2013** Croatia → **28 members, ~500 m people.** Symbolically, the **end of the Cold War division of Europe.** (Candidates today: Albania, Montenegro, North Macedonia, Serbia, Turkey.)

Deepening: the single market, Maastricht & the euro

Core: from the mid-1980s integration went **political**, not just economic — the single market, then a genuine **Union** with a **single currency.**

- **Single European Act (1986/87)** — the first big treaty change since Rome: complete the **single market by 31 Dec 1992** (scrap customs/passport controls, harmonise standards, mutual recognition of qualifications), new powers on **environment, R&D, regional** policy, and made **EMU an objective.** *(Related but separate: the **Schengen Agreement (1985)** abolished internal border controls — folded into EU law by Amsterdam.)*
- **Maastricht Treaty (1992/93) → "the European Union."** The turning point from *Community* to *Union*:
  - a **three-pillar** structure — (1) the European Community; (2) **Common Foreign & Security Policy**; (3) **Justice & Home Affairs** *(pillars 2–3 = intergovernmental; abolished by Lisbon)*;
  - the **Delors plan for Economic & Monetary Union** confirmed;
  - **EU citizenship** created; new EP powers (**codecision**).
  - Integration was now "**increasingly political as well as economic.**"
- **The euro** — electronic **1999**, notes & coins **2002**; adopted by all but **Denmark, Sweden, the UK**. Members give up **national monetary policy** and become deeply interdependent — "a clear example of **deepening.**"
- **Amsterdam (1997/99)** brought Schengen into EU law and expanded EP powers; **Nice (2001/03)** resized the institutions to **prepare for a much larger membership** — because the EU was becoming **both deeper and wider** while its institutions "had been designed for a smaller, less integrated system."
- **Constitutional Treaty → Lisbon.** A 2004 **Constitution** was **killed by referendums in France & the Netherlands (2005)** — founding members. Most of it was salvaged in the **Treaty of Lisbon (2009):** a permanent **European Council President**, a **High Representative** for foreign affairs (+ diplomatic service), **pillars abolished**, more **QMV** (but the **veto kept** for foreign/defence policy & tax), a single EU legal

personality, and — for the first time — an explicit **right to leave** (Article 50). → *The 2005 rejection shows integration "depends on **domestic political agreement** and can encounter resistance."*

From "permissive consensus" to politicization — and the era of crisis

Core: early integration was quietly **elite-driven**; from the 1990s it became **loudly contested** — and from the late 2000s the EU hit a cascade of overlapping crises.

- **The shift** (a key exam concept): the old "**permissive consensus**" — publics barely noticed, elites decided (recall neofunctionalism's assumption) — broke down after the **Danish "no" to Maastricht (1992)**. Integration became **politicized**, tied to hot issues: **economic distribution, national sovereignty, migration & borders, identity.** Enter **Euroscepticism.**
- **The "polycrisis"** (Juncker's word) / McCormick's **Seven Crises**, roughly in order:
  1. the **Constitutional Treaty** failure (2005);
  2. the **global financial crisis** (from 2007, imported from the US housing crash);
  3. the **euro / sovereign-debt crisis** (from 2009 — Greece's deficit at ~**13%** vs the 3% limit; bailouts by the EU/**ECB**/**IMF** conditional on **austerity**; riots in Athens; "Grexit" fears);
  4. the **rule-of-law crisis** (**Hungary & Poland** — judicial capture, Orbán's authoritarian turn);
  5. the **refugee crisis** (from the **Syrian war**; 2014–15 surge; west–east splits; the EU–**Turkey** deal);
  6. **Brexit** (below);
  7. the **Covid-19 pandemic** (2020) — the only crisis with no EU-internal cause, yet a severe test of united action.
- These crises "became **moments in which the scope, limits and distribution** of European cooperation were **contested**." *(Great material for the theories: each crisis can be read as spillover pressure **or** as an interstate distributional bargain.)*

Brexit — integration in reverse

Core: in **June 2016** UK voters chose to **leave** (**52%–48%**, 72% turnout); the UK formally left in **January 2020.** Brexit proves European integration is **not one-directional** — the possibilities include **deepening, widening, contestation, *and* disintegration.**

- **What it revealed** (McCormick): Leave support was **highest among older, less-educated voters**; it rode **low public knowledge of the EU** ("verifiably false claims" in the campaign) and broader forces — declining faith in government, people "left out" of integration's gains, and a **rejection of globalization.** It cost two PMs (Cameron, May) and triggered a constitutional crisis; Scotland, NI and London voted Remain.
- **Two readings:** either a **warning** of the costs of abandoning the EU (Britain "weaker outside than in") and a chance for the remaining 27 to **deepen** (e.g. defence) — *or*, more darkly (Bellamy & Castiglione), a sign of "**fragmentation and political disintegration.**"

★ Why does European integration happen? — two rival theories

Core: the lecture's *explanatory* half. There are **two families** of explanation, and they disagree fundamentally about **what drives integration and who is in control.**

	Neofunctionalism (Haas)	Liberal Intergovernmentalism (Moravcsik)
One-line claim	integration is the result of **spillover**	integration is the result of **member-state governments pursuing the national interest**
Who's in charge?	elites, interest groups, firms, **supranational institutions**	**states** — "masters of the treaty"
Is it automatic?	**semi-automatic & expansive** — one step forces the next	**deliberate & controlled** — states choose each step

The sharpest contrast: neofunctionalism says integration develops an **autonomous logic that pulls sovereignty upward beyond what states intended**; LI says integration is **exactly what powerful states intended** — a controlled sequence of bargains. Everything below fills in these two pictures. *(Readings: neofunctionalism ch. by Niemann, Lefkofridi & Schmitter; LI ch. by Moravcsik & Schimmelfennig — each theory presented by its own proponents.)*

Neofunctionalism — integration through spillover (Haas 1958)

Reading: Wiener et al., ch. on Neofunctionalism (**pp. 44–49**). Founder: **Ernst B. Haas**, *The Uniting of Europe* (1958), written to explain the **ECSC**; revised by **Leon Lindberg**, **Philippe Schmitter**, Scheingold. Intellectual root: **functionalism (David Mitrany)**.

Résumé. Neofunctionalism is an "**approach**" (Haas's own word) that explains the **dynamics of integration once it has started** — deliberately *not* why it began or who joins. Its big idea: integration is **driven forward by its own consequences.** Cooperating in one sector creates problems, interests and institutions that generate **pressure to integrate further** — the process "**spills over**" from sector to sector, semi-automatically, carried by **elites and supranational bureaucrats** rather than mass publics. It is **transformative**: it changes actors' very **loyalties and expectations**, pulling them toward the "new centre."

Core: integration is **incremental, elite-driven, positive-sum, and self-expanding.** Actors "**stumble**" from one decision to the next — often "under the pressure of crises and impending deadlines" — and each step creates the conditions for the next.

- **Main actors:** national **and** supranational **elites**, interest associations, firms, political parties — and crucially the "**Eurocrats**" (Commission / the ECSC's High Authority) who can become **agents of further integration.** *Not* just governments.
- **Core assumptions** (the driving forces):
  - actors are **self-interested but can *learn* and *change* their preferences** as they experience the benefits of cooperation;
  - integration is **incremental** → produces **unintended consequences** that require more integration to fix;
  - regional institutions, once created, **acquire autonomy** and push for more integration (they "**seek more autonomy**");
  - integration is **positive-sum** — the "supranational style" means no unconditional vetoes; instead an "**upgrading of common interests**" (package deals that expand the common ground);
  - growing **economic interdependence** means functional problems can't be solved within national borders.

SPILLOVER — the master concept, in three types

Core: **spillover** = the tendency for integration in one area to **create pressures to integrate in others**. Haas's "**expansive logic of sector integration**": integrating one sector "begets its own impetus toward extension of

the entire economy." It comes in **three forms** — learn to name and distinguish them:

Type	Who/what drives it	Mechanism (how the pressure is created)
Functional spillover	the **technical interdependence** of sectors	integrating one sector creates **practical problems** solvable only by integrating the **adjacent** sector — integration expands almost mechanically outward
Political spillover	**national elites & interest groups**	actors affected by integration **shift their expectations, lobbying and loyalties** to the European level; repeated contact breeds **"bureaucratic interpenetration"** and **socialization**
Cultivated spillover	**supranational institutions** (Commission / High Authority)	the "Eurocrats" **actively broker** more integrative deals — "**splitting the difference**" and **"upgrading common interests"** — cultivating further integration

- **Common logic:** *existing* integration generates pressures — functional, political, and cultivated — that **push the process further.** (Deck discussion: **free movement of workers** is already integrated → what new problems does it create? An Austrian professional living, working, paying taxes and retiring in **Portugal** needs integrated **social security, tax, pension, healthcare and qualification-recognition** rules → integration spills into all of those.)
- **Where it went wrong (be able to say this).** Neofunctionalism looked **vindicated** into the mid-1960s (ECSC → EEC/Euratom; the customs union formed *ahead* of schedule; the CAP). Then the "**empty chair**" **crisis (1965–66)**: French President **de Gaulle** paralysed the Community and the **Luxembourg Compromise (1966)** restored the **national veto** — directly contradicting the assumption of **automaticity.** Haas himself later called the theory "**obsolescent**" **(1976).** It **revived in the mid-1980s** with the single-market push (and is used again to explain the euro crisis — see below).

Liberal Intergovernmentalism — states bargain (Moravcsik 1998)

Reading: Wiener et al., ch. on Liberal Intergovernmentalism (**pp. 64–70**). Founder: **Andrew Moravcsik**, *The Choice for Europe* (1998); roots in **Stanley Hoffmann**'s intergovernmentalism (1966). Today LI is the field's "**baseline**" **theory** — the standard everyone tests against.

Résumé. LI is the great **state-centric** rival. Its blunt claim: integration is "**a series of rational choices made by national leaders.**" States remain "**masters of the treaty**"; the EU is best seen as "**an international regime for policy coordination.**" But LI is **not realism** — it takes **domestic economic interests** seriously and treats institutions as useful. Its power is a clean **three-stage model** of how any integration decision is made.

Core: two assumptions — **(1)** states are the **critical, unitary actors** (bargaining as sovereign equals, no central authority above them); **(2)** they are **boundedly rational** (they calculate costs/benefits and pick the option that maximises utility). From these follows the three-stage sequence, **each stage explained by a separate theory:**

Stage	The question	The theory / mechanism
1 · National preferences	*what does each state want?*	a **liberal** theory: preferences are **issue-specific**, set by **domestic economic & societal interests** (producers vs taxpayers), *not* a single goal like "security"
2 · Interstate bargaining	*what deal gets struck, and who gains?*	an **intergovernmental** theory: **hard bargaining** over the distribution of gains; power comes from **asymmetrical interdependence**
3 · Institutional choice	*why build/empower institutions?*	a **regime** theory: institutions **lock in credible commitments** and cut transaction costs

- **Stage 1 — national preferences (the "liberal" bit).** What a government wants is **built from the bottom up** out of domestic interests — and it's **issue-specific** (agriculture ≠ environment ≠ defence). Empirically, Moravcsik found state preferences on integration reflected **concrete economic interests** (esp. the post-war shift to intra-industry trade) far more than Cold-War security or "European ideals."
- **Stage 2 — interstate bargaining & asymmetrical interdependence (the key mechanism).** Preferences rarely match, so states **bargain hard** over how to split the gains — with **credible veto threats, side-payments, and threats of exclusion.** Bargaining power comes from **asymmetrical interdependence**: *In plain terms* — **the state that needs the deal *least* is the most powerful**, because it can most credibly walk away (its "**outside option**" is better). Big, less-dependent states dominate; outcomes tend toward the **lowest common denominator.** *(Direct shot at neofunctionalism:* LI says supranational "ideational entrepreneurs" like Monnet or Delors are **not** a fundamental cause — Commission mediation is a mere convenience, "no more than… airplanes, email, texts, or telephones.")*
- **Stage 3 — why create institutions? credible commitments.** States **pool** sovereignty (e.g. **qualified-majority voting**) or **delegate** it (to the **Commission, ECB, ECJ**) not because they lose control but to make their **commitments credible** — to stop each other **defecting** from the deal later (a **prisoner's-dilemma** fix). Institutions cut transaction costs, share information, monitor compliance. **The twist:** for LI the EU's supranational bodies are **weak and endogenous** (tiny budget, no coercion, rules enforced by *national* officials); the *real* guarantee of commitment is **domestic** — empowering national executives, courts and pro-deal groups.
- **Critiques of LI (be able to say this):** it explains the **grand treaty bargains** (Rome, SEA, Maastricht) well but is weak on **day-to-day EU politics**; it treats **institutions too thinly** (as mere instruments), underplaying how they feed back and reshape interests; and the **unitary-state** assumption flattens messy domestic pluralism.

★ Worked case — the eurozone / sovereign-debt crisis, explained twice

Core: the deck's payoff: take **one event** — the crisis producing new European-level coordination — and show how **each theory explains the same facts differently.** This is the exam template (claim → mechanism → evidence → how the *other* theory would explain it).

	Neofunctionalist reading	Liberal-intergovernmentalist reading
What drove the response	a **functional gap** in EMU's design created **spillover pressure**	**member states** bargained over who pays
The mechanism	monetary policy was pooled at the **supranational** level while **fiscal** policy stayed **national** — this discrepancy generated integrative pressure to close the gap	states calculated costs/benefits and did **hard bargaining** over bailouts, rescue funds and the Fiscal Compact
Key actors	**BusinessEurope** lobbied for more integration; financial markets signalled the same; the **Commission, Parliament and even the ECB** pushed for more (the ECB "breached the impartiality rule" to demand a **Banking Union**)	a **Northern vs Southern** coalition, each answering to its own citizens; the **Northern** bloc had more bargaining power
The outcome	crisis + deadlines → **incremental** deepening (Banking Union), institutions seeking **more autonomy**	the North **delayed support** to force the South to accept the **Fiscal Compact** (more monitoring) → EMU deepened via **budget control / European Semester**

- **Why the case is powerful:** the **same deepening** (tighter EMU) is read by NF as **spillover** (the logic of EMU forced the next step) and by LI as a **distributional bargain** (the powerful creditor states extracted austerity in exchange for rescue). Neither is obviously "wrong" — which is the point of having **two theories.** *(Take-home: run the same four-step analysis on **EU defence integration**.)*

★ Neofunctionalism vs Liberal Intergovernmentalism — compared

Dimension	Neofunctionalism	Liberal Intergovernmentalism
Founder / key work	Haas, *The Uniting of Europe* (1958)	Moravcsik, *The Choice for Europe* (1998)
Key actors	elites, interest groups, firms, **supranational institutions**	**states** (unitary, boundedly rational) — "masters of the treaty"
What drives integration	**spillover** (functional + political + cultivated) — incremental, semi-automatic	**rational state choices**: domestic preferences → bargaining → institutions
Supranational institutions	**autonomous engines** that reshape national interests	**endogenous instruments** to make commitments credible
Logic of bargaining	**positive-sum**, "upgrading common interests"	**distributive hard bargaining**, lowest common denominator
Loyalties shift upward?	**yes** — toward a "new centre"	**no** — states keep preeminence & legitimacy
Explains well	the **expansive early phase** (ECSC → EEC), day-to-day "creep," arguably the **euro crisis**	the **grand treaty bargains** (Rome, SEA, Maastricht)
Explains badly	the **empty-chair crisis / de Gaulle**, stagnation, the return of the veto	**everyday politics**, autonomous supranational agency, institutional feedback

- **The takeaway for essays:** don't treat them as right/wrong but as **two lenses.** Neofunctionalism is strongest where integration seems to **outrun** what governments planned (spillover, unintended consequences, the Commission's creep); LI is strongest at the **big set-piece treaty moments** where you can see governments **bargaining hard over the terms.** A good answer names **which phenomenon** each explains best — and uses the **eurozone case** to show the same event through both.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (EU I: Evolution)

> Sticky bits from the first EU lecture.

- **The EU began with *coal and steel* on purpose.** Placing the raw materials of war under a common authority (Schuman, 1950) was meant to make another Franco-German war "**materially impossible**" — peace engineered through economics.
- **Spillover means the EU "stumbles" forward.** Haas's actors don't march to a master plan — they "**stumble from one decision to another**," often "under the pressure of **crises and impending deadlines**." Integration by muddling through.
- **Haas fired his own theory.** After de Gaulle's empty chair broke the spell, the founder of neofunctionalism pronounced it "**obsolescent**" **(1976)** — only for it to stage a comeback in the 1980s.
- **Moravcsik's great put-down of the Commission:** supranational mediators are no more a *cause* of EU bargains than "**airplanes, email, texts, or telephones**" — useful logistics, not the driving force.
- **The EU is astonishingly *small* as a state-like thing:** an administration "**barely the size of a European city of a million people**," ~**2%** of European public spending, and **no coercive capacity** — most EU law is enforced by **national** officials. (LI's proof that states stay in charge.)
- "**Masters of the treaty**" — LI's memorable label for the member states: whatever Brussels does, the governments still hold the pen (they wrote the treaties and can rewrite them).
- **Brexit made a theoretical point real:** integration is **not one-directional.** The arrow can point **left.**

EU II: Institutions of the EU (AUW)

Required reading: Bulmer, Parker, Bache, George & Burns (2020), *Politics in the European Union*, 5th ed., OUP — **ch. 12, "The Institutional Architecture"** (pp. 205–237). *(Built **deck-first**, then enriched from Bulmer ch. 12 — which supplies the treaty basis (**TEU/TFEU** & the "**Union method**"), the **contested** Commission right of initiative, fuller **QMV** rules, the advisory bodies (**EESC/CoR**), the **budgetary procedure**, national parliaments' subsidiarity "**cards**", **CFSP** machinery, and **enhanced cooperation**. Marked (Bulmer) where a point is reading-only.)*

Theme of the lecture. This lecture maps the **institutional and legal machinery** behind the EU's **multi-level governance**: *who does what* (propose, decide, implement, enforce), *how* a decision becomes binding EU law, and *why* the shape of the architecture matters — it varies by policy area and it is exactly where the two theories from EU I (liberal intergovernmentalism vs neofunctionalism) fight it out. Three questions structure it: **Where is EU authority? · How does the EU make & enforce decisions? · Why does the architecture matter?**

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** EU authority is **pooled, delegated and shared** across **levels** (EU ↔ member state) and across **bodies that each represent a different interest**. The "**typical**" way a law is made:

> **Commission proposes → Parliament + Council co-decide (the Ordinary Legislative Procedure, usually by Qualified Majority) → member states implement → Commission + CJEU enforce.** But this model **changes across policy areas** (some stay intergovernmental, e.g. foreign policy) and membership is **differentiated** (euro, Schengen).
> **Red thread:** the split between **supranational** bodies (Commission · Parliament · CJEU) and **intergovernmental** bodies (European Council · Council) *is* the institutional form of the **neofunctionalism-vs-LI** debate.

Key concepts to apply: *pooled / delegated / shared authority · supranational vs intergovernmental bodies · the right of initiative · Ordinary Legislative Procedure (co-decision) · Qualified Majority Voting (55% / 65%) · conferral · subsidiarity · proportionality · exclusive / shared / supporting competence · regulations · directives · decisions · positive vs negative integration · mutual recognition (Cassis de Dijon) · differentiated integration*.

Where is EU authority?

Core: there is **no single sovereign** in the EU. Authority to **propose, decide, implement and enforce** is **distributed** — **pooled** (states decide together), **delegated** (handed to a common body), and **shared** — across **two levels** and several bodies.

- **Two levels:**
  - **EU level: European Council · European Commission · Council of the EU · European Parliament · Court of Justice of the EU (CJEU).**
  - **Member-state level:** national **governments · legislatures · administrations · courts.**
- *In plain terms:* the EU isn't a government sitting "above" the states; it's a **system** in which the same task (making and enforcing a rule) is split among European bodies *and* national ones. This is what "**multi-level governance**" means.

The EU is governed by treaty — TEU & TFEU *(Bulmer)*

Core: the EU has **no constitution**; its authority comes entirely from **treaties** the states signed. Since the **Lisbon Treaty (in force December 2009)** there are **two**: the **TEU** (Treaty on European Union) and the **TFEU** (Treaty on the Functioning of the EU). Every EU act must cite the **treaty article** ("Treaty base") that authorises it.

Treaty	What it sets out
TEU	the **broad principles** (democracy…), the **general role of the institutions**, **who may join** and **how a state may leave** (Art. 50 — new in Lisbon), and the **CFSP** *(kept largely outside the Court's jurisdiction)*
TFEU	the **detailed operation** of the institutions and **all other policy areas** — Bulmer calls this the **"Union method"** (the updated name for the old "Community method")

- **Lisbon abolished the "three-pillar" structure** (1993–2009: (1) European Community, (2) CFSP, (3) Justice & Home Affairs). Everything except **CFSP** was merged into a single order run by the **Union method**; **CFSP stays distinctively intergovernmental** (see why the architecture matters).
- **Why it matters:** because power flows from the treaty base, *which article a proposal is built on* decides *which procedure and voting rule* apply — so the **choice of legal base is itself a site of conflict** (see the 1990 maternity-rights dispute).

The five EU bodies — each represents a different interest

Core: the genius (and the tension) of the design: each institution is built to **represent a different constituency**, so EU decisions have to reconcile them. Learn this table cold — it's the backbone of the whole lecture.

Body	Who sits there	Whose interest it represents	Core role
European Council	heads of state/government (27) + its President + Commission President	**national governments** — the top political level	sets **strategic direction** (not a legislator)
Council of the EU ("the Council")	national **ministers** (by policy area)	**member-state governments**	**co-legislates**; coordinates national policy
European Parliament (EP)	directly elected **MEPs**	**EU citizens**	**co-legislates** + **oversight**
European Commission	Commissioners + the EU civil service	the **Union-wide** general interest	**proposes** law; **implements**; **enforces**
CJEU	judges	the **EU legal order**	**interprets** & **adjudicates** EU law
(watchdog) **Court of Auditors**	auditors	sound use of EU money	**audits EU finances**

- **The supranational / intergovernmental split** (keep it in view for the theory section): **Commission · EP · CJEU** are **supranational** (they serve the Union as a whole, above the states); **European Council · Council** are **intergovernmental** (they *are* the states). Every EU decision is a negotiation between these two logics.

The basic architecture — the flow of a decision

Core: the bodies fit together in a **rough sequence**: direction → proposal → decision → implementation → enforcement.

```
European Council   → sets broad political direction
        ↓
European Commission → proposes legislation
        ↓
Council + European Parliament → adopt EU legislation
        ↓
Member-state administrations → implement legislation
        ↓
Commission + CJEU + national courts → monitor, interpret & enforce
```

European Council — governments set the direction

Core: the **summit of national leaders.** It is the EU's **political compass**, not its legislature — it decides *where the Union is going*, and unblocks the biggest fights.

- **Who:** the **heads of state or government of the 27**, plus the **European Council President** and the **Commission President.** *(Don't confuse it with the Council of the EU — ministers — or the Council of Europe, a separate non-EU human-rights body from EU I.)*
- **What it does:** defines **broad political priorities**; provides **strategic direction**; **resolves major political disagreements** that ministers can't; gives "**political impetus**" to integration.
- **Why it's the intergovernmental heart:** it is literally the **national governments** in the room. In an LI reading, this is where the states — the "masters of the treaty" — steer.

European Commission — the engine of EU policy

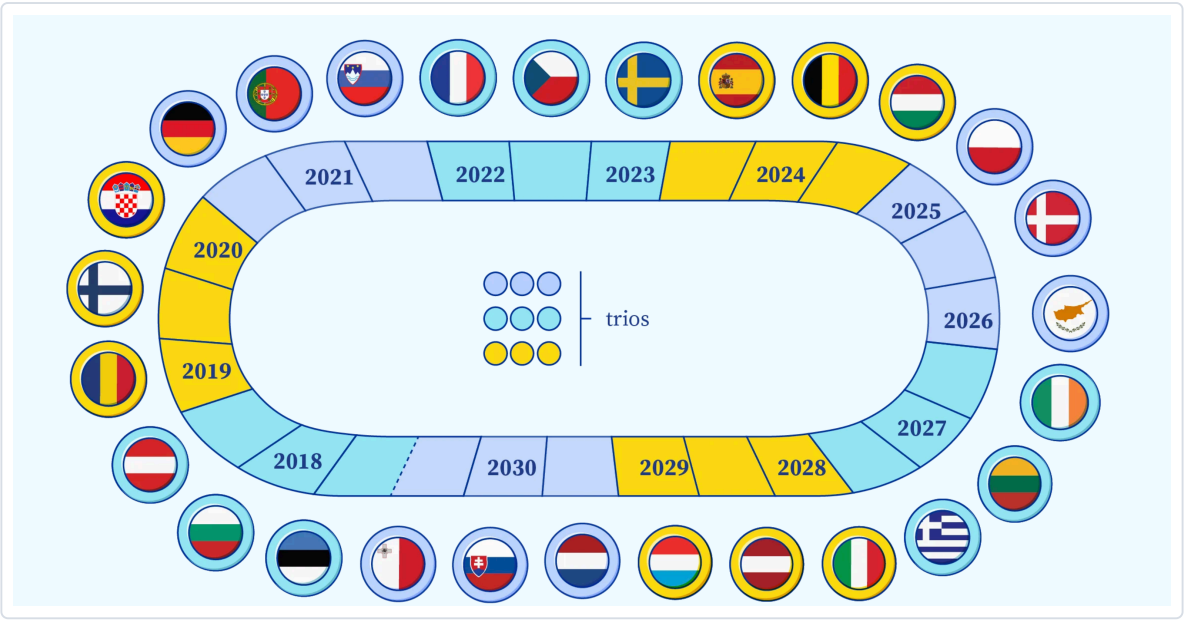
Core: the EU's **executive and its motor.** Crucially, it holds the **right of initiative** — it **proposes** almost all EU legislation — and then **implements** and **polices** it. It represents the **Union-wide interest**, not any one country.

- **Four jobs** (PROPOSE · EXECUTE · ENFORCE · REPRESENT):
  1. **Proposes** — **initiates most EU legislation** and develops policy (the **right of initiative** — a huge power: it sets the agenda).
  2. **Executes** — manages EU **programmes and funding**; implements policy.
  3. **Enforces** — monitors compliance and can launch **infringement proceedings** against a state that breaks EU law.
  4. **Represents** — speaks for the EU **internationally** where it has competence (e.g. trade).
- **The right of initiative is *contested*, not absolute** *(Bulmer — a key debate)*. The Commission is *formally* the sole initiator, but the monopoly is hedged: **(1)** the **European Council** sets the strategic agenda the Commission then follows; **(2)** the **EP can request a proposal** (Art. 225 TFEU) and is hard to ignore; **(3)** the **Council can too** (Art. 241); **(4)** a **Conciliation Committee** can agree a text the Commission didn't write; **(5)** it always **consults widely** (interest groups, national experts) first. → *So "Commission proposes" is real but shared — an inter-institutional negotiation, not a dictate.*
- **Guardian of the Treaties.** Beyond proposing, the Commission is the **watchdog** that makes sure states apply EU law — via **infringement proceedings** (Art. 258 TFEU).
- **Why it's the supranational engine:** its whole job is to think for the **Union as a whole.** In a neofunctionalist reading, the Commission is the "**cultivated spillover**" actor — the Eurocrat that pushes integration forward.

Council of the EU — member states as legislators

Core: the **national ministers**, acting as the EU's **other legislative chamber** (alongside the EP). It is **not one fixed group of people** — it changes membership by topic.

- **Who / configurations: national ministers** meet in different **configurations by policy area** — Agriculture, Environment, Finance (ECOFIN), Competitiveness, etc. The relevant minister shows up for the relevant dossier.
- **What it does:** represents **member-state governments**; **co-legislates** with the EP; coordinates national policies; decides by **agreed voting rules** (usually **QMV**).
- **The rotating presidency — in "trios."** The chair of the Council rotates among member states every **6 months**, organised into **trios** of three countries that plan an 18-month programme together.



How to read it. The presidency isn't a person or a permanent seat — it **passes around the member states**, three at a time. Each **trio** (one colour) coordinates an 18-month agenda so priorities carry across the three six-month chairs. It's a concrete emblem of the Council's **intergovernmental, member-state-driven** character.

- **The Council is more than the ministers** (a key exam point): most of the real work happens **below** the ministers, among **diplomats and officials**, *before* ministers ever meet:

```
National ministers
      ↑  (formal adoption)
COREPER I & II   (committees of member states' permanent representatives / ambassadors)
      ↑
Working parties + national officials   (the technical bargaining)
      ↑
Council Secretariat
```

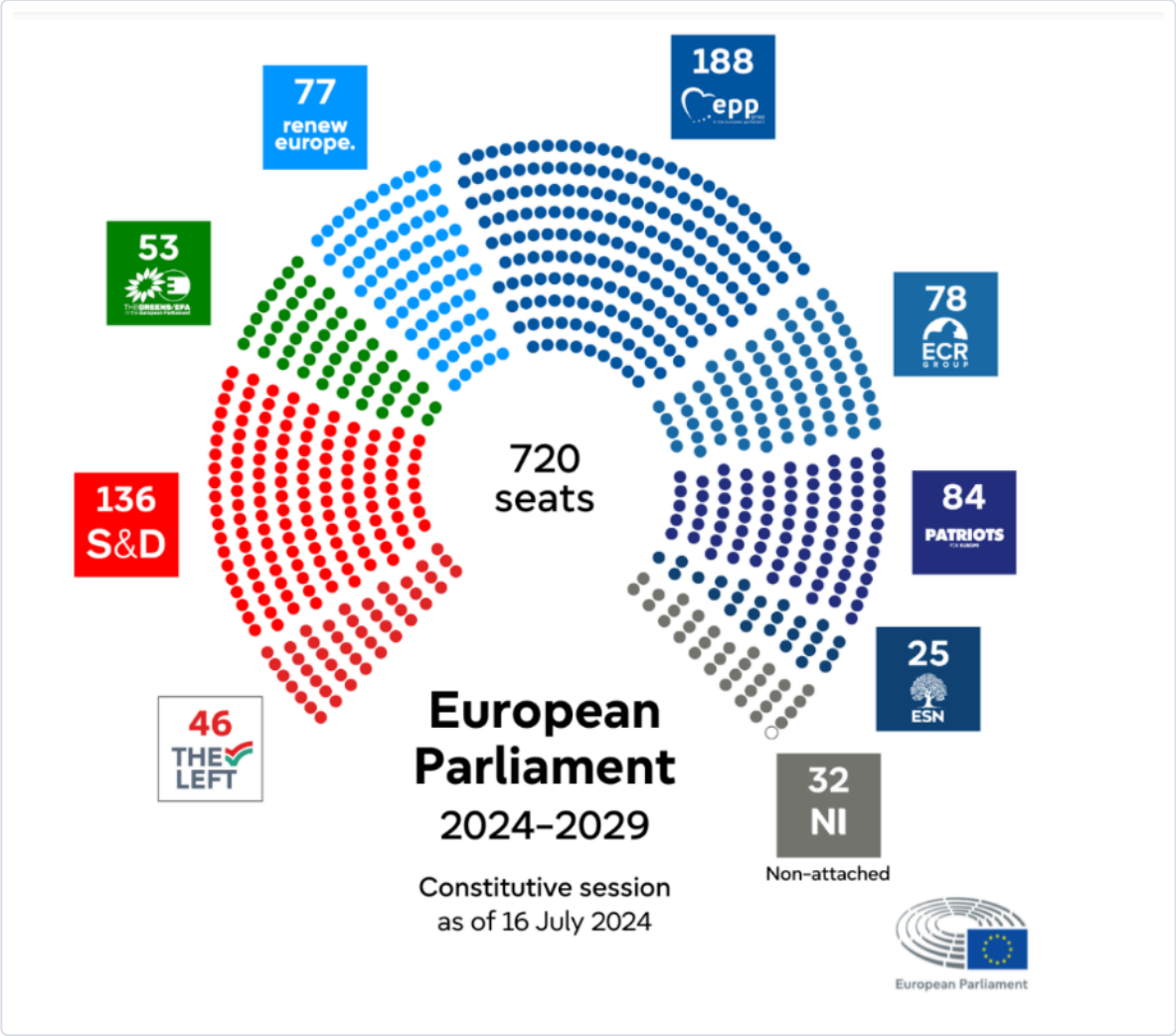
  → "**Much of the bargaining happens among diplomats before ministers meet.**" By the time ministers sign, most issues are already settled. *(This is exactly the "bureaucratic interpenetration" neofunctionalism talks about — national officials in constant contact.)*

- **In practice the Council prefers *consensus*, even when it could use QMV** *(Bulmer)*. Despite the spread of majority voting, ministers usually decide by **consensus** (Häge 2013). Governments often issue a **public statement of dissatisfaction even when they voted *for* a measure** — a way to **distance themselves at home** while keeping the consensual norm (Hagemann et al. 2019). → *The formal voting rule and the actual behaviour differ — a nuance the deck's "QMV" bullet hides.*

European Parliament — citizens enter EU law-making

Core: the EU's **only directly elected** body — the citizens' chamber. Once a weak "talking shop," it has **gained real power through successive treaties** and now **co-legislates** as an equal with the Council.

- **Who: MEPs, directly elected every five years**, representing **EU citizens** (organised into cross-national **political groups**, not national delegations — a group needs ≥ **23 MEPs from ≥ 7 states**).
- **What it does: co-legislates** with the Council under the **Ordinary Legislative Procedure**; can **amend or block** legislation; **oversees** the Commission (it approves and can censure it).



How to read it. The hemicycle seats MEPs **left-to-right by ideology**, grouped into **transnational political families**, not by country. After the **2024** election the centre-right **EPP (188)** is the largest group, then the centre-left **S&D (136)**; the **centre holds a working majority** (EPP + S&D + Renew) but the **right** (Patriots, ECR, ESN) grew. → *Illustrates that the EP is a genuine, party-political parliament — the "citizens' interest" the deck's table names.*

Court of Justice of the EU — authority through law

Core: the EU's **supreme court.** By **interpreting the treaties and EU law**, it ensures the law means the **same thing everywhere** — and in doing so it **shapes integration** itself.

- **What it does: interprets** the treaties and EU legislation; ensures **uniform application** across all states; **resolves disputes**; and **draws the boundary** between EU and national authority.
- **Why it matters for integration:** "**courts can shape integration.**" By deciding what EU law requires, the CJEU can push integration forward without any new treaty — the neofunctionalist "integration through law." *(Not to be confused with the **European Court of Human Rights**, which belongs to the Council of Europe — see EU I.)*

Two advisory bodies — the EESC & the Committee of the Regions *(Bulmer)*

Core: beyond the five, two **consultative committees** have a **right to be consulted** on legislation (they advise, they don't decide). They matter because they bring **civil society** and the **subnational** level into the architecture.

- **European Economic & Social Committee (EESC)** — reps of **employers, workers, and "various interests"** (farmers, consumers, professions…); **329 members**, nominated by governments, sitting **in a personal capacity**. Consulted on social, single-market and related policy — but **not very influential**, **overshadowed by the elected EP**.
- **Committee of the Regions (CoR)** — reps of **regional & local government**, created by **Maastricht (1994)**. *More* influential than the EESC because it is **backed by powerful actors** — it was created at the insistence of the **German Länder**, worried their national government was signing away *their* powers to Brussels. → The CoR made itself the **champion of "multi-level governance"** (its 2009 White Paper), a natural **ally of the Commission** against central governments — a subnational echo of **cultivated spillover.**

EU authority rests where the EU has *competence*

Core: the EU has **no general power to act** — only the powers the treaties give it, and those come in **three strengths.**

Competence	Who may legislate	Examples
Exclusive	**only the EU**	customs union · the single currency · competition rules · common commercial (trade) policy · fisheries conservation · certain international agreements
Shared	**EU *and* member states** (states act where the EU hasn't)	internal market · environment · transport · consumer protection
Supporting	member states legislate; the **EU only supports/coordinates**	culture · education · tourism *(and areas kept largely national — health systems, taxation, defence)*

- **Bulmer's catalogue actually has *four* heads** *(Insight 12.1, from Arts. 3–6 TFEU)*: the three above **plus a distinct "policy co-ordination"** category for member states' **economic, employment and social policies** (the EU coordinates but doesn't legislate). *(CFSP sits outside this TFEU catalogue — it's in the TEU.)* Lisbon also spelt the catalogue out for the first time — partly a **German-Länder demand** to stop competence quietly drifting upward.

Constitutional limits — conferral, subsidiarity, proportionality

Core: three principles **fence in** EU power so it can't simply expand at will.

1. **Conferral** — the EU can act **only where the treaties give it competence.** No treaty basis → no EU action. *(The default is that power stays national.)*
2. **Subsidiarity** — in **non-exclusive** areas, the EU should act **only when the objective can't be adequately achieved by member states** acting alone (decisions taken as close to citizens as effective).
3. **Proportionality** — EU action must **not go beyond what is necessary** to achieve its aim (use the lightest tool that works).

How does the EU make & enforce decisions?

How an EU law actually gets made — the Ordinary Legislative Procedure

Core: the "**typical**" model, also called **co-decision**: the **Commission proposes**, and the **Parliament and Council must *both* agree** — as co-equal legislators — before it becomes law.

- **The steps:**
  1. **Commission** — **agenda-setting**: develops and **proposes** the legislation (right of initiative).
  2. **European Parliament + Council of the EU** — examine and **amend** the proposal (each can propose changes).
  3. **Negotiation / readings** — the two co-legislators reconcile their versions (often in "trilogue" with the Commission).
  4. **Agreement** — **both** the EP **and** the Council approve the **same text**.
  5. **Adopted → implemented & enforced.**
- **The key feature: Parliament and Council co-decide as equals** — the citizens' chamber and the states' chamber must *both* say yes. Either can **amend or block.** → *This co-equal status is a major **deepening** of supranational democracy won over successive treaties (recall EU I: Maastricht's codecision, extended since).*

Qualified Majority Voting (QMV) — how the Council decides

Core: in the Council, most decisions pass by **QMV, not unanimity** — a **double majority** of states *and* population. The radical implication: **a national government can be *outvoted*** and still be bound.

- **The double threshold — a proposal passes with:**
  - **55% of member states** (i.e. **at least 15 of 27**), **AND**
  - states representing **65% of the total EU population.**
- **Why the two locks:** the **55% of states** protects the **many smaller** countries (one state, one vote); the **65% of population** protects the **few large** ones (Germany, France…). A measure needs **both** kinds of majority. *(A blocking minority therefore needs at least 4 states — so no 3 big states can veto alone.)*
- **Fuller rules & history** *(Bulmer):* if the proposal is **not** from the Commission the bar is **higher — 72% of states** (still 65% of population). QMV is now the **default** — "the Council shall act by a qualified majority except where the Treaties provide otherwise" (Art. 16(3) TEU) — the end of a long march that began when the **SEA (1986)** first brought QMV to single-market laws, and that **de Gaulle had blocked** back in the 1965 empty-chair crisis. Every treaty since has **extended** QMV to more areas.
- **Unanimity still rules the sensitive areas** — **foreign & security policy, taxation, social security, common defence, operational police co-operation, enlargement, language rules, the seat of the institutions** — where **every state keeps a veto.**
- **Why it matters (the deck's exercise):** under **QMV**, a **Danish farmer**'s government can be **outvoted** by a coalition of others — influence depends on building **coalitions**, and small states punch above their weight per capita. Under **unanimity**, *every* government (however small) holds a **veto**, so the **French farmer**'s government could block anything it dislikes. → **QMV = supranational (states can lose); unanimity = intergovernmental (states stay in control).**

The OLP is the norm — but not the only procedure *(Bulmer)*

Core: Lisbon made the **OLP the default**, but two "**special legislative procedures**" survive where states wanted to keep more control — the EP is weaker in both.

- **Consultation** — the Commission proposes, the **Council must *ask* the EP's opinion but can then ignore it**, and decides (often by **unanimity**). *(The CJEU's* **Isoglucose** *ruling (1980) established the Council must at least* ***wait for*** *the opinion before deciding.)* Now used in only ~20 areas.
- **Consent** (ex-"assent") — the EP **cannot amend**, but its **yes is required** — a **veto**. Main use: **international agreements**, including **accession of new members**, and the multi-annual budget framework.

National parliaments get a say — the subsidiarity "cards" *(Bulmer)*

Core: Lisbon, for the first time, let **national parliaments** police **subsidiarity** — a **subnational/national check** on the supranational legislative machine.

- **Yellow card:** if enough national parliaments (roughly **one-third**, within **8 weeks**) issue a **reasoned opinion** that a proposal breaches subsidiarity, the Commission must **review** it (and maintain, amend, or withdraw it).
- **Orange card:** a stronger version (a **simple majority** of parliaments) that, if backed by the Council or EP, can **kill** the proposal. **Never used.**
- **The yellow card has been played three times:** the **2012 "right-to-strike" (Monti II)** proposal — Commission **withdrew** it; the **2013 European Public Prosecutor** — Commission pressed on via **enhanced cooperation** (22 states); the **2016 posting-of-workers** directive — Commission found "no case," adopted it (an **East–West split**). → *A real, if limited, brake — evidence for the "subnational component" the lecture flags.*

The other track — the EU budget *(Bulmer)*

Core: alongside legislation, the EU's **money** runs on its own procedure — and it shows the **European Council's agenda-setting power** at its clearest.

- **The multi-annual financial framework (MFF)** — the EU's **~7-year** spending envelope — is proposed by the Commission but **fought out in the European Council and agreed by *unanimity***. *(The 2014–20 MFF (~€960 bn): the UK, backed by NL & Sweden, forced real-terms cuts;* ***Merkel brokered*** *the deal.)* Every state has a **veto** on the big number.
- **The annual budget** then follows an **OLP-like cycle**: the **Commission** drafts it, and the **Council + EP co-decide** (via a **Conciliation Committee** if they clash). If no budget by **1 January**, the EU runs on "**provisional twelfths**" (1/12 of last year's budget per month).
- **Discharge:** each year the **EP formally signs off** that the Commission spent the money properly — informed by the **Court of Auditors**' report. → *Money = where the intergovernmental European Council sets the ceiling and the supranational EP polices the spending.*

After adoption — who implements? (adoption ≠ implementation)

Core: the EU **makes** the rules but rarely **applies** them itself. **Implementation is mostly national** — a defining feature of the EU's "**small state**" design (recall EU I: most EU law is enforced by national officials).

```
EU organs        → adopt the legal framework
        ↓
National administrations → apply the rules in practice
        ↓
National courts / authorities → handle individual cases
        ↓
European Commission → monitors compliance
        ↓
CJEU → settles disputes over EU law
```

Not all EU law works the same way — regulations, directives, decisions

Core: the EU has **three main legal instruments**, and they create **different relationships** between EU and national authority. Know the differences — a classic exam distinction.

Instrument	Binding force	National transposition?
Regulation	**directly applicable** — becomes law in every state **as written**, automatically	**No** — no national law needed
Directive	binding as to the **result/objective**, but leaves the **means** to states	**Yes** — states must **transpose** it into national law (choosing *how*)
Decision	**binding in full** on **specific** addressees (a state, company or individual)	**No** — applies directly to whom it names

- *In plain terms:* a **regulation** is a Union-wide law imposed identically everywhere (strongly supranational); a **directive** sets a goal but lets each state legislate its own route (a softer, more flexible tool); a **decision** is a targeted order. **Different instrument = different degree of central control.**
- **Directives transpose in *two* stages** *(Bulmer):* (1) **transposition** into national law, then (2) **application on the ground** by national administrations — and **compliance varies**, which is why the Commission polices it. **Recommendations & opinions** also exist but have **no legal force** (political weight only).
- **Legislative vs non-legislative acts** *(Lisbon):* not everything binding goes through the full legislative process — e.g. a **Commission competition ruling** fining a company is **legally binding** but non-legislative.
- **Soft law: the Open Method of Coordination (OMC)** *(Bulmer)*. Where the **EU lacks competence to legislate** (e.g. employment, social inclusion), states instead **compare and exchange best practice** and set voluntary targets — no binding law, just peer pressure and learning. *(A governance mode beyond the three legal instruments — "the EU is a very political animal.")*

Integration through legislation *and* through courts (positive vs negative)

Core: the EU integrates in **two ways** — by **building** common rules (positive) and by **striking down** national barriers (negative, often via the CJEU).

- **Positive integration** — EU institutions **create common rules**: legislation, **harmonization**, common standards. *(Building a shared framework.)*
- **Negative integration** — EU law **removes national barriers**: the **CJEU** interprets the treaties so that incompatible national rules **fall away**. *(Clearing obstacles to the four freedoms.)*

- **Landmark case — *Cassis de Dijon* (1979).** Germany blocked a French blackcurrant liqueur for being below its minimum alcohol content. The CJEU ruled the barrier illegal and established the **principle of mutual recognition**: a good **lawfully sold in one member state** may in principle be **sold throughout** the EU, even without harmonized rules. → *Illustrates:* **negative integration through courts** — the CJEU removing a national barrier to **free movement of goods**, deepening the single market without any new legislation. *(A textbook neofunctionalist "integration through law.")*

Who enforces EU rules?

Core: enforcement, like implementation, is **shared** between EU and national actors.

Enforcer	Role
European Commission	monitors member-state compliance; brings **infringement proceedings**
National authorities	enforce EU rules **domestically**
National courts	apply EU law in **individual cases** (and can refer questions to the CJEU)
CJEU	**authoritative interpretation**; settles legal disputes
European Court of Auditors	**audits EU finances**

- **The infringement route** *(Bulmer):* if a state breaks EU law, the Commission issues a **reasoned opinion** (Art. 258 TFEU) and, if the state still won't comply, takes it to the **CJEU** — which since **Maastricht** can impose **financial penalties** (Art. 260). Before Maastricht, a losing state faced only **moral pressure.**
- **Court of Auditors** *(Bulmer):* created **1975**, based in **Luxembourg**; **one member per state** (6-yr renewable term), ~**850 staff** (two-thirds auditors); checks that revenue and spending were **lawful and regular** and publishes an **annual report** — the basis for the EP's **budget discharge**.

Why does the architecture matter?

Core: the "typical" model (**Commission → EP + Council → law**) is **not universal.** The architecture **shifts by policy area**, and membership itself is **differentiated** — so "the EU" is really several different decision-systems at once.

- **It varies by policy area.** The standard supranational model dominates the **single market** and most regulation. But some areas stay **intergovernmental** — above all the **Common Foreign & Security Policy (CFSP)**:
  - driven by the **European Council + Council** (the member states);
  - **unanimity** generally required;
  - **more limited roles** for Commission, Parliament and CJEU. → *Where the EU is more supranational, integration can run ahead of states; where it's intergovernmental, states stay in charge. Same Union, different rules.*
- **CFSP machinery** *(Bulmer):* run by the **European Council** (strategy, by unanimity), the **Foreign Affairs Council**, and the **High Representative (HRUFASP)** — a **double-hatted** figure who is *also* a **Commission Vice-President** (Ashton → Mogherini → **Borrell**), backed by the EU's own diplomatic service, the **EEAS**. Decisions are mostly **declaratory, non-legislative**; the **CJEU is excluded**.

- **Escape valves: "constructive abstention"** (a state can abstain, not block, and isn't bound); and an **Art. 31(2) TEU safeguard** — a state pleading "**vital reasons of national policy**" stops a QMV vote, kicking it up to the European Council. *(That safeguard is essentially a **CFSP-only Luxembourg Compromise**.)*
- **But even here integration creeps:** the **EEAS** throws national and EU diplomats together (socialization), and in **2018 a group of states launched defence cooperation — PESCO** — via enhanced cooperation.

Differentiated integration — common *and* varied

***Core:* not every member state participates in every policy the same way.** The EU can be **both common and differentiated** — a patchwork, not a uniform bloc.

- **Euro — not all** EU members use the single currency (Denmark opted out; others haven't joined).
- **Schengen — differentiated** participation in the passport-free travel area (some EU states out; some non-EU states — Norway, Switzerland — in).
- **Enhanced cooperation** — a **group of states can move ahead** in an area without the others.
- **Enhanced cooperation — the rules** *(Bulmer):* a **minimum of 9 states**, only in **non-exclusive** areas, as a **last resort**, and it must stay **open** for others to join; the resulting acts **bind only the participants** and are **not part of the *acquis*.** Real uses: the **financial-transaction ("Tobin") tax**, **cross-border divorce law**, the **EU patent** (25 states, minus Italy & Spain), and **PESCO** (defence, 2017). The **Fiscal Compact** (2012, from the euro crisis) is a cousin — a treaty binding **22 states** (the UK & Czechia stayed out), tightening budget monitoring.
- **Two more Lisbon flexibility valves** *(Bulmer):*
  - **Emergency brake** — in a few sensitive areas (social security, judicial cooperation, CFSP), a state that fears being outvoted can **suspend the procedure and appeal to the European Council** — a sovereignty escape hatch.
  - **Passerelle ("gangway") clauses** — let the Council **switch an area to QMV/OLP *without* a new treaty** (always *toward* supranationalism). Juncker called them "**lost treasure**" (2018) — but they need **unanimity + EP consent**, and **by 2019 had never been used.** → *This flexibility is how a Union of 27 very different states keeps deepening without forcing everyone to move in lockstep — recall the **deepening/widening tension** from EU I.*

The architecture as cooperation & conflict *(Bulmer)*

Core: the chapter's analytical frame — and the lecture's stated focus on "**cooperation and conflict** between the EU's supranational, intergovernmental and subnational components." The institutions are **not a clean separation of powers** but a **fusion** of shared functions, held together by cooperation and pulled apart by recurring conflict.

- "**Institutions matter**" (new institutionalism; Keohane) — the formal rules **shape** who wins, which is why the LI-vs-neofunctionalism fight plays out *over the institutions.*
- **A functional division of labour, not Montesquieu:** the **European Council** sets direction (but doesn't legislate), the **Commission** initiates + guards + implements, **Council + EP** co-legislate, **CJEU + Court of Auditors** watchdog. Powers are **shared, not separated.**
- **The European Council has risen to the "apex."** Even though it **cannot legislate**, it now **shapes the context** of nearly everything (agenda, budget ceilings, crisis deals) — "**integration without supranationalisation**" (Fabbrini & Puetter). A strongly **intergovernmental** trend.

- **Cooperation is engineered** through **inter-institutional agreements (IIAs)** and **Conciliation Committees** that keep Commission, Council and EP working together.
- **Conflict is structural** — over **who initiates** (the contested right of initiative), over **the money** (budget hawks vs doves), and over the **legal base**: e.g. in **1990** the Commission built a **maternity-rights** proposal on a **health-&-safety** article (Art. 118A) precisely because that triggered **QMV** rather than unanimity; the UK objected to the base and threatened the CJEU before settling. → *Which treaty article you choose decides the voting rule — so the choice itself is a power struggle.*
- **Formal vs informal:** this is the **formal skeleton**; the **informal** relationships (and the organized interests that lobby at every stage) do much of the real work.

★ Integration theories & the institutional architecture

Core: the payoff — the lecture ties the machinery straight back to **EU I's two theories.** The **supranational vs intergovernmental** split among the institutions **is** the LI-vs-neofunctionalism debate made concrete.

	Liberal Intergovernmentalism	Neofunctionalism / Supranationalism
Key actors	**member-state governments**	**supranational bodies & non-state actors**
Key mechanism	**interstate bargaining**	**spillover**
Key EU bodies	**European Council + Council**	**Commission + EP + CJEU**
View of integration	stays **under state control**	can develop **beyond** state control

- **How to argue with it** (the deck's exercise — apply each theory to a feature):
  - **QMV in the Council** → *LI:* states **agreed** the rules and still bargain (and kept unanimity for the sensitive stuff); *NF:* accepting you can be **outvoted** is states **losing control** to a supranational majority.
  - **Commission's right of initiative** → *LI:* a convenient agenda-setter serving state-agreed goals; *NF:* the engine of **cultivated spillover**, shaping outcomes.
  - **CJEU + *Cassis de Dijon*** → *NF:* **integration through law**, courts removing barriers autonomously; *LI:* states tolerate it because it serves their **collective** interest in a working market.
  - **CFSP + unanimity** → *LI:* proof states keep the **veto** where sovereignty is dearest; *NF:* the **limit** of spillover — an area still "**encapsulated**."
- **The takeaway:** you can read the **same institution** two ways. The architecture is contested terrain precisely because **whether the supranational or the intergovernmental bodies dominate a policy area** decides whether integration is **state-controlled or self-propelling.**

★ Fun facts & memorable details (EU II: Institutions)

> Sticky bits from the institutions lecture.

- **Three "Councils," endlessly confused** — the **European Council** (leaders, sets direction), the **Council of the EU** (ministers, legislates), and the **Council of Europe** (a *separate* non-EU human-rights body, from EU I). Mixing them up is the classic exam slip.
- **The Commission has the "right of initiative"** — almost **no EU law can start without it.** Whoever sets the agenda has quiet power; that's why neofunctionalists call the Commission the **engine.**

- **A government can be *outvoted* and still bound** — under **QMV**, lose the vote and the law still applies to you. That single fact is the sharpest evidence that the EU is **more than** an ordinary international organisation.
- **The real deals are cut by diplomats, not ministers** — by the time ministers meet, **COREPER** ambassadors and working parties have usually pre-cooked the agreement. The photographed handshake is often theatre.
- **The presidency is a relay baton, not a throne** — it **rotates every six months** in **trios**; no country "runs" the EU.
- ***Cassis de Dijon* — a blackcurrant liqueur** that quietly built the single market: from a squabble over French crème de cassis came **mutual recognition**, one of the most important integration principles, made by **judges**, not legislators.
- **A regulation vs a directive** — a regulation is the same law everywhere the day it passes; a directive just sets the **goal** and lets 27 parliaments each find their own way there. Same Union, very different grip.
- **National parliaments have a "yellow card"** — and they've played it: in **2012** enough of them killed a proposal touching the **right to strike**, and the Commission **withdrew** it. The stronger "**orange card**"**? Never used.**
- **Passerelle clauses are "lost treasure"** — Juncker's phrase (2018) for the Lisbon buttons that could switch areas to majority voting **without a new treaty.** Nobody has ever pressed one.
- **A blackcurrant liqueur built the single market** — *Cassis de Dijon* (1979) gave the EU **mutual recognition**, made by **judges**, not legislators.
- **The choice of *article* is a weapon** — in 1990 the Commission dressed up **maternity rights** as a **health-&-safety** measure just to get **majority voting** instead of a national veto. Which treaty base you pick decides who can block you.

EU III: The Internal Market (AUW)

Required reading: Bulmer, Parker, Bache, George & Burns (2020), *Politics in the European Union*, 5th ed., OUP — **ch. 19, "The Single Market."** · Jensen, M. D. & Nedergaard, P. (2012), "**From 'Frankenstein' to 'toothless vampire'? Explaining the watering down of the services directive**," *Journal of European Public Policy* 19(6): 844–862.

Theme of the lecture. The **Single European Market (SEM)** — the EU's core economic project — from its early years, through the eurozone crisis, to today. It rests on the **four freedoms** (free movement of **goods, services, capital, people**) and is built by **two engines** — **removing** national barriers (*negative* integration) and **making** common EU rules (*positive* integration). The key argument: a single market is **not just economics but politics** — it develops through **political bargaining**, and it **constrains what national governments can do.** The **Services Directive** is the case that proves it. Throughout, watch the two theories from EU I: is the market built by **states bargaining** (LI) or by **supranational entrepreneurship & spillover** (neofunctionalism)?

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** the hard part of market integration **begins after tariffs disappear** — the real obstacles are **non-tariff barriers** (different standards, licences, qualifications, rules). You dismantle them two ways: **negative integration** (remove barriers — often via the **Court**, e.g. *Cassis de Dijon* → **mutual recognition**) and **positive integration** (harmonise — make common rules, e.g. the **1992 programme**). Goods flow relatively easily; **services are far harder** because a service is often inseparable from the person providing it — which is why the **Services Directive** became a political firestorm.

> **Red thread:** the single market is an **institutional & political project**, not an automatic economic one — and it **changes the role of the state** from gatekeeper to rule-taker.

Key concepts to apply: *single market vs customs union · tariffs · quotas · non-tariff barriers · the four freedoms · negative vs positive integration · harmonization vs mutual recognition (Cassis de Dijon) · the 1992 programme / Cockfield White Paper / SEA · country-of-origin vs host-country principle · social dumping · posted workers · market-making vs market-correcting ("Social Europe").*

What is the single market?

Core: the **puzzle** — how can **27 sovereign states** with different governments, laws and regulators create **one market**? The answer: **free movement + removal of barriers + common rules where necessary**, so that crossing a national border no longer adds cost to economic activity.

- **The core question:** what makes a market genuinely "**single**" rather than "**fragmented**"? A single market is **more than a free-trade area or a customs union** — it attacks the *hidden* barriers that survive even after tariffs are gone.
- **The problem it solves:** a firm selling into another EU country still meets **different product standards, licensing, service rules, tax/admin systems, and professional qualifications.** The goal is to **remove the extra cost created simply by crossing a border.**

A market is more than the absence of tariffs

Core: integration has **three layers of barrier**, and the **difficult part begins after tariffs disappear.**

Barrier	Status in the EU
Tariffs (taxes on imports)	**largely removed** inside the **customs union**
Quantitative restrictions (quotas/limits)	**prohibited**
Non-tariff barriers (NTBs) — national regulations, standards, licences, admin requirements, discriminatory practices	**much harder to remove** — *this is the real work of the single market*

The four freedoms

Core: the single market turns "one market" into **concrete rights** — the free movement of **four** things across borders:

Freedom	Right
Goods	sell products across borders
Services	provide services across borders
Capital	move & invest capital across borders
People / labour	move, work & establish businesses across borders

→ *The four freedoms are the backbone of the lecture; each is developed below. They are* **not** *equally complete — goods are furthest along, services the least (see why services are harder).*

Why integrate markets? — economic & political logic

Core: two rationales run in parallel.

- **Economic logic:** a **larger integrated market** → more customers → more **competition** → more **specialization** → **economies of scale & scope.** (Bigger market = more efficient, more productive.)
- **Political logic:** economic integration → **fewer incentives for protectionism** → **stronger interdependence** between European economies. The broader ambition: a large European market able to support **prosperity and European economic power.**
- **A wider 1980s shift:** the SEM grew alongside a broad turn to **market liberalization** — **privatization** of state firms, **deregulation (and *re*-regulation)** of industries, and rising **globalization** pressure. The state's role shifted from owner/gatekeeper toward **regulator.**

How do you build an integrated market?

Core: the lecture's central analytical tool — there are **two ways to integrate a market**, and the EU uses **both**.

	Negative integration	Positive integration
What	**remove barriers**	**create common rules (harmonization)**
How	prohibit discrimination, strike down restrictions, enforce free-movement rights, **challenge national rules**	common standards, common regulations, common institutions & enforcement
Chief agent	often the **CJEU** (courts remove barriers)	the **Commission + Council + EP** (legislation)

→ *Integration means* ***both taking rules away and creating rules at EU level.*** *(Recall the same distinction from EU II.)*

Cassis de Dijon — the Court helps build the market

Core: the landmark case (met already in EU II), here as the engine of **negative integration**: the CJEU didn't just settle a dispute — it **defined what market integration requires.**

- ***Cassis de Dijon* (1979):** Germany blocked a French blackcurrant liqueur for not meeting its **minimum-alcohol** rule. The CJEU struck the barrier down and established **mutual recognition**: a product **lawfully marketed in one member state** should generally be **allowed onto the market of another.**
- **Why it matters:** the Court was **actively removing a barrier** to free movement of goods — **integration through law**, without any new legislation.
- **Harmonization vs mutual recognition** (the two strategies for the same goal — *make national rules stop fragmenting the market*):
  - **Harmonization** — **replace** different national rules with **common EU rules.** *(Pro: a genuinely level playing field; Con: slow, politically hard, one-size-fits-all.)*
  - **Mutual recognition** — **keep** different national rules, but each state **recognizes** goods/services meeting **another** member state's rules. *(Pro: fast, respects diversity; Con: can trigger fears of a "race to the bottom" — whoever regulates most loosely wins.)*

Who actually builds the single market?

Core: the SEM is an **institutional project** — the same cast as EU II, each with a role:

- **Commission → proposes** and **monitors** the rules;
- **Council + Parliament → adopt** the legislation;
- **Member states → transpose** (directives) and **implement** the rules;
- **CJEU → interprets** and **enforces** EU law;
- **Businesses & individuals → use and test** the rules (litigating brings cases like *Cassis*).

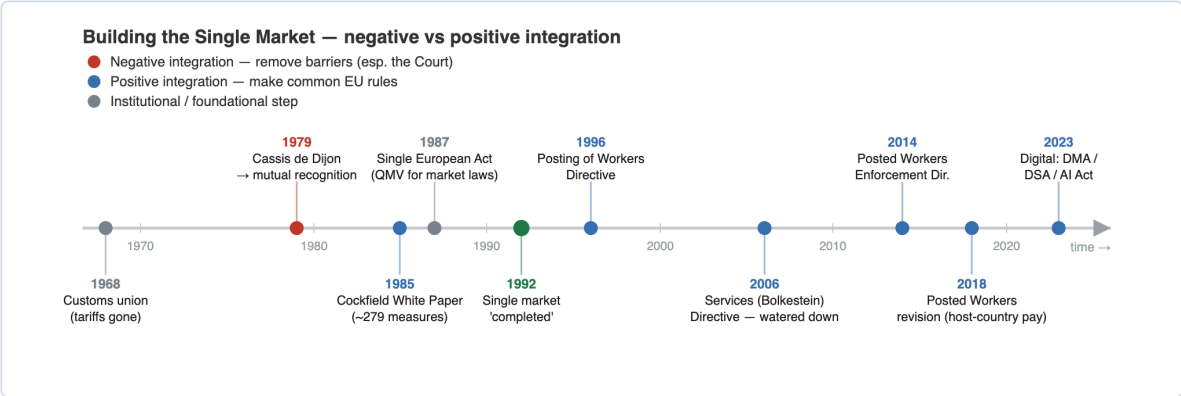
The 1992 relaunch — why it made the difference

Core: the SEM stalled through the 1970s ("eurosclerosis," NTBs everywhere). The **relaunch of the mid-1980s** — "**Project 1992**" — is what finally delivered it, and it needed **both an idea and a way to decide.**

- **Project 1992:** the **1985 Delors Commission** → the **Cockfield White Paper** listing **~279 measures** to remove remaining barriers → a hard deadline: **31 December 1992.**
- **The crucial institutional change:** the **Single European Act (1987)** expanded **Qualified Majority Voting** for market-related laws — so single-market measures could no longer be **vetoed** by one state. → *The single market needed not just an economic idea but a **way of making collective decisions** about it (recall QMV). This is why the SEA mattered so much.*

★ The evolution of the single market

Core: the arc from customs union to the digital market — read it through the **two engines** (negative = the Court removing barriers; positive = the EU making common rules).



How to read it. Blue dots are **positive integration** (the EU legislating common rules), the red dot is **negative integration** (the **Court** removing a barrier — *Cassis*), grey/green are **institutional** milestones. Notice the shape: an early **Court-led** breakthrough (1979) → a burst of **institutional** relaunch (1985–92) → then a long run of **positive** law-making, much of it **social/corrective** (the Posted Workers directives) and, latterly, **digital**. The single market is never "finished" — it keeps re-opening as the economy changes.

The four freedoms in detail (Bulmer ch. 19)

Core: the four freedoms are **not equally complete. Goods** is the model (furthest along); **capital** was largely freed early; **labour** is held back by non-recognition of qualifications; **services** is the **hardest and least**

complete. The **1985 White Paper** attacked **three kinds of barrier**: **physical** (border checks), **fiscal** (tax differences), and **technical** (product standards, etc.).

Free movement of GOODS — the model freedom

Core: goods are the **template** for the whole market, solved by the "**new approach**": combine **mutual recognition** (from *Cassis*) with **minimum EU harmonization** only on health & safety.

- **Three barriers, three fixes: physical** (end border checks), **fiscal** (harmonize VAT & excise — only *partly* done), **technical** (national product standards — the hard one).
- **The "new approach" to standards** (avoids having to harmonize *everything*): by default, **mutual recognition** — a product legal in one state is legal in all — with the **only exception being health & safety.** For those, the EU sets **minimum standards** via two standards bodies, **CEN / CENELEC**; a product meeting them earns the "**CE" mark** and can't be barred anywhere.
- **Enforcement is still patchy** where **no harmonized EU standard exists** — firms report goods being hit with extra national tests "**especially in France and Germany**," and **public procurement** contracts still rarely go to non-national firms.

Free movement of PERSONS & LABOUR

Core: workers can move and work anywhere — and the right has been **extended beyond workers** — but **recognition of qualifications** remains a real block.

- **Workers** move freely; the White Paper **extended residence rights to the economically inactive** (students, the retired, the unemployed) and guaranteed **non-discrimination in social & welfare benefits.**
- **The main barrier: non-recognition of professional & educational qualifications** — a nurse or architect qualified in one state may not be recognized in another, limiting real mobility.
- **The welfare tension** (which explodes in the Services Directive): free movement of labour rubs against national **wage and welfare standards** — whose rules apply when a worker crosses a border to provide a service?

Free movement of SERVICES — why it's so much harder

Core: services are the **least complete** freedom — by **2005 only ~20% of services** were traded across borders. The reason is fundamental: **a service is often inseparable from the person or organization providing it.**

- **Why services ≠ goods:** providing a service across a border often requires **people, professional qualifications, local licences, establishment in the other country, and interaction with national regulators** — you can't just ship it in a box. There's also far more **information asymmetry / trust** involved.
- **The core dilemma — home-country vs host-country rules** (the deck's Polish-consultancy discussion): a Polish firm legally established in Poland wins a job in Denmark and wants to provide the service **temporarily** under **its Polish rules**; Denmark wants to impose **its own** requirements. → **Which country should regulate cross-border economic activity?** *(Home-country = frictionless but risks a "race to the bottom"; host-country = protects standards but re-fragments the market.)* This exact question is what the Services Directive fought over.
- **Sub-cases the EU liberalized slowly** (Bulmer): **telecommunications** (relatively successful — helped by US deregulation pressure and business lobbying) and **energy** (harder — "the public service argument,"

French defence of **EdF / Gaz de France**, union job fears). Both show services being prised open **sector by sector**, often over national-monopoly resistance.

Free movement of CAPITAL

Core: capital barriers "**had already started to disappear**" and were largely freed by the White Paper — but **integrating capital *markets*** is still unfinished business.

- The White Paper freed cross-border **securities, loans, and access to foreign stock exchanges** (three directives).
- Later deepening: the **Financial Services Action Plan (1999)** and, under Juncker, the **Capital Markets Union** — integrate Europe's **stock & share markets** (partly to **emulate the US**, channel citizens' savings into **SMEs**, and compensate for the **constrained fiscal capacity** of eurozone states after the crisis).

★ The Services Directive — "from Frankenstein to toothless vampire" (Jensen & Nedergaard 2012)

Core: the case that proves the lecture's thesis — **the single market develops through political bargaining, not just economic logic.** A radical liberalizing proposal (the "**Frankenstein directive**") was **watered down** into a "**toothless vampire**." The prize question: *why?*

The proposal (2004). Commissioner **Frits Bolkestein** (Prodi Commission) proposed a directive to finally build a **single market in services** (a huge share of EU GDP, barely traded across borders). Its explosive core: the **country-of-origin principle** — a firm providing services abroad could operate under its **home-country rules** (a service extension of *Cassis* mutual recognition, endorsed at the 2001 Stockholm summit).

Why it detonated. The country-of-origin principle raised the spectre of "**social dumping**" — firms from **low-wage** member states (especially after the **2004 eastern enlargement**) undercutting high-wage states by importing their cheaper home rules. Bulmer's vivid example: a **British firm building a house in Germany with British workers on British employment terms.** The fear crystallized in national folk-devils — the **French "Polish plumber" (*le plombier polonais*)**, Polish workers in German slaughterhouses, the Swedish **Laval** case. **Trade unions mobilized** hard; in France it was nicknamed the "**Frankenstein directive**" (pun on Bolke-*stein*). It became entangled with the **2005 French & Dutch Constitution referendums.**

What changed (the dilution). The final directive (adopted **12 Dec 2006**, EP vote **394–215–33**) was far tamer:

- the **country-of-origin principle was removed**, replaced by a vaguer "**freedom to provide services**" clause (leaving lots of room for **CJEU** interpretation later);
- **host-country labour law was preserved** (directly answering "social dumping");
- **whole sectors excluded** — healthcare, audiovisual, gambling, temporary work agencies, public transport, postal, some social services;
- a **screening / oversight system** was added.

Why was it watered down? (Jensen & Nedergaard's explanation — actor-centred rational-choice institutionalism). *Prima facie* the **European Parliament** was decisive (it wrote the adopted text) — but look closer:

- **The German pivot.** A newly elected **German "grand coalition" (CDU/CSU–SPD, Nov 2005)** used its ties to **both** big party groups (EPP & PES — both then led by Germans) to broker an internal compromise — a

lowest-common-denominator text that a huge EP majority could accept **and** that pre-empted any open **Council** opposition.

- **Interest-group asymmetry (Olson). Unions won the framing war** because their costs were **concentrated** (strong incentive to mobilize); **consumer groups** (who'd gain diffuse benefits) didn't organize. Counter-intuitively, the **states with the *most* barriers opposed the *most*** — because their threatened domestic actors mobilized best.
- **Two-level games (Putnam) + "shadow of QMV."** France & Germany bargained hard by pointing to **small domestic win-sets** (referendum/election pressure). No formal vote was needed — the deal was struck "**in the shadow of the vote**" (a credible **blocking minority**). CEE states had **large win-sets** (they'd accept anything better than the status quo), so they took the low common denominator — but won the **screening system** as a **second-dimension "bargaining chip"** to sell back home.
- **Endogenous preferences:** the **constitutional crisis** itself reshaped positions and pushed everyone toward compromise (losing *both* the Constitution and the Services Directive would have been too costly).

→ **KEY TAKEAWAY (the deck's):** *the Single Market develops through **political bargaining**, not simply economic logic.* And the "toothless vampire" **may yet regrow teeth** — the vague "freedom to provide services" hands power to the **CJEU** (see Laval).

Posted workers — one market creates new governance problems

Core: the unresolved remainder of the services fight. A **posted worker** is "an employee **temporarily sent** by an employer to another EU member state to provide a service" — and a single cross-border job now tangles **three rule-systems** at once.

- **The governance knot:** one posting = **home-country employment relationship** + **host-country workplace** + **EU free-movement rules.** *Which rules apply, and who enforces them?*
- **The Laval / Vaxholm case (2007).** A **Latvian** construction firm renovated a school in **Sweden** using Latvian workers on **Latvian** pay; Swedish unions blockaded the site. The **CJEU** sided (largely) with the **firm's freedom to provide services** over the unions' collective action — a shock to **Nordic wage-setting systems** (which rely on collective bargaining, not statutory minimum wages). *(With Viking, the classic case that market freedoms can **trump** national labour rights — the neoliberal-bias critique below.)*
- **The EU's response — from "market opening" to "fair mobility":** the **Posting of Workers Directive (1996)** → the **Enforcement Directive (2014)** → a **2018 revision** strengthening **host-country pay** ("equal pay for equal work in the same place") and distinguishing **short- vs long-term** postings. Posted workers **help firms fill short-term skill shortages** (esp. construction, border regions) — **but enforcement across borders is genuinely hard** (different rules, monitoring difficulties, abuse risk).

The single market changes the role of the state

Core: integration **reshapes what national governments can legitimately do.** The state doesn't disappear — but it turns from a **gatekeeper** into a **rule-taker** operating inside EU constraints.

Before integration, a government could largely decide…	**With an integrated market, national decisions are constrained by…**
who **enters** the market	EU **free-movement** rules
which **standards** apply	EU **competition** rules
which firms get **support**	**common standards**
which services are **protected**	**CJEU** case law + EU **state-aid** rules

→ *This is the deep political stakes of the single market: it isn't just about **relocating decisions** from the national to the European level (and to courts and regulators).*

The contemporary single market — beyond the crisis & into the digital age

Core: the single market keeps **re-opening** as the economy changes. The **problem has evolved** from tariffs/quotas/product rules to **digital platforms, data, and network effects.**

- **After the eurozone crisis (2009):** a substantial drop in intra-EU trade revived fears of **economic nationalism.** The **Monti report (2010)** urged renewed integration → the **Single Market Act I (2011) & II (2012).**
- **Juncker-era priorities: Capital Markets Union**; the **Digital Single Market** (mobile **roaming charges abolished, 2017**); and a "**Better Regulation**" agenda (impact assessments from 2015).
- **Today — digital markets:** the response to platforms/data is the **Digital Markets Act (DMA)**, **Digital Services Act (DSA)**, and **AI Act**, backed by **competition policy** *(the next lecture)*.

★ Is the single market "neoliberal"? — the normative debate (Bulmer)

Core: beyond *explaining* the market, scholars **argue over whether it's good or bad.** The core fault line: is the SEM an efficient **regulatory** achievement, or a vehicle for **neoliberalism** that erodes Europe's social models?

- **The pro-market view — Majone:** the SEM makes the EU a "**regulatory state**" that delivers an efficient European marketplace. Delegating regulation to "**non-majoritarian**" **institutions** (Commission, courts, agencies) — away from vote-seeking national politics — **maximizes market efficiency**, a widespread welfare good. On this "**output legitimacy**" view, the EU has **no democratic deficit.**
- **The critical political-economy view — Scharpf, Cafruny & Ryner, van Apeldoorn:** the SEM embeds a **US-led neoliberal turn** — privatization, welfare retrenchment, liberalized corporate governance — often at the bidding of business (the **ERT**). Scharpf's key charge: a **structural asymmetry** that privileges **negative over positive integration** — *market-making* races ahead while *market-correcting* (social) rules lag, because the **Court** can strike down national social protections (**Laval, Viking, 2007**) but the EU struggles to legislate a "**Social Europe**" in their place.
- **The constructivist middle — Hay & Wincott:** both sides **overstate the structural imperatives.** The market is **not fully** "**depoliticized**" — it's contestable (witness the Services Directive) and some CJEU rulings **protected** national social prerogatives; welfare-capitalist **diversity persists** across members.

- **Postfunctionalism: popular dissatisfaction** with the EU may act as a **brake** on further market integration. *(This debate went political in the UK: "**Lexiteers**" argued the single market forces neoliberalism on Britain — a left-wing case for Brexit.) → Great exam hinge: link the negative/positive integration distinction to Scharpf's asymmetry — the SEM is strong at **removing** barriers (courts, mutual recognition) but weak at **building** a common social floor.*

★ Integration theories & the single market

Core: the capstone — the deck's closing question: **is the single market mainly states pursuing their interests (LI), or can the integration process generate further integration (neofunctionalism)?** Apply the two lenses to three episodes.

Episode	Liberal Intergovernmentalism	Neofunctionalism / supranationalism
Project 1992	changing national **preferences** + **interstate bargaining** (France/Germany/UK converge)	**Commission entrepreneurship** (Delors, the ERT) + institutional momentum
Cassis de Dijon	states **created the legal framework** the Court works within	the **CJEU** develops integration through **supranational action**
Services Directive	domestic **preferences + bargaining** (the German-brokered compromise)	supranational **ambitions meet political resistance** (Commission overreached)

- **Bulmer's fuller "map" of the debate** (useful nuance): the **original common-market decision** fits **LI** (small-state elites, no ECSC spillover); the **1960 acceleration** looked **neofunctionalist** (Lindberg: French industry reversed, Commission "cultivated" spillover); the **1992 relaunch** is **genuinely contested** (Delors/ERT entrepreneurship *vs* Moravcsik's LI — the White Paper as a **member-state mandate**); and the **momentum after 1992** is best read through **historical institutionalism** (the SEA changed the rules, presidencies competed on delivery, the CJEU entrenched free-market readings).
- **The takeaway:** no single theory wins. The single market is where **all** the EU theories are tested — and the honest answer is that **states set the frame, but courts, the Commission and institutional momentum keep pushing it further than any single bargain intended.**

★ Fun facts & memorable details (EU III: The Internal Market)

> Sticky bits from the internal-market lecture.

- **The hard part starts *after* tariffs vanish.** Anyone can scrap a tariff; the real single-market battle is over **invisible** barriers — a German bottle-shape rule, a French test certificate, a licensing form. "**Non-tariff barriers**" are where markets quietly re-fragment.
- **A liqueur wrote the rulebook — twice.** *Cassis de Dijon* (1979) gave goods **mutual recognition**; then the Commission tried to copy that logic onto **services** (country-of-origin) — and set off a political explosion.
- **The "Frankenstein directive."** France's nickname for the Bolkestein services proposal — a pun on ***Bolke-stein*** — a "monster" that would destroy jobs. It ended up so defanged that scholars called the result a "**toothless vampire.**"
- **The Polish plumber** became the face of "**social dumping**" fears — a folk-devil who, the story went, would undercut French tradesmen. He was mostly a myth, but he helped sink the Constitution referendum.

- **~279 measures, one deadline.** Lord Cockfield's 1985 White Paper turned "complete the market" into a **checklist** with a hard date — **31 December 1992** — and **95%** of it was actually agreed on time.
- **The "CE" mark** on your electronics is the single market in miniature: meet EU **minimum health-&-safety** standards (CEN/CENELEC) and no country can keep you out.
- **Courts can beat parliaments.** In **Laval/Viking (2007)** the CJEU let a firm's freedom to provide services **override** Nordic collective-bargaining rights — the sharpest evidence for Scharpf's "**negative beats positive integration**" thesis.
- **Roaming charges died in 2017** — the most tangible thing the "Digital Single Market" ever did for ordinary citizens.

EU IV: EU Competition Policy (AUW)

Required reading: Wilks, S. (2014), "Competition Policy: **Defending the Economic Constitution**," in H. Wallace, M. A. Pollack & A. R. Young (eds), *Policy-Making in the European Union*, 7th ed., OUP, ch. 6.

Theme of the lecture. Competition policy is the lecture's **worked example of "EU institutions in action"** — and it's a special one: arguably the **most developed, most supranational** common policy underpinning the Single Market. After the basics (what competition policy is, its instruments, why it's so supranational), the lecture zooms in on **high-profile recent cases** — **Google Shopping** (abuse of dominance in digital markets → the DMA) and **Fiat/Apple** (tax breaks as illegal state aid), plus **foreign subsidies**. Throughout, three theoretical lenses compete to explain it: **liberal intergovernmentalism, supranationalism/neofunctionalism, and ideas (constructivism).**

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** competition policy keeps the market's playing field **level** — stopping **firms** (cartels, abuse of dominance, anti-competitive mergers) *and* **governments** (state aid, foreign subsidies) from rigging competition. It is the EU's **most supranational** policy: an **exclusive competence** where the **Commission (DG COMP)** makes, enforces, and adjudicates the rules — investigator, prosecutor and judge in one. Wilks's thesis: this makes competition policy the EU's "**economic constitution**" — the foundational, quasi-constitutional rules that entrench a competitive market order.
> **Red thread:** why is the Commission *so* powerful here — and is competition policy just being *adapted* to digital markets, or is the EU *redefining what competition means*?

Key concepts to apply: *the economic constitution / ordoliberalism · competition vs competitiveness policy · exclusive competence · antitrust (Art. 101 cartels · Art. 102 abuse of dominance) · merger control · state aid (Arts. 107–109) · DG COMP · the European Competition Network (ECN) · leniency · gatekeepers · ex-post vs ex-ante regulation (the DMA) · foreign subsidies* · the three lenses (*LI · supranationalism · ideas*).

What is competition policy? (competition ≠ competitiveness)

Core: a crucial distinction the lecture opens on. **Competition** policy and **competitiveness** policy sound alike but are opposites in method.

	Competition policy	Competitiveness policy
Question	how do we maintain **effective competition *between firms*** in the EU market?	how do we make **European firms/the economy** more productive & globally competitive?
Method	**referee** — police and constrain firms & governments	**booster** — support and promote industry

- **The puzzle:** *when should public authorities intervene in markets to protect competition?* The flashpoints: **cartels, market dominance, state aid, digital gatekeepers, foreign subsidies.**

Why the single market needs rules of competition

Core: open markets create incentives to **compete** — but also incentives to **escape** competition. Competition policy exists to stop four kinds of rigging.

- **The basic problem:** actors have incentives to **reduce** competition (it's more profitable not to compete). EU competition policy tries to prevent:
  1. **firms restricting competition** (cartels);
  2. **dominant firms abusing** market power;
  3. **governments distorting** competition through **state aid**;
  4. **anti-competitive mergers.**
- → *Competition rules are the **complement** to the single market: EU III removes state barriers to trade; competition policy stops **private** actors (and subsidies) from rebuilding those barriers.*

An exclusive competence

Core: competition is one of the EU's few **exclusive competences** (Art. 3 TFEU) — *only the EU* sets the competition rules needed for the internal market. This is why it's so supranational.

- Because it's exclusive, **supranational authorities** hold substantial responsibility for the whole chain: **making the rules → enforcing them → developing the policy.** (Contrast the *shared/supporting* competences from EU II.)

★ The competition policy toolbox

Core: six instruments — **four traditional pillars** plus **two new frontiers** — all wielded by the **European Commission / DG COMP.**

#	Instrument	Purpose	Treaty base
1	**Cartels**	stop firms **colluding**	**Art. 101 TFEU**
2	**Abuse of dominance**	stop dominant firms **excluding** rivals	**Art. 102 TFEU**
3	**Merger control**	block mergers that **substantially harm** competition	Merger Regulation
4	**State aid**	stop governments **selectively distorting** competition	**Arts. 107–109 TFEU**
5	**Digital-market regulation** *(new)*	pre-empt anti-competitive behaviour by **gatekeepers**	the **DMA**
6	**Foreign-subsidies regulation** *(new)*	curb **non-EU** subsidies distorting the EU market	Foreign Subsidies Regulation

→ *Pillars 1–4 are the classic core; 5–6 are the EU's response to **digital platforms** and **geopolitical** competition (China). The rest of the lecture walks each one.*

★ The "economic constitution" — Wilks's central argument

Core: Wilks's thesis and the chapter's title — competition policy is not just another policy; it is **constitutional.** The competition rules are the EU's "**economic constitution**": the foundational, quasi-constitutional principles that **guarantee a competitive market order**, disciplining **firms *and* governments.**

- **The ordoliberal idea.** "**Economic constitution**" (*Wirtschaftsverfassung*) comes from German **ordoliberalism**: the state's core job is to **set and defend a legal framework that guarantees competition** — protecting the competitive order from **both** private power (cartels, monopolies) **and** state distortion (subsidies).
- **The ECB analogy (memorable):** *just as the **ECB** guarantees a sound currency and low inflation, the **competition rules** guarantee a free market and economic efficiency* — together an "**economic constitution**" for Europe.
- **Why "constitutional":** as the EU's **treaties function like a constitution**, their **economic provisions become constitutional principles** that structure the whole economy — and *frame other policies* (R&D, environment, telecoms, media). Every economic actor must accept the market order the rules define. This is why competition policy can **discipline national governments**, not just companies.
- **Three edges Wilks draws out:** (1) it makes **DG COMP** "**doubly insulated**" — exceptionally independent; (2) "**juridification**" — the economy is increasingly run through **law and courts** (economic rights protected, but at the cost of legal process); (3) it **embeds a particular, arguably *neoliberal*, market model** — raising the political stakes (the **social-market/"Rhenish"** vs **Anglo-Saxon** debate — see history).
- **It was contingent, not inevitable:** this free-market vision became dominant only via the **1980s neoliberal turn + the 1992 single market**, and was **consolidated by the collapse of communism** and **eastern enlargement** (new members swallowed it whole as part of the *acquis*).

How does the EU enforce competition rules?

Core: competition policy is **the** most supranational EU policy because the market **needs** uniform rules — and the **Commission (DG COMP)** is a uniquely powerful enforcer combining **economic analysis + legal authority + enforcement** in one house.

- **Multi-level, but Commission-led:**
  - **EU level:** common rules · **Commission enforcement** · **CJEU** review.
  - **National level: National Competition Authorities (NCAs)** enforce within member states, coordinated through the **European Competition Network (ECN).**
- **The Commission's role has *expanded*** — from merely **proposing** common rules to running the whole enforcement chain: **investigation → enforcement → remedies → fines.** It has become "an increasingly **autonomous** competition regulator" — effectively **investigator, prosecutor, and judge** in one (a key debate — see the due-process critique).
  - Enforcement teeth: **dawn raids** (surprise inspections), heavy **fines** (up to **10% of global turnover**, paid into the **EU budget**), **commitments/remedies**, and — for cartels — the **leniency programme.**
- **DG COMP — "perhaps the most powerful competition authority in the world"** *(Wilks)*. A **small** directorate (~720 staff) but exceptionally **autonomous** — ranked among the five "elite" global agencies (with the US FTC & DOJ). Its **administrative model** (officials investigate *and* decide) is a global alternative to the US **court-based** model.
- **Modernization — Regulation 1/2003** *(Wilks)*. A "once-in-a-generation" reform that **decentralized** antitrust enforcement to the **NCAs** (under Commission supervision), coordinated through the **European Competition Network (ECN)**. It **replaced national laws with EU law** for cross-border cases and **mobilized NCA resources** — vital, since DG COMP is chronically **understaffed** (~436 senior officials policing 450m+ consumers).
- **The "prosecutor, judge and jury" critique** *(Wilks — a key legitimacy debate)*. In the Art. 101 process one **rapporteur** investigates, negotiates *and* prosecutes, then DG staff **decide and set the fine** — all inside one organization ("policeman, arbitrator, prosecutor, judge, jury *and* prison officer"). Hence recurring calls for an **independent European Cartel Office** — and the **General Court** has pushed back (it overturned the Commission in *Airtours* 2002 for "manifest errors"). → *the accountability problem grows sharper as DG COMP grows more powerful (see debates).*

Pillar 1 — Cartels (Article 101 TFEU)

Core: the classic sin: **competitors agreeing not to compete.** Art. 101 prohibits **agreements and concerted practices** that prevent, restrict or distort competition.

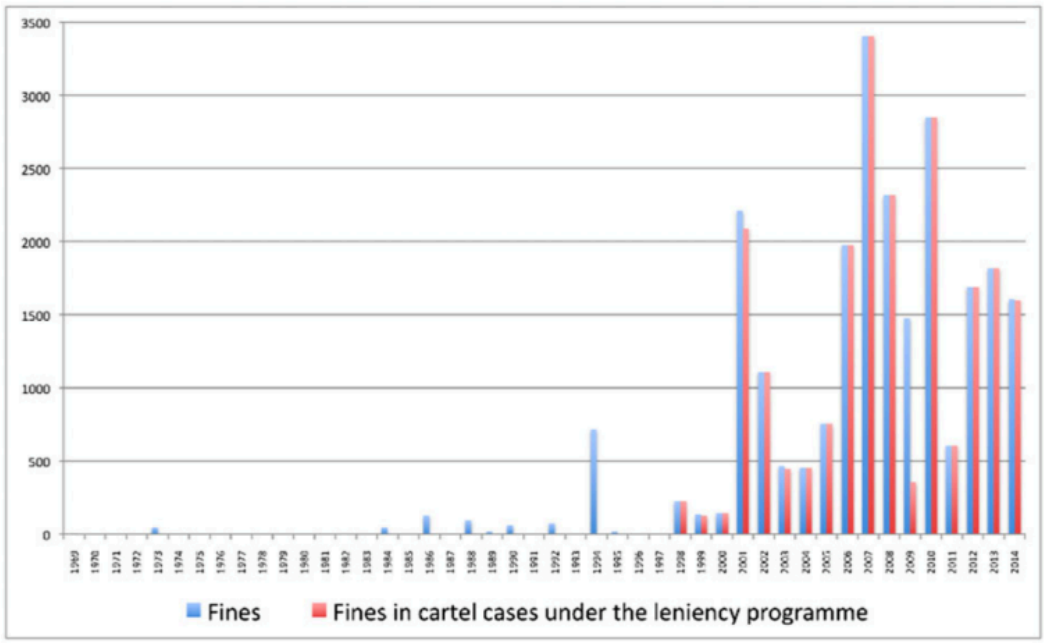
- **Typical cartel conduct: price-fixing · market-sharing · production limits · restrictions on technical development (R&D).**
- **The car-emissions cartel** (Daimler, BMW, VW): the firms held technology that could cut harmful **nitrogen-oxide (NOx)** emissions — and **agreed *not* to compete** on developing/deploying it. → *Illustrates:* a cartel can suppress not just price competition but **innovation itself** — colluding to keep a cleaner technology off the market. *(A striking answer to "why would firms agree not to innovate?": innovation is costly, and not competing protects everyone's margins.)*

The leniency programme — the Commission's best cartel-buster

Core: cartels are secret, so the EU turns members against each other: the **first** conspirator to **confess** and hand over evidence gets **total immunity** (or a big discount). A **whistleblower** tool that makes cartels unstable from within.

- **How it works:** self-report → **full exemption** for the first mover; **reduced fines** for later cooperators. Because each member fears a rival will defect first (a **prisoner's dilemma** turned against the cartel), it **destabilizes** cartels and cracks open cases the Commission could never prove alone.

Figure 1: Total fines per year (1962–2014. Constant millions of euros 2010)



How to read it. Two things jump out: **(1)** enforcement was **tiny until ~2000**, then **exploded** — the Commission grew into a heavyweight regulator (peaks ~**€3.4 bn in 2007**, ~€2.8 bn in 2010); **(2)** most of the biggest years are **red** — **cartel fines under the leniency programme** — showing how central leniency became to modern enforcement. → *Visual proof of the deck's "increasingly autonomous regulator": the Commission's competition muscle is a recent, dramatic development.*

Pillar 2 — Abuse of a dominant position (Article 102 TFEU)

Core: the crucial nuance — **being dominant is *not* illegal.** What's banned is **abusing** dominance to squeeze out competitors.

- **Dominance ≠ abuse:** a firm can lawfully grow big and win the market. Art. 102 bites only when it **abuses** that position. Typical abuses:
  - **exclusive purchasing** requirements (lock customers in);
  - **predation** (price below cost to kill rivals, then raise prices);
  - **refusal to supply** an input rivals need to compete;
  - **excessive pricing** — e.g. the **Aspen** case (a pharma firm hiking prices of off-patent drugs).

- → *The hard question is always **where dominance ends and abuse begins** — which is exactly what Google Shopping tests in digital markets.*

Pillar 3 — Merger control (Wilks)

Core: the "**dramatic face**" of competition policy — the Commission can **block or condition** mergers that would create a dominant position. A "**one-stop shop**" for Europe's biggest deals.

- **Legal basis:** the **Merger Regulation** (Reg. **4064/89 → 139/2004**, in force 1990) — Sir **Leon Brittan's** triumph that made DG COMP **globally pre-eminent.** *(Note: merger control was **not** in the original Treaty — it had to be added in 1989.)*
- "**One-stop shop**"**:** the Commission handles the **largest** mergers (aggregate turnover above a **€5 bn** threshold — ~**300/year**); smaller deals go to national authorities. Firms **prefer** it — **fast, transparent, one approval** instead of 28.
- **Two phases: Phase 1** (most cleared within a month) → **Phase 2** (in-depth). **Outright blocks are rare** (only **~4 in 2003–12**); the norm is **approval with conditions** (e.g. **divestitures**).
- **The test:** originally "**dominance**"; the **2004 reform** added "**significant impediment to effective competition**" (SIEC), nudging toward the US/UK "substantial lessening of competition" standard — but it stays an **economic** test, not a public-interest one.
- **Subsidiarity valves:** the "**German clause**" **(Art. 9)** lets a case be sent *down* to a national authority; the "**Dutch clause**" **(Art. 23)** lets a state ask the Commission to take a case *up*.
- **The 2001–02 shock** (why the "more economic approach" happened): the Commission **blocked GE/Honeywell (2001)** — a US firestorm over "arrogance/poor economics" — then in **2002** ***lost*** its first-ever appeal (**Airtours**, "manifest errors of assessment"), plus **Schneider** and **Tetra Laval.** Response: it **beefed up economics** — a new **chief economist** post (2003), Monti's "economic interpretation."
- **Extraterritorial reach:** the Commission blocked **Deutsche Börse/NYSE Euronext** *despite* US approval — fuelling the recurring US charge that the EU "protects **competitors**, not **competition**."

Digital markets — what happens when market power changes?

Core: digital platforms **break** the traditional competition model. Their economics make **concentration self-reinforcing**, so a dominant platform is far harder to dislodge than a dominant factory.

- **Why digital markets tip to monopoly:**
  - **network effects** — more users → more value → still more users;
  - **economies of scale** — near-**zero marginal cost** to serve one more user;
  - **data advantages** — more users → more data → better service → more users;
  - **ecosystems** — bundled services reinforce each other. → **Result:** concentration **reinforces itself** — a winner-takes-most dynamic.
- **From dominance to *gatekeeping*.** The old question — *is a dominant firm abusing its position?* — gives way to a structural one: *does the platform **control access** to users and markets?* A **gatekeeper** is "a platform that controls access to a large group of users." Its risks: **lock-in · barriers to entry · self-preferencing · data advantages.**

Google Shopping — when the platform competes with its own users

Core: the flagship digital abuse-of-dominance case. **Google gave its own comparison-shopping service more prominent placement** in search results than rivals'. **Is that just competition, or abuse of market power?**

- The Commission ruled it **abuse of dominance** (self-preferencing) — Google used its **search near-monopoly** to advantage its own downstream service, foreclosing rival shopping comparison sites. *(A huge fine followed.)* → *Illustrates:* Art. 102 stretched into digital markets — but slowly, **case by case**, which is precisely the problem the DMA tries to fix.

The Digital Markets Act — regulation *before* the abuse (ex-ante)

Core: the key shift. Traditional antitrust is **ex-post** (spot conduct → investigate → decide → fine) — but **digital markets change faster than enforcement can act.** The **DMA** goes **ex-ante**: set **rules in advance** for designated **gatekeepers.**

	Traditional antitrust (ex-post)	The DMA (ex-ante)
Logic	*did this firm abuse dominance?* — after the fact	*what obligations must a powerful gatekeeper follow* — in advance
Timing	slow, case-by-case, reactive	pre-emptive rules of conduct

- **DMA obligations on gatekeepers: no self-preferencing · fairer access · interoperability · data-sharing/portability obligations · limits on combining data** across services.
- **The bigger question (deck):** is the EU merely **adapting** competition policy to new markets — or **changing its very idea of what a competitive market requires** (from *police abuses after they happen* to *regulate structure up front*)? → *This links straight to Wilks's "economic constitution": the EU is writing new constitutional rules for digital capitalism.*

Pillar 4 — State aid: when *governments* distort competition

Core: the uniquely-EU pillar. Competition can be rigged not just by firms but by **governments** favouring their own companies. EU **state-aid** control forbids members from **selectively tilting the playing field.**

- **Forms of state aid: subsidies · tax advantages · preferential loans · government guarantees · preferential access** to goods/services.
- **The EU principle:** member states must **not selectively** advantage particular firms/sectors in a way that distorts competition. *(This is remarkable — the EU polices its own **member governments**' economic choices, not just companies. A major constraint on national industrial policy.)*

Tax rulings as state aid — Fiat & Apple

Core: the syllabus's **Fiat** case (and its twin, **Apple**): the Commission attacked **sweetheart tax deals** as **illegal state aid.**

- **Fiat (FFT) in Luxembourg** and **Apple in Ireland:** national tax authorities gave the companies **favourable tax rulings** allowing them to pay very little tax. The Commission argued these were **selective advantages** = **illegal state aid**, and ordered the money **recovered** (Apple: **€13 bn**). → *Illustrates:* state-aid rules reaching into **national tax sovereignty** — hugely controversial (the member states involved often *fought*

the Commission, not wanting the back-taxes). *(The courts have gone both ways on these — the legal boundary is contested.)*

The new frontier — foreign subsidies

Core: a **regulatory gap** the EU recently closed. EU state-aid rules bind **EU** governments — but what about a **non-EU** government (e.g. China) subsidizing a firm that then competes in the EU?

- **The gap:** an EU member's subsidy gets **EU scrutiny**; a **non-EU** government's subsidy to a firm competing in the EU market previously had **no equivalent instrument.**
- **The Foreign Subsidies Regulation** fills it: the Commission can investigate **large mergers, big public-procurement bids**, and other situations **on its own initiative (*ex officio*)**, and respond with **commitments, remedies, or outright prohibition** of a deal/contract.
- **Bulgarian train procurement (2024):** the Chinese state-owned **CRRC Qingdao Sifang** bid ~**€610 m** for 20 electric trains + maintenance. → *The dilemma:* should Bulgaria take the **cheaper** offer if the bidder was **foreign-subsidized**? Cheaper trains now vs a **level playing field** and long-term EU industry — the politics of the new tool in a nutshell.

History & political economy — how competition policy became so powerful (Wilks)

Core: competition policy went from a **marginal, distrusted idea** to the EU's **most powerful supranational regime** — and it remains **ideologically contested.**

- **Three roots: US antitrust** (late-19th-century — protect "**the little man**" from the industrial "**trusts**"); German **ordoliberalism** (the economic constitution); and the **Treaty of Rome** common-market vision (1958). Competition was once seen as **wasteful and destructive** — **cartels were legal** in Europe until the **late 1960s**, and postwar industrial policy ran on **nationalization, planning and** "**national champions.**"
- **The neoliberal turn:** the free-market vision became dominant only with the **1980s neoliberal revolution + the 1992 single market**, then **consolidated** by the fall of communism and the **2004/07 enlargements.**
- **The "more economic approach" (the "turn to economics"):** after the **2001–02 merger defeats**, DG COMP shifted from formalistic legal categories to **effects-based economic analysis** and a "**consumer welfare**" standard — an **Americanization** criticized for embedding **Anglo-Saxon neoliberalism** over the continental "**social-market**"/**Rhenish** model, and for **favouring big transnational firms** (who lobbied for it).
- **Key Commissioners: Sutherland** (state-aid "name & shame," late 80s) · **Brittan** (the Merger Regulation) · **Monti** (the €497m **Microsoft** fine; created the chief-economist post) · **Kroes** (the crisis "temporary framework") · **Almunia** (Google; modernization).
- **Competition vs industrial policy** — the enduring tension: **recessions revive** the appeal of state support and **national champions** (France/Germany/Italy protective). DG COMP's fortunes **ride the economic cycle** (boom → more mergers, less resistance; recession → interventionist voices win).
- **The financial-crisis test (the big one).** After **Lehman (2008)**, an "**avalanche**" of **bank bailouts** and calls (Sarkozy) to **suspend** state-aid rules. Commissioner **Kroes did *not* suspend** — she enacted a "**temporary framework**" **(Dec 2008)** allowing **rescue aid under conditions** aimed at eventually restoring competition. The scale was staggering: ~**€1.6 tn** of bank aid *used* (**13% of EU GDP**), **€5.1 tn approved** (**40% of 2011 GDP**); **Ireland** approved aid worth **365% of its GDP.** → **Wilks's verdict:** the regime "**bent but did not**

buckle" — either a "**mild triumph**" that defended the economic constitution, *or* a **return to the status quo** that reproduced the very oligopolies and banks that caused the crisis. **None of the forecast threats** (protectionism, a swing to the Rhenish model) **materialized** — the Commission **defended the economic constitution.**

- **The accountability debate** (recap): the "prosecutor, judge and jury" critique, **corporate-lobbying** influence, and the **legitimacy** question — which **Majone** answers by "**output legitimacy**" (expertise + efficiency + due process, not democratic control — see theories).

★ Three theories of EU competition policy

Core: the deck's framing — **three lenses on the same outcomes** (the Commission's growing power; Google → the DMA; the Foreign Subsidies Regulation). Ask **what each theory looks for.**

Lens	Core claim	Looks for…
Liberal Intergovernmentalism	member states had **different preferences** about competition policy	**bargaining · who wanted what · bargaining power**
Supranationalism / neofunctionalism	the **Commission** acquired **expertise & enforcement authority**	**Commission autonomy · spillover · new competences**
Ideas (constructivism)	**understandings** of the proper role of state & market **changed**	**changing norms** about legitimate markets

- **Apply them (the deck's grid):**
  - **Commission becomes more powerful** → *LI:* who **agreed**? · *Supra:* how did **autonomy** develop? · *Ideas:* what became **legitimate**?
  - **Google → DMA** → *LI:* what did **governments** want? · *Supra:* did **regulatory gaps** create spillover? · *Ideas:* how did **ideas about competition** change?
  - **Foreign Subsidies Regulation** → *LI:* which **states** pushed for it? · *Supra:* why did **EU authority** expand? · *Ideas:* what does "**fair competition**" now mean?
- **Wilks's own lens — Majone's "regulatory state":** competition policy is the **classic example** of EU "**non-majoritarian**" **regulation** — legitimized not by majority vote but by **expertise, due process and objective efficiency** ("output legitimacy"). It's **law-driven policy-making**, run through courts and a network of agencies. *(This is the EU III neoliberal debate in its purest institutional form.)*
- **The takeaway:** no single theory wins — but competition policy is the **strongest case for supranationalism** (an autonomous Commission that expanded its own authority), *framed* by a powerful **idea** (the market/economic constitution) that member states then **had** to accept.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (EU IV: Competition Policy)

> Sticky bits from the competition-policy lecture.

- **The ECB for markets.** Wilks's image: just as the **ECB** guards the currency, the competition rules guard the **free market** — an "**economic constitution**" for Europe.
- **DG COMP is tiny. ~720 staff** (about 436 decision-makers) police a market of **450 million** people — the member states reportedly **keep it understaffed** on purpose, as one of the few ways to **rein it in**.

- "**Policeman, arbitrator, prosecutor, judge, jury — and prison officer.**" The memorable jibe about the Commission doing *everything* in a competition case inside one building.
- **The "nuclear option" has never been fired.** Since 2003 the Commission *can* force a company to **break itself up** (divestiture) — "the antitrust equivalent of a nuclear strike" — but has **never** done it.
- "**The Full Monti.**" When Commissioner Mario Monti fined **Microsoft €497 m** (2004) for bundling Media Player, the *FT* headline wrote itself. Microsoft's total hit reached **€1.6 bn** by 2013.
- **Leniency is a prisoner's dilemma weapon.** The first cartel member to confess walks free — so nobody trusts anyone. In **2012** there were **60 leniency applications** but only **5 cartel decisions.**
- **Fines fund the EU.** Competition fines — **€7 bn over 2009–13** — go straight into the **EU budget.** A **€1.47 bn** single-cartel fine (TV tubes, 2012) set a record.
- **Ireland guaranteed bank aid worth 365% of its GDP** during the crisis — the most extreme state-aid commitment in EU history.
- **Cartels can conspire *not to innovate*.** The car-makers agreed to hold back **cleaner emissions tech** — a reminder that competition drives not just prices but progress.

EU V: European Citizenship and Identity (AUW)

Required reading: McCormick, J. (2021), *Understanding the European Union: A Concise Introduction*, ch. "The EU and its Citizens," pp. 88–109 · Szczerbiak, A. & Taggart, P. (2024), "Euroscepticism and anti-establishment parties in Europe," *Journal of European Integration* 46(8), pp. 1171–1191.

Theme of the lecture. After four lectures on the EU's history and machinery, this one turns to its **people**: has decades of integration actually produced a **European identity** — and does it matter? The lecture runs a chain — **formal citizenship → identity → public attitudes → political consequences** — stressing that *one does not automatically lead to the next*. Along the way it tackles the **democratic deficit**, how citizens are represented, *why* individuals come to support or oppose the EU (four mechanisms), and the rise of **Euroscepticism** and the **politicization** of European integration.

> ★ **The heart of the lecture:** the EU's future "depends on the support of its citizens, not just its elites" — so citizen **attitudes** are now a real constraint on integration. But the links are loose: holding an **EU passport** (formal citizenship) does not make you **feel** European (identity), which does not determine whether you **support** the EU (attitudes), which in turn shapes what leaders can do (consequences). Europe has moved from a **permissive consensus** (leave it to the elites) to a **constraining dissensus** (a politically contested project).
> **Red thread:** what kind of political community are EU citizens citizens of — and when do citizens' identities get *activated* to reshape integration?

Key concepts to apply: *EU citizenship (rights + the Art. 20 "additional, not replacement" limit) · the democratic deficit · the knowledge deficit · federation vs confederation (the Moravcsik–Franklin debate) · indirect / direct / engagement channels of representation · second-order elections · identity as constructed, contested, changeable · nested / cross-cutting / marble-cake identities · civic vs exclusionary construction of Europe · the two-way identity ↔ integration relationship · permissive consensus → constraining dissensus · the four attitude mechanisms (utility · identity · cues · benchmarking) · hard vs soft Euroscepticism · Euroscepticism vs anti-establishment politics (Szczerbiak & Taggart's five clusters; the "fungible issue") · politicization of identities*.

The core puzzle, and the citizenship → identity → attitudes → consequences chain

Core: you are a **national citizen** *and* a **European Union citizen** — but what does that actually mean, and does it tell us anything about whether you *feel* European or *support* the EU?

- **The puzzle:** the EU **is not a state**, so what kind of political community are EU citizens citizens *of*? EU citizenship exists **alongside** national citizenship and grants rights tied to membership of the Union.
- **The lecture's chain:** *formal citizenship → identity → public attitudes → political consequences.* **Main idea:** one layer does **not** automatically produce the next; there are multiple layers of interaction between them.
- **Why this is political:** the future of integration "depends on the support of its citizens, not just its elites." **Public opinion actively constrains leaders** — so understanding citizen attitudes is essential to understanding the EU's future challenges.

Three theories, three ways of thinking about citizens

Core: the three integration theories from earlier lectures each frame the citizen differently — keep them as lenses throughout.

Lens	How it sees the citizen
Liberal intergovernmentalism	citizens → **domestic preferences** → national governments → **interstate bargaining**
Supranationalism / neofunctionalism	**spillover**: integration creates institutions, rules and actors that develop **their own dynamics**
Constructivism	**identity, norms and socialization shape interests** — and integration can **reshape identities**

What does EU citizenship actually give you? (more important, yet less than it seems)

Core: EU citizenship is a real bundle of rights, but by treaty it is an **add-on** to national citizenship, not a replacement — "both more important and yet less than it seems" (McCormick).

The rights it grants (deck):

- **Free movement and residence** across the Union.
- **Vote (and stand) in European Parliament elections.**
- **Vote in local/municipal elections where you reside** (but **not** national elections).
- **Consular protection** from any other member state when outside the EU and your own state has no representation.
- The right to **petition the EU institutions** (Parliament, the Ombudsman).

The limits:

- **Additional, not a replacement.** Maastricht created EU citizenship; the **Lisbon Treaty, Art. 20** states it "shall be additional to and not replace national citizenship." You remain a citizen of your **home state**.

- **Social and psychological barriers** to real free movement remain — language, customs, laws, road rules, banking, local products. "There is a limit to how much common EU laws will help" an Italian settling in Estonia.

Background: citizenship, and the "people's Europe"

- **What normally distinguishes a citizen from a non-citizen** (McCormick, via Joppke): the right to **vote and run for office**, jury service, eligibility for the **armed forces**, protection from forcible removal, consular protection abroad, right of **re-entry**, recognition by other states, and a **sense of belonging**. Many ordinary rights (equality before the law, property, free speech, minimum welfare) are enjoyed by **non-citizens too** — which is why EU citizenship is thinner than it sounds.
- It took leaders **30+ years** to attend to how ordinary Europeans related to integration. The **Adonnino Committee** (1984–85) proposed the symbols of a "**people's Europe**": the burgundy **European passport** (from 1986), the **flag** (12 gold stars on blue, borrowed from the **Council of Europe, 1955** — the number is *not* the number of members), **Europe Day** (9 May, the Schuman Declaration anniversary), and the **anthem** (the "Ode to Joy," Beethoven's Ninth).
- The **Single European Act** eased **free movement of people** (provided one had health insurance and enough income not to be a "burden"); a **1991 directive** introduced **mutual recognition of professional qualifications** (3+ years of training).

★ The democratic deficit

Core: the **democratic deficit** is "the gap between the actions taken by the EU institutions and the ability of ordinary Europeans to **directly influence** those actions" (McCormick).

- **The deck's framing:** the **Commission (unelected)** proposes legislation and governs areas of **exclusive supranational competence**; treaty changes have often been negotiated **among elites**. *But* the EU also combines **direct and indirect** democratic channels — so the charge is contested.
- **Evidence critics cite (McCormick):** few of the EU15 held referendums on joining; **Maastricht and Lisbon** were negotiated largely behind closed doors; the Commission faces little direct accountability; **Council and COREPER** mostly meet **in secret**; the **EP cannot raise revenue or initiate laws**; citizens have **no say over Court appointments**; and formal citizen rights are modest.

The key move: it depends whether you treat the EU as a federation or a confederation

Core: McCormick's central argument — "*everything depends on how the EU is understood.*"

- As a **federation**, its democratic credentials would be **weak**.
- As a **confederation**, representation is *expected* to be **indirect** (national governments answer to voters and represent them in the EU's chambers) — so its procedures are "almost everything we could expect." The irony: to satisfy critics, the EU would have to **become the federation they oppose**.
- **The scholarly debate: Franklin (1996)** — the lack of accountability is a "**crisis of legitimacy**." **Moravcsik (2002)** — EU institutions are hemmed in by checks (narrow mandates, fiscal limits, super-majorities, separation of powers), so EU policy-making is "**clean, transparent, effective and politically responsive**."
- **Useful data point:** trust in the **EU has consistently outstripped trust in national governments**; and **2018 was the first year ever** that a majority of Europeans felt their **voice counts** in the EU.

The knowledge deficit

Core: a second, "more fundamentally troublesome" deficit — most Europeans simply **don't understand how the EU works**, which makes opinion unstable and leaves a gap "into which Eurosceptics have walked."

- **Stats:** in **2004**, **55%** thought the EU was created just after WWI and **50%** did not know the EP was directly elected; by **2019**, **70%** knew the EP is elected, but **31% had never heard of the Council of the EU**.
- **Consequence:** referendums are often decided on **other** grounds — the **2005 French** vote (≈75% admitted knowing little about the treaty; many voted on Chirac) and **Brexit 2016** (false claims; votes driven by the government of the day, the economy and immigration).
- **Exam tip (deck):** distinguish "**I/many people dislike a decision**" from "**the decision-making process is insufficiently democratic**." Only the second is a genuine democratic-deficit claim.

How are EU citizens represented?

Core: three routes, running from arm's-length to hands-on.

Channel	How it works	Bodies / tools
Indirectly	through your **national government**	European Council · Council of the EU
Directly	through your **elected EU representatives**	European Parliament
Through engagement	participation and active citizenship	referendums · EU-level interest groups · the **European Ombudsman** · the **European Citizens' Initiative (ECI)**

- **European elections** (every 5 years since 1979, by **PR**) are the one directly democratic channel — but they are "**second-order**" **elections** (Reif & Schmitt 1980): fought on **national** issues, used to send messages to national governments, with **low turnout** (from 63% in 1979 down to ~43% in 2009/2014, recovering to ~51% in 2019).
- **Referendums** on EU questions have multiplied (**46 votes, 37 since 1992**; Ireland 8, Denmark 7). Two types: on **membership** and on **treaties**. Denmark was the **first to reject a treaty** (Maastricht, 1992, by 50.7%); France and the Netherlands **killed the Constitutional Treaty in 2005**. The **euro** was put to a vote only in **Denmark and Sweden — both said No** — so no euro government has dared ask.
- **Interest groups** (e.g. **BusinessEurope**, the **ETUC**) cluster in Brussels and **help offset the deficit** by giving citizens a channel that **bypasses national governments**.
- **European Ombudsman:** handles complaints of **maladministration** by EU bodies (except the Courts); the **Commission** draws most complaints.
- **European Citizens' Initiative (ECI):** a Lisbon innovation — **1 million citizens from at least 7 member states** can invite the Commission to propose legislation.

European identity: who are "we"?

Core: European identity is **not a fact to be measured** — it is a set of **contested ideas** about who "we" are, which values define Europe, who belongs, and where Europe ends.

- In **social constructivism**, identities are **constructed, contested and changeable** — not fixed or natural.

Multi-level identities: one identity does not replace another

Core: national and European identities **coexist**; there are three ideal-typical ways they fit together.

Type	Image	Meaning
Nested	Russian doll	smaller collective identities **sit inside** larger ones
Cross-cutting	overlapping circles	different identity markers **overlap** with no single hierarchy
Blended	marble cake	national and European identities **interact and change one another**

Civic vs exclusionary constructions of Europe

Core: "Europe" is something political actors **construct** — and they build it in opposite ways.

	Civic construction	Exclusionary construction
Basis	shared **civic values**	**essentialist** cultural markers
Content	freedom, democracy, equality, human rights, rule of law	Europe as a **bounded cultural community**
Stance	inclusive, values-based	threatened by **migration, enlargement, outside influence**
Example	the **Lisbon Treaty preamble** ("universal values… freedom, democracy, equality and the rule of law")	the **Front National (2007)** on Turkey ("an Asian country… does not have its place in Europe")

The two-way relationship: identity ↔ integration

Core: constructivism's key claim — causation runs **both ways**.

- **Identity shapes integration:** what actors consider **desirable or legitimate** depends on socially shared identities, values and norms.
- **Integration shapes identity:** membership, institutions, **socialization** and shared experiences change how actors understand themselves.

★ From permissive consensus to constraining dissensus

Core: the politics of integration has flipped — citizens used to be bystanders; now they are a brake.

	Permissive consensus	Constraining dissensus (Hooghe & Marks)
Citizens	"leave Europe to the elites"; largely **accepted or ignored** integration	Europe is **politically contested**
Effect on leaders	free hand	**public opinion increasingly constrains** what leaders can do

- **The turning point was Maastricht (1992):** the **Danish No**, the UK's forced **ERM exit**, and the French "**petit oui**" put integration on the public radar and began to erode the permissive consensus (McCormick).

★ Why does one citizen support the EU and another oppose it? Four mechanisms

Core: attitudes toward the EU are driven by four overlapping logics — **utility, identity, cues, benchmarking**. Learn to apply all four to a single voter.

Mechanism	The question	Core logic
Utility	"What's in it for me?"	weigh **costs vs benefits** of membership
Identity	"Who are we?"	belonging, values, perceived **cultural threat**
Cues	"What do people I trust tell me?"	**shortcuts** from parties and media
Benchmarking	"Compared with what?"	judge the EU **against an alternative**

Utility — "what's in it for me?"

- Citizens weigh **benefits** (trade, mobility, investment) against **costs** (adjustment, regulation, redistribution, perceived loss of control).
- **Individual level:** the "**winners**" **of integration** (higher education, income, skills) are more supportive — the **elite–mass gap**.
- **National level:** citizens in countries that **benefit** (through trade or redistribution) are more supportive.

Identity — "who are we?"

- A **strong attachment to the nation does not by itself** imply opposition to the EU.
- But where national identity is **exclusive** (hostile to other cultures), Europe is easily framed as a **threat to** "**us**" → more likely to oppose the EU.

Cues — "what do trusted actors tell me?"

- Most citizens **do not follow EU politics closely** (information asymmetry), so **parties and media provide shortcuts**. Voters of **pro-EU parties** are more likely to be pro-EU — the cues matter even when the issue is not intrinsically important to the voter.

Benchmarking — "compared with what?"

- **Democratic benchmark:** citizens in **high-quality national democracies** may be **less** supportive of the EU.
- **Contrast / scapegoat:** citizens **dissatisfied with their national government** may become **more** supportive, seeing the EU as an alternative.
- **Economic benchmark:** citizens in **less affluent** states judge the EU on **economic** performance; those in **more affluent** states judge it on **political/democratic** criteria.

- **Worked case (deck):** a young Danish voter *benefits economically* from EU mobility and thinks Denmark would struggle outside (**utility → support**), *but* identifies strongly as Danish (**identity → oppose**) and follows a Eurosceptic party (**cues → oppose**) — the mechanisms pull in **different directions**.

Euroscepticism: opposition to what?

Core: Euroscepticism is **not monolithic** — it runs from wanting reform to wanting out. Taggart & Szczerbiak's classic split:

	Hard Euroscepticism	Soft Euroscepticism
Object	opposition to EU integration **in principle**	opposition to the **current direction / pace / extent**
Endpoint	can mean leaving — opposition to **membership itself**	membership **still accepted** in principle
Framing	**system** opposition	**policy** opposition

- McCormick: the term was coined in **mid-1980s Britain**; arguments vary by issue, time and country and are often "**less about hostility to integration than about immigration**." Eurosceptic parties made large gains in the **2019 EP elections**. Yet the **Spring 2019 Eurobarometer** found **59%** of Europeans wanted **more** decisions taken at EU level (only 32% opposed).

★ Is Euroscepticism the same as anti-establishment politics? (Szczerbiak & Taggart 2024)

Core: **No — there is no *necessary* link.** Classifying **77 parties in 30 countries** (expert-informed, 2018–19), the authors find Euroscepticism is a "**fungible issue**" that domestic politics frames differently; **anti-establishment** must be treated as a party feature **in its own right**.

- **Anti-establishment ≠ anti-system ≠ populism.** Anti-**system** (Sartori) rejects democracy itself; **anti-establishment** accepts the system but attacks the **entrenched elite**. It varies on two dimensions: **scope** (political / economic / cultural; left or right) and **action** (revolutionary → reformist → merely disruptive).
- **The five clusters:**

Cluster	Relationship	Examples
1. Anti-establishment, NOT Eurosceptic	see the EU as **part of the solution** to bad national elites; mostly **CEE** ("return to Europe")	En Marche (FR) · Save Romania Union
2. Eurosceptic, NOT anti-establishment	object to the EU **project**, not "the elite"; often **governing** parties	UK Conservative Party
3. Strong association (largest)	domestic + EU elites seen as **entwined** — possible **"EU-isation"**	National Rally · AfD · Five Star · The League · Fidesz · Syriza · Swiss People's Party
4. Both, but little interaction	the two run on **separate tracks**; mostly **CEE**	Law and Justice (PL) · Austrian Freedom Party · Vox
5. Anti-establishment, Euroscepticism not salient	the EU is a **"touchstone of dissent"** (Taggart 1998) — a "**box to be ticked**," not the appeal	Sweden Democrats · Sinn Féin · Podemos

- **Central thesis:** "Euroscepticism is a very **fungible issue**, and the structures of **domestic politics** play a crucial role in framing the national reception of European integration."
- **Take-home exercise (deck):** for the **Danish People's Party, Fidesz, Five Star, En Marche / Renaissance**, ask what each really opposes — EU integration? a specific policy? EU institutions/elites? **domestic** elites? national identity/cultural change? (often several at once).

★ Politicization: crises activate identities

Core: a crisis does **not automatically** lower EU support. **Politicization** is the process by which **political elites (parties, movements) activate/mobilize identities**, which then feed back into political processes. It turns on three questions: **solidarity** (who should help whom?), **responsibility** (who should fix it?), and **borders & belonging** (who belongs, and who decides?).

	Eurozone crisis	Schengen / migration crisis
Type	economic	cultural and political
Driving question	*how much solidarity?*	*who belongs in Europe?*
Focus	disputes over **responsibility** and financial support	**borders and belonging**
Outcome	Europeans **largely favoured European solutions**; **limited** "us vs them" framing	**Open Europe vs "Fortress Europe"**; **stronger mobilization of national identity**

★ Synthesis — citizens shape integration, integration reshapes politics

Core: the chain runs **both ways**, and **identity is the hinge**.

- **Citizens can shape integration:** domestic preferences, political constraints, electoral incentives and pressure on national governments (the **LI** lens).
- **Integration can reshape politics:** new institutions, rights, **socialization** and new political conflicts (the **supranationalism** lens).
- **Identity links the two:** identities shape interests, while political processes reshape identities (the **constructivism** lens). This is why the opening chain — *formal citizenship → identity → attitudes → consequences* — never runs in only one direction.

Cases & examples

- **The young Danish voter** — the four mechanisms (utility/identity/cues/benchmarking) pull in different directions (deck).
- **French 2005 referendum** — rejected the Constitutional Treaty; ~75% admitted knowing little, many voted on Chirac (knowledge deficit).
- **Brexit 2016** — the first whole country to vote to leave; driven by views of the government, the economy and immigration more than the EU itself.
- **Greenland (1982)** — the first territory to leave the Community.
- **The symbols of a "people's Europe"** — passport, flag (12 stars), Europe Day, "Ode to Joy" (Adonnino).
- **Lisbon preamble vs Front National (2007) on Turkey** — civic vs exclusionary constructions of Europe.
- **Eurozone vs Schengen crises** — solidarity framing vs borders-and-belonging framing.
- **Party cases (Szczerbiak & Taggart)** — En Marche (anti-establishment, pro-EU); UK Conservatives (Eurosceptic, not anti-establishment); Five Star / National Rally / Fidesz (both, entwined).

Key terms

Term	Meaning
EU citizenship	Rights tied to Union membership, **additional to** (not replacing) national citizenship (Lisbon Art. 20)
Democratic deficit	Gap between EU actions and citizens' ability to **directly influence** them
Knowledge deficit	Most citizens don't understand how the EU works, making opinion unstable
Federation vs confederation	The yardstick for judging the deficit (Moravcsik: as a confederation, the EU is responsive enough)
Second-order elections	EP elections fought on **national** issues, low turnout (Reif & Schmitt)
European Citizens' Initiative	1 million citizens from 7+ states can invite a Commission proposal
Constructed / contested / changeable	How constructivism treats identity
Nested / cross-cutting / blended	The three ideal types of multi-level identity
Civic vs exclusionary Europe	Values-based vs culturally-bounded constructions of "Europe"
Permissive consensus	Citizens leave integration to elites
Constraining dissensus	Public opinion now limits what leaders can do (Hooghe & Marks)
Utility / Identity / Cues / Benchmarking	The four mechanisms behind EU support or opposition
Hard / Soft Euroscepticism	Opposition in principle (→ exit) vs opposition to the current direction
Anti-establishment	Opposition to an entrenched elite; varies by **scope** and **action**; ≠ anti-system, ≠ populism
Touchstone of dissent	The EU as a marker of a party's oppositional **identity**, not its appeal (Taggart)
Fungible issue	Euroscepticism as malleable, framed differently across domestic contexts
Politicization	Elites **activating identities** around solidarity, responsibility, borders & belonging

Exam pointers

- **Run the chain** *formal citizenship → identity → attitudes → consequences*, and stress that **each link is loose** (an EU passport does not make you feel or vote European).
- **Apply the four mechanisms** (utility · identity · cues · benchmarking) to a concrete voter and show them **pulling in different directions** (the Danish-voter case).
- **Democratic deficit:** give **one argument for and one against**, hinging on **federation vs confederation** (Franklin vs Moravcsik); and distinguish "I dislike a decision" from "the process is undemocratic."
- **Hard vs soft Euroscepticism** with examples, and the key twist: **Euroscepticism ≠ anti-establishment** — cite Szczerbiak & Taggart's **five clusters** and the "**fungible issue**" thesis.
- **Civic vs exclusionary** identity (Lisbon preamble vs Front National) and the **three multi-level** types.
- **Politicization:** contrast the **eurozone** (solidarity) and **Schengen** (borders & belonging) crises, and note a crisis does **not** automatically cut EU support.

- Keep the **three lenses** (LI · supranationalism · constructivism) ready to read citizens, identity and attitudes.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (EU V: Citizenship & Identity)

> Sticky bits from the citizenship-and-identity lecture.

- **The flag's 12 stars mean nothing numerical.** The ring of **12 gold stars** was adopted from the **Council of Europe (1955)**; it stands for completeness/unity, **not** the number of member states (a common exam trap).
- **Greenland left in 1982.** Its ~53,000 voters made it the **first territory to leave** the Community — decades before Brexit made Britain the first whole country.
- "**It is far to Oslo, but further to Brussels.**" A 1972 Norwegian slogan capturing how EU opposition can be an extension of opposition to one's own capital elite.
- **The euro has never won a referendum.** It was put to a public vote only in **Denmark and Sweden — both said No** — so none of the 19 euro governments dared ask their citizens.
- **2018 was a first.** For the first time ever, a **majority** of Europeans said their **voice counts** in the EU — and trust in the EU has long run **higher** than trust in national governments.
- **In 2004, 55% thought the EU was founded just after WWI.** A vivid illustration of the **knowledge deficit** — and why Eurosceptics found an open goal.
- "**Quintessentially anti-establishment.**" Szczerbiak & Taggart's label for Italy's **Five Star Movement**; France's National Rally coined "**l'UMPS**" for the mainstream parties it accused of colluding with Brussels, and **La France Insoumise** called for a "**Sixth Republic**" to sweep away an establishment "fused with the EU elite."
- **Ireland has voted on Europe eight times.** A constitutional duty to hold treaty referendums gives a country of ~4 million the power to stall treaties for the whole EU (as with Nice and Lisbon).

PART IV · TOOLS FOR POLITICAL ANALYSIS

Tools 4.1: Normative Frameworks — How Should We Evaluate Political Outcomes? (AD)

Required reading: Bueno de Mesquita, *Political Economy for Public Policy*, **ch. 1 "Normative Frameworks"** · *Optional:* **Van Bekkum & Zuiderveen Borgesius**, "Digital welfare fraud detection and the Dutch **SyRI** judgment," *European Journal of Social Security* 23(4) 2021, pp. 323–340. *(Lecturer: Anna Denisenko — deck "4.1 Normative Frameworks." Part IV uses Bueno de Mesquita; Part V (Business & Politics) uses Baron.)*

Theme of the lecture. Political analysis has **two halves**: explaining **what *is*** (positive) and judging **what *should be*** (normative). This lecture equips you for the second. A **normative framework** is a **set of criteria for judging whether a policy, outcome or institution is good** — and the same policy can look **excellent under one framework and terrible under another.** We study **three**: **welfarism** (the goal is *wellbeing*), **liberalism** (the goal is *liberty*), and **egalitarianism** (the goal is *equality*). The running case is **SyRI**, the Dutch welfare-fraud algorithm a court struck down for violating privacy — a policy each framework judges differently.

> ★ **The heart of the lecture — three lenses, often three verdicts.**
> • **Welfarism (wellbeing):** judge a policy by its **consequences for wellbeing.** Two versions — **utilitarianism** (maximise the *sum* of utility) and **Pareto** (improve wellbeing *without harming anyone*).
> • **Liberalism (liberty):** judge a policy by whether it **intrudes on the private sphere.** The whole debate is **where to draw the line** between private and public — by **harm** (Mill), **property/self-ownership** (Locke, Nozick), or **freedom** (Berlin: freedom *from* vs freedom *to*).
> • **Egalitarianism (equality):** judge a policy by whether it **reduces unjust inequality** — but **equality of what?** formal rights, **opportunity**, or **outcomes**. **Rawls**: choose the rules behind a **veil of ignorance** → the **difference principle** (inequality is just only if it helps the worst-off).
> • **The payoff:** *not all good things go together.* There are real **trade-offs** between efficiency, freedom and equality — so the same facts yield **different verdicts**, and naming your framework is what makes an argument honest.

Red thread: *(1) Is this a positive or a normative question? (2) By which criterion are we judging — wellbeing, liberty, or equality? (3) What does each framework say about the same policy, and where do they trade off?*

Key concepts to apply: *positive (what is?) vs normative (what should be?) questions · normative framework = criteria for judging* · **welfarism:** *utility (Bentham) · the utilitarian optimum (maximise the sum) · the veil of ignorance (Harsanyi) · measurement/interpersonal-comparison problem · the "monster"/"Philistine" objections · trolley & transplant · discounting across generations · partiality/relationships · Pareto improvement · Pareto efficiency* · **liberalism:** *the private/public sphere · the harm principle (Mill) · harm vs offense · self-ownership & property (Locke, Nozick) · negative vs positive liberty (freedom from / freedom to — Berlin)* · **egalitarianism:** *equality of formal rights vs opportunity vs outcomes · Rawls' original position, veil of ignorance, equal-liberty & difference principle (maximin) · decreasing marginal utility & redistribution · leveling down · the equality–efficiency (incentives) trade-off · Cohen's three equalities of opportunity (bourgeois · left-liberal · socialist)* · *three sources of disagreement: information · self-interest · values.*

Positive vs normative questions

Core: political science asks **two kinds of question** — and this lecture is about the second.

	Positive (explanatory)	Normative (evaluative)
Asks	*what **is**?*	*what **should be**?*
SyRI example	*Why did the Netherlands build a fraud-detection algorithm?*	*Was that algorithm a **good** policy?*
Settled by	facts, data, evidence	criteria/values — **not by facts alone**

→ *Quick test:* "**Who gains and who loses** from US tariffs on Danish exports?" = **positive.** "Would imposing **retaliatory** tariffs be a **good** policy?" = **normative.**

What is a normative framework?

Core: a **normative framework** is a **set of criteria for judging whether a political outcome, policy or institution is good.** The same policy can look **excellent under one and terrible under another** — so the framework you pick largely decides the verdict.

The three we study:

Framework	The goal of public policy is to promote…
Welfarism	**wellbeing**
Liberalism	**liberty**
Egalitarianism	**equality**

⚠️ **"Liberalism" means several different things** — don't mix them up:

Sense	Claim	Example
IR liberalism	states cooperate via institutions & trade	the EU; democratic peace (IR II)
Philosophical liberalism (this lecture)	policy should protect individual **liberty**	the Hague court: SyRI violated privacy
Economic liberalism	free markets, limited state	free trade, deregulation
"Liberal" in US talk	left-leaning, pro–social-programme	backs Obamacare

*(In Denmark, **Venstre** and **Liberal Alliance** are centre-right — "liberal" in the **economic** sense.)*

The running case — SyRI (System Risk Indication). The Dutch government combined data from many agencies (tax, benefits, housing, employment) into an algorithm flagging people at **high risk of welfare/tax fraud** for investigation. In **2020 a Dutch court ruled the SyRI law violated the right to privacy** (Art. 8 ECHR). We'll judge it through each framework.

★ Welfarism I: Utilitarianism

Core: welfarism judges policy by its **consequences for wellbeing.** The classic version — **utilitarianism** — says the best policy **maximises the *sum* of utility (wellbeing) in society.**

- **Utility (Bentham):** "that property in any object whereby it tends to produce benefit… pleasure… or happiness." Utilitarianism **adds up** everyone's utility and picks the policy with the **highest total.**
- **The utilitarian optimum:** look **only at the total** (the height of the "wellbeing" bar). **Distribution doesn't matter to the verdict** — a policy can shrink one group's share and still win if the **sum** is largest.

Why be a utilitarian?

- **Treats everyone's happiness as equally important** — each person's utility counts once (Bentham).
- **It gives an answer to trade-offs** — by adding and comparing, it always ranks the options (most frameworks struggle to).
- **The veil of ignorance (Harsanyi):** if you chose society's rules *not knowing who you'd be* (rich or poor), you'd pick the arrangement with the highest **expected utility** = the highest **average** utility = **utilitarianism.** *(Rawls uses the same device to reach the **opposite** conclusion — see §egalitarianism.)*

Problems for utilitarianism (the classic objections):

- **Measurement / interpersonal comparison.** To add utility you must **measure, aggregate and compare** wellbeing *across people* — a demanding, maybe impossible, informational requirement.

- "**Monsters.**" If a **sadist** gets enormous pleasure from others' pain, and his pleasure outweighs their suffering, utilitarianism says it's *good* — because it didn't **weigh all affected parties**' utilities against that conclusion. Alarming.
- "**Philistines.**" If people get more utility from crude tastes (reality TV) than from art, should policy cater to that? Utility counts *whatever* its source.
- **Trolley & transplant.** Utilitarianism says divert the trolley to kill 1 instead of 5 — and, more disturbingly, that a surgeon should kill 1 healthy patient to harvest organs saving 5. The transplant verdict clashes hard with moral intuition.
- **Across generations.** Treating all generations equally forces **discounting the future** (how much is a benefit in 50 years worth today?) — central to climate cost-benefit analysis, and deeply contested.
- **Relationships / partiality.** Strict utilitarianism is **impartial**, but we feel special duties to our **own** children and friends — "Ethan's very cute kids." Impartial maximising can't capture that.

★ Welfarism II: Pareto

Core: a more cautious welfarism that **never makes anyone worse off.** Its goal: **increase wellbeing without harming anyone.**

> PARETO IMPROVEMENT
>
> a move from y to x is a **Pareto improvement** if: (1) at least one person is **strictly better off**, and (2) **no one is worse off**

Reads: a change counts as an improvement **only if it helps someone and hurts no one.** · A policy is **Pareto efficient** if **no** Pareto improvement is possible from it (you can't help anyone without hurting someone).

- **Why Pareto? Nobody is harmed**, and you **don't need to compare wellbeing across people** (sidesteps utilitarianism's measurement problem).
- **Key concerns:** it is often **indeterminate** — many policies are efficient, and it can't rank them; and it **privileges the status quo**, because almost every real policy creates **some** losers (so almost nothing is a pure Pareto improvement).

★ Liberalism: the goal is liberty

Core: (philosophical) liberalism judges policy by whether it **protects individual liberty** — by "separating a public and private sphere and rigorously resisting the use of policy to infringe on the **private sphere**" (Judith Shklar).

The key question: *where is the line?*

Liberals split life into a **private sphere** (your own business — religion, friends, what you read; the state stays out) and a **public sphere** (where policy is allowed — traffic, taxes). **All** liberals agree the line exists; they disagree on **where to draw it.** Three ways:

(1) The harm principle (J.S. Mill, *On Liberty*, 1859). "The only purpose for which power can be rightfully exercised over any member of a civilised community, against his will, is to **prevent harm to others.** His own

good… is not a sufficient warrant."

- *The problem — harm or mere **offense**?* Hateful posts (protected US free speech vs Germany's 2017 law requiring deletion), **flag/holy-book burning** (US-protected 1989; Denmark banned Qur'an burning 2023), going to work with a contagious flu (your choice — but not during COVID). The line between **harm** and **offense** is where liberals fight.

(2) Property / self-ownership (Locke; Nozick, 1970s). You **own your own body** → you own **what your work produces** → so **taxing it needs a strong justification.** (A libertarian reading that shrinks the public sphere.)

(3) Freedom — but *which* freedom? (Isaiah Berlin, 1968).

- **Freedom *from*** (negative liberty): nobody stops you. "Congress shall make no law…" → implies a **small state** that stays out of the way.
- **Freedom *to*** (positive liberty): you actually have the **means** to act. Tax-funded schools and healthcare give people the means → implies a **larger state.**
- *The provocation:* is a **homeless person** "**free**" to rent a flat in Copenhagen? Negatively yes (no law stops them); positively no (no means). *(Obamacare's insurance mandate: a welfarist asks "does it raise wellbeing?"; a liberal asks "may the state **compel** you to buy insurance?")*

Liberalism — pros & cons. *Pros:* you own your life and choices; governments can be **wrong** about what's good for you; people with **different values** can live together in peace. *Cons:* the private/public **line is hard to draw**; it can **block welfare-raising policies**; *who* counts as freely choosing (children?); and it can **permit large inequality.**

★ Egalitarianism: the goal is equality

Core: egalitarianism judges policy by whether it **reduces unjust inequality.** The hard question is "**equality of *what*?**" (Amartya Sen).

Equality of what?

Type	Everyone has the same…	Example
Formal rights	rights & liberties	equality before the law
Opportunity	**starting chances** to live a good life	free university
Outcomes	end-state quality of life	equal income/wealth

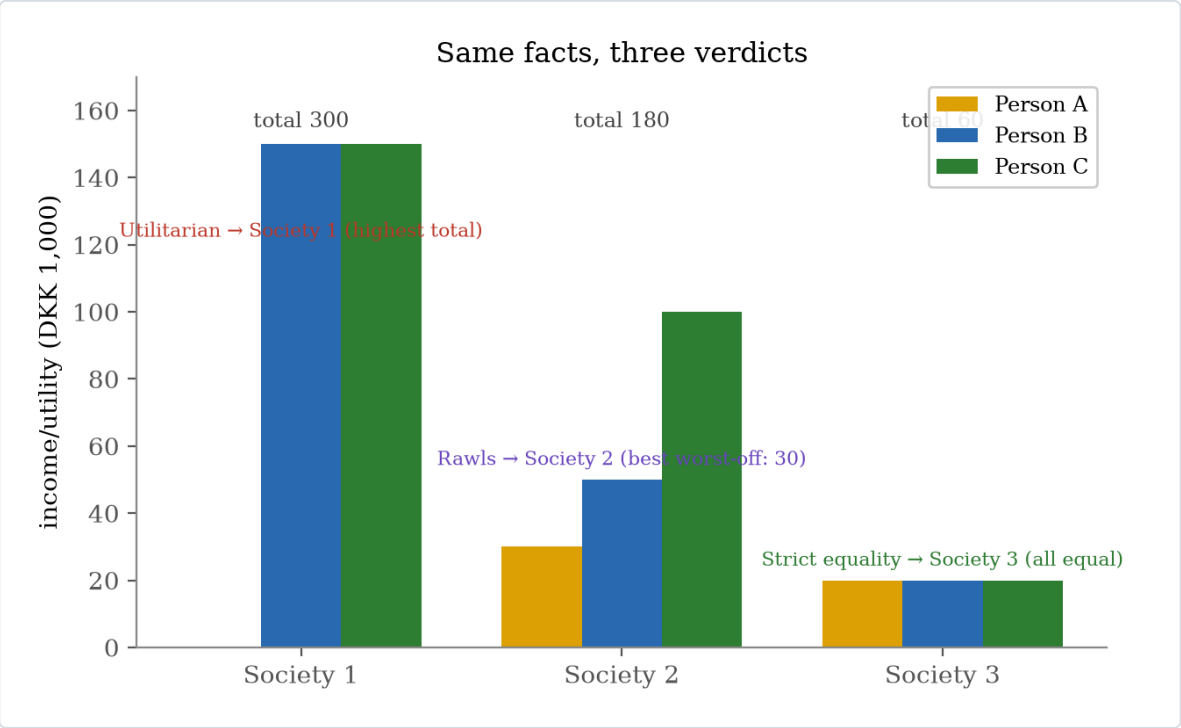
*(Brazil's **race-based university quotas** push **equality of opportunity/outcomes** — but risk **equal formal rights** and efficiency.)*

Rawls — how to choose fair rules

Our views on fairness are **biased by our position** (the rich favour low taxes; the poor favour redistribution). Rawls' fix: imagine choosing society's rules from an **original position, behind a veil of ignorance** — not knowing your class, gender, race, talents or values. From there, he argues we'd choose:

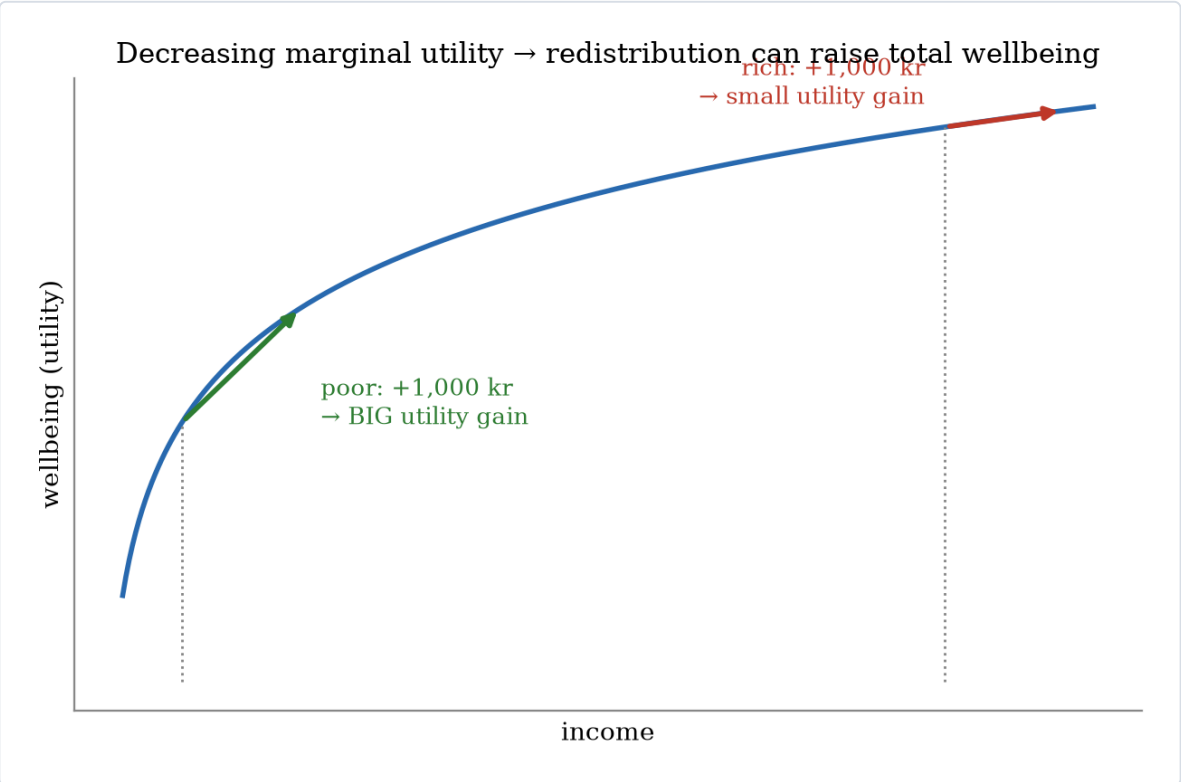
1. **Equal Liberty Principle** — everyone gets equal basic liberties (speech, vote, equality before the law).

2. Inequalities are allowed **only if** (a) positions are **open to all** under fair equality of opportunity, **and** (b) they **benefit the least advantaged** — the **Difference Principle** (a *maximin* rule: maximise the position of the worst-off).



How to read it. Same three people, three societies. **Utilitarian → Society 1** (highest **total**, 300 — never mind that Person A gets 0). **Rawls → Society 2** (the **worst-off** person does best there: 30 > 20 > 0). **Strict equality of outcomes → Society 3** (everyone equal at 20, though the total is lowest). *Same facts, three verdicts — this is why frameworks matter.*

Why redistribution can raise total wellbeing (egalitarians & welfarists agree here)



How to read it. The curve is **decreasing marginal utility**: each extra krone adds **less** wellbeing than the one before. It's **steep for the poor, flat for the rich.** So moving 1,000 kr from a rich person (small utility loss) to a poor person (big utility gain) **raises the total** — a **utilitarian argument *for* some equality.**

Egalitarianism vs the other frameworks

- **With welfarists:** they **agree** on redistribution **when it raises total wellbeing** (the decreasing-marginal-utility argument).
- **With liberals:** they **agree** on equal **formal rights**, but clash on **redistribution** — **Nozick**: justice is about **process**; if holdings were acquired and transferred **justly**, the result is just *however unequal*.

More from the chapter (equality of outcomes vs opportunity):

- **Leveling down** — strict equality can be reached by making everyone **worse off** (a flaw); and strict equality can gut **incentives** to work/invest (the **equality–efficiency trade-off**).
- **Cohen's three equalities of *opportunity*: (1) Bourgeois** — remove formal/legal barriers (race, gender, class); **(2) Left-liberal** — also remove disadvantages of **birth/upbringing** (wealth, schooling, networks); **(3) Socialist** — also neutralise **natural** differences (talent, intelligence). Each is more radical than the last.
- **Key concerns:** do equal-outcome policies **violate equal rights**? how to **trade off equality vs efficiency**? and always — **equality of *what*?**

★ Frameworks at a glance

Framework	Core value	The key question it asks
Utilitarian	total wellbeing	*Does it raise the **sum** of wellbeing?*
Pareto	efficiency	*Does it help someone **without hurting anyone**?*
Liberal	freedom, rights	*Does it **intrude on the private sphere**?*
Egalitarian	equality, fairness	*Does it **reduce unjust inequality**?*

Back to SyRI — one policy, three verdicts

Applying the lenses to the Dutch fraud algorithm:

- **Welfarist:** does SyRI make society **better off overall** — does catching more fraud (protecting public funds) outweigh the costs, including the chilling effect and wrongful flags? A sum-of-wellbeing calculation.
- **Liberal:** does it **intrude on the private sphere** — mass data-combination and surveillance of citizens? *This is the lens the Hague court used:* SyRI violated the **right to privacy** (Art. 8 ECHR). A welfare gain **cannot** justify crossing the private-sphere line.
- **Egalitarian:** does it fall **unequally** — disproportionately flagging poor neighbourhoods and minorities, entrenching disadvantage? Equal **treatment** and fairness, not just aggregate welfare.

→ *Each framework highlights a different problem (and a different possible justification) for the exact same policy.*

Why do reasonable people disagree?

Core: a practical payoff — **diagnosing** a disagreement is the first step to managing it. People disagree for **three distinct reasons**:

Source	What differs	How to address it
Information	different beliefs about the **facts**	**data, analysis, evidence**
Self-interest	different **stakes** in the outcome	appeal to **shared principles** (e.g. the veil of ignorance)
Values	different **normative frameworks**	**cannot be settled by facts alone**

→ **Key lesson:** political analysis asks **both** *what is* and *what should be*; welfarism, liberalism and egalitarianism can give **different verdicts on the same policy**; **not all good things go together** (efficiency vs freedom vs equality); use the frameworks to **clarify your own position** and to **understand those who disagree.**

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Positive vs normative	*what is* (explanatory) vs *what should be* (evaluative)
Normative framework	a set of criteria for judging whether a policy/outcome is good
Welfarism	judge policy by its consequences for **wellbeing**
Utilitarianism	maximise the **sum** of utility; distribution doesn't matter to the verdict
Utility	wellbeing/pleasure/benefit (Bentham)
Veil of ignorance	choose rules not knowing who you'll be (Harsanyi → utilitarianism; Rawls → maximin)
Pareto improvement	≥1 person better off, **no one** worse off
Pareto efficient	no Pareto improvement is possible
Liberalism (philosophical)	judge policy by whether it protects **liberty** / the private sphere
Harm principle	the state may restrict you only to prevent **harm to others** (Mill)
Self-ownership	you own your body → own what your labour produces (Locke, Nozick)
Negative vs positive liberty	freedom **from** interference vs freedom **to** (having the means) — Berlin
Egalitarianism	judge policy by whether it reduces **unjust inequality**
Equality of what?	formal rights · opportunity · outcomes
Difference principle	inequality is just only if it benefits the **least advantaged** (Rawls)
Decreasing marginal utility	each extra krone adds less wellbeing (grounds redistribution)
Leveling down	achieving equality by making everyone worse off

Exam pointers

- **Classify a question** as positive or normative — the first move in any analysis.
- **State each framework's core value & key question** (the glance table) and apply all three to one policy (do it on SyRI).
- **Utilitarianism:** define the utilitarian optimum, give the **veil-of-ignorance** argument *for* it, and **two** classic objections (monsters/transplant/measurement/partiality).
- **Pareto:** define improvement & efficiency and its two weaknesses (indeterminate; status-quo bias).
- **Liberalism:** the private/public line and the **three ways to draw it** (harm · property · freedom), plus **negative vs positive liberty.**
- **Egalitarianism:** equality of what; **Rawls'** veil → **difference principle**; and why **decreasing marginal utility** links equality to welfare.
- **Diagnose a disagreement** as information, self-interest or values.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (Tools 4.1: Normative Frameworks)

> The sticky bits from the normative-frameworks lecture.

- **Same policy, opposite grades.** SyRI is "efficient fraud-catching" to a welfarist, a "privacy violation" to a liberal, and "discrimination against poor neighbourhoods" to an egalitarian — one algorithm, three verdicts.
- **The veil of ignorance cuts both ways.** Harsanyi uses it to *prove* utilitarianism (maximise expected utility); Rawls uses the *same* thought experiment to *reject* it (protect the worst-off). Same device, opposite conclusions.
- **The utility monster.** Push utilitarianism hard enough and a sufficiently gleeful sadist's pleasure can "outweigh" his victims' pain — the reductio that haunts "just add up the happiness."
- **Is a homeless person free to rent a flat?** Berlin's distinction in one question: negatively yes (no law forbids it), positively no (no means). Your answer reveals how big a state you want.
- **"Liberal" is a trap word.** In the US it means left-wing; in Denmark (Venstre, Liberal Alliance) it means economically *right*-wing. Always ask *which* liberalism.
- **Leveling down.** You can make a society perfectly equal by dragging everyone to the bottom — which is why "equality" alone, with no efficiency check, isn't obviously good.
- **Decreasing marginal utility is the bridge.** The one idea where egalitarians and *utilitarians* shake hands: a krone means more to the poor than the rich, so some redistribution raises the total pie of wellbeing.

Tools 4.2: Interests and Rational Choice — Why Do Political Actors Choose What They Choose? (AD)

Required reading: Bueno de Mesquita, *Political Economy for Public Policy*, **ch. 2.1** · *Optional:* **Kenneth Shepsle**, *Analyzing Politics: Rationality, Behavior, and Institutions*, **ch. 2**. *(Lecturer: Anna Denisenko — deck "4.2 Interests and*

Rational Choice.")

Theme of the lecture. Lecture 4.1 asked the **normative** question (which outcomes are *good*); this one asks the **positive** question (**why** actors choose what they choose, and how those choices **add up to outcomes**). The tool is **rational choice**: *political and business outcomes emerge from actors pursuing their goals under constraints.* Build any analysis from **three blocks** — **actors, preferences, constraints** — and you can predict behaviour, see why "good-on-paper" policies fail, and know **which lever** (goals, incentives, or available actions) actually changes an outcome. When one actor's best move depends on others', we add **game theory** and the **Nash equilibrium** — and meet the **prisoner's dilemma**, where individually rational choices produce a collectively bad result.

> ★ **The heart of the lecture — outcomes = actors pursuing goals under constraints.**
> • **Three building blocks: actors** (who chooses?), **preferences** (a ranking of *outcomes*, written x > y), and **constraints** (which options are actually feasible — resources, institutions, information).
> • **"Rational" = complete + transitive preferences** — *not* selfish, not only about money, not all-knowing, not "smart." Just a consistent ranking, pursued as best one can given beliefs and constraints.
> • **To change behaviour, change incentives** (or the available actions) — *not* people's goals. An **incentive** is anything that shifts the costs/benefits of an outcome, and **institutions shape incentives.**
> • **Strategic situations → game theory.** When your best choice depends on what others do, find the **Nash equilibrium**: a strategy profile where everyone is best-responding, so no one wants to deviate. The housing reform and the trade war are both **prisoner's dilemmas** — individually rational, collectively bad.

Red thread: *(1) Who are the actors, what do they want, and what constrains them? (2) Which lever changes the outcome? (3) When choices are interdependent, what's the stable (Nash) result — and is it good?*

Key concepts to apply: *rational choice (outcomes from goals + constraints) · actors · preferences (ranking over **outcomes**, x > y) · constraints (resources · institutions · information) · rationality = **complete + transitive** · what rationality is **not** · the paradox of voting · expressive/duty voting · incentives · the three levers (goals · incentives · actions) · Mayhew (re-election-seeking politicians) · Niskanen (budget-maximising bureaucrats) · **expected value** & when cheating pays · game theory: players · strategies · timing · payoffs · payoff matrix · best response · **Nash equilibrium** · the **prisoner's dilemma** (individually rational → collectively bad; not Pareto efficient) · (critiques) bounded rationality (Simon) · loss aversion / status-quo bias (Kahneman & Tversky) · preferences taken as given · "model as map."*

From "should" to "why"

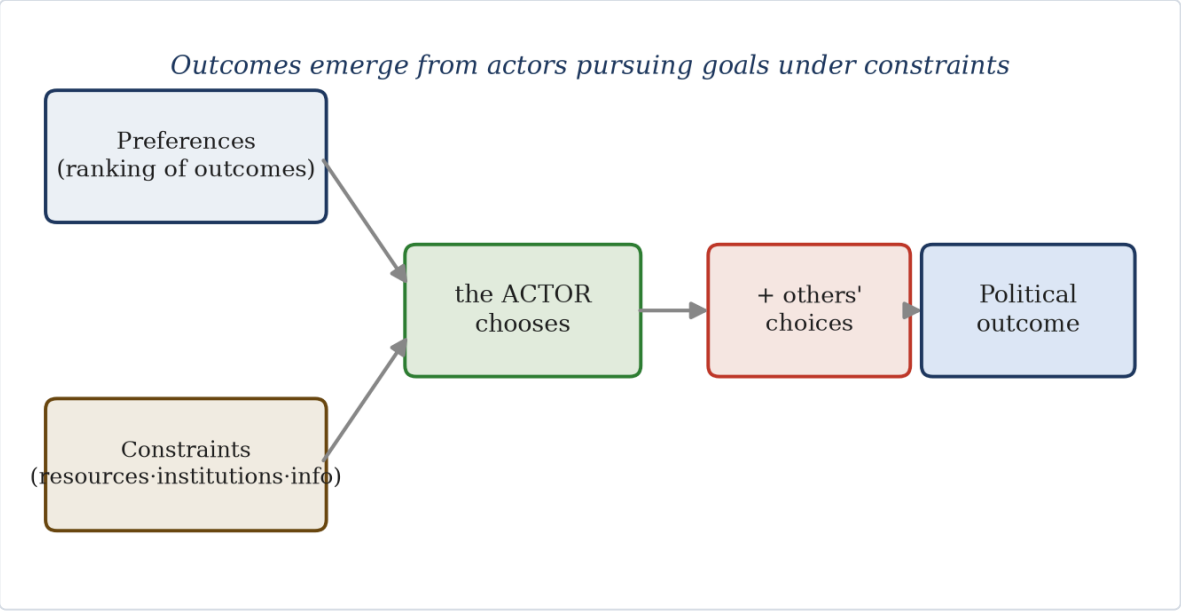
Core: normative frameworks tell us which outcomes are **good**; they do **not** tell us which outcomes will **actually happen.** Rational choice fills that gap.

The lecture's motivating **puzzles** — all answerable with one tool:

- Your single vote **almost never** decides an election — so **why do millions vote**?
- Why do **firms break rules** even when fines are large?
- Why might **abolishing a height limit fail** to fix a housing shortage?
- Why do countries **raise tariffs** when they know free trade makes everyone better off?

★ The three building blocks

Core: *political/business outcomes emerge from actors pursuing their goals under constraints.* Build any analysis from three pieces.



How to read it. An **actor** ranks outcomes (**preferences**) and faces **constraints** (what's feasible); from those they make a **choice**; that choice **plus others' choices** produces the **political outcome.** Change any block and you change the prediction.

1. **Actors** — who is making the choice?
2. **Preferences** — what outcomes do they want?
3. **Constraints** — what options are actually available?

Actors & preferences

Core: we name the actor, assume a **simple goal**, and write their **ranking of outcomes.**

Typical actor	Assumed preferences
Voters	good policy, low taxes, a party they like
Politicians	winning (re-)election, power
Bureaucrats	budget, autonomy, career
Firms	profit
Interest groups	policy wins for their members

- Sometimes we treat a **group** (a city, firm, country) as a **single actor** — a simplification we should **flag.**
- **Preferences = a ranking of possible outcomes.** Write **x ≻ y** = "the actor prefers x to y." E.g. a voter: *carbon tax ≻ green subsidies ≻ do nothing.*
- **Preferences are about outcomes, not actions.** (You don't prefer "voting"; you prefer the *outcome* voting helps bring about.) What shapes them: **goals, identity, values, incentives, information.**

★ What "rational" means

Core: a precise, modest definition — **not** the everyday sense of "clever" or "selfish."

Preferences are **rational** if they are:

- **Complete** — the actor can compare *any* two outcomes (x > y, or y > x, or indifferent).
- **Transitive** — the ranking is consistent: if x > y and y > z, then **x > z.**

What rationality does *not* mean: not selfish (you can prefer helping others — altruism, fairness, duty); **not only about money** (can be identity or ideology); **not all-knowing** (actors can hold *wrong* beliefs); **not "smart" or "good"** (it's about **consistency**, not wisdom).

> RATIONAL CHOICE
>
> acting to achieve one's **most-preferred outcome**, given one's **constraints** and **beliefs**

Reads: given a **complete + transitive** ranking, the actor picks the **feasible action** they believe will lead to the **best** outcome.

Why vote? (the paradox of voting)

Core: the first puzzle — if the *only* goal is to change the result, voting looks **irrational**, yet turnout is high. Resolving it shows preferences are about more than the result.

- The chance a single vote decides a US presidential election is **~1 in 60 million** (Gelman, Silver & Edlin), and voting costs time/effort — so purely *instrumentally* it doesn't pay.
- Yet **~2/3 of eligible Americans voted in 2024**, and **~84% of Danes** in the 2022 Folketing election.
- **Why it can still be rational:** people value **more than** changing the result — the **act itself** (expressing identity/values, doing one's **duty**, participating). Rational choice accommodates this: these are real entries in the preference ranking. *(Preferences over outcomes ≠ "only the election result.")*

Constraints

Core: actors choose the **best feasible** option — so the **constraint set** often decides the outcome.

Types of constraint:

- **Resources** — money, time, seats in parliament.
- **Institutions** — laws, constitutions, electoral rules, EU treaties.
- **Information** — what you know about options and consequences.

→ Same preferences + different constraints → different choices. (Some actions are simply off the table — e.g. *voting twice is illegal.*) This is why **institutions matter**: they set what's feasible.

Incentives & the three levers

Core: we can't choose *for* people — we can only change **what shapes their choices.** There are exactly **three levers.**

Lever	How it works	Feasibility
1. Change goals	persuade people to *want* different things	slow and hard
2. Change incentives	shift the **costs/benefits** of outcomes	the usual policy tool
3. Change available actions	alter the **constraint set** (ban/allow options)	institutional design

- An **incentive** = anything that changes the **costs or benefits** of an outcome. **Institutions shape incentives:** electoral rules shape what politicians promise; budget rules shape what bureaucrats ask for; **fines and inspections** shape whether firms comply.
- **Useful simplifying assumptions about actors:** politicians as "**single-minded seekers of re-election**" (Mayhew 1974) — explains spending aimed at swing voters and blame-avoidance before elections; bureaucrats as **budget-maximisers** (Niskanen 1971) — explains "use it or lose it" year-end spending. *These are useful if they **predict**, not because they're literally true of everyone.*

★ Expected value: when does cheating pay?

Core: to predict a choice under risk, compare the **expected** costs and benefits. This is how you design a rule that actually works.

The firm problem. A firm can secretly break an environmental rule: extra profit from breaking it = **1 million kr**; fine if caught = **5 million kr**; chance of being caught = **1 in 10.**

EXPECTED COST OF CHEATING

$$\mathrm{E[fine]} = \text{probability} \times \text{fine} = 0.1 \times 5{,}000{,}000 = \mathbf{500{,}000\ kr}$$

Reads: on average, cheating costs **500,000 kr** — but it *gains* **1,000,000 kr.** Since the gain (1m) **exceeds** the expected fine (0.5m), a profit-maximiser **cheats.**

How the government flips the decision — raise the expected cost above the gain, via either lever:

- **bigger fine:** need fine × 0.1 > 1m → **fine > 10m**; or
- **more inspections:** need prob × 5m > 1m → **prob > 0.2** (1 in 5).

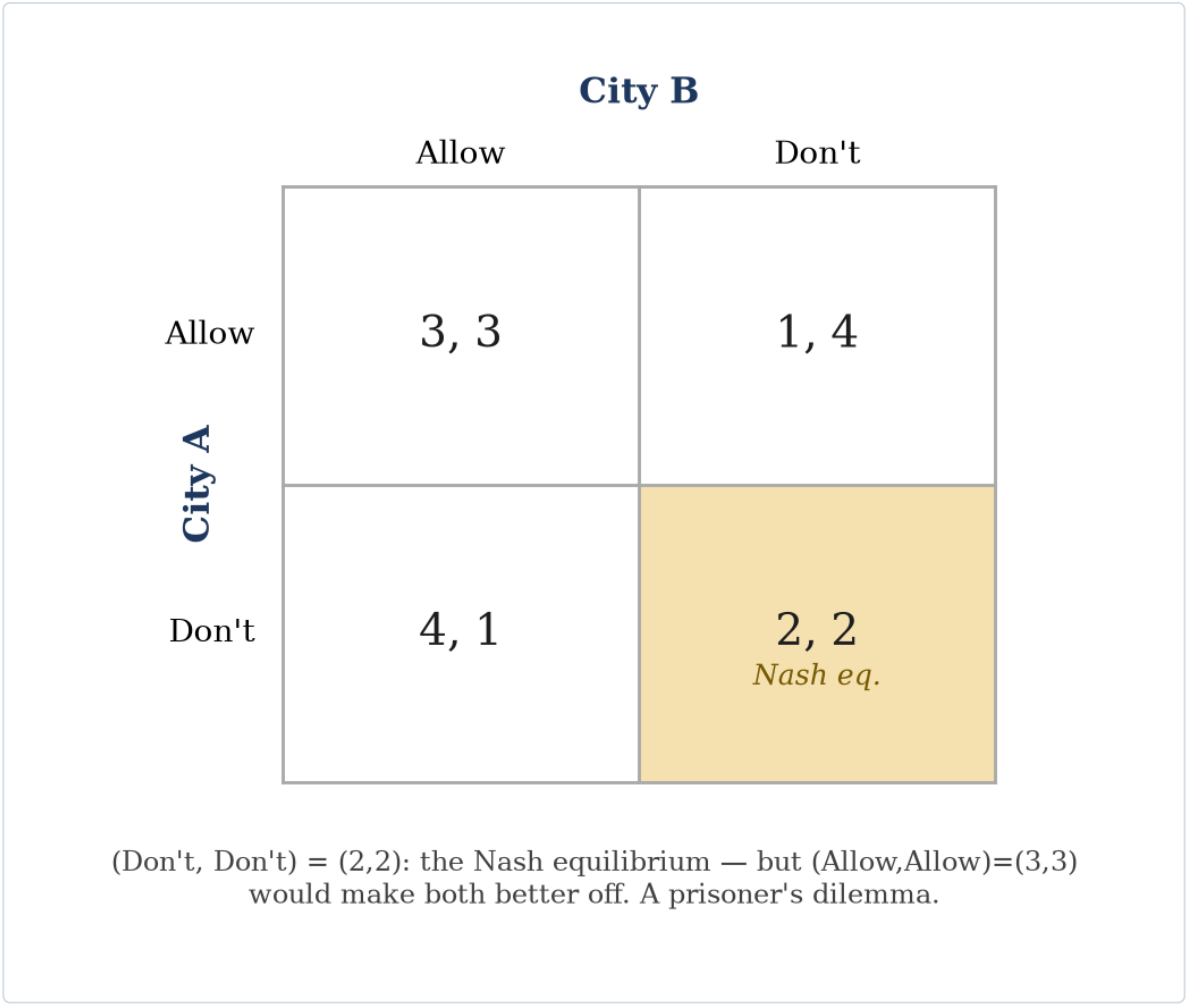
→ *The lesson:* "clean air is good" (normative) isn't enough — you need a **rule big enough that the actor chooses to comply** (rational choice). **Good intentions don't change behaviour; incentives do.**

★ Game theory & the Nash equilibrium

Core: when **your best choice depends on what others do**, you're in a **strategic situation** — use **game theory.** Every game answers **four questions**, and the prediction is the **Nash equilibrium.**

The four questions of a game: (1) Players — who's involved? **(2) Strategies** — what can each do? **(3) Timing** — who moves when? **(4) Payoffs** — what does each want?

The housing game. A national height ban causes a housing shortage; the reform lifts it but lets **each city** choose. Will it work? Model **two cities** (A, B), each can **Allow** tall buildings or **Don't**; they move **simultaneously**; each would rather **not** have towers itself but wants homelessness solved (and cares more about avoiding towers). Ranking → payoffs (higher = better; only the order matters):



(Don't, Don't) = (2,2): the Nash equilibrium — but (Allow,Allow)=(3,3) would make both better off. A prisoner's dilemma.

How to read it. A picks a **row**, B a **column**; each cell is (A's payoff, B's payoff).

- **Best response** = your best strategy given what the other does. *If B allows,* A prefers **Don't** (4 > 3); *if B doesn't,* A still prefers **Don't** (2 > 1). So **"Don't" is best for A no matter what** (same for B).
- **Nash equilibrium** = a **strategy profile where every player is best-responding**, so **no one wants to change alone.** Here that's **(Don't, Don't) = (2, 2)** — the highlighted cell.
- **The recipe:** for each player, **underline the best-response payoff** in every column/row; the cell where **all** payoffs are underlined is the **Nash equilibrium.** (A game can have one, several, or none of this simple kind.)
- **Why it's a good prediction:** it's the "**no regrets**" outcome — after seeing what others did, no one wishes they'd chosen differently. Non-equilibria are **unstable** (someone would switch). *(Named after **John Nash**, Nobel 1994 — "A Beautiful Mind.")*

→ **So will the reform fix the shortage?** No — both cities rationally choose **Don't**, and the towers never get built.

★ The prisoner's dilemma

Core: the housing game and the trade war are both a **prisoner's dilemma** — the signature result where **individually rational choices lead to a collectively bad outcome.**

- **The structure:** each player has a strong individual reason to pick the "selfish" option (**Don't / Tariff**); when **everyone** does, **everyone ends up worse off.**

- **The trade war** (same matrix): two countries choose **Free trade** or **Tariff**; the Nash equilibrium is **(Tariff, Tariff) = (2,2)**, though **(Free trade, Free trade) = (3,3)** is better for both. *Real life, 2025:* the US and China escalated tariffs to **145% / 125%**, then agreed a 90-day truce cutting them to **30% / 10%** — an attempt to climb back to the top-left cell.
- **Link to Lecture 4.1:** the equilibrium **(2,2) is *not* Pareto efficient** — moving to **(3,3)** would make *everyone* better off, with no loser. So a **Pareto** welfarist condemns the equilibrium; a **utilitarian** too (total 4 < 6); and the puzzle "**how do groups escape this trap?**" is **next lecture** (collective action).

Criticisms of rational choice (and why use it anyway)

Core: rational choice is a **model** — deliberately simplified. Know its limits, and why it's still worth using.

Criticisms:

- **Bounded rationality (Herbert Simon):** people have **limited time & information**, so they use **shortcuts** and settle for "good enough" (*satisficing*), not optimising.
- **Psychology — loss aversion (Kahneman & Tversky):** people weigh **losses about twice as heavily as equal gains**, so they **defend the status quo.** *Politics:* cutting an existing benefit causes **more anger** than never giving it — a **status-quo bias** rational choice misses.
- **Where do preferences come from?** Rational choice **takes them as given** (the *Ideas & Identity* lecture opens that box).
- **Too simple?** Real situations have **many** players and options.

Why use it anyway: it makes **assumptions explicit** (who wants what, what constrains them); produces **testable predictions** (more inspections → more compliance); helps **design policy** (the housing reform looked good on paper — a simple game showed why it fails); and **explains surprising outcomes** (rational individuals, bad collective results). *Treat the model as a **map**: it leaves things out precisely so it can be useful.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Rational choice	outcomes emerge from actors pursuing goals under constraints
Preferences	an actor's **ranking of outcomes** (x > y = prefers x to y)
Complete	the actor can compare any two outcomes
Transitive	if x > y and y > z then x > z (consistent ranking)
Constraint	what limits feasible options: resources · institutions · information
Incentive	anything that changes the costs/benefits of an outcome
Expected value	probability × payoff (how to compare choices under risk)
Strategic situation	your best choice depends on what others do
Payoff matrix	table of outcomes & payoffs for a 2-player simultaneous game
Best response	your best strategy given what the others do
Nash equilibrium	a profile where everyone best-responds → no one deviates
Prisoner's dilemma	individually rational choices → collectively worse (non-Pareto) outcome
Bounded rationality	limited info/time → shortcuts & "good enough" (Simon)
Loss aversion	losses loom larger than equal gains → status-quo bias (Kahneman & Tversky)

Exam pointers

- **Set up any analysis** with the three building blocks — actors, preferences, constraints — and state your simplifying assumptions.
- **Define rationality** precisely (complete + transitive) and say what it is **not.**
- **Compute an expected value** and use it to show when a firm cheats — and **which lever** (fine size vs inspection rate) flips the choice.
- **Solve a 2×2 game:** underline best responses, find the **Nash equilibrium**, and explain why it's a good prediction.
- **Identify a prisoner's dilemma** and connect it to Lecture 4.1: the equilibrium is **not Pareto efficient.**
- **Name two critiques** (bounded rationality; loss aversion) and the "model as map" defence.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (Tools 4.2: Rational Choice)

> The sticky bits from the rational-choice lecture.

- **"Rational" doesn't mean selfish or smart.** It only means your preferences are **consistent** (complete + transitive). A selfless, ideological, mistaken person can be perfectly "rational."
- **Your vote won't decide the election — 1 in 60 million.** Yet most people vote. The resolution: voting is about **expression and duty**, not just the result — and that's a real preference, not a mistake.
- **"Clean air is good" changes nothing.** A rule only works if actors **choose** to obey it — so you need a fine big enough (or inspections frequent enough) that the **expected** cost beats the gain.
- **A good policy that fails on purpose.** The height-ban reform looked sensible, but a simple 2×2 game shows every city rationally picks "Don't" — the shortage survives. Models earn their keep by catching this.
- **The trade war is a prisoner's dilemma.** US–China 2025: both slapped on tariffs (the Nash equilibrium) even though mutual free trade would make both richer. Individually rational, collectively poorer.
- **Losses hurt twice as much as gains feel good.** Kahneman & Tversky — which is why cutting a benefit enrages people more than never granting it, and why the status quo is so sticky.
- **Treat the model as a map.** A map is useful *because* it leaves things out. Rational choice is wrong in the details and right about the shape — that's the point.

Tools 4.3: Collective Action, Public Goods, and Norms — Why Do Groups Fail to Get What They All Want? (AD)

Required reading: Bueno de Mesquita, *Political Economy for Public Policy*, **ch. 4** · *Optional:* **Elinor Ostrom**, *Governing the Commons*, **ch. 1**. *(Lecturer: Anna Denisenko — deck "4.3 Collective Action, Public Goods, and Norms.")*

Theme of the lecture. Lecture 4.1 asked which outcomes are *good*; 4.2 asked which will *happen*. This one asks the uncomfortable follow-up: **why does the outcome that happens so often be one that nobody wants?** The answer is the **collective action problem** — the gap between **individual rationality and group rationality.** Each person does best by **free riding** (letting others pay), so groups fail to provide **public goods** and over-use **shared resources**, even when everyone would be better off cooperating. We diagnose the two kinds (**free-rider** vs **coordination**), locate them in the **goods typology** (excludable × rival), and build a **toolkit** to escape them — coercion, selective incentives, repeated interaction, and changing expectations — applied to **climate politics**.

> ★ **The heart of the lecture — individual rationality ≠ group rationality.**
> • **A collective action problem** exists when (1) an outcome would make everyone better off (a Pareto improvement), yet (2) the choices individuals make on their own don't get the group there — the group is stuck in a **Nash equilibrium that is not Pareto efficient.**
> • **Free-rider problems** come from **externalities** and live with **non-excludable goods** (public goods · common-pool resources): I benefit whether or not I contribute, so I don't — **free riding is a dominant strategy.** Bigger groups make it worse (**Olson**).
> • **Coordination problems** have **multiple equilibria**: everyone would act *if sure others would*, so everyone waits. Here nobody wants to cheat — they just need to **expect** the good outcome.
> • **The toolkit:** first **diagnose**. Free-rider → **change payoffs** (coercion · selective incentives · repeated interaction). Coordination → **change expectations** (communication · focal points · leaders · signals).

Red thread: *(1) Is this a free-rider or a coordination problem? (2) What kind of good is at stake (excludable? rival?)? (3) Which tool fits — change payoffs, or change expectations?*

Key concepts to apply: *collective action problem · individual vs group rationality · Pareto-inefficient Nash equilibrium · externality (positive/negative) · **excludable · rival** → the goods typology (private · club · common-pool · public) · free riding · dominant strategy · the public-goods game · conditional cooperators · peer punishment (Fehr & Gächter) · group size (**Olson 1965**, The Logic of Collective Action) · tragedy of the commons (**Hardin 1968**); Ostrom's challenge · coordination problem · multiple equilibria · threshold/cascade effects · focal points (Schelling) · the toolkit: **coercion · selective incentives (Olson) · repeated interaction / shadow of the future (Axelrod) · changing expectations** · social norms · conditional cooperation.*

What is a collective action problem?

Core: the central puzzle of the lecture — a group can get **stuck at an outcome nobody wants.**

A **collective action problem** exists when:

1. there is an outcome that would make **everyone in the group better off** (a Pareto improvement), **but**
2. the choices individuals make **on their own** do not lead the group there.

→ In game-theory terms (Lecture 4.2): the group lands in a **Nash equilibrium that is not Pareto efficient.** The recap is last lecture's housing game: **(Don't, Don't) = (2,2)** is the equilibrium even though **(Allow, Allow) = (3,3)** is better for both — each city hopes the other builds; each **free rides.**

Central idea for today: individual rationality ≠ group rationality. Everyone acting sensibly for themselves produces a result that's bad for all of them.

Two kinds of collective action problem

Core: diagnosis comes first — the fix depends on **which** problem you have.

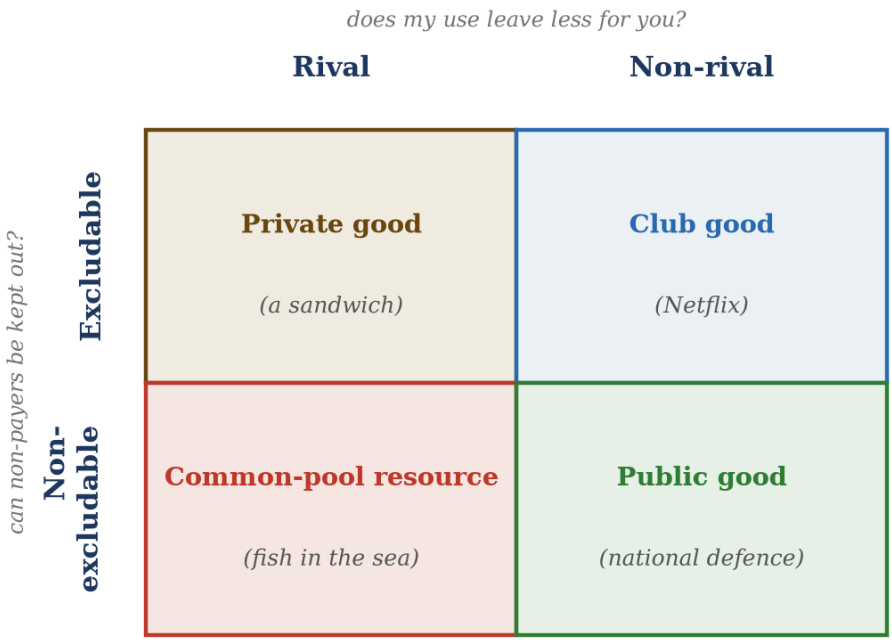
	Free-rider problem	Coordination problem
Logic	**doing nothing is better for me** — even if I know others act	I'd act **only if sure others will**; so everyone waits
Result	nobody contributes (empty pot)	nobody moves (empty protest square)
Equilibrium	one bad equilibrium (a dominant strategy to defect)	**multiple** equilibria (a good one and a bad one)
Fix	**change payoffs**	**change expectations**

Externalities & the goods typology

Core: free-rider problems aren't random — they appear with **certain kinds of goods**, which you can spot with two questions.

- An **externality** is an effect of my action on others that I **don't pay for (or get paid for)**: a town's **fireworks** (positive — anyone can watch, my watching doesn't block yours); **fishing boats** sharing a sea (negative — every fish I take is one fewer for you).
- **Two questions about any good:**

- **Excludable?** — can people who don't pay be **kept out**?
- **Rival?** — does my use **leave less** for you?



Free-rider problems live in the bottom row — you cannot keep free riders out.

How to read it. Cross the two questions and you get **four kinds of good. Free-rider problems live in the bottom (non-excludable) row** — you **cannot keep free riders out**, so people under-provide (**public goods**) or over-use (**common-pool resources**).

★ The free-rider problem

Core: with a **public good**, I get the benefit **whether or not I contribute** — so the rational choice is **don't contribute.** That's **free riding**, and it's a **dominant strategy** (the same reasoning as "Don't" in the housing game).

> *If enough others contribute, the good is provided anyway → I save my effort. If others don't, my small contribution won't matter → I save my effort. Either way: don't contribute.*

The public-goods game (the classroom experiment): each student has 10 points; **Keep** them, or **Contribute** to a pot that is **doubled and split equally** among all. With 4 students, your 10 points become 20 in the pot but you get back only **20/4 = 5** — so **Keeping always pays 5 more**, no matter what others do. A **prisoner's dilemma with 4 players.**

But real people aren't pure free riders:

- In round 1 many **contribute a fair amount**; they're **conditional cooperators** — "I'll do my part *if* others do theirs."
- Over repeated rounds, contributions **fall** (cooperators tire of being exploited).
- Letting players **punish** free riders — at a cost to themselves — **keeps contributions high** (**Fehr & Gächter 2000**). *(This is where **norms** enter: informal punishment sustains cooperation.)*

Group size — Olson (1965)

***Core:* the larger the group, the harder** collective action — the key insight of Mancur Olson's *The Logic of Collective Action.*

Scale the public-goods game from 4 to **40** members: your 10 points still become 20 in the pot, but you get back only **20/40 = 0.5.** Large groups struggle because:

1. each member's **share of the benefit is smaller**;
2. each contribution is **less noticeable** ("my effort won't matter");
3. it's **harder to monitor and pressure** free riders.

→ *Counter-intuitive upshot:* a **small** group with concentrated interests (a handful of firms) often out-organises a **large** diffuse public — which is why narrow lobbies can beat the general interest.

The tragedy of the commons

Core: the mirror image of under-provided public goods — **over-used common-pool resources.** Same free-rider logic.

- **Hardin (1968):** a pasture open to all herders. Each extra cow gives its owner the **full** benefit, but the cost (**overgrazing**) is **shared by all** → everyone adds cows until the pasture is ruined.
- **Real example — Atlantic cod** off Newfoundland: decades of overfishing (supercharged by **factory trawlers**) collapsed the stock; **Canada closed the fishery in 1992**, costing tens of thousands of jobs.
- **The symmetry: public good → people contribute too little**; **common-pool resource → people take too much.** Both are the **free-rider problem.**
- **Ostrom's challenge (optional reading).** Elinor Ostrom showed Hardin's "tragedy" is **not inevitable**: real communities often **self-govern** commons successfully — without either the **state** or **privatisation** — through local rules, monitoring and graduated sanctions. *(Ostrom ch. 1 was not in the attached files; this is the gist.)*

Coordination problems

Core: the second trap — here **nobody wants to cheat**; the problem is **expectations**, because there is **more than one equilibrium.**

The protest game. Two citizens decide whether to **Join** a protest. If only one joins, she's arrested; if both join, the dictator falls; if neither joins, he stays.

	B: Join	**B: Stay home**
A: Join	**3, 3**	0, 1
A: Stay home	1, 0	**2, 2**

- **Two equilibria:** everyone joins **(3, 3)** *or* nobody joins **(2, 2).** Both are stable.
- **The trap:** I stay home **because I fear you'll stay home.** One equilibrium is not Pareto efficient — and which one we land in depends on **what we expect.**
- **Threshold / cascade effects — Leipzig, 1989:** a few thousand East Germans joined the Monday demonstrations in September; by **23 October, 300,000+** had joined. As more protested, others became

willing → a **cascade.**

- Other coordination problems: **which side of the road** to drive on (**Sweden switched overnight in 1967**), which **technical standard** firms adopt (phone chargers).

★ The toolkit — how groups escape

Core: **diagnose first**, then pick the matching tool. Free-rider problems need **changed payoffs**; coordination problems need **changed expectations.**

Problem	Tool	How it works
Free-rider	**1. Coercion**	the **state** requires/forbids an action and enforces it (police, courts, fines)
Free-rider	**2. Selective incentives** (Olson)	a **private** reward/cost given **only to contributors**
Free-rider	**3. Repeated interaction**	cooperate today to keep cooperation tomorrow (the shadow of the future)
Coordination	**4. Change expectations**	communication, focal points, leaders, signals → everyone expects the good equilibrium

1. Coercion — the state as solution. (Recall The State lecture: a classic justification for the state is solving what individuals can't alone.) **Bans** (CFCs, indoor smoking, closed fishing seasons); **mandates** (compulsory schooling, conscription); **compulsory voting** (Australia); **standards** (car emissions, building codes). *Limits:* the state needs **information & capacity**; the **liberal concern** (Lecture 4.1) that coercion limits freedom; **who controls the state** (coercion can serve organised groups); and in international politics **there is no world government** to coerce states (recall Realism: anarchy).

2. Selective incentives (Olson). A **private** benefit given **only** to contributors turns a public-good problem into a **private choice** ("join to get the benefit"). **Business associations** (Dansk Industri: legal advice, data, networks); **professional associations** (insurance, journals); **social movements** (friendship, identity). *The union puzzle:* unions win gains for **all** workers, members or not — so why do **~2/3 of Danes** pay dues? Partly **selective incentives**: in the **Ghent countries** (Denmark, Sweden, Finland, Belgium) **unemployment insurance** runs through **union-linked funds** → unionisation is far higher. *(And **norms** matter: in some workplaces, not joining is socially costly.)*

3. Repeated interaction — the shadow of the future. One-shot games invite defection; **repeated** ones support cooperation via **tit-for-tat** ("I cooperate as long as you do; if you cheat, I stop"). Works best when interaction **continues**, players **value the future**, and cheating is **observable** (**Axelrod 1984**).

4. Coordination → change expectations. Payoffs can stay the same; everyone just needs to **expect** the good outcome: **communication** (here promises are **credible**, because keeping them is in your own interest — unlike the free-rider experiment's cheap talk); **focal points** (**Schelling 1960** — an answer that "stands out": a tradition, a date, a famous square); **leaders / first movers** (someone goes first and shows it's safe); **public signals and laws** (tell everyone what everyone else will do — **Sweden's Dagen H, 1967**; US **standard time zones, 1883**). *Once everyone expects the good outcome, it enforces itself.*

The climate case — why does Denmark cut?

Core: the running application — use the toolkit to explain the **Danish Climate Act** (cut emissions **70% by 2030**) when Denmark is just **~0.1%** of world CO_2 (China ~30%, US ~13%).

- **Diagnose:** a stable climate is a **public good** (non-excludable, non-rival); the **externality** is global; it's a **free-rider problem**; and by **Olson** it's a **hard group** (≈200 countries, each tiny).
- **Denmark's best choice** (pure free-rider logic): **pollute** — 0.1% can't change the climate. *So why does it cut?*
- **Tools: coercion** works only **inside** a state (no world government — anarchy), so between countries it's **incentives / repeated interaction** (the EU carbon border fee; **Paris** pledges-and-reviews every 5 years).
- **Change Denmark's incentives:** Danish **green industry** profits whenever Denmark cuts (+2) — turning a losing free-rider game into a winning one.
- **Verdict (three views):** free-rider logic → **no**; incentives → **yes** (green industry profits); **first mover** → Danish **wind** helped make clean energy **cheaper for everyone**, which shifts the problem **from free-rider toward coordination** (as cutting gets cheaper, more will cut). *Open question for next lecture: who should cut most — today's big emitters or yesterday's? That's a **bargaining** problem.*

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Collective action problem	a Pareto-improving outcome exists, but individual choices don't reach it
Individual vs group rationality	each acting sensibly → a result bad for all
Externality	an effect of my action on others I don't pay (or get paid) for
Excludable / rival	can non-payers be kept out? / does my use leave less for you?
Public good	non-excludable **and** non-rival (national defence) — under-provided
Common-pool resource	non-excludable but rival (fish) — over-used
Club good	excludable but non-rival (Netflix)
Free riding	enjoying a good without contributing (a dominant strategy)
Conditional cooperator	"I'll contribute if others do"
Olson's logic	larger groups find collective action harder
Tragedy of the commons	shared resource ruined by individually rational over-use (Hardin)
Coordination problem	multiple equilibria; the issue is expectations, not payoffs
Threshold/cascade	each joiner makes others willing → sudden mass participation
Selective incentive	a private reward/cost given only to contributors (Olson)
Focal point	an option that "stands out" and coordinates expectations (Schelling)
Shadow of the future	repeated interaction makes cooperation pay (Axelrod)

Exam pointers

- **Define a collective action problem** and state the slogan: **individual rationality ≠ group rationality.**
- **Classify a good** with excludable × rival and say why free-rider problems live in the **non-excludable** row.
- **Explain free riding** as a dominant strategy; use the public-goods game and **Olson's** group-size logic.
- **Contrast free-rider vs coordination** problems — and match each to its fix (**change payoffs** vs **change expectations**).
- **Run the toolkit**: coercion · selective incentives · repeated interaction · focal points — with an example of each (union dues; Ghent; Leipzig 1989; Dagen H).
- **Apply it to climate**: why Denmark "should" free-ride, and the incentive/first-mover reasons it cuts anyway.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (Tools 4.3: Collective Action)

> The sticky bits from the collective-action lecture.

- **Individual rationality ≠ group rationality.** The whole lecture in five words: everyone being sensible can leave everyone worse off.
- **The small group usually beats the big one.** Olson's twist: a handful of firms with concentrated stakes out-organise millions of diffuse citizens — which is why narrow lobbies so often win.
- **Punishment keeps cooperation alive.** In public-goods games, letting people fine free riders (at a cost to themselves) stops contributions from collapsing — the experimental root of social norms (Fehr & Gächter).
- **The cod never came back.** Factory trawlers + a shared sea = tragedy of the commons; Canada closed the fishery in 1992 and tens of thousands lost their jobs. A commons can be ruined *permanently*.
- **A revolution in six weeks.** Leipzig went from a few thousand protesters in September 1989 to 300,000+ by late October — a coordination cascade, each joiner making the next one braver.
- **Sweden changed sides overnight.** "Dagen H," 3 September 1967: the entire country swapped from driving on the left to the right at once — a coordination problem solved by a public signal everyone obeyed.
- **Denmark is 0.1% of emissions — and cuts anyway.** Pure free-rider logic says don't bother; it cuts because green industry profits and because going first made clean energy cheaper for everyone — nudging the world from free-riding toward coordination.

Tools 4.4: Bargaining, Commitment, and Political Conflict — Why Do Actors Fail to Agree? (AD)

Required reading: Bueno de Mesquita, *Political Economy for Public Policy*, **ch. 6** · *Optional:* **James Fearon**, "Rationalist explanations for war," *International Organization* 49(3) 1995, pp. 379–414 · **Pifer**, *The Trilateral Process* (Brookings) — selected pages. *(Lecturer: Anna Denisenko — deck "4.4 Bargaining, Commitment, and Political Conflict.")*

Theme of the lecture. Lecture 4.3 was about groups that **agree on the goal** but struggle to contribute. This one is about actors who **want different things** and must **split the gains** — and sometimes end up in **costly conflict** instead. Pareto says many splits beat "no deal," but **cannot pick which**; **bargaining** decides. We build

the tools — **sequential games & game trees**, **backward induction**, **outside options**, and the **spatial model** of ideal points and veto players — and then confront the deep puzzle (**Fearon 1995**): if conflict **destroys value**, why don't rational actors just agree on the deal in advance? The answer: **asymmetric information** and **commitment problems.**

> ★ **The heart of the lecture — bargaining splits the surplus; conflict destroys it.**
> • **Sequential games (game trees):** players move *in turn*; solve by **backward induction** — "think ahead, reason back." A smart proposer asks "how will the other side react?" before offering.
> • **Outside options decide the split (Lesson 1):** your deal depends on what you (and your opponent) get from **no deal.** A strong outside option = a bigger share. **Where there's a scale, the status quo = the outside option.**
> • **The spatial model:** players have **ideal points**; a **veto player** accepts only policies at least as close to its ideal as the status quo (its **acceptance set**); the **agenda setter** proposes the point in that set closest to *its* ideal. **Where the status quo sits decides the outcome (Lesson 2).**
> • **Costly conflict is a puzzle (Fearon):** war/strikes are *not* Pareto efficient — a deal in the **bargaining range** would beat them. Rational actors still fail to agree because of **asymmetric information** (private info + incentive to bluff) and **commitment problems** (can't credibly promise to keep the deal).

Red thread: *(1) What does each side get from "no deal" (outside option / status quo)? (2) Who proposes, who vetoes, and where is the status quo? (3) If a deal beats conflict for both, why might they fight anyway?*

Key concepts to apply: *bargaining · the bargaining range · Pareto can't pick the split · sequential game · game tree · outside option · **backward induction** · ultimatum game · fairness norms · the **spatial model**: ideal point · status quo · veto player · acceptance set · agenda setter · bundling / issue linkage · costly conflict & Pareto inefficiency · **Fearon's three explanations**: asymmetric information (+ incentive to misrepresent) · commitment problems · issue indivisibility · costly signals · tying hands · third-party enforcement · reputation (shadow of the future).*

From collective action to bargaining

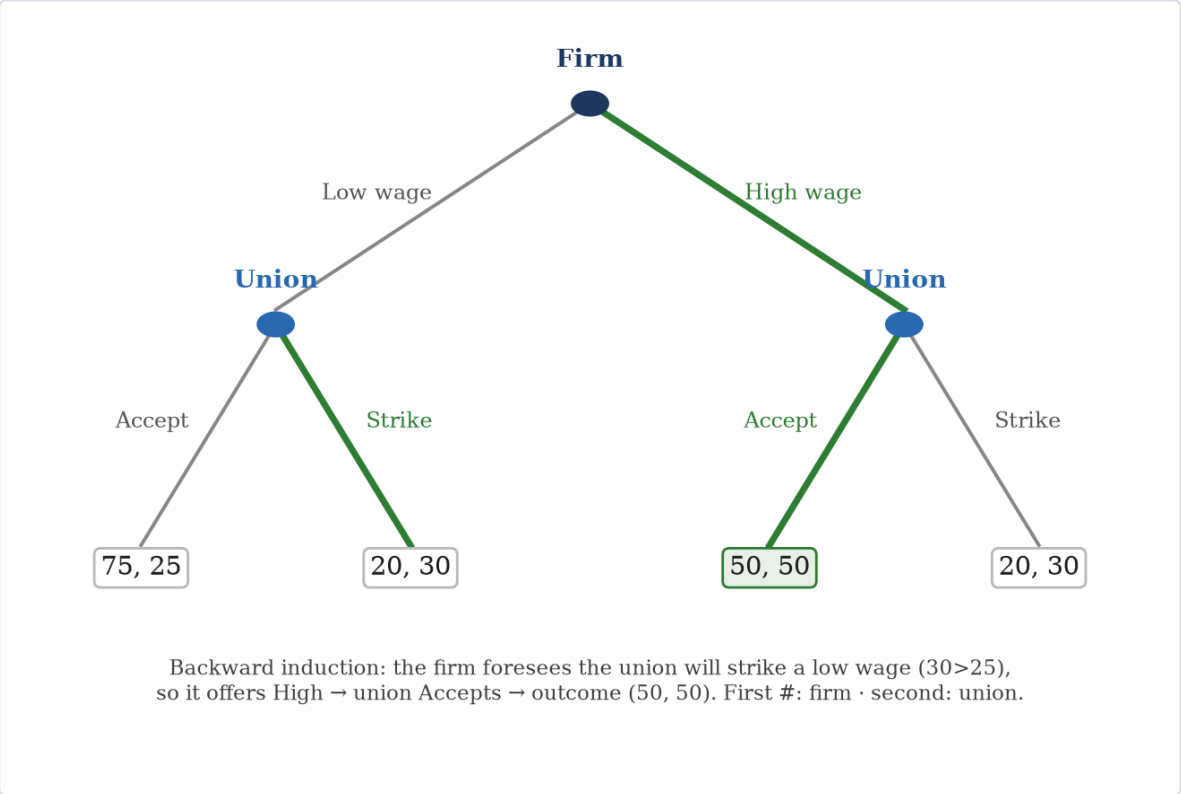
Core: last lecture the group agreed on the goal; here a deal would help everyone, but the parties **disagree about how to split it.**

- Paris: everyone wants lower emissions — but **whose**? Unions & firms both gain from production — but **who gets how much**?
- Recall Lecture 4.1: **many** outcomes are Pareto efficient; **Pareto doesn't say which split is best. Bargaining decides which one actually happens.**
- Bargaining is everywhere: coalition partners, government–parliament budgets, unions–employers (the Danish model), firms–regulators, mergers, EU member states, countries (trade, territory, arms control). It works best when **a deal beats "no deal" for everyone** and there are **few parties.**

★ Sequential games & game trees

Core: a new tool. In Lecture 4.2 players moved **simultaneously** (a payoff matrix). In bargaining they move **in turn** — one makes an **offer**, the other **sees it and responds.** We draw this as a **game tree.**

> **Sequential game:** players move one after another, and later players **know what earlier players did** (think chess, or a job offer).



Backward induction: the firm foresees the union will strike a low wage (30>25), so it offers High → union Accepts → outcome (50, 50). First #: firm · second: union.

How to read it. Read **top to bottom.** A **dot** = a decision (the label says who decides); **arrows** = the available choices; the **bottom** = payoffs (first number: firm, second: union). A player's **outside option** is what they get if there's **no deal** (here, a strike gives firm 20, union 30).

★ Backward induction

Core: solve a sequential game **from the end** — "**think ahead, reason back.**"

The recipe: (1) go to the **last** decisions; (2) at each, mark the choice that gives **that** player more; (3) the earlier player now **knows** what follows each of its choices; (4) step back and repeat to the top.

- **The wage game:** if wage is **low**, the union **strikes** (30 > 25); if **high**, it **accepts** (50 > 30). So the firm faces: *low → strike → 20*, or *high → accept → 50*. It chooses **high. Outcome: (50, 50)** — the firm would *love* 75, but it foresees the strike and doesn't demand it.
- **From two offers to any offer (the ultimatum game):** let the firm demand **any** x out of 100; the union gets **100 − x**, and accepts only if that beats its outside option (30). So the union accepts while **x ≤ 70.** The firm demands the most it can get away with → **x = 70**, union gets **30. → Outcome (70, 30).** *The split is set by the outside options.*

★ Outside options (Lesson 1)

Core: your share is decided by what each side gets from **no deal.**

> **It is good to have a strong outside option — and good if your opponent has a weak one.**

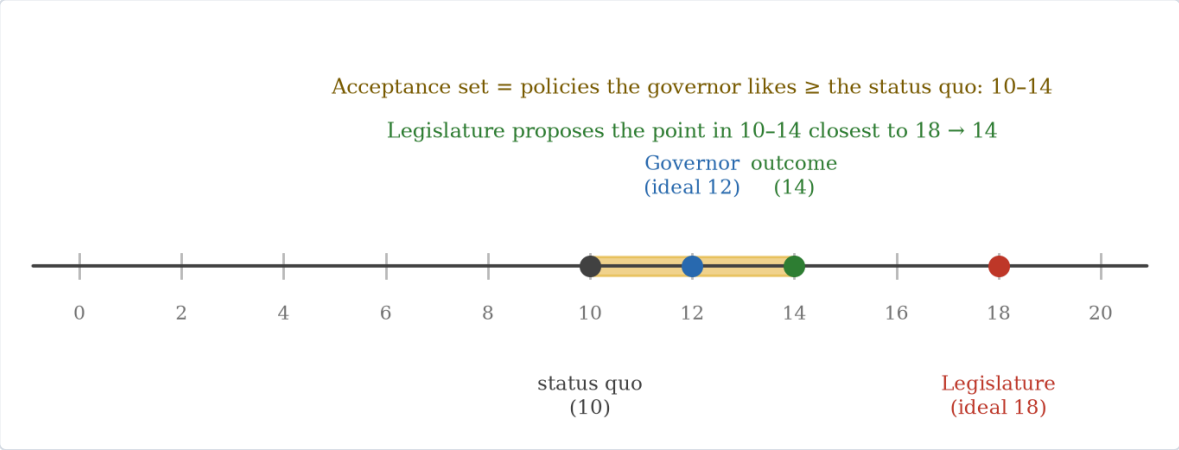
- Raise the **union's** outside option from 30 → 50 and the split shifts from (70, 30) to **(50, 50)**; raise the **firm's** and it shifts the other way. *(Try it: with union option 50, the firm can demand at most $x = 50$.)*
- **Boeing vs its workers:** in **2014** Boeing had **strong** outside options (states bidding to host its plant; could move to a weak-union state) → workers **lost their pensions.** In **2024** its options were **weak** (few subsidies; safety scandals made moving risky) → after a **53-day strike** the union won a **38% raise** (though not the old pensions). *Same union, opposite outcomes — because the outside options flipped.*

★ The spatial model: ideal points & veto players

Core: often actors don't split a pie — they choose **a point on a scale** (a tax rate, a minimum wage, office days). Now each player has an **ideal point**, and "no deal" means the **status quo** stays.

> **Status quo** = the policy/rule/contract that stays if no new deal is reached. **The status quo *is* the outside option.**

- **Ideal point:** the policy a player likes best; the **closer** a policy is, the better.
- **Minimum-wage example:** the **legislature proposes** a wage p; the **governor** signs or **vetoes** (a **veto player**). Ideal points: **governor 12, legislature 18, status quo 10.**



How to read it. The governor signs any bill **at least as close to her ideal (12) as the status quo (10)** — i.e. anything in **10–14** (her **acceptance set**). The legislature wants 18, so it proposes the point in **10–14 closest to 18 → 14.** *(The governor wanted 12 yet signs 14 — because 14 beats the status quo 10 for her.)*

The status quo matters (Lesson 2)

Core: the **agenda setter** (proposer) gets the policy closest to **its** ideal **inside the veto player's acceptance set** — and that set **depends on the status quo.**

- A status quo the **veto player dislikes** → **big** acceptance set → the agenda setter gets **more.**
- A status quo the veto player **likes** → **small** acceptance set → the agenda setter gets **little.** *(If the status quo were 16, the governor blocks every move right, and the legislature can't improve on 16.)*
- → **Whoever sets the status quo before bargaining starts shapes the outcome** — in politics and business alike.

Tactics to improve your position

Core: two levers — your **outside option** and the **status quo.**

- **Improve your outside option:** find other partners (the EU and UK both signed new trade deals *during* Brexit talks); **diversify** (energy sources before negotiating with a supplier); make yourself **hard to replace** (rare skills).
- **Shape the status quo / set the agenda: move first** ("facts on the ground"); write **sunset clauses** into deals you'll want to revisit; **write the first draft** of the contract or standard; **become the agenda setter.**

Fairness & the ultimatum game

Core: real people don't behave like the pure model — **fairness norms change payoffs.**

- **The ultimatum game:** I'm given 1000 kr and offer you **1 kr**; reject and we both get **0.** The model says **accept** ($1 > 0$). But in experiments, proposers offer **40–50%**, and people **reject** offers below **~20–30%.**
- Recall Lecture 4.3: **fairness norms** are real entries in the payoff — rejecting an "insulting" offer is **rational if you care about fairness. → A smart proposer takes normative frameworks into account.**

Bundling (Lesson 3)

Core: combining several issues into one deal can create agreements that **don't exist issue-by-issue.**

Danish budget deals (*finanslov*) and coalition agreements combine tax, defence, welfare, climate, local projects. **Why?** If parties **weight issues differently**, trading creates value:

	Status quo	Policy A	Policy B	A + B
Party 1	0	–1	**10**	**9**
Party 2	0	**10**	–1	**9**

Each policy **alone** is vetoed (outside the other's acceptance set); the **bundle** beats the status quo for **both** — a Pareto improvement. **→ Give way on what you care about less, win on what you care about more.** More issues on the table → more possible trades → a better chance of a deal.

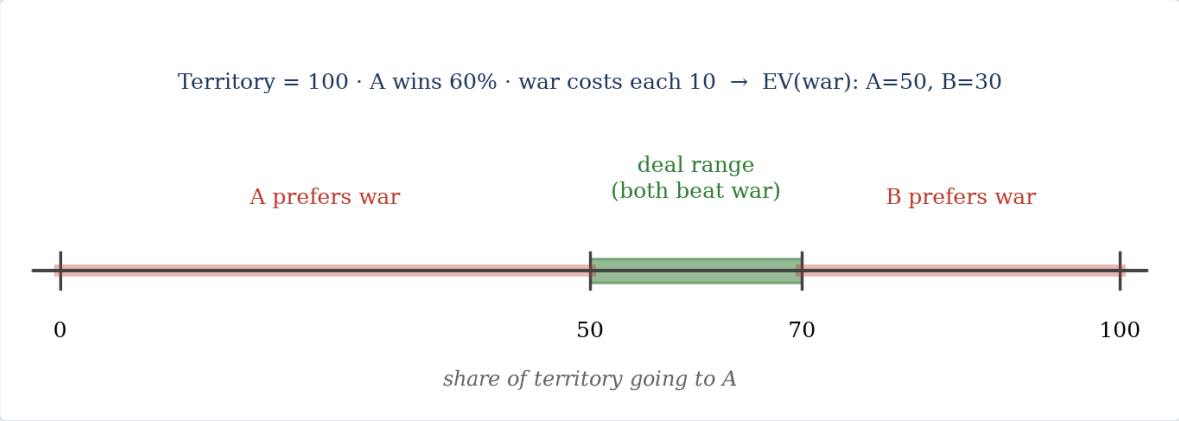
★ The puzzle of costly conflict (Fearon 1995)

Core: in our models a deal is **always** reached at once — no strike, no war. Yet strikes, government crises and wars **happen.** They're **costly** (they destroy part of what's fought over), so the post-conflict outcome is **not Pareto efficient** — **some deal would have been better for both.** *So why don't rational actors just agree on that deal in advance?*

Costs of conflict create a bargaining range. Two countries dispute territory worth **100**; if they fight, **A wins with probability 60%** (winner takes all) and **war costs each 10.**

> EXPECTED VALUE OF WAR
>
> $$\text{A: } 0.6 \times 100 - 10 = \mathbf{50} \cdot \text{ B: } 0.4 \times 100 - 10 = \mathbf{30}$$

Reads: A's war payoff is **50**, B's is **30** — so B will accept any split giving it **≥ 30** (i.e. A gets **≤ 70**), and A will accept any giving it **≥ 50.**



How to read it. The **war costs** open a **bargaining range (50–70)**: every split in it makes **both** better off than fighting. *The puzzle is why actors ever fail to find a point in this range.*

★ Why talks fail: information & commitment

Core: Fearon's answer — rational actors still fail to agree for **three** reasons (we focus on the first two; the third is rarer than it looks).

1. Asymmetric information (+ an incentive to bluff). Each side knows its **own** strength, costs and outside options better than the other — and has a reason to **exaggerate** them. *(The union knows how long its members will really strike; a government knows how strong its army really is.)* So it can't just **tell** the truth credibly.

- **Example:** profit 100; the union is **strong** (option 50) or **weak** (30), and the firm doesn't know which. **Generous** (demand 50): both types accept → firm gets 50. **Tough** (demand 70): weak accepts (70), strong strikes (20). Which is better depends on the **probability** the union is weak.
- **How information gets revealed — costly signals** (words are cheap): strike votes, strike funds, military mobilisation, **walking away from the table.** And **conflict itself reveals information**: as a strike drags on, each side learns the other's true strength. *(Boeing workers rejected 25% and 35% before accepting 38% — each vote told Boeing more about their resolve.)*

2. Commitment problems. A deal would make everyone better off, but **one side can't credibly promise to keep it**, because **later it will have an incentive to break it.** The problem is **not information** (both understand the situation) — it's **timing**: incentives change *after* the other side has acted.

- **Spain's renewables:** generous guaranteed payments drew a solar/wind boom; after the 2008 crisis Spain **cut support retroactively** → dozens of international arbitration claims. *Lesson:* investors now demand **higher returns or stronger legal guarantees** before building. *(Independent central banks & regulators exist partly so politicians **can't** change policy whenever it suits them.)*

3. Indivisible issues. The thing at stake can't be split (e.g. a holy site). *Rarer than it looks* — **side payments and bundling** can often make an issue "divisible."

The Ukraine 1994 case — a commitment problem

Core: the showcase of a commitment problem across time.

- When the USSR collapsed, **Ukraine** held the **world's third-largest nuclear arsenal.** In the **Trilateral Statement (Jan 1994)** and the **Budapest Memorandum (Dec 1994)**, Ukraine **gave the weapons up** in return for compensation and **security assurances** (from the US, UK and Russia) to respect its borders.
- In **2014, Russia annexed Crimea** — breaking the promise once Ukraine had already **disarmed.** The guarantor had no binding commitment; incentives changed after Ukraine acted.
- **What could have made the promises more credible?** → the general solutions to commitment problems:

Solution	How it binds
Tie your hands	constitutions, courts, **independent** central banks/regulators
Third-party enforcement	international courts/arbitration, peacekeepers, the EU
Reputation	in repeated interaction, breaking a promise is costly (shadow of the future)
Share power	coalition governments, federalism, guaranteed seats
Stage the deal	small steps, each checked before the next

Bargaining & the normative frameworks (Lecture 4.1): **Pareto** — every deal in the range beats conflict, but it **can't pick** among them; **egalitarian** — the split reflects **power** (outside options, who proposes, where the status quo sits), not fairness; **liberal** — a freely-accepted deal looks legitimate, but is it "free" if one side has **no outside option**? → *Policy can change bargaining power on purpose:* minimum wages, unemployment insurance and the **right to strike** all raise workers' outside options.

Key terms

Term	Meaning
Bargaining	dividing the gains from a deal that beats "no deal" for all
Sequential game / game tree	players move in turn; later players see earlier moves
Backward induction	solve from the end: anticipate the last move, reason back
Outside option	what a player gets if there is **no deal**
Ultimatum game	one side demands x of a pie; the other accepts or gets its outside option
Ideal point	the policy a player likes best (closer = better)
Status quo	the policy that stays if no new deal is reached (= the outside option)
Veto player	an actor whose consent is needed; accepts only its **acceptance set**
Acceptance set	policies a veto player likes at least as much as the status quo
Agenda setter	the proposer; gets the point in the acceptance set closest to its ideal
Bundling / issue linkage	combining issues so trades across priorities create a deal
Bargaining range	splits that beat conflict for **both** (opened by conflict's costs)
Asymmetric information	each side knows things the other doesn't (+ incentive to bluff)
Commitment problem	a side can't credibly promise to keep the deal later
Costly signal	an action too expensive to fake, so it reveals real information

Exam pointers

- **Solve a game tree by backward induction** — mark each last-mover's best choice, reason back to the first move.
- **Explain outside options** (Lesson 1) and use Boeing 2014 vs 2024.
- **Run the spatial model:** ideal points, a veto player's **acceptance set**, and why the **agenda setter** + **status quo** location decide the outcome (Lesson 2).
- **Show why bundling** turns two vetoes into one "yes."
- **State the bargaining range** and compute it from war's costs/odds.
- **Give Fearon's three reasons** talks fail — and distinguish **information** (bluffing) from **commitment** (timing) problems; use **Ukraine 1994** for commitment.

★ Fun facts & memorable details (Tools 4.4: Bargaining)

> The sticky bits from the bargaining lecture.

- **The firm "would love 75" — but takes 50.** Backward induction in one line: a smart proposer never demands what will trigger a strike it can foresee.
- **Same union, opposite deals.** Boeing's workers lost their pensions in 2014 and won a 38% raise in 2024 — nothing about them changed; their **outside option** did.
- **The governor wanted 12 but signs 14.** Agenda-setting power: the legislature proposes the edge of her acceptance set, and 14 still beats the status quo for her.
- **Whoever sets the status quo wins.** Before a word is spoken, the position you're negotiating *from* often decides how much you'll get.
- "**Would you accept 1 kr?**" The model says yes ($1 > 0$); most people say no. Fairness is a real payoff — and a smart proposer offers near 50%.
- **War is a bargain both sides reject — and then regret.** Fighting burns value, so a deal in the bargaining range always existed. Fearon's puzzle: why rational actors still fail to find it (bluffing + broken promises).
- **Ukraine gave up the world's 3rd-largest arsenal for a promise.** 1994's assurances weren't a binding commitment; in 2014 Russia took Crimea anyway — the textbook commitment problem.
